

THE COLLECTED
WORKS OF
Gerard Manley
Hopkins



VOLUME IV
OXFORD ESSAYS AND NOTES



EDITED BY
LESLEY HIGGINS

The Collected Works of Gerard Manley Hopkins
Volume IV

OXFORD ESSAYS AND NOTES

The Collected Works of Gerard Manley Hopkins

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Gerard Manley Hopkins

OXFORD ESSAYS AND NOTES

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Gerard Manley Hopkins, February, 1863

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In Memoriam
Norman H. MacKenzie
(1917–2004)

‘[I]t is not difficult to distinguish between a young man following your opinions & his real capacity.’

Benjamin Jowett to Florence Nightingale, 1861

‘Never in all my life before or since was I among a company of men so young and ardent, yet so utterly devoted to plain living and high thinking. Never was I in an intellectual atmosphere so fearless and so free. I never knew what true tolerance without indifference was till I came to [Oxford]. It was a new experience to me altogether—to me, who had been brought up to regard Ritualism and Rationalism as the two right arms of the devil, to find myself suddenly launched among a lot of men who were some of them Ritualists of the deepest dye, some of them Rationalists, some of them Positivists, some of them Materialists, all eager in advancing their respective views, and yet all ready to listen with courtesy to their respective opponents.’

Nitram Tradleg [Martin Geldart], *Son of Belial*, 1872

‘Not to love my University would be to undo the very buttons of my being . . .’

Hopkins to Alexander Baillie (22.05.1880)

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The illustrations featured in this volume have been made available by several different institutions; their copyrights are reasserted here. The photographs featured in the frontispiece and Figure 1 are from the Photography Collection, Harry Ransom Humanities Research Center, University of Texas at Austin (catalogued P4A and P4B). Figure 2, a photograph of Balliol students taken in 1863, is courtesy of the Master and Fellows, Balliol College, Oxford. Dante Gabriel Rossetti’s illustration for *Goblin Market* is from *The Rossetti Archive*, <<http://www.rossettiarchive.org/>>. Raffaello Monti’s *The Sleep of Sorrow and the Dream of Joy* (1862) is housed in the Victoria and Albert Museum, London, England (catalogued A.3–1964). The five images taken from Hopkins’s notebooks are courtesy of Campion Hall, Oxford, and the Trustees for Roman Catholic Purposes.

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Figure 1. Hopkins c. 1863, photographed by his uncle, George de Giberne
*The Photography Collection, Harry Ransom Humanities Research Center,
University of Texas at Austin*

CHRONOLOGY

Hopkins's Life and Major Works Historical and Cultural Events

- | | |
|------|--|
| 1837 | Death of William IV; Victoria (1819–1901) becomes queen. Marries Albert, duke of Saxe-Coburg-Gotha, in 1840. |
| 1843 | John Ruskin publishes first (of five) volumes of <i>Modern Painters</i> . |
| 1844 | Born in Stratford (Essex), 28 July. |
| 1845 | John Henry Newman is received into the Roman Catholic Church; ordained, 1846. |
| 1847 | Charlotte Brontë, <i>Jane Eyre</i> ; Alfred Tennyson, <i>The Princess</i> . |
| 1848 | William Thackeray, <i>Vanity Fair</i> ; John Henry Newman, <i>Loss and Gain</i> ; Karl Marx and Friedrich Engels, <i>The Communist Manifesto</i> ; first Pre-Raphaelite Brotherhood is formed; revolution in France. |
| 1849 | John Ruskin, <i>The Seven Lamps of Architecture</i> ; Punjab annexed by Britain; Newman establishes the Oratory of St Philip Neri in Birmingham. |
| 1850 | Death of William Wordsworth; Tennyson, <i>In Memoriam</i> , and is named Poet Laureate (–1892); Jean B.-L. Foucault determines the speed of light; Roman Catholic hierarchy restored in Britain. |
| 1851 | The Great International Exhibition in London; Foucault proves that the Earth rotates. |
| 1852 | Family moves to Oak Hill, Hampstead, where GMH attends day school. |

Hopkins's Life and Major Works Historical and Cultural Events

- | | | |
|------|---|---|
| 1853 | | Charles Dickens, <i>Bleak House</i> ; John Ruskin, <i>The Stones of Venice</i> . |
| 1854 | Becomes a boarder at Highgate School. Summer holiday on Isle of Wight. | Crimean War begins (–1856); battles of Balaclava (1854), Sebastopol (1855). |
| 1856 | Manley Hopkins appointed consul-general for Hawaii. | National Portrait Gallery established in London. |
| 1857 | (Summer) Tours Germany and the Low Countries with his father and brother Cyril. | John Ruskin, <i>The Elements of Drawing</i> ; Charles Baudelaire, <i>Les Fleurs du Mal</i> ; South Kensington Museum (later renamed the Victoria and Albert Museum) established in London; Indian Mutiny. |
| 1859 | | Charles Darwin, <i>On the Origin of Species</i> ; George Eliot, <i>Adam Bede</i> ; war of Italian liberation and unification (–1870). |
| 1860 | Wins prize for ‘Escorial’. Tours southern Germany with his father and brother Cyril. | <i>Essays and Reviews</i> ; (late June) Thomas Huxley and Bishop Wilberforce debate Darwin’s theory of evolution in Oxford. |
| 1861 | | Thomas Hughes, <i>Tom Brown at Oxford</i> ; deaths of Elizabeth Barrett Browning and Prince Albert; American Civil War (–1865). |
| 1862 | Wins the Governors’ Gold Medal for Latin Verse and (in Apr.) a Highgate School Exhibition. (Oct.) Sits first scholarship examination for Balliol; unsuccessful. | Christina Rossetti, <i>Goblin Market and Other Poems</i> . |
| 1863 | (Jan.) Sits second Balliol scholarship examination; is awarded an Exhibition. (Feb.) ‘Winter—1863’ is published in <i>Once a Week</i> . (Easter) Sits his final exams at Highgate. (17 Apr.) Enters Oxford; (18 Apr.) matriculates. Meets | George Eliot, <i>Romola</i> ; death of William Thackeray; underground railway project begins in London. |

Robert Bridges, Martin Geldart, William Addis, and Revd Henry Parry Liddon.
(July/Aug.) Vacations with his family on the Isle of Wight.

- 1864** (2 Feb.) Liddon becomes his confessor.
(Feb.) Declines to join Brotherhood of the Holy Trinity.
(Apr.) Joins Hexameron essay society.
(Aug.) Holiday in Wales.
(20 Nov.) Moderations exams commence; achieves First Class Honours.
Writes 'A Voice', 'Heaven-Haven'.

- 1865** (Feb.) Meets Digby Mackworth Dolben.
Writes 'Easter Communion', 'Where art thou', 'To Oxford', 'Alchemist'.

- 1866** (Apr.) Begins 'coaching' with Walter Pater.
(May) Moves into lodgings in New Inn Hall Street, with William Addis.
(July) Spends part of 'the Long' vacation in Sussex with two Oxford friends.
(16-18 July) Becomes convinced that he should convert to Catholicism.
(21 Oct.) Received into the Church by John Henry Newman.
(4 Nov.) Confirmed by Archbishop Manning.
Writes 'Habit of Perfection', 'Nondum'.

- 1867** (mid-Jan.) Visits Birmingham to make a week-long religious retreat.

Robert Browning, *Dramatis Personae*; John Henry Newman, *Apologia pro Vita Sua* (serialized; volume published in 1865); deaths of Walter Savage Landor, John Clare.

Matthew Arnold, *Essays in Criticism* (1st series); Algernon Swinburne, *Atalanta in Calydon*; Lewis Carroll, *Alice in Wonderland*; John Ruskin, *Sesame and Lilies*; death of Elizabeth Gaskell.

John Henry Newman, *The Dream of Gerontius*; Algernon Swinburne, *Poems and Ballads*; John Ruskin, *The Ethics of the Dust*; deaths of Thomas Love Peacock, John Keble, Jane Welsh Carlyle; William Thompson (Lord Kelvin) invents transatlantic telegraphy; Public Health Act passes into law.

Karl Marx, *Das Kapital*; Second Reform Bill; Louis Pasteur invents pasteurization; diamond mines discovered in South Africa.

Hopkins's Life and Major Works Historical and Cultural Events

(22 Feb.) Newman offers GMH a teaching position at the Oratory School.

(June) Greats examinations begin; GMH achieves First Class Honours.

(28 June) Death, by drowning, of Digby Dolben.

(10–17 July) Visits France, including Paris; upon his return learns of Dolben's death.

(10 Sept.) Joins staff of Oratory School.

- 1868** (15 Apr.) Completes his teaching.
 (early May) On retreat at the Jesuits' Manresa House, Roehampton (near London).
 (2 May) Resolves to become a priest.
 (11 May) Burns MSS of his poems.
 (3 July–1 Aug.) Walking tour of Switzerland.
 (7 Sept.) Enters Jesuit Novitiate, Roehampton; two years of training.

Queen Victoria, *Leaves from a Journal of Our Life in the Highlands*; Robert Browning, *The Ring and the Book*.

- 1869** Matthew Arnold, *Culture and Anarchy*; John Stuart Mill and Harriet Taylor, *On the Subjection of Women*; Suez Canal opens.

- 1870** (9 Sept.) Begins three-year course of study at the Jesuit Philosophate, St Mary's Hall, Stonyhurst, Lancashire.
- John Henry Newman, *The Grammar of Assent*; D. G. Rossetti, *Poems*; death of Charles Dickens; Franco-Prussian War (–1871); First Married Women's Property Act; Papal Infallibility declared.

- 1871** Lewis Carroll, *Through the Looking-Glass*; John Ruskin, *Fors Clavigera*; German empire declared; Third Republic begins in France.

- 1872** Discovers the writings of Duns Scotus.
- George Eliot, *Middlemarch*; voting by ballot introduced in Britain; Claude Monet exhibits *Impression: Sunrise*.

- 1873 (Sept.) Begins a year of teaching Rhetoric at Roehampton. Writes 'Rhythm and the Other Structural Parts of Rhetoric—Verse'.
Walter Pater, *The Renaissance*; Matthew Arnold, *Literature and Dogma*; deaths of John Stuart Mill and Edward Bulwer-Lytton; James Clerk Maxwell publishes treatise on electricity and magnetism.
- 1874 Begins three-year course of study at the Jesuit Theologate, St Beuno's, North Wales.
- 1875 (July) Sits exams in moral theology and dogma; passes. (Dec.) Begins 'Wreck'.
John Keble, *Sermons for the Christian Year*; death of Charles Kingsley; (31 May) Bismarck's Religious Orders Act bans all religious orders in Prussia; (7 Dec.) *Deutschland* is shipwrecked off the coast of Kent.
- 1876 (June) Corresponds with editor of *The Month* regarding 'Wreck'; by Sept. knows it will not be published.
Alexander Graham Bell invents the telephone; Queen Victoria proclaimed Empress of India.
- 1877 (Feb.–Sept.) Writes 'God's Grandeur', 'As kingfishers', 'Spring', 'Windhover', 'Pied Beauty', 'Hurrahing in Harvest', 'Caged Skylark'. (July) Examined, in Latin, in dogmatic theology; GMH passes, but is not admitted to a fourth year of study. (25 July) Visits family in Hampstead for three weeks. (21–23 Sept.) Ordained to the priesthood: receives the major orders of subdeacon, deacon, and priest. (late Sept.) Undergoes circumcision operation. (19 Oct.) Begins teaching at Mount St Mary's College, near Sheffield.
(July) John Ruskin denounces James McNeill Whistler's *Nocturne in Black and Gold: The Falling Rocket*; Whistler sues for libel; at trial (Nov. 1878), Whistler wins, but is only awarded a farthing in damages; Thomas Edison invents the gramophone.
- 1878 (Apr.) Begins teaching at Stonyhurst College. Writes 'Eurydice', 'Magnificat'. (June) Commences correspondence with Dixon. (July–Nov.) Acting curate at
Gilbert and Sullivan, *H.M.S. Pinafore*; Thomas Hardy, *The Return of the Native*; death of George Henry Lewes; death of Pius IX (Pope since 1846); Leo XIII becomes Pope (–1903).

Hopkins's Life and Major Works Historical and Cultural Events

Mount Street, London. During August, Select Preacher at Farm Street, London.

(Dec.) Moves to Oxford, where he serves as curate at St Aloysius's. Renews friendship with Walter Pater, Francis de Paravicini.

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|------|--|---|
| 1879 | (Feb.–Oct.) Writes 'Duns Scotus', 'Binsey Poplars', 'Henry Purcell', 'Candle', 'Peace'.
(Oct.–Dec.) Appointed curate at St Joseph's, Bedford Leigh, Lancashire.
(30 Dec.) Becomes the Select Preacher at St Francis Xavier, Liverpool. | George Meredith, <i>The Egoist</i> ; Thomas Edison invents the electric lamp; John Henry Newman becomes a cardinal. |
| 1880 | (Aug.) Named chaplain to the Liverpool Council of the Society of St Vincent de Paul. | Death of George Eliot; First Anglo-Boer War (–1881). |
| 1881 | (10 Aug.) Seven-week appointment as curate at St Joseph's, Glasgow.
(Sept.) Visits Loch Lomond; writes 'Inversnaid'.
(Oct.) Begins Tertianship at Roehampton; prepares notes on Ignatian <i>Spiritual Exercises</i> . | D. G. Rossetti, <i>Ballads and Sonnets</i> ; Gilbert and Sullivan, <i>Patience</i> ; deaths of Thomas Carlyle and Benjamin Disraeli; (Feb.) defeat of British at Majuba Hill. |
| 1882 | (15 Aug.) Pronounces his 'final vows' as a Jesuit (as Spiritual Coadjutor).
(Sept.) Begins teaching classics at Stonyhurst.
Writes 'Leaden Echo' and 'Ribblesdale'. | Deaths of Charles Darwin, D. G. Rossetti, Anthony Trollope; Second Married Women's Property Act; 'Phoenix Park murders' of Lord Frederick Cavendish and T. E. Burke, in Dublin. |
| 1883 | (Aug.) Meets Coventry Patmore and begins corresponding with the poet.
The journal <i>Nature</i> publishes first of four letters by GMH describing sunsets since the eruption of Krakatoa. | R. L. Stevenson, <i>Treasure Island</i> ; Krakatoa volcanic explosion; death of Karl Marx. |

- 1884 (30 Jan.) Elected to a fellowship at the Royal University of Ireland, and as Fellow in Classics and Professor of Greek and Latin Literature at University College, Dublin. (Feb.) Moves to Dublin. (Oct.) Begins composing 'St Winefred's Well'. First volumes of the *NED* are published (–1928); Gottlieb Daimler introduces internal combustion engine; discovery of gold in the Transvaal, South Africa.
- 1885 Writes 'I wake and feel', 'No worst', 'To seem the stranger', 'Carrion Comfort', 'Mortal Beauty'. Walter Pater, *Marius the Epicurean*; John Ruskin, *Praeterita*; Gilbert and Sullivan, *The Mikado*; (Jan.) Fall of Khartoum; death of Charles Gordon; (20 Feb.) James McNeill Whistler delivers *Ten O'Clock Lecture*.
- 1886 (May) While on holiday in England, stays with Bridges. Completes 'Sibyl's Leaves'. Thomas Hardy, *The Mayor of Casterbridge*; R. L. Stevenson, *The Strange Case of Dr Jekyll and Mr Hyde*, *Kidnapped*; Walter Pater, *Imaginary Portraits*; British Prime Minister Gladstone and Irish leader Charles Parnell advocate Irish Home Rule; (June) first Home Rule Bill defeated.
- 1887 (Aug.) Holiday in England, including a visit with Bridges. Writes 'Harry Ploughman' and 'Tom's Garland'. Rider Haggard, *She*.
- 1888 Writes 'Heraclitean Fire', 'What shall I do'. Oscar Wilde, *The Happy Prince and Other Tales*; deaths of Matthew Arnold and Edward Lear; Emil Berliner invents the gramophone record. (Aug.) Holiday in Scotland.
- 1889 (Jan.) Goes on Retreat in Tullabeg. Writes 'Thou art indeed just', 'To R. B.' [Robert Bridges]. (late Apr.) Significant illness; informs his parents he has 'a sort of typhoid' on 8 May. On 5 June, his parents are summoned. Ibsen's *A Doll's House* performed in England; deaths of Robert Browning and Wilkie Collins; George Eastman invents photographic film; Gustave Eiffel completes Tower in Paris. (8 June) Dies of typhoid; he is buried in the Jesuit plot, Prospect Cemetery, Glasnevin, Dublin.

Hopkins's Life and Major Works Historical and Cultural Events

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|-------------|--|--|
| 1918 | (Dec.) Bridges's edition of
<i>Poems of Gerard Manley
Hopkins</i> is published. | (11 Nov.) First World War (begun
July 1914) ends. Lytton Strachey,
<i>Eminent Victorians</i> ; Siegfried
Sassoon, <i>Counter-Attack</i> . |
|-------------|--|--|

INTRODUCTION

For Gerard Manley Hopkins, the sight of old notebooks, journals, and letters in 1885 only exacerbated his 'fits of sadness . . . resembl[ing] madness' (*Corr.* 17.05.1885); they represented the 'ruins and wrecks' (8.05.1885) of his life's 'treadmire toil' ('Heraclitean Fire'). For the student of Hopkins, however, the same documents provide a rare storehouse of primary materials crucial to one's understanding of the life and the writings of this extraordinary, complex individual. Almost seventy years ago Fr. Lahey presented one of the most succinct arguments for publishing manuscripts which 'would probably have been suppressed by Hopkins had he foreseen the possibility of their publication'. As Lahey states, 'since they illustrate the growth of the man, to suppress them would be both a grave injustice to him and a violation of the canons of biographical delicacy and truth'.¹ More recently, Michael Allsopp has suggested that 'Only by stepping back in time and thus returning to the Oxford Hopkins knew may a person discover the source, the springs, the turns and the twists of his mind during those undergraduate years.'² Background materials and reports by Hopkins's contemporaries are invaluable, but to 'seize hold of Hopkins, the Oxford undergraduate',³ one should become familiar with the prose texts that survive from his university career: the Oxford-era notes in a large notebook Hopkins used extensively from 1862 to 1865 (now identified as manuscript B.II) and—the focus of this edition—the essays, lecture notes, and reader's observations which occupy twelve black-covered notebooks (the D series of manuscripts in the Hopkins Archive, Campion Hall, Oxford). A complete inventory of D includes eight sets of essays (D.I, II, III, V, VI, IX, X, XI), with a total of forty-five individual assignments; notes from Robert Williams's wide-ranging lectures on Plato (D.VIII); a Platonic dialogue 'On the Origin of Beauty' (D.IV); a commonplace book for 'Extracts' from the writings of others (D.VII); and a set of teaching

¹ G. F. Lahey, S.J., *Gerard Manley Hopkins* (London: Oxford University Press, 1930), 25.

² Michael Allsopp, 'Hopkins at Oxford 1863–1867: His Formal Studies', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 4/3–4 (Fall/Winter 1977–8), 162.

³ *Ibid.* 176.

notes written in Birmingham some months after Hopkins had left Oxford (D.XII).

These academic papers should be studied in conjunction with Hopkins's Oxford-era journals, letters, and poems not only to trace the discursive patterns linking seemingly disconnected writings, but also to judge more dispassionately his accomplishments, and surmount some of the discrete barriers which he erected among personal, spiritual, and intellectual thoughts and activities. In 1865 and 1866 especially, Hopkins takes himself to task in his private notebooks (C.I and C.II) for laziness and inefficiency. Yet B.II and the D collection, although only partial records, attest to a tremendous degree of dedication and imaginative attention to scholarly matters. One of the most telling incongruities occurs during his Birmingham Oratory days: the journal entries for the second and third weeks of February 1868, which consist of prosaic weather reports (7–24.02.1868), reveal none of the anxieties that Hopkins confesses in a letter to Alexander Baillie on 12 February: 'I must say that I am very anxious to get away from this place. I have become very weak in health and do not seem to recover myself here or likely to do so. Teaching is very burdensome . . .' (12.02.1868). But this document, in turn, reflects none of the energy or excitement found in the D.XII notes (dated, initially, 9 February 1868) concerning the meaning of words and the lessons of Parmenides.⁴

EARLIEST ACADEMIC RECORDS

Primary materials relating to Hopkins's youth and final years at Highgate School are scarce. Letters to C. N. Luxmoore and E. H. Coleridge have been published in *Further Letters*; a note sent to a Highgate German instructor (Herr-Doktor Müncke) in 1861 or 1862 surfaced in 1972.⁵ At least parts of the journal Hopkins was keeping in 1862 were destroyed

⁴ This attention to appropriate 'voice' and audience is characteristic of all of GMH's writings. For each of his major correspondents—his mother, Alexander Baillie, Robert Bridges, Richard Watson Dixon, Coventry Patmore—he reserves a particular tone. Subject matter, register, and lexicon are similarly adjusted. When GMH is writing in his diaries for an audience of two (God and himself), the tone is much more lacerating and negative. GMH once remarked to Bridges, 'To return to composition for a moment: what I want there, to be more intelligible, smoother, and less singular, is an audience' (25.09.1888).

⁵ See Anthony Bischoff, S.J., 'Three Uncollected Letters', *The Hopkins Research Bulletin*, 4 (1973), 3–14.

by 1866; the remainder, at a subsequent date.⁶ Handwriting and contents enabled me to identify the B.I. notebook (studies of mechanics and trigonometry) as a Highgate production. B.II, however, encompasses both Highgate and university studies, and so is best discussed in two stages.

The first fifty-eight leaves of B.II could be mistaken for undergraduate notes, because several of the subjects (Aeschylus, Thucydides, St Paul's Epistle to the Romans) reappear in his Oxford curricula. Given the internal evidence which indicates that this is 1862–1863 work, however, it seems probable that the translation and explication exercises were prepared with an eye firmly fixed on Oxford and the Balliol College 'exhibitions' (scholarship competitions). It was Hopkins's custom to sign and date a notebook or journal when he purchased it; in B.II, '23 May 1862' has been recorded. The notes on Aeschylus's *Promêtheus Desmôtês* {*Prometheus Bound*} (fos. 1, 39–52) substantiate comments Hopkins makes about the dramatist and the play in his letter to E. H. Coleridge on 3 September 1862.⁷ References to George Grote's *History of Greece* are frequent, and tally with what is known of the books which Hopkins borrowed from the Highgate library.⁸ (R. L. Starkey has remarked that 'Hopkins's actual references to Grote are few', but this observation does not hold true for the undergraduate essays and notes.) Some of the most productive notes in B.II are devoted to Aeschylus's *Choephoroe* {*Libation Bearers*} (fos. 25–38, 54–8).⁹ From the 'swell and pomp of

⁶ See GMH's diary entry: 'I read today the journal I kept in 1862, burning parts' (I.06.1866). He also refers to the journal in a letter to Charles Luxmoore (7.05.1862).

⁷ The translation of lines 88–127 is published in *The Poems of Gerard Manley Hopkins*, ed. W. H. Gardner and Norman H. MacKenzie, 4th edn. (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1970), 203. Notes from B.II regarding Thucydides are quoted in Todd Bender, *Gerard Manley Hopkins: The Classical Background and Critical Reception of his Work* (Baltimore, Md.: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1966), 52–6, 57–9 (but misidentified as 'C.II'). As Bender suggests, the commentary demonstrates 'how Hopkins had been taught to read a text' (p. 52). Most importantly, it also indicates the development of his own critical voice and confidence (according to GMH, one commentator's reading of a passage is 'impossible'; another translation is 'ingenious but I believe quite untenable'; Grote's analysis, in one respect, is 'hypercritical').

⁸ See R. L. Starkey, 'Library Register, Highgate School, March 1860–November 1862', *The Hopkins Research Bulletin*, 6 (1975), 22–6.

⁹ GMH refers several times to John Conington's 1857 translation of the play, a copy of which he borrowed from the Highgate library 18 June 1861 (Starkey, 'Library Register', 24). He continued his work on Aeschylus at Stonyhurst in 1882, and again while teaching in Dublin. A letter to Bridges in July 1887 explains that, 'I have been reading the Choephoroi carefully and believe I have restored the text and sense almost completely in the corrupted choral odes. . . . What a noble genius Aeschylus had!

words'¹⁰ Hopkins extracts the following phrase: '*drop the plashing tear against the barrier. 145-151*' (B.II, fo. 25). The verb 'to plash' then becomes an integral part of his Christmas 1862 poem, 'A Vision of the Mermaids' (when summer 'Plashes amidst the billowy apple trees | His lusty hands'), and a July 1864 work ('Give us the tale of bricks as heretofore; | To plash with cool feet the clay juicy soil' ('A soliloquy . . . spies'))).

The academic exercises in this Highgate phase of B.II are exceptionally neat in presentation and formal in tone, which suggests meticulous preparations outside the classroom. Hopkins's study habits and his distinct style of note-taking are becoming entrenched; his comment, 'I do not care for a verse translation, but textual criticism, interpretation, and a prose paraphrase' (*Corr.* 21.12.1887) could have been made in 1862 as well as 1887. A precociousness which Bischoff and others have noted is also evident.¹¹ Self-assurance, however, is only part of the discursive texture. In B.II and throughout the Oxford papers one finds the young Hopkins, like all bright students, learning to reconcile personal judgments with the authoritative lessons of his instructors. On occasion, reconciliation gives way to self-assertion.

A reference to James Riddell, Fellow of Balliol, on folio 58^v of B.II is the point at which one can be certain that the notes belong to Hopkins's Oxford years. (The Revd Benjamin Jowett is referred to on folio 77.) The quality of penmanship changes, indicating new time constraints for preparations or in-class notes; the system of abbreviations found in the C.I and C.II notebooks also comes into use.

Dates can be established for sections (and even pages) of the large B.II notebook with somewhat surprising accuracy, partly by collating journal entries and notebook headings, and partly by referring to lecture notes written by Jowett—papers largely overlooked by Victorianists until the 1990s. Jowett was fastidious (if not always legible) in his preparations for class. Papers now housed in the Balliol College Library bear witness to the scrupulous care Jowett took in writing and redrafting,

Besides the swell and pomp of words for which he is famous there is in him a touching consideration and manly tenderness; also an earnestness of spirit and would-be piety by which the man makes himself felt through the playwright. This is not so with Sophocles, who is only the learned and sympathetic dramatist; and much less Euripides' (30.07.1887).

¹⁰ Starkey, 'Library Register', 24.

¹¹ Bischoff's remarks refer to GMH's letter to Herr-Doktor Müncke. See Bischoff, 'Three Uncollected Letters', 3.



Figure 2. Hopkins's sketch of Benjamin Jowett
 From the manuscript notebook 'B.II', Campion Hall, Oxford

year after year, his course outlines.¹² Although few lesson plans and journals from the 1860s have survived, one volume entitled 'Rough notes & lectures on Plato and Aristotle' includes a set of notes identified as 'Lectures on the Republic, Lent 1865'. Hopkins's corresponding entries in B.II (fos. 124–39 and 119^v ff.) are startlingly precise. (One can even identify with certainty those lectures which Hopkins skipped.) Taking all of the evidence together, Hopkins's use of B.II can be inventoried thus: fos. 1–58, Highgate notes; fos. 59–75, Oxford 1863; fos. 76–116, January to December 1864; fo. 117 ff., January 1865 to April or May 1865.

Jowett's lectures on Sophoclean drama in 1864 and Plato's *Republic* in 1865 are the source and catalyst for Hopkins's most engaging and illuminating notes in B.II.¹³ The fundamental value of Greek drama, according to Jowett: 'Interest ethical | No Hamlets, Iagos. Simple passions and villains. . . . No complications. Feelings simple and rude, commonplace to us, but simple, sublime. — Stories of Iphigeneia, Phaedra retain hold on Fr[ench] imag[ination], Fr[ench] stage, wh. Shakspeare does not' (B.II, fo. 79).¹⁴ Jowett would punctuate comments about the ethical and 'religious feeling' of Greek drama with pronouncements such as, 'Epic poetry belongs to early times. Virgil, Milton not real epic poets' (B.II, fo. 111). In 1865, the 'Style of Plato' received special attention.¹⁵ In the following excerpts, Hopkins is obviously paraphrasing Jowett, but the young man is also articulating his own burgeoning interests in the roots and potential of language, its artistic and psychological aspects.

Style of Plato. Aspects of thought and meaning, subtle effects, growing on us gradually, belong to it. The truth always remains unexhausted ~~unexpected~~ in prose like his, in building, in statue etc. His dialogues possess the highest likeness to plastic art. (fo. 133^v)

His own principles of style were that style must be founded on truth, and this cannot be known without philosophy, and each oration must be a living thing with body, legs etc. (fo. 119^v)

¹² A partial catalogue of the Jowett papers is published in Geoffrey Faber, *Jowett: A Portrait with Background* (London: Faber & Faber, 1957), 439–41.

¹³ Yet a bored and/or restless GMH found time during Jowett's lectures to make two small sketches: one of a young person's head (fo. 80^v), the other a profile portrait of the Regius Professor of Greek (fo. 90). See Figure 2.

¹⁴ For his note-taking GMH utilizes the same system of abbreviations and markings found in C.I and C.II: θ = 'th' and 'the'; $\cap$ = 'and'; $\cup$ = 'of'. Words and letters have been silently restored in these transcriptions.

¹⁵ See also notes to D.VI.1.

Images. Remarkable for suggestiveness and power of association. (fo. 119^v)

Early psychology. How do we know ab[ou]t the soul? By its effects. It rests on fa[cts] like other things but subtler ones. Most psychology is derived fr[om] language and a kind of tradition and its true position is to be always correcting this by facts. NOTE THIS. (fo. 119^v)

Imagery of Plato. His language combines strictest ratiocination with poetry. Opposition felt by himself to rhetoric. This order, Plato ease. This unpoetical, Plato poetical. Use of images. Old philosophers half poets. Much beautiful verbiage and Jowetry. (fo. 120^v)

I have concentrated on B.II thus far because of its inherent value and the chronological and contextual framework it provides for the study of D, the Oxford essays. Only the latter collection, considered in its entirety, however, conveys the 'feast of reason and flow of soul'¹⁶ Hopkins experienced as an undergraduate.

In Hopkins's era, the 'burden of his studies of the classics was philosophical rather than literary; there was, for instance, no lyric or pastoral poetry in his readings, and in the study of drama or narrative art a great deal more attention was paid to logic and the analysis of argument than to aesthetic appreciation'.¹⁷ With Jowett, however, line-by-line explication of plays was complemented by discussions about staging and the cultural importance of ancient Greek drama, 'its e[th]ic-religious feeling' (B.II fo. 111^r). Hopkins was writing at least one essay per week, 'alternately Latin and English', by the end of April 1863.¹⁸ Jowett had cautioned him from the outset 'to take great pains with this, as on it would depend [his] success more than anything else' (*Corr.* 22.04.1863). According to A. G. C. Liddell, a weekly essay was also read to the

¹⁶ Nitram Tradleg [Edmund Martin Geldart], *A Son of Belial: Autobiographical Sketches* (London, 1882), 139.

¹⁷ Robert Bernard Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins: A Very Private Life* (New York: G. P. Putnam's Sons, 1991), 52.

¹⁸ Although none of GMH's Latin prose has been found, two of the topics assigned were noted in C.I: 'Essay. Florentissimae nostris temporibus Europae urbes situ, aedificiis, opere, magnitudine, inter se in epistola comparantur. {The most flourishing cities of Europe today are compared among themselves in a letter with respect to landscape, architecture, industry, and size.} *Nekvías* {Underworld} Homericæ (Odys. XI) cum Virgiliana (Aen. VI) comparatio {Compare Book XI of Homer's *Odyssey* with Book VI of Virgil's *Aeneid*}' (*Jour.* 01.1864). In the spring of 1864, essays were required on these topics: 'Do the ancients appear to have possessed a sense of the Picturesque in external nature? or, Estimate the value of India to England'; 'The merits and defects of the morality of chivalry. The effect on politics of changes in the art of war.' His essay on 'Some aspects of Modern mediaevalism' (*Jour.* 06.1864) may have been prepared for the Hexameron society.

Master of Balliol every Sunday¹⁹—and Robert Scott's initials appear on ten of Hopkins's D essays, in notebooks written as early as 1864 and as late as 1867. In addition to Scott, the names of eleven of Hopkins's tutors or instructors are known to us: Robinson Ellis, T. H. Green, Benjamin Jowett, William Newman, Edwin Palmer, Walter Pater, James Riddell, Henry Smith, Henry Wall, Robert Williams, and Edward Woollcombe (see 'Notes on Hopkins's Tutors', below). Yet only three men—Newman, Woollcombe, and Green—initialled any of the papers Hopkins presented. Neither Pater, Williams, nor Green signed essays in the notebooks reserved for their respective tutorials. Green's initials do appear on an essay (D.II.5) written in 1865, but he did not become a tutor until the death of James Riddell in September 1866. Since the essay topic, 'The position of Plato to the Greek world' complements subjects set by Green himself (see D.X), one assumes that he was reviewing Hopkins's previous work on that subject.

More than a decade after he had left Oxford, Hopkins could still declare, 'Not to love my University would be to undo the very buttons of my being' (*Corr.* 22.05.1880). Yet, the retailoring which he underwent from April 1863 to June 1867 exacted a great price. Initial exuberant enthusiasm (see especially letters to his mother, 22.04.1863 ff.) was undermined and then extinguished by the torment and anxiety that nearly overwhelmed him in the year between Lent 1865 and Lent 1866. Oxford proved to be both his park of pleasaunce and the wilderness 'where flies [the] sharp and sided hail'.²⁰ For his notes and essays he wore the scholar's robes with deceptive ease; for his personal journals, especially C.II, Hopkins donned the 'ever-fretting shirt of punishment'.²¹ On the one hand, tutors (especially Jowett) were encouraging

¹⁹ Liddell, *Notes from the Life of an Ordinary Mortal* (New York: E. P. Dutton, 1911), 69.

²⁰ 'To Oxford' and 'Heaven-Haven'.

²¹ 'Easter Communion'. Those who read C.I and C.II (published in *The Early Poetic Manuscripts and Note-Books*, ed. Norman H. MacKenzie (New York: Garland Press, 1989), and *Collected Works*, vol. iii) must come to their own conclusions about the contents. After making his confession to Liddon on 25 March 1865, GMH used C.II to record his daily 'sins'. (A separate journal was purchased, his 'little book for sins' (*Jour.* 04.1865), but its fate is unknown.) The mixed litany of faults and forebodings recorded in C.II and the back of C.I can be divided into six categories: personal habits, family matters, social activities, academic performance, spiritual doubts, and sexual behaviour and misgivings. The chronicle of self-scrutiny abates by the spring of 1866. In a letter to John Henry Newman, GMH enquires, 'Monsignor Eyre seemed to say that I ought not to make my confession by means of a paper as I have been used to do. Will you kindly say whether you wd. prefer it so or not?' (15.10.1866).

him to flourish and excel academically; on the other hand, he was being cautioned against prideful intellectual arrogance by the Revd Henry Parry Liddon (1829–90), the Vice-Principal of St Edmund Hall and Student of Christ Church responsible for pastoral work among undergraduates and the Revd Edward Pusey's chief supporter (and biographer).²²

To a non-sympathetic onlooker, Liddon was 'the arch wire-puller and ecclesiastical intriguer in University forces', all the more dangerous because of his 'perfect rhetoric'.²³ For numerous undergraduates, however, he was a magnetic and influential public figure, and a personal, spiritual confidant. A charismatic writer and preacher, Liddon packed St Edmund Hall every Sunday night during term with receptive acolytes.²⁴ He strongly encouraged students to join the Brotherhood of the Holy Trinity (BHT), an extremely 'high church' society of undergraduates and dons, and played a vital role in its operations.²⁵ He was also instrumental in the establishment of the Hexameron essay club, designed as a wholesome, 'conservative' alternative to such Oxford

²² See also Jude Nixon, *Gerard Manley Hopkins and his Contemporaries: Liddon, Newman, Darwin, and Pater* (New York: Garland, 1994). For a discussion of Bridges and Liddon, see Catherine Phillips, *Robert Bridges, A Biography* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1992), 26–7, 31–2, and Jean-Georges Ritz, *Robert Bridges and Gerard Hopkins, 1863–1889: A Literary Friendship* (London: Oxford University Press, 1960), 30–1, who notes that Liddon's help was sought by Bridges when trying to find a tutor for Digby Dolben (preparing, as of autumn 1865, for Oxford scholarship exams). An enthusiasm for Liddon's work was shared by Dolben. 'I have been reading F. Liddon's sermons', Dolben wrote to his cousin 24 March 1864. 'They are most wonderful—& beautiful—I long to hear and see him.' Quoted in *The Poems of Digby Macworth Dolben, 1848–1867*, ed. Martin Cohen (Earls Barton: Avebury, 1981), 149.

²³ Mrs Humphry Ward, *A Writer's Recollections*, 2 vols. (New York: Harper & Brothers, 1918), i. 180.

²⁴ Liddon lectured on the New Testament every Sunday evening for ten years (1859–69) at St Edmund Hall and, as of March 1865, in the larger hall at Queen's College. In the fictional terms of Martin Edmund Geldart (1844–1885), GMH's friend and fellow 'Belial' student, 'Canon Parry' was a 'gaunt, cadaverous-looking man. . . . [with] a sweet, somewhat sickly smile, especially when indulging in sarcasm at the cost of the Neologians. He was a popular University preacher, an exceedingly voluble rhetorician, crouching in his pulpit in a catlike attitude as though ready to spring on his adversary, which he did with a feline ferocity as opportunity occurred.' Tradleg, *A Son of Belial*, 169. GMH's 'Notes on Lecture by Revd. H. P. Liddon upon the Epistle of the Corinthians', which cover aspects of chapters 5 to 8, are housed in the Bodleian Library (MS Eng. Poet. e. 90) and published, with helpful annotations and commentary, in Jude Nixon, 'Gerard Manley Hopkins and Henry Parry Liddon: An Unacknowledged Influence', *Renascence*, 42/1–2 (Fall 1989/Winter 1990).

²⁵ See *The Journals and Papers of Gerard Manley Hopkins*, ed. Humphry House and Graham Storey (London: Oxford University Press, 1959), 305 n. 17.

groups as the Old Mortality Society.²⁶ Liddon's diaries reveal how much he coveted his role as mentor-confessor among the young men, how actively he maintained his personal associations with them.²⁷ Entries also indicate that members of Balliol had been specifically targeted for his ministrations, undoubtedly to counteract Jowett's seemingly pernicious influence. (Some might consider the emotional and religious pressure that Liddon exerted equally injurious.) During the winter of 1866, Liddon delivered his eight Bampton lectures focusing on various aspects of 'Our Lord's Divinity'. Many in the audience were convinced of his 'theological greatness'.²⁸ As the Revd C. Kegan Paul observed in

²⁶ See Gerald Monsman, 'Old Mortality at Oxford', *Studies in Philology*, 67 (July 1970), and Walter Pater (Boston, Mass.: Twayne, 1977); and Jerome Bump, *Gerard Manley Hopkins* (Boston, Mass.: Twayne, 1982). Readers are indebted to Monsman for bringing to light GMH's friendship with Samuel Brooke, a student at Corpus Christi College (excerpts from his diaries are reprinted in Robert Seiler (ed.), *Walter Pater: A Life Remembered* (Calgary: University of Calgary Press, 1987), 11–13). The Hexameron was so named because meetings were held six times per term. Although Liddon took credit for establishing the club, the impetus came from Brooke, who confided to his diary the fond (if self-aggrandizing) dream of establishing a 'conservative' essay and discussion group as early as May 1863; in November 1863 he discussed the scheme with several friends. The great catalyst for implementing his plans was an unsuspecting Walter Pater. Brooke, also a member of the Old Mortality Society, was appalled by the 'infidel' essay that Pater delivered on 20 February 1864—the subject was 'self-culture and subjective immortality'. Brooke attempted to refute Pater's claims the following week; realizing that he had been unsuccessful, he left the OMS immediately afterwards. See Higgins, 'Hopkins and Friends at Oxford: A New Perspective', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 21/1–2 (Winter/Spring 1994), 9–10. Liddon's support for Brooke's scheme was sought and received in March 1864; on 17 March Liddon informed the Bishop of Salisbury that 'During the last fortnight I have been trying to organise an Essay Club among the abler undergraduates (some of them Jowett's own pupils) whom I happen to know. There are already two such clubs in existence, which are a great means of propagating sheer unbelief.' J. O. Johnston, *Life and Letters of Henry Parry Liddon* (London: Longman, 1904), 90–1. The first general meeting of the Hexameron Essay Society took place on Saturday, 16 April. Fifteen people attended. Although GMH was a regular participant in Hexameron functions, his only presentation between April 1864 and September 1865 took place on 20 February 1865 (Brooke's journal ends abruptly in September 1865; GMH was not the faithful diarist that Brooke was). 'Hopkins read an Essay on [the] "Science of Poetry"', Brooke noted. 'Very crowded attendance' (quoted in Higgins, 'Hopkins and Friends', 11). GMH was also a member of the Friends in Council, a debating society 'that was almost exclusively Balliol in membership'; in April 1864 'he was elected secretary' of the FIC. Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 74.

²⁷ Most of Liddon's papers are housed in Keble College, Oxford; the diaries, once the property of Liddon House, St Margaret's (Mayfair), London, are also in Keble. There is a separate volume of diary entries for every year from 1858 to 1890.

²⁸ *Henry Parry Liddon, 1829–1929: A Centenary Memoir*, ed. W. M. Whitley (London: A. R. Mowbray, 1929), 20.

the *Theological Review*, 'What Newman was to the men of his time in his University, that is Mr. Liddon to those of the present.'²⁹

References to a campaign against Jowett are scattered throughout Liddon's diaries. He obviously hoped to monitor the activities of the Professor of Greek through contact with Balliol students (and hoped to protect them at the same time, of course). 'Walked in the aft. in Shotover with Hinkes of Balliol', Liddon notes on 14 November 1862. 'He said that Jowetts [*sic*] influence in Ball[iol] was much less than when he came up 2 years ago & Wright, Stanley &c were leading undergraduates.'³⁰ Hinkes underestimated Jowett's authority and persuasiveness; in 1863 Liddon intensified his association with Balliol students, joining them on walks more frequently and attending breakfast parties. How aware was Jowett of this campaign? In one letter he cites 'Mr Liddon, a clergyman' as an 'Anglican perverter' who encourages the 'worship' of his followers.³¹ In July 1865 he explains in some detail his sense of betrayal when

'some' of his [pupils] get wafted off to the Confessional & then no amount of personal kindness or obligation weighs a feather against their fanaticism. They lose all sense of loyalty or regard. This is one of the unpleasantnesses of Oxford at present. I think the best way is to ignore it & treat them as if I did not know that they do & repeat what I say to Pusey & Liddon. When they have thoroughly taken the disorder, they really are such fanatics that they know not what spirit they are of. Some of them will become Romanists & then, perhaps, they will become liberal. Any Catholic direction would be far better than they get in Oxford. . . .³²

With the exception of the later 'liberal' tendencies, Jowett had unwittingly predicted the 'direction' of Hopkins's Oxford life.

Hopkins was introduced to Liddon within a month of his arrival at Oxford: fellow Balliol student Frederick Gurney took him to hear Liddon lecture on Paul's first epistle to the Corinthians (a topic surely chosen with Jowett in mind) on Sunday, 3 May 1863. The event is recorded in a letter to Hopkins's parents: 'The lecture, I need scarcely say, was admirable. Liddon, perhaps you do not know, is Pusey's great protégé and is immensely thought of. After lecture, tea and coffee, while

²⁹ Quoted in Johnston, *Life and Letters*, 78.

³⁰ Liddon MS diary 1862, entry for 14 November.

³¹ Benjamin Jowett, *Dear Miss Nightingale: A Selection of Benjamin Jowett's Letters to Florence Nightingale*, ed. Vincent Quinn and John Prest (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1987), 51.

³² *Ibid.* 64.

Liddon goes round chatting. Gurney introduced me, and I shall now go every Sunday evening' (4.05.1863). Close contact with Liddon seems to have begun in February 1864. 'Walk with Hopkins of Balliol', Liddon reports in his diary on 8 February, 'a long talk about Eternal Punishment'.³³ Hopkins declined to join the BHT (*Jour.* 02.1864), but was among the original members of the Hexameron society. On 10 February 1864 (Ash Wednesday), Hopkins made his confession to Liddon for the first time,³⁴ thus strengthening the relationship between them. Subsequent confessions are recorded in Liddon's diaries for 11 March and 26 November 1864, 25 March 1865,³⁵ and 6 February and 17 May 1866.

Hopkins's absenteeism in Lent term 1865 is directly attributable to his burgeoning personal and theological doubts, and the clearest indication of the extent to which control of the young man's mind and soul became another skirmish in the 'war' between Jowett and Liddon/Pusey. The twelve months between March 1865 and March 1866 were pivotal in Hopkins's life; they were also emotionally and spiritually searing, complicated by his profound attraction to Digby Mackworth Dolben, a distant cousin of Robert Bridges whom Hopkins met, once, when Dolben visited Oxford in February 1865. Poems written in this period mirror and intensify Hopkins's doubts and yearnings, especially 'Easter Communion', 'Where art thou', 'Alchemist', 'My prayers', 'Let me be', and 'Nondum'. Yet the chief record of his continual personal, religious, and sexual preoccupations and misgivings is the small journal known as C.II, in which Hopkins kept a compulsively exhaustive list of his 'sins'.³⁶ In all probability, it was Liddon who advised Hopkins to maintain this confessional record. Among

³³ Liddon was also taking occasional walks with Robert Bridges; two are noted on 3 March and 20 November 1864.

³⁴ Liddon MS diary 1864, entry for 10 February. One must rely on Liddon's diaries for these facts; GMH's entries in C.II are incomplete. In a February 1864 letter to Nightingale, Jowett observes, 'The Education of this place [Oxford] is wonderfully altered & improved. . . . On the other hand, there is a religious want which remains unsupplied, except in the worst way by confessions & Sundays Evenings at Dr. Pusey's.' *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 32.

³⁵ GMH also 'confessed to Dr. Pusey' (*Jour.* 16.12.1865). According to Norman White, 'The famous and un-Balliolish accolade "The Star of Balliol" was bestowed (if at all) not by Jowett but by Dr. Pusey, and by this Pusey was not referring to Hopkins's academic prowess, but to the fact that he was the main hope for the Tractarian group at that time to gain a foothold in the heretical Balliol . . . Fr. Lahey muddled the issue by assigning the phrase to Jowett in one place in his Life.' White, 'Hopkins' Errata and Failures', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 13/1-2 (Apr./July 1986), 51, 53.

³⁶ See *Collected Works*, vol. iii.

Liddon's papers at Keble College, Oxford, is a pamphlet, *Questions for Self-Examination. For Common Use* (1861), which could have served as the model for Hopkins's obsessive self-scrutiny.³⁷ Not surprisingly, various self-accusatory remarks in Hopkins's diary (wasting time, not working hard enough, conflicts with elders) reflect the very same burdens that preoccupied Liddon.

To appreciate fully Hopkins's intensely felt anxieties, one must remember that each uncertainty—whether it concerned his academic performance, his religious beliefs, or his personal behaviour—fed into and exacerbated all the others. Jowett, for example, represented both intellectual achievement and theological apostasy. In the same May 1863 letter describing his first meeting with Liddon, Hopkins mentions that he had attended 'evening chapel' at Balliol 'to hear Wall lecture and see Jowett laugh' (4.05.1863). Any lightheartedness, however, was soon displaced by doubt and confusion. Liddon undoubtedly warned him about Jowett, spiritual advice that could not help but affect Hopkins's academic status. In Lent term 1865, Hopkins's list of extra-curricular reading included *Tracts for the Times, Essays and Reviews* (*Jour.* 02.1865), Pusey's lectures on *Daniel the Prophet*,³⁸ and his sermons on 'Everlasting Punishment' and 'The Thought of the Love of Jesus for us, the Remedy for Sins of the Body' (*Jour.* 03.1865). His course of study included Paul's Epistle to the Romans, and Jowett's lectures on Plato's *Republic*. The latter were scheduled for Tuesday and Thursday at 1 p.m. (*Jour.* 02.1865). Yet, on 14 February, Hopkins arranged to walk with Liddon at a time when he should have been studying with Jowett. 'Walk with Liddon on Tuesday at 1.30', he noted in his journal. 'But how about Jowett's lecture?' (14.02.1865).³⁹ Subsequently Hopkins missed '[m]any lectures' by Jowett. On Saturday, 25 March, Lady Day, Hopkins again confessed to Liddon.⁴⁰ The listing of sins in C.II then commences, interrupted by a note, 'To ask about lay

³⁷ The pamphlet is reproduced in *The Early Poetic Manuscripts and Note-Books*, ed. MacKenzie, 204–6.

³⁸ Pusey's first words in his preface are direct and combative: 'The following lectures were planned, as my contribution against the tide of skepticism, which the publication of the "Essays and Reviews" let loose upon the young and uninstructed.' Pusey, *Daniel the Prophet* (London, 1864), p. iii.

³⁹ GMH's entry is not dated. Liddon, however, noted, 'Walked out with Hopkins of Balliol'. MS diary 1865, entry for 14 February.

⁴⁰ GMH's notation, 'I confessed on Saturday, Lady Day' (*Jour.* 25.03.1865), accords with Liddon's diary entry: 'Hd Hopkins' c. [Heard GMH's confession]'. MS diary 1865, entry for 25 March.

baptism (in the Tract.) About justification etc. About betting. About mortification' (03.1865). On 28 March, Liddon 'saw Hopkins for 1.30 hours from 11 o'clock'.⁴¹ Hopkins's conscience, as reflected in his journal entry for 28 March, was troubled about 'Speaking impertinently to Liddon (about Jowett). Was it deception about my Plato paper?' (28.03.1865). Small wonder that the young man was so riddled with guilt and apprehension.⁴²

What, if anything, Jowett said to Hopkins about his association with Liddon is unknown. That Jowett was very much aware of Liddon's activities is indicated by the Canon's memorandum on 29 April 1865: 'A walk with Coles of Balliol & [William] Bright. Jowett appears to be much horrified at the spread of confession in the Ch. of England: and especially in Oxford. The Balliol people have granted petition for weekly Communion conditionally for a year.'⁴³ Eventually, of course, neither Jowett nor the Puseyites 'won' Hopkins over—by joining the Church of Rome in October 1866 he became an anathema to both sides. As Robert Martin interprets the scattered evidence of Hopkins's actions before and just after he converted to Rome, Hopkins gradually, and then completely, withdrew himself from Liddon's ministrations. By the autumn of 1865 he was avoiding his confessor: 'A comparison of their private diaries shows that on some occasions Hopkins waited until Liddon was away from Oxford before going to confession to Dr. Pusey, whose austere, somewhat removed manner made complete frankness more attractive than once it had seemed.'⁴⁴ Although Manley Hopkins enlisted Liddon's help, in October 1866, in dissuading his son from plans to 'go over' to Rome, Liddon's several entreaties to his former charge were rebuffed (see *Corr.* 16–20.10.1866). 'Mr. Liddon writes begging me to pause', Hopkins informed his father on 16 October; 'it would take too long to explain how I did not apply to him at first and why it wd. have been useless' (16.10.1866).

Hopkins was willing to give up family, friends, and university for the sake of his new faith, yet such sacrifices were not necessary.⁴⁵ John

⁴¹ Liddon MS diary 1865, entry for 28 March.

⁴² One of GMH's closest friends at Balliol, Vincent Coles, was also seeing Liddon regularly at this time.

⁴³ Liddon MS diary 1865, entry for 29 April.

⁴⁴ Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 117.

⁴⁵ Only twenty-one years had passed since W. G. Ward (1812–82) paid dearly for challenging Oxford and Anglican orthodoxies and subsequently 'going over' to Rome. In 1844 Ward, a Tractarian, published *The Ideal of a Christian Church*. The following

Henry Newman, who was 'exemplary in not exciting Hopkins further in his rebellion',⁴⁶ advised him in December 1866 that his 'first duty is to make a good class [gain a First in his final exams]. Show your friends at home that your becoming a Catholic has not unsettled you in the plain duty that lies before you' (*Corr.* 6.12.1866). It was advice that Hopkins heeded assiduously. Jowett at least did not abandon Hopkins academically: given that 'it distressed him [Jowett] to see his pupils "making a mess of life"',⁴⁷ his continued interest in Hopkins's studies was either a simple case of fulfilling his responsibilities as tutor or an effort to make the most of a 'foolish' situation during 'the Roman Epidemic'.⁴⁸ As he confided to Florence Nightingale, Rome was actually preferable to Christ Church: 'You may have seen in the newspapers, perhaps, that three foolish fellows at our College & three at other Colleges have gone over to Rome. There is no great harm in this really, for the youths are under much better guidance now than that of Pusey and Liddon. . . . I think that an Ecclesiastical storm is getting up which like a commercial panic seems to return about once in seven years: Ecclesiastic titles—Essays and Reviews—Ritualism.'⁴⁹ Although the university did not accommodate Hopkins's new status easily—he was apparently fined 'on more than one occasion' for attending Mass rather than an Anglican service⁵⁰—Balliol (and by 1866, that meant Jowett) at least tolerated it. A 'meeting of the Fellows on 23 October passed a resolution that the Master be "requested to give Exhibitioner Hopkins a dispensation from attendance at Chapel & Divinity

year the Fellow of Balliol and mathematics lecturer was stripped of his degrees by the university's Convocation (its legislative assembly) for reasons of promulgating heresy. Fifteen hundred people crammed into the Sheldonian Theatre for the extraordinary session on 13 February 1845: the book was condemned by a two to one majority (777 for, 386 against), but the vote for 'Mr. Ward's degradation' was quite close (569 for, 511 against). See G. V. Cox, *Recollections of Oxford* (London, 1868), 328. In 1845 Ward converted to Roman Catholicism.

⁴⁶ Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 155.

⁴⁷ Evelyn Abbott and Lewis Campbell, *The Life and Letters of Benjamin Jowett*, 2 vols. (London, 1897), ii. 438.

⁴⁸ Jowett, *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 37. The 'epidemic' motif is used by Jowett several times in his letter to describe 'violent' religiosity, both High Church and Roman Catholic—the knowledge that 'some of our undergraduates have formed themselves into a society which they call "the Brotherhood of the Holy Trinity"' is one such example. *Ibid.* 43.

⁴⁹ *Ibid.* 71. Jowett's only surviving sibling, Emily, converted to Catholicism, as did Florence Nightingale's good friend, Lady Herbert. *Ibid.* 50.

⁵⁰ Bernard Bergonzi, *Gerard Manley Hopkins* (New York: Collier Books, 1977), 47.

Lectures”’.⁵¹ Academically, there were other changes. As of April 1866 Hopkins began to work with several new tutors. He attended Robert Williams’s lectures on ‘Plato’s Philosophy’ (D.VIII), and wrote essays for Williams (D.XI) in Michaelmas term 1866. The following year he studied Aristotle with T. H. Green.

Although Jowett’s spiritual guidance was rebuffed by Hopkins, the tutor persisted in his efforts to encourage the young man’s intellectual development. In the spring of 1866, Jowett may have recommended Hopkins to a private ‘coach’ from outside Balliol who was the antithesis of Puseyism. There is no proof that it was Jowett who dispatched Hopkins to Walter Pater, the Brasenose don who had been one of Jowett’s pupils from 1860 to 1862. I cannot believe, however, that it was Robert Scott’s idea to send one of Balliol’s best students to a Fellow of a decidedly non-intellectual college, a Fellow whom he did not know.

ASCRIBING DATES TO THE NOTEBOOKS

The contents of the essays and lecture notes are of principal interest, but a few remarks concerning their chronology are necessary. In some cases, dates are provided by Hopkins himself inside a notebook’s front cover.⁵² The sequence which I am suggesting, and have utilized for this volume, differs somewhat from that given by House and Storey in appendix IV of *Journals and Papers*⁵³—discrepancies exist among details provided in the notes, the preface, and appendix IV that must be corrected.⁵⁴ Presented with the options of renumbering the notebooks to reflect a more precise chronology or simply rearranging them, with the familiar labels intact, I have chosen the latter course. The new order is:

- D.I Autumn 1863 to Autumn 1864
- D.II Winter 1865
- D.IV 12 May 1865

⁵¹ Norman White, *Hopkins: A Literary Biography* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1992), 141.

⁵² Several covers have become detached over time, yet covers and contents are easily matched—GMH cut away the top right-hand corner of most notebook covers to reveal a heading written on fo. 1. Only the covers of D.VII (‘Extracts etc’) and A.III, which lack any identifying marks, could have been erroneously matched.

⁵³ *Journals and Papers*, 530.

⁵⁴ See Higgins, ‘A New Catalogue of the Hopkins Collection at Campion Hall’, *Hopkins Quarterly*, 18/1–2 (Apr./July 1991), 9–44.

D.V	22 May 1865
D.VI	Winter 1866 to Winter 1867
D.III	May to June 1866
D.VIII	Autumn 1866 to Spring 1867
D.XI	Autumn 1866 to Spring 1867
D.X	Autumn 1866 to Winter 1867
D.IX	Spring 1867
D.VII	up until 1868
D.XII	Autumn 1867 to Spring 1868

D.I is certainly the earliest of the notebooks. The first three essays on logic probably date from Michaelmas term 1863 or Lent 1864. The title of D.I.4, 'Distinguish Induction from Example, Colligation of facts and other processes with which it has been confounded', appears among the diary entries for late autumn 1864.

Hopkins's script in D.II indicates that this too is fairly early work. As House and Storey note, verbal parallels between D.II.3, 'Poetic Diction', and the 'Platonic Dialogue' of D.IV (12 May 1865) suggest that the essay, written first, became the catalyst for the polished dialogue. The winter of 1865 is probable for D.II for three other reasons. In D.II.6, 'The Life of Socrates', Hopkins draws analogies between the Greek philosopher and Savonarola; he had been reading Villari's biography of Savonarola in late spring 1864, and refers to the Italian several times in the early part of 1865 (*Jour.* 02.1865; *Corr.* 6.01.1865). References to St Francis of Assisi and St Ignatius Loyola in the essay, and an expressed concern with the 'sanctity' of life, reflect his spiritual preoccupations at that time.⁵⁵ Among the notes taken during Jowett's lectures on the *Republic* in Hilary term 1865, one finds the question: 'What gave rise to the Sophists? Their position was education, rather than philosophy' (B.II, fo. 124^v). Hopkins tackles this issue and others in his D.II.4 essay, 'The Sophists', which features the comment, 'But what was the distinctive principle or position wh. marked off the Philosopher fr. the Sophist? A difference of position . . .'. Reference is also made to George Grote's *Plato, and the Other Companions of Sokrates*, first published in 1865.

D.IV, the extra-curricular 'Platonic Dialogue: On the Origin of Beauty', is dated by Hopkins 'May 12, 1865'. As several commentators

⁵⁵ References to Bacon also occur, but we know that GMH was reading Bacon as early as 1863 (*Jour.* 12.1863). 'Bacon's essays' is the first item on the winter 1865 list of 'Books to be read', but this catalogue includes many books to be reread.

have remarked, the 'Professor of the newly founded chair of Aesthetics' seems closely modelled upon John Ruskin,⁵⁶ not Walter Pater. (The professor's Socratic method is also very reminiscent of Jowett.) Hopkins had certainly heard of Pater before the Brasenose don became his tutor in April 1866, but there is no evidence to suggest that the two had had any personal contact before then. Furthermore, Pater's early essays for the Old Mortality Society (the Oxford essay club) and the *Westminster Review* focused on philosophy, not aesthetics.

May and June 1865 were extremely busy months for Hopkins. In addition to transcribing a final (but not completed) copy of his 'Platonic Dialogue', he began D.V, a notebook containing a very eclectic group of essays. Internal evidence shows that at least one of the assignments, 'Is history governed by general laws?' (D.V.2), was presented to Jowett. To illustrate his analysis of the relationship between great men and the times in which they live, Hopkins commented:

Shakspeare's mind wd. seem to mark the highest point in the range given to intellect, and his fame is, if not proportionally great, at least very great; but his individual influence is, we may believe, compared with his greatness of mind, almost incredibly small. Had he never lived, the collective effect of the play-writers of Queen Elizabeth's day wd. have lost little more than his single name, just as it now wd. lose supposing Marlowe's name and works were lost . . . (D.V.2, fo. 9)⁵⁷

Jowett apparently countered this argument, for a note appears adjacent to the passage on folio 8':

Jowett thought this about Shakspeare was quite untrue; the effect of the Elizabethan era as it is and the effect it wd. have had if Shakspeare had never lived will bear no comparison: the whole of subsequent literature deeply influenced by him. Ben Jonson quite a second-rate writer. Indeed I suppose neither

⁵⁶ Alison Sulloway was one of the first to analyse Ruskin's importance to GMH's aesthetic and artistic development: see *Gerard Manley Hopkins and the Victorian Temper* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1972). Among the many other discussions, see Patricia Ball, *The Science of Aspects* (London: Athlone Press, 1971); Barbara Boehnke, 'The Perceptual Origins of Inscape', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 24/3-4 (Summer/Fall 1997), 71-94; Ann Colley, 'Mapping In and Out of the Borders of Time: Ruskin and Hopkins', *Victorian Literature and Culture*, 19 (1991), 107-21; W. S. Johnson, 'From Ruskin to Hopkins: Landscape and Inscape', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 8 (Fall 1981), 89-106; and White, *Hopkins: A Literary Biography*.

⁵⁷ See the poetic fragment 'Shakspeare' (13 September 1865). As MacKenzie notes, 'This spelling of "Shakespeare" was advocated by Sir F. Madden . . . and accepted by the OED'. *The Poetical Works of Gerard Manley Hopkins* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1990), 280.

Ben Jonson nor Marlowe wd. have any claim to be placed next to Shakspeare of the writers of that time. Perhaps Ford, Nash, or Dekker.

Throughout the D notebooks one finds Hopkins revising his prose or noting points raised in discussions with tutors (Jowett and Pater especially).

'Jowetry' plays a major role in both D.V and D.VI.⁵⁸ To refer back to the earlier discussion of Jowett's notebooks: although he frequently rewrote lecture outlines and explored new avenues of enquiry, Jowett's headings for these notes are very consistent. In a bound notebook entitled 'Notes and lectures chiefly in Gk. philosophy' (1851-3), the prefatory subheads listed by Jowett parallel to a remarkable degree the essay topics addressed in Hopkin's D.II and D.VI notebooks. Granted, any professor of Greek philosophy would focus on approximately the same themes, but it seems more than coincidental that the subjects of two D.II papers (D.II.4 and 6) and three D.VI assignments (D.VI.1, 3, and 5) also appear in Jowett's outline. Additionally, although most instructors would examine 'Philosophy before and after Socrates', Jowett's interest in philosophy, 'Mythology and Revelation' was uniquely his own. Hopkins posits his ideas on myth in D.VI.5, an essay entitled 'The Connection of Mythology and Philosophy'. A Jowett-like conflation of classical and contemporary thought (Plato and the Positivists, Aristotle and Kant) informs the discussion throughout D.VI. 'Causation' (D.VI.2) is examined in the light of Hume, John Stuart Mill, George Henry Lewes, and Kant. A remark about the Positivists' definition of cause and effect is glossed, on the blank page opposite, 'For causation see the end of Jowett's essay on Necessity and Free Will.' According to Robert Scott's log-book, Hopkins was studying Books I to IV of Plato's *Republic* in Lent term 1866, and Books V to X in the Easter and Trinity terms (see page 40). Two essays in D.VI (4 and 8) reflect this body of work. The amount of 'Jowetry' in the notebook also suggests that D.VI was completed before the autumn of 1866, when Hopkins's studies in Greek philosophy were directed by two new tutors, T. H. Green and Robert Williams.

One of the first entries in the A.I journal reads, 'Coaching with W. H. Pater this term. Walked with him on Monday evening last, April 30' (2.05.1866). D.III's contents are identified twice: once inside the front

⁵⁸ See Higgins, 'Hopkins and "The Jowler"', *Texas Studies in Literature and Language*, 31/1 (Spring 1989), 143-67, and 'Jowett and Pater: Trafficking in Platonic Wares', *Victorian Studies*, 37/1 (Autumn 1993), 43-72.

cover, which announces 'Essays | for W.H. Pater, Esq.', and in the upper right-hand corner of page 1, 'ESSAYS—W. H. P.'⁵⁹

D.VIII and D.XI are companion notebooks; the former contains lecture notes from Robert Williams's tutorials, and the latter, essays written for that instructor. Williams did not become a Fellow of Merton until 1866, which enables one to assign an approximate date for both notebooks. Perhaps Williams, the non-Balliol man, was called upon to fill the gap caused by James Riddell's death just before the start of Michaelmas term 1866. Green assumed Riddell's tutorial responsibilities within Balliol; D.X, therefore, 'Essays for T. H. Green, Esq.', represents work from the 1866/7 academic year, the final terms before Hopkins's Greats examinations.

Essays written during Hopkins's penultimate term at Oxford, 'Hilary Term '67', appear in D.IX. A curious feature of this notebook is found in the inscription, which reads 'G. M. J. F. Hopkins'. In her article 'Books Belonging to Hopkins and his Family', Madeline House describes a similar signature: *'Dictionary of Greek & Roman Biography and Mythology'*. Ed. William Smith 1853. 3 fat 8vo volumes. Each volume bears on front flyleaf, in GMH's hand the inscription "G. M. J. F. Hopkins / 1866." I have at present no clue to the meaning of the two additional initials.⁶⁰ Hopkins, who sometimes used the sobriquet 'Pook Tuncks', apparently had several private names for himself.⁶¹

The date 'Jan. 27, 1866' is inscribed inside the (detached) front cover which now accompanies D.VII, but the black cover may not belong to the 'Extracts' notebook. The entries themselves do not follow any

⁵⁹ See Higgins, 'Essaying "W. H. Pater Esq."': New Perspectives on the Tutor/Student Relationship Between Pater and Hopkins', in Laurel Brake and Ian Small (eds.), *Pater in the 1990s* (Greensboro, NC: ELT Press, 1991), 77–94.

⁶⁰ House, 'Books Belonging to Hopkins and his Family', *The Hopkins Research Bulletin*, 5 (1974), 31.

⁶¹ Within the family, Uncle Charles Hopkins was 'Polly' and GMH was 'Poppy'. White, *Hopkins*, 108. At Highgate, fellow students referred to him as 'Skin', the 'transposition of the last letters of his name'. Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 17. A diary entry for October 1864 announces: 'Tuncks is a good name. Gerard Manley Tuncks. Pook Tuncks.' While studying theology at St Beuno's in Wales, GMH used the 'Welsh bardic pseudonym' Brân Maenefa, the Crow of Maenefa. White, *Gerard Manley Hopkins in Wales* (Bridgend: Poetry Wales Press, 1998), 125. According to Fr. Joseph Rickaby, GMH's Jesuit nickname was 'the gentle Hop'. Joseph Feeney, S.J., 'Hopkins in Community: How his Jesuit Contemporaries Saw Him', in Michael Allsopp and David Downes (eds.), *Saving Beauty: Further Studies in Hopkins* (New York: Garland, 1994), 255.

chronological order. Hopkins was undoubtedly transferring quotations from miscellaneous sources into D.VII.

Hopkins's splendid comments on the meanings of words, Parmenides, and inscape have made D.XII one of his most renowned manuscripts. It is something of a misnomer, however, to refer to these papers as 'Oxford essays'. Begun months after Hopkins had completed his Greats examination and left Oxford, they represent the first (extant) written syntheses of his formal and personal studies during those undergraduate years. By September 1867 Hopkins the student had given place to Hopkins the teacher at Newman's Birmingham Oratory. Texts in D.XII include both private speculations and outlines for public, that is classroom, lectures. No dates are given for the first three pages of the notebook, but the handwriting complements the sections written after 'Feb. 9, 1868'. Knowing that Hopkins would not hesitate to remove from his journals and notebooks anomalous pages, one can assume that he considered the 'NOTES ON GK. PHILOSOPHY' to be all of a piece. The first passage in the notebook establishes the tone and delineates the subjects for subsequent entries: 'Great feature of the old Gk. philosophy, Pater said, its holding certain truths, chiefly logical, out of proportion to the rest of its knowledge, as Parmenides his dialectic abt. Being and Not-Being, Zeno the contradictions involved in Motion . . .' (D.XII.1).⁶² Striving to be informative yet conversational, Hopkins observes that the difficulties of Greek philosophy 'cannot be pooh-poohed: some perhaps are really resolved, but generally they exist still' (D.XII.2). His purpose is twofold: to discuss the Idea in terms of several different philosophical schools, and to 'catch [again] the Idea in its freshness', to restore a sense of its full meaning—a fusion of the abstract and the concrete no longer acknowledged by 'those who are quite grimed with the concrete' (D.XII.1). The Parmenides entry is the most extended piece in a series of notes on the Presocratics (Xenophanes, Parmenides, Zeno, and Melissus).

THE CONSTRUCTION AND PRODUCTION OF KNOWLEDGE

The essays and notes in this edition constitute an invaluable opportunity to trace Hopkins's academic and personal development from 1863 to

⁶² GMH's first lecture outlines should be compared (in terms of style and content) with notes from classes with Jowett (B.II) and Robert Williams (D.VIII).

1868, especially the intellectual realignments and rethinking prompted by the influence of new tutors and reading materials. In more general terms, these texts offer a remarkable cross-section of 'the major networks of nineteenth-century thought'.⁶³ Hopkins's writings represent an exemplary archive of the intellectual and cultural debates, challenges, and methodologies, the discursive strategies and practices, of his era. However inelegant the hybrid verbs may appear, Hopkins's texts reveal an insistent pressure to *scientificize* and *historicize* what can and should be known; they participate in that 'revival, so marked in the nineteenth century, of all the techniques of exegesis'.⁶⁴ Furthermore, the essays and notes eloquently express the intellectual imperialism then burgeoning. Literally and figuratively, the Victorians were conquering the past, excavating its historical sites and texts, reconstructing its major writers (Heraclitus, for example, and Homer, Socrates, Plato, and Aristotle). The commodification and appropriation of other cultures extended its grasp from ancient Greece and Rome to contemporary India. The study of classical languages, literature, and philosophy is intensely demanding at any time, but Oxford students in the 1860s had the additional burden of assimilating the competing 'truths' of Positivism, Utilitarianism, evolutionary theory, secularism, and a wholesale dedication to the promise of Science.⁶⁵ The essential elements of the Victorian zeitgeist—historicism and scientism—are a felt presence throughout Hopkins's undergraduate work. One learns in a new and immediate way how the relationship between 'then and now' engrossed students and teachers, and the extent to which systematic,

⁶³ Michel Foucault, *The Order of Things: An Archaeology of the Human Sciences*, trans. Robert Hurley (New York: Vintage Books, 1973), 262.

⁶⁴ Ibid. 298. Foucauldian insights inform Linda Dowling, *Language and Decadence in the Victorian Fin de Siècle* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1986); Peter Allan Dale, *In Pursuit of a Scientific Culture: Science, Art, and Society in the Victorian Age* (Madison, Wis.: University of Wisconsin Press, 1989); id., 'Poetry and the Scientization of Language: "Geist" Son of Waldmann', *Victorian Newsletter*, 79 (Spring 1991), 4–9.

⁶⁵ For non- or pre-Foucauldian discussions of GMH in relation to his Victorian milieu, see Alan Heuser, *The Shaping Vision of Gerard Manley Hopkins* (London: Oxford University Press, 1958); Wendell Stacy Johnson, *Gerard Manley Hopkins: The Poet as Victorian* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1968); David Downes, *Victorian Portraits: Hopkins and Pater* (New York: Bookman Associates, 1965); J. Hillis Miller, *The Disappearance of God* (Cambridge, Mass.: Harvard University Press, 1963); Sulloway, *Hopkins and the Victorian Temper*; Thomas Zaniello, *Hopkins in the Age of Darwin* (Iowa City: University of Iowa Press, 1988); and Nixon, *Hopkins and his Contemporaries*.

formulated approaches to knowledge in all fields was given particular emphasis. Theirs was a lexicon derived from such disparate sources as Carlyle, Bentham, Mill, Ruskin, Darwin, Hegel, and Comte. Juxtapose Hopkins's 1864 description of 'the history of scientific enquiry' (D.I.4) and an 1867 analysis of the 'science of ethics' (D.IX.4) and one finds the same methodology and pedagogical motives; Hopkins's personal notes on 'the visible law' of things (*Jour.* 13.06.1866) parallel essays devoted to the science of political economy, the science of aesthetics, and the science of history (the last was regarded quite dubiously by Hopkins; see D.V.2 and D.XI.5). At one point in a lecture on Plato's 'Idea of the Good', Robert Williams presented a Darwinian analogy: 'Try modern difficulty of origin of species. It is very much the same as Plato's. It is said it wd. be solved if we cd. find or construct types for each species, but what wd. distinguish these types? What wd. prevent their shading into one another just as the concrete species do?' (D.VIII, fo. 5). All in all, it should come as no surprise that the 23-year-old Hopkins concluded, in February 1868,

Ruskin is full of follies but I get more and more sympathetic with 'the true men' as agst. the Sophistik (observe I say K—it is not the same thing as sophistical), Philistine, Doctrinaire, Utilitarian, Positive, and on the whole Negative (as Carlyle wd. put it) side, and prefer to err with Plato. (*Corr.* 12.02.1868)

Undoubtedly, classical studies rather than science dominated the Oxford curriculum in Hopkins's day. In the late 1860s, 'there were only about twenty students a year obtaining BAs in science as opposed to some 300 taking *Literae Humaniores*'.⁶⁶ As an anonymous contributor to *Nature* magazine later explained, Oxford's scientific deficiencies were the result of 'the absence of any test of scientific acquirements in responsions [the first formal university examinations] and in most college entrance examinations, the severity of the Greek test, and the exiguous number of science tutors in colleges'.⁶⁷ Yet as Nixon and Zaniello have ably documented, Hopkins was 'a key witness to the Age of Darwinism'.⁶⁸ Although his keen perceptiveness as a naturalist was inspired by Ruskin (see D.IV especially) as much as by any scientific guide, he was attentive to organic and inorganic nature, from crystals in

⁶⁶ Phillips, *Robert Bridges*, 28.

⁶⁷ 'The Position of Science at Oxford', *Nature* (9 July 1896), 228.

⁶⁸ Zaniello, *Hopkins in the Age of Darwin*, 2.

icy water and leaf formations to astronomical effects and the flight patterns of birds.⁶⁹

The greater concern expressed in his essays, however, is the implications of ethical behaviour. The question of whether virtue and vice can be taught is addressed three times in Hopkins's Oxford writings (D.I.6, D.III.6, D.X.1). His second analysis of the philosophy of history (D.XI.5) is distinguished from his first (D.V.2) by a new intellectual independence and self-assurance. Notes on Hobbes and Mandeville from Jowett's lectures (B.II, fo. 126) provide the springboard for his essay 'The moral system of Hobbes', written for Robert Williams. An 1865 translation of passages from Plato's *Philebus* underlines an 1866 essay on Plato's dialectic (D.III.4). Lecture and essay assignments related to mythology and the literal truth of ancient documents and legends (see D.II.2 and D.VI.5) have a direct bearing on the ideas expressed, some twenty years later, in letters to Bridges (17.03.1885) and Dixon (23.10.1886).⁷⁰

Throughout the essays, a preoccupation with spiritual matters is conspicuous. As W. H. Gardner remarked many years ago, 'The philosophic *Anschaung* which confirmed him in his decision to embrace the oldest and most completely uncompromising form of Christianity is clearly indicated in his letters and unpublished academic essays.'⁷¹ Gardner may have been thinking particularly of Hopkins's comparative study, 'The Pagan and Christian virtues' (D.III.3), in which the relation of the soul to the deity is cited as one of the chief distinctions separating pagan and Christian moral systems. 'It is to this principle', Hopkins writes, 'the new relation of the soul to God, that we trace almost all the peculiar forms of Xtian morality. For these we look naturally to Catholicism, the *consistent* acceptance of Christianity' (my italics). Interestingly, similar terms are featured in Hopkins's introductory letter to Newman. 'I do not want to be helped to any conclusions of belief', he explains to the priest who epitomized the Victorian conversion narrative, nor was he wavering regarding 'the necessity of becoming a

⁶⁹ For a discussion of 'the force of scientific discovery and speculation within Hopkins's poetry, both in its sense and sound' in the 1870s and 1880s, see Gillian Beer, 'Helmholtz, Tyndall, Gerard Manley Hopkins: Leaps of the Prepared Imagination', *Comparative Literature*, 13 (1992), 117–45; Zaniello, *Hopkins in the Age of Darwin*.

⁷⁰ In 1885, according to G.Ia, fo. 17, GMH was planning to read the *Encyclopaedia Britannica*'s article on mythology.

⁷¹ Gardner, *Gerard Manley Hopkins: A Study of Poetic Idiosyncrasy in Relation to Poetic Tradition*, 2 vols., rev. edn. (London: Oxford University Press, 1966), ii. 22.

Catholic'; 'I had long foreseen where the only *consistent* position wd. lie' (28.08.1866, my italics). After religious and personal struggles to find a 'haven' for his soul among the evangelical/High Church beliefs of his family, the ardent post-Tractarian Puseyism of Liddon, the ritualism of his friends, and the latitudinarian approach of his most important intellectual mentors, Hopkins's assent to Rome should be understood as a reasoned choice.

Predictably, the need to define, to fix terms and thereby facilitate perspicuous discussion is manifest throughout Hopkins's Oxford writings. As he observes in an early essay for Jowett, 'To define then, that is to endeavour after clearness in concepts, it is necessary first to find the genus of the concept' (D.I.2, fo. 3). Concerning the concept of conscience he asserts: 'the essence of conscience is that its approval or dissent shd. be expressed together with and at the moment of every act of the mind wh. is concerned with morals' (D.VI.4, fo. 9).⁷² Hopkins abandoned his digressive essay about 'acts of apprehension' and the imagination (D.III.5), but not before providing a marginal gloss in which he attempts to define his terminology:

Imagination has been used in three meanings:—

- (i) for the faculty of art production,
- (ii) in the logical sense, for conceiving,
- (iii) in the Kantian sense, and with the same ~~meanin~~ force as einbildung and envisager, for the process by wh. a handful of attributes are held together in unity, become an idea. (fos. 15^v–16^v)

Aesthetic theory and epistemology were never far removed in Hopkins's mind. Beauty, caste, money, free will, the philosophy of history—whatever the topic, Hopkins's first instinct is to distinguish and construe.

When 'separate schools of Natural Science, Law, and Modern History' were inaugurated at Oxford in 1853, and it 'soon became possible to combine any two Honour Schools for the purpose of obtaining a degree', *Literae Humaniores* 'lost its monopoly' at Oxford, but remained the dominant school for Balliol students at least.⁷³ In addition, Classics students became immersed in the prevailing debates in most of the other fields. As Hopkins's essays indicate, students were expected to become

⁷² These comments were written during the same period in which C.II became the vehicle for a relentless self-scrutiny. See *The Collected Works*, vol. iii.

⁷³ G. R. G. Mure, 'Oxford and Philosophy', *Philosophy*, 12 (1937), 297.

familiar with ancient and modern history, and current theories about the 'science' of history and political economy. Myths, comparative religions, and the science of language were the particular province of Max Müller (see D.VII.4).⁷⁴ Natural philosophy, primarily in the form of Bacon's *Novum Organon*, still commanded an important place in the syllabus, but the natural science of Lyell, Spencer, and Darwin was unavoidable. Oxford, after all, was the scene of the now legendary T. H. Huxley–Bishop Wilberforce debate regarding Darwin's *On the Origin of Species* (the occasion was the annual meeting of the British Association, held from 27 June to 3 July 1860).⁷⁵ As Ward points out, Darwinian theory was actually made palatable for some by the teachings of Hegel:

Nothing is more striking in the period than the merging which takes place between these two thinkers, Darwin and Hegel, and the change in significance both in the concept of evolution and in the methods of history and philosophy, which is the result. The Hegelian description of evolution was presented as maintaining that the process of change was neither random nor mechanical but was the means by which the world-spirit, *Geist*, was ever more fully revealing itself. Further, change for Hegel, the contemporary interpreters said, 'flux', was not only necessary for the release of spirit, the evolutionary process was itself *part* of the spirit.⁷⁶

⁷⁴ 'Late eighteenth-century scholars like the French radical Charles Dupuis, or the English Richard Payne Knight [*The Symbolical Language of the Ancients*, 1818], had been among the first to suggest that mythological traditions could be approached comparatively. Not only did they argue that significant links could be traced between the myths of the Greeks and other pagan cults, but also that the trained and sceptical eye might see connections between these heathen stories and the sacred narratives of the Jewish tradition. In Payne Knight's view, all these mythic narratives could be seen to share a common basis in religious symbolism, often grounded in fertility worship. . . . If myth was understood as a religious phenomenon in this way, then the special status of Christianity as a body of divinely revealed truth was, by implication at least, questioned. . . . [A]n analysis of myth could suggest that the beliefs of Christianity might not be wholly separate from those of primitive pagan mythologies—an implication which could be construed as an attack on the foundations of established state religion. . . . This interest in comparative mythology continued throughout the Victorian period, taking different forms as intellectual fashions changed. One of the most influential movements within the constantly shifting revaluation of myth within these years is its accommodation to the increasing prestige of science as a means of interpreting the world.' Dinah Birch, 'Ruskin, Myth, and Modernism', in Giovanni Cianci and Peter Nicholls (eds.), *Ruskin and Modernism* (New York: Palgrave, 2001), 34.

⁷⁵ For an example of the way in which a tutor or lecturer would introduce Darwinian analysis into a lesson, see Robert Williams's comments as recorded in D.VIII.

⁷⁶ Bernadette Ward, *World as Word: Philosophical Theology in Gerard Manley Hopkins* (Washington, DC: Catholic University of America Press, 2002), 42.

For others, notably Pusey and his followers, the study of Hegel was a major factor in the disturbing rise of 'Germanism' at Oxford, especially the interest taken in the so-called Higher Criticism of such members of 'the Germanizing school' as Fichte, Feuerbach, and Baur.⁷⁷ Surprising as it might seem today, in the 1840s 'there were only two men in Oxford believed to know any German'.⁷⁸ Henry Adams was exaggerating, but only slightly, when he observed in the mid-1860s that 'One might as well have talked of Renan's Christ at the table of the Bishop of London, as talk of German philology at the table of an Oxford don.'⁷⁹ According to Lionel Tollemache, when he went up to Oxford in 1856 'it was reported that a former Rector of Lincoln had expressed a wish, in a University sermon, that "German theology and German literature were at the bottom of the German Ocean"'. At that time, he adds, 'Jowett was considered as the representative of German heresy'.⁸⁰ Yet, by the end of the 1860s, so pervasive had German intellectualism become that an anonymous commentator in *Macmillan's Magazine* could remark, 'Oxford is feared by some as the home, the birthplace, of Tractarianism; by others, as a hotbed of Rationalism, a sink to which all that is worst in German speculation has found its way. Some look to it for champions, others only for destroyers, of the Faith.'⁸¹ To some extent, all of them were right. Certainly all were caught up in the 'development plot' which obsessed nineteenth-century minds.

German Idealism did not flourish in Oxford until the 1870s and 1880s (largely through the work of T. H. Green and Richard Nettleship), but two of Hopkins's professors were instrumental in its dissemination in the 1860s. According to Pattison, H. L. Mansel, Waynflete Professor of

⁷⁷ Abbott and Campbell, *The Life and Letters of Benjamin Jowett*, i. 209. According to Jowett's biographers, in the 1850s Pusey 'was beginning to fear that the more recent visit to Germany of [A. P.] Stanley and Jowett might bear such fruit as would deepen the remorse he felt for his own former interest in German theology'. Ibid. i. 210.

⁷⁸ Faber, *Jowett*, 179. It was Pater's then exceptional ability to read German that helped to secure a non-clerical Brasenose fellowship in 1864.

⁷⁹ Adams, *The Education of Henry Adams*, ed. Ernest and Jayne Samuels, the Library of America Henry Adams (New York: Library Classics of the United States, 1983), 904.

⁸⁰ Tollemache, *Benjamin Jowett, Master of Balliol* (London: Edward Arnold, 1905), 68–9. The rector in question was Dr Edward Tatham. According to another source, his words were: 'If I had my will, Jarman philosophy, and Jarman metaphysics, and Jarman criticism should all be buried together in the depths of the Jarman Ocean.' Quoted in John Hamley Tregenna, *The Autobiography of a Cornish Rector*, 2 vols. (London, 1872), ii. 166–7.

⁸¹ 'Study and Opinion at Oxford', *Macmillan's Magazine*, 21 (Dec. 1869), 184.

Moral and Metaphysical Philosophy, ‘introduced Kant into Oxford’.⁸² Kant’s name first appears on an Oxford examination in 1863.⁸³ Jowett, through his Hegelian approach to Plato, emphasized the necessity of connecting the classical and the contemporary; there were ‘always appearing “fragments of the great banquet” of Hegel’ in his lectures and informal comments.⁸⁴ By 1865 Hopkins was quite familiar with interdiscursive links ‘in [the] German sense’ (B.II, fo. 135); D.VI.2, ‘Causation’, demonstrates his ability to discuss Kant comparatively. Green was recommending J. H. Stirling’s 1865 two-volume analysis of *The Secret of Hegel* (which included translations from the *Science of Logic*) to students soon after it was published,⁸⁵ and was using translations from the *Philosophical Propaedeutic* in his lectures.⁸⁶ Hopkins refers to ‘Hegel and the philosophy of development in time’ in ‘The probable future of metaphysics’ (D.IX.3), but does not go beyond a general comparison of ‘absolute types’ and ‘a philosophy of flux’. A dozen years later, he writes dismissively about Hegel to Bridges: ‘I have no time to read even the English books about Hegel, much less the original, indeed I know almost no German. . . . I do not afflict myself much about my ignorance here. . . . [I read “a little”] Duns Scotus and I care for him more even than Aristotle and more *pace tua* than a dozen Hegels’ (20.02.1875). In philosophical terms, he remained the disciple of Pusey and Liddon rather than Jowett or Green.⁸⁷

⁸² Mark Pattison, *Memoirs* (London: Macmillan), 166.

⁸³ Mure, ‘Oxford and Philosophy’, 297.

⁸⁴ *The Dialogues of Plato: Translated into English with Analyses and Introductions*, ed. Benjamin Jowett, 5 vols. (Oxford, 1871), iv. 424. ‘Hegel the Almighty Logician is a strange being’, Jowett confided to Nightingale, ‘—a good deal of the poet—strong, practical sense—yet conceiving all things in the form of categories, & believing the categories to be God—the first & only historian of philosophy—the great iconoclast of all metaphysical puzzles—limited to the world as it is, & finding the explanation of the present in the past, the strangest conservative-destructive, orthodox-heterodox, Christian-Antichristian system that ever was’. *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 51. For Pater’s Hegelian-inflected lectures on Plato, see *Plato and Platonism* (1895).

⁸⁵ Daniel Brown, *Hopkins’ Idealism* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1997), 147.

⁸⁶ Armstrong first suggested that Stirling’s text was a ‘source of Hopkins’s knowledge of Hegel’: *Language as a Living Form in Nineteenth-Century Poetry* (Brighton: Harvester Press, 1982), 57. Daniel Brown takes the information concerning the *Propaedeutic*, ‘a series of lecture notes that Hegel used for teaching schoolboys in Nuremberg from 1808–11’ (*Hopkins’ Idealism*, 149), from Ben Wempe, *Beyond Equality: A Study of T. H. Green’s Theory of Positive Freedom* (Delft: Eburon, 1986), 23, 27, 62.

⁸⁷ By the mid-1870s, when preparing his second edition of *The Dialogues*, Jowett’s approach to Hegel was less definitive—‘We cannot receive his doctrine of opposites as the last word of philosophy’, Jowett explains, ‘but we may still regard it as a very

Four pivotal concepts or overarching thematics underlie even the most dissimilar essays or fragments: (i) Hopkins's concern with the One and the Many (Being and Becoming); (ii) the relationship between the objective and subjective dimensions of morality; (iii) the realism–idealism dichotomy; (iv) and the tensions between Presocratic and Socratic–Platonic thought. Whether Hopkins is analysing Max Müller's thoughts on Brahmanism (D.VII.4) or translating a section of Plato's *Philebus* (D.VI.7), he is looking through the lens of what Socrates called 'a gift of the gods to men': 'that everything wh. was ever said to be has that Being fr. unity and fr. multiplicity and contains the finite and the infinite as innate in itself' (D.VI.7, fo. 7). For the most felicitous comparison of the One and the Many, one must turn to the Birmingham notes:

The figure shewing how the Idea can be one though it exists in many is that of the sun in broken water, where the sun's face being once crossed by the ripples each one carries an image down with it as its own sun; and these images are always mounting the ripples and trying to fall back into one again. We must therefore think wherever we see many things having one idea that they are falling back or wd. fall back but are held away by their conditions, and those philosophers have very truly said everything is becoming. (D.XII.3, fos. 2–3)

A definition of the 'moral feeling' or 'moral sense' is articulated in 'Arguments for and against the progressiveness of morality':

[which,] as Socrates says, is not taught and wh. acts with full force in children. The approval of the conscience is the last test of morality and this approval must always have been given or withheld.

This is a true answer to those who suppose—Hobbes did for instance and various French writers whom Kant refutes and others still—that morality has arisen at some epoch within the age of man's reason. The conscience, the moral form, must have had matter ever since reason worked. For reason, as Aristotle implies, must perpetually feed it with matter. (D.XI.6, fo. 9)

Thoughts on objective versus subjective morality resurface several times in terms of public versus private responsibility (D.VI.4, D.VI.6,

important contribution to logic' (*The Dialogues of Plato*, iv. 422)—but all-pervasive. GMH's resistance to Hegelianism compares very strikingly with Oscar Wilde's submission, a decade later, to the discursive approach of Jowett and Wallace ('Prolegomena' to *The Logic of Hegel*, 1874). See *Oscar Wilde's Oxford Notebooks*, ed. Philip Smith and Michael Helfand (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1989), 17–27.

D.IX.3, and D.XI.6),⁸⁸ yet Hopkins's most sustained analysis of the subject begins in his essays for Pater (D.III). 'The probable future of metaphysics' (D.IX.3), an 1867 essay, is grounded on Hopkin's belief that a tide 'will always run and turn between idealism and materialism'. The ideas that culminate in this paradigmatic antinomy are first explored in an 1864 assignment, 'On the rise of Greek Prose-writing'. Idealism, according to Hopkins,

divides with realism the words wh. make language, as now it divides all the arts with it; idealism modifies the sound of words and syllables; it enters mythology; it establishes the well-recognized etiquette of uncivilized peoples; it sets up the standards of morality: whatever unusual thing the men of these ages see or do, idealism is at hand. (D.I.5, fo. 10)⁸⁹

Idealism and realism are identified as the pursuit 'of deliberate Beauty' and 'the pursuit of Truth in Art', respectively, in the essay 'On the signs of health and decay in the arts' (D.I.6). Having forged the links between Idealism, beauty for its own sake, and decadence, Hopkins applies this nascent theory of the Romantic impulse to his understanding of Plato:

He was the last of the great creative minds of the golden age of Greece. Up till then creative impulse had, as it does when pleased with its own health and strength, expressed itself in definite results, concentrated in the grace and limit of a statue, in architectural proportions all the conditions of wh. were present, or in the calculable counter-action of two speakers in a play. As this began to wear out, the reflective and melancholy spirit arose, the passing beyond limits and proportions, the feeling for the infinite and the suggestive. Euripides expresses this but Plato seems to receive the wave of the new spirit. (D.II.4, fo. 13)

According to Hopkins's reconstruction of the past, Plato found himself in a culture in which the classical spirit was yielding to the Romantic, an objective to a subjective world-view. As Hopkins concludes in 'The position of Plato to the Greek world',

No word seems to suit the character of the time as Intellectualism. A little earlier Intellect, or better Genius, wd. be the most marked feature of Greece, and to this wd. logically succeed . . . an age of general culture, with an important change of estimate, namely regard to works of genius less for themselves

⁸⁸ These undergraduate essays should be compared with the thoughts expressed in GMH's 1885 lecture 'On Duty' found in G.Ia, the 'Dublin Notebook'. See vol. vii of the *Collected Works*. For a text of the lecture, see Norman MacKenzie, 'The Imperative Voice: An Unpublished Lecture by Hopkins', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 2/3 (Oct. 1975), 101-16.

⁸⁹ Brown has extended this argument in *Hopkins' Idealism*.

than for the intellect implied in them, a loss technically speaking of the objective interest of things, and again of pleasure in realising by one's own action and by eager and conscious appreciation of others the force of intellect. These tendencies then appear in Plato as they must appear. (D.II.5, fo. 15)

The major themes and tendencies of Presocratic philosophy are considered by Hopkins in an early 1866 essay for Jowett, 'How far may a common tendency be traced in all pre-Socratic philosophy?' (D.VI.3), and a late 1866 or early 1867 paper for Robert Williams, 'Connection of the Cyrenaic Philosophy with the Cyrenaic morals' (D.XI.2); they are reconsidered in the 1868 accounts of Xenophanes, Parmenides, Zeno, and Melissus found in D.XII.

TEXTUAL TRACES AND MEMORIES

The importance of the D collection with respect to Hopkins's poetry and prose is undeniable. One should also consider the special role that these (chiefly) Oxford papers play in the painful dynamics of Hopkins's Dublin years. Various factors that contributed to a 'sadness' akin to 'madness' have been disclosed and debated. The 'affinity in tone . . . between the expression of his struggle of soul during his Oxford days and his last poems written in Ireland' could also be attributable to the fact that Hopkins surrounded himself in Dublin with reminders of his life twenty years before.⁹⁰ The old papers which he transported across the Irish Sea proved to be—in his eyes—tangible evidence of his former promise, never realized, and his former sins, never completely overcome. ('There is a way of thinking of past sin', he once mourned, 'such that thought numbs and kills the heart', *Serm.* 27.11.1881.) News of Martin Geldart's death (a probable suicide) in the spring of 1885 prompted Hopkins to confide to Baillie,

Some time since [Baillie's last letter], I began to overhaul my old letters, accumulations of actually ever since I was at school, destroying all but a very few, and growing ever lother to destroy, but also to read, so that at last I left off reading; and there they lie and my old notebooks and beginnings of things, ever so many, which it seems to me might well have been done, ruins and wrecks, but on this theme I will not enlarge by pen and ink. (*Corr.* 8.05.1885)

⁹⁰ MacKenzie, *Hopkins* (Edinburgh: Oliver & Boyd, 1968), 11. Another discussion of the links between the 1865 and 1885 spiritual and psychological crises is found in Jerome Bump, *Gerard Manley Hopkins* (Boston, Mass.: Twayne, 1982), 52–5.

Did he re-read B.II, portions of the D collection, or his old diaries (especially C.II)? A matrix of verbal echoes suggests that he did. To cite just two examples, an etymological note about terms for the deity on folio 1 of B.II is echoed in a March 1886 letter to Baillie (26.03.1886); new work on Homer and other classical authors continues the preparatory strategies begun in D.XII.

G.Ia, the *Dublin Notebook*, is a curious conglomeration of personal notes and quotidian memoranda that Hopkins formerly consigned to individual journals. Prior to the *Collected Works*, access to the contents of G.Ia was fragmented. The spiritual notes were transcribed in Devlin's admirable volume *The Sermons and Devotional Writings of Gerard Manley Hopkins*; the poems were published ('Sibyl's Leaves', 'Caradoc's Soliloquy'),⁹¹ as was the lecture 'On Duty'.⁹² The sketch of Canon Dixon appeared in the fifth edition of Thomas Arnold's handbook, *A Manual of English Literature*.⁹³ Teaching and research notes on Homer, Cicero, and Lucan were published in 1995, 1997, and 2000.⁹⁴ Only apparent during first-hand examination of the notebook, however, is the way in which G.Ia itself serves as a graphic emblem of Hopkins's 'tormented mind'. Projects are begun, but interrupted; his muse deserts him repeatedly, but the staggering piles of examinations to be marked arrive like demonic clockwork.⁹⁵ Wedged among the academic, spiritual, and poetic entries are a few personal or timely notes which help to fill in, however meagrely, the chronicle of his final years. Unlike his productive Oxford years, no one was actively guiding his mind or guarding his soul.

⁹¹ For an excellent discussion of the genesis of 'Spelt from Sibyl's Leaves', see Norman H. MacKenzie, 'Gerard Manley Hopkins' "Spelt from Sibyl's Leaves"', *The Malahat Review*, 26 (Apr. 1973), 218–28, and 'The Making of a Hopkins Sonnet', in A. A. Macdonald, P. A. O'Flaherty, and G. M. Story (eds.), *A Festschrift for Edgar Ronald Seary* (St John's, NF: Memorial University Press, 1975), 151–69.

⁹² MacKenzie, 'The Making of a Hopkins Sonnet', and id., 'An Unpublished Hopkins Manuscript', *The Hopkins Research Bulletin*, 7 (1976), 3–7.

⁹³ The notice is reprinted in *The Correspondence of Gerard Manley Hopkins and Richard Watson Dixon*, ed. Claude Colleer Abbott, rev. edn. (London: Oxford University Press, 1955), note K (pp. 177–8).

⁹⁴ 'The Dublin Notes on Homer', ed. Warren Anderson, constitute a special issue of the *Hopkins Quarterly*, 19/1–4 (Winter/Fall 1992; pub. 1995); see also 'The Dublin Notes on Homer: Part II', ed. Fredric Schlatter, S.J., *Hopkins Quarterly*, 24/3–4 (Summer/Fall 1997), 95–127. GMH's classical 'Poetical Fragments, Comments on Lucan and Cicero, Essay on Duty', ed. Schlatter, are published in *Hopkins Quarterly*, 27/3–4 (Summer/Fall 2000). See *Collected Works*, vol. vi.

⁹⁵ For a description of G.Ia, see MacKenzie, 'The Making of a Hopkins Sonnet', 154, 158, 160. GMH's demanding posts as Royal Fellow and professor are detailed in Grainne O'Flynn, 'Hopkins's Teaching', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 14 (1987–8), 163–78.

BEING 'MANLY' TOGETHER AT OXFORD

From Eve Kosofsky Sedgwick's ground-breaking assessment of the literary and cultural constructions of male-male bonds to discerning studies of Victorian masculinity by Herbert Sussman, James Eli Adams, and others, there exists a plethora of information, analysis, and speculation regarding the relationship between the intense homosociality that governed a life such as Hopkins's and the homoerotic desires that he painfully, poetically, or unwittingly expressed. Oxford was both an educational institution with its various disciplinary regimens and intellectual opportunities, and a comparatively small, self-enclosed, and intense community of men. (In a February 1865 letter to Nightingale, Jowett compares 'an Oxford College at the present day' to a 'monastery in the reign of King John'.⁹⁶) It was a kind of looking-glass world through which all of the intellectual, cultural, scientific, and political issues of the day were reflected. From the outset, Hopkins not only participated fully in aspects of Oxford life (walks, 'wines', breakfast parties, boating, swimming, debates, lounging at the Union), but was also very much aware of its various political parties, factions, and sets (*Corr.* 10.10.1864). Letters to his parents document how readily he established friendships and assumed an active role in university society—a society which, as White summarizes,

was almost entirely male and unmarried; the only women to be seen regularly during term were the bed-makers and those in the Balliol kitchen. Oxford tutors, apart from heads of colleges, were celibate; nearly all were in orders. If a don wanted to marry he had to resign his position. They lived within their college walls on the same staircases as their students, dined in the college hall, and had few outside ties and interests. Besides facing their tutors in lectures and tutorials, students would see them at chapel, in hall, for extra tuition, and when they were invited to breakfasts or wines, besides casually passing them in the quadrangles and on the stairs.⁹⁷

Although only some scholars were avidly or unconsciously participating in an idealized revival of 'the paiderastic tradition of Greece',⁹⁸ dons and religious mentors alike (I am thinking of Liddon especially) cultivated emotional ties with students in order to extend their influence.

⁹⁶ Jowett, *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 42.

⁹⁷ White, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 48.

⁹⁸ Linda Dowling, *Hellenism and Homosexuality in Victorian Oxford* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1994), 83.

They did so in the context of Oxford's 'multiplicity of discrete and competing power relations',⁹⁹ secure in the belief that they were acting in the young men's best interests.

The actual masculine exclusivity of Hopkins's life was buttressed by the intellectual: female authors were not part of the curriculum; female historical figures were not studied; and rarely was there an occasion to mention any woman less remote than Socrates' Diotima. There are exactly four references to female figures—historical, mythical, or literary—in Hopkins's Oxford essays and notes: to Phaenarete and to Xanthippe, mother and wife, respectively, of Socrates (D.II.6); to Dido (D.IV); and to Elizabeth I. The only exception to this academically sanctioned absence is the essay 'On Representation' (D.V.4), in which the subject of women's suffrage is broached, a topic perhaps inspired by Jowett's epistolary discussions with Florence Nightingale.

Hopkins's Oxford experiences also represent the discursive moment *before* the 'cultural discontinuity or rupture'¹⁰⁰ that Pater and Wilde helped to inaugurate with their efforts to legitimate same-sex desire and canonize homoerotic culture. Rather than underscoring a process of 'self-affirmation', everything that Hopkins learned about his own 'sexuality' contributed to a negative, self-recriminating kind of 'selving'.¹⁰¹ In September 1864 he recommended to Alexander Baillie a *Cornhill Magazine* essay celebrating the virtues and 'The Ethics of Friendship' (10.10.1864). The unsigned commentary would have

⁹⁹ Ibid. 117.

¹⁰⁰ Ibid. 2.

¹⁰¹ Ibid. 5. 'Selving' is GMH's term for the processes of self-affirmation and realization, ideally experienced as a relation with and through God ('As kingfishers' and 'Sibyl's Leaves' represent the positive and negative extremes of this subjectivity). Like Dowling and so many others, I am following Foucault's lead, in *The History of Sexuality* and elsewhere, in suggesting that, in the eighteenth century, 'there emerged a political, economic, and technical incitement to talk about sex'. *The History of Sexuality*, vol. 1: *An Introduction*, trans. Robert Hurley (New York: Vintage Books, 1990), 23. Defining and regulating the individual's 'sexuality' was an extraordinarily effective means (for the family, the Church, educational institutions, and the state) of disciplining both individuals and the population. 'Sexuality must not be described', as Foucault argues, 'as a stubborn drive, by nature alien and of necessity disobedient to a power which exhausts itself trying to subdue it and often fails to control it entirely. It appears rather as an especially dense transfer point for relations of power: between men and women, young people and old people, parents and offspring, teachers and students, priests and laity, an administration and a population.' Ibid. 103. In Victorian England, the 'injunction to talk about sex' was intensified by those people and institutions most interested in managing and 'policing' it: the new professionals (in all senses of the word) in medicine, psychiatry, science, and religion who effectively regulated sex 'through useful and public discourses'. Ibid. 25.

reassured and encouraged Hopkins's keen awareness of male-male bonds, because it validated, in a well-respected literary periodical,¹⁰² the 'sort [of friendship] which is formed at school or college in every early life . . . distinguished by a fervid enthusiasm, a tormenting jealousy, great sensitiveness, and an utter absence of all calculation, distrust, or even prudence',¹⁰³ and at the same time effectively banished from such feelings, and discourse, any erotic undercurrents. 'Within this charmed circle', the anonymous reviewer intoned, 'there is an atmosphere of sympathy at once personal, vivid, and profound, well calculated to have a stimulating or almost intoxicating effect on the powers of those who breathe its perfume'.¹⁰⁴ Yet this 'exalted' (or one could say, Platonic) 'attachment' was well within the bounds of respectability because it was discursively constructed in entirely non-physical terms—in other words, desexualized. When Hopkins met Digby Dolben, however, in February 1865, he could no longer disconnect the homosocial and the homoerotic. The confessional practices which Liddon and Pusey insisted upon—especially 'the confession of the flesh'—only intensified Hopkins's preoccupation with 'all the insinuations of the flesh: thoughts, desires, voluptuous imaginings, delectations, combined movements of the body and soul' and persuaded him that desire and sin were coterminous and coextensive.¹⁰⁵

THE 'ACTS' AND 'CHARACTER' OF A MIND

The question often asked of Hopkins's Oxford years is, why did he convert? I would pose two other questions: what would have happened had he not converted, and how did he complete his degree so successfully? The textual evidence suggests that a strong-willed, sensitive, highly imaginative young man was being pulled every which way. Or, to borrow an analogy from his 'Platonic Dialogue', Hopkins was one of the undergraduate 'shuttlecocks' so necessary in the very serious game of influence-making and influence-peddling. Who held more sway among

¹⁰² Edited by William Thackeray, and then, in GMH's day, Leslie Stephen, *Cornhill* specialized in serialized novels (Trollope, Gaskell, Eliot, and Hardy were regular contributors), poetry (well-known figures such as Browning, Tennyson, and Swinburne were often featured), and cultural commentary. Ruskin and Arnold also published in *Cornhill*. In December 1864 Manley Hopkins, GMH's father, contributed an unsigned article, 'Politics in the Sandwich Islands' (no. 11, pp. 109–17).

¹⁰³ 'The Ethics of Friendship', *Cornhill Magazine*, 10 (Sept. 1864), 299.

¹⁰⁴ *Ibid.* 301.

¹⁰⁵ Foucault, *The History of Sexuality*, i. 19.

the younger minds of Oxford, Newman or Liddon? Liddon or Jowett? Professors, dons, and university associates were all competing to be regarded—by peers, students, and the public at large—as privileged enunciators of the truths they were propagating. A shuttlecock's life was nothing if not paradoxical. Hopkins's intellectual gifts were acknowledged by many, but his attainments were coveted as emblems of various factions' power and success. Instructors ranged from the academically and spiritually conservative to 'bleak-faced Neology'. His parents, anxious for his achievement and well-being, were devastated when he decided to convert; yet they continued to finance his education. He was a sensuous person nonetheless deeply attracted to the ancient notion of *ascêsis* and its then contemporary ritualistic incarnations, both silly and serious ('For Lent. No pudding on Sundays. No tea except if to keep me awake and then without sugar. Meat only once a day. No verses in Passion Week or on Fridays. No lunch or meat on Fridays. Not to sit in armchair except can work in no other way . . .', *Jour.* 23.01.1866; 'On this day by God's grace I resolved to give up all beauty until I had His leave for it', 6.11.1865). He was a profoundly Christian man who was vexed to evaluate the religious practices of ancient 'pagans'; a classicist who had to assimilate the competing truth-claims of Kant, Hegel, Darwin, and Mill. Following the example of Max Müller's philology, he was a playful, historicizing etymologist—'*Twig* (pinch), tweak, twitch, twit, to give one a wiggling, earwig, wicker, twig (small branch), twist, twine, twire (?), twy, two, *δύω*, *δύο*, duo etc etc, *τοῖχος*, wick (of candle), *οἶκος*, wick (Hackney Wick etc), wick, (Harwich etc), wig (Schleswig etc), weak, wicked' (*Jour.* 09.1864)—but he also suffered 'temptation[s] over dictionary' (*Corr.* 5.10.1865) by indulging in the practice of looking up 'wicked' or sexually suggestive words. And he was also a young man, untutored in the desires of body and mind, who flourished in his intensely homosocial world yet anguished over eroticized glimpses of other men, masturbatory 'old habits',¹⁰⁶ and his homoerotic attachment to a young man in love with someone else.

¹⁰⁶ An 'entire medico-sexual regime took hold of the family milieu', Foucault argues in the first volume of *The History of Sexuality*, one that 'mobilized the adult world around the sex of children' (p. 42) as part of the great project to 'constitute a sexuality that is economically useful and politically conservative' (pp. 42, 37). Masturbation was but one 'tenuous pleasure' that became a 'secret' vice ('that is, forcing them into hiding so as to make possible their discovery') and disciplinary focus (p. 42). Using religious

Above all else, however, he was profoundly a writer. How much he wrote, between 1863 and the spring of 1868, can only be grasped when one weighs together the diary and journal entries, the finished poems and fragments, the letters to family members and friends, the lecture notes, and the essays. He wrote to communicate, to create, to ruminate—and to chastise himself. The interpenetration of image and idea, the dazzling interplay of intellect and emotion informing both the poetry and the prose, provide some of the chief pleasures of reading and studying Hopkins. Fresh opportunities to examine the writings of 'so arch-especial a spirit' are therefore highly prized. To a very large extent, his manuscripts now constitute his life for his readers—and 'his life', to borrow Hopkins's words about Socrates,

is his philosophy or is part of it or specifies it. Great works though only in speculation or art shd. in criticism be viewed together with the personal conditions of their authors: sometimes their moral force, sometimes the character or the life or at least the temperament is concerned. Works wh. are detached fr. these accidents have not the same influence or interest, they are prolusions or ἀγωνίσματα {contests or their prizes; declamations written for competitions}. In some cases the personal circumstances give colouring, as it is very truly said that Wordsworth's philosophy is temperament, and as in Plato or Shakspeare, for the absence of anything personal in these dramatic writers has been exaggerated; in some they are half of the interest or of the result, as in St. Augustine or the *Vita Nuova*; in some it is not the acts of the mind nor its results that are the interest but the character, as Dr. Johnson. (D.II.6, fo. 19)

With Hopkins, the character and the acts of the mind are of unflagging interest.

and medical discourses, 'a technology of health and pathology', parents and authorities further sexualized the body, redefined what is 'natural' and 'unnatural', and compelled young people to know themselves shamefully. 'As for substance in secret pleasures', Foucault wryly observes, 'the onanistic child who was of such concern to doctors and educators from the end of the eighteenth century to the end of the nineteenth, this was not the child of the people, the future worker who had to be taught the disciplines of the body, but rather a schoolboy, the child surrounded by domestic servants, tutors, and governesses, who was in danger of compromising not so much his physical strength as his intellectual capacity, his moral fiber, and the obligation to preserve a healthy line of descent for his family and his social class' (p. 121). See also Thomas Laqueur, *Making Sex: Body and Gender from the Greeks to Freud* (Cambridge, Mass.: Harvard University Press, 1990), 227–33, and *Solitary Sex: A Cultural History of Masturbation* (New York: Zone Books, 2003).

REVISITING AND REVISIONING OXFORD

Those inspired to pay tribute to their Alma Mater often lapse into rhetorical tropes that idealize and romanticize the institution at the same time as they reiterate a humility topos that nonetheless confirms the speaker's privileged insights. The standard for expressing 'genuine devotion' and the 'fondest, the most reverential attachment' to Oxford in the nineteenth century was set by Matthew Arnold, who prefaces his *Essays in Criticism* (1865), the sum of his work as Professor of Poetry, with Oxonian adulation and protestations of 'modesty' ('we are all seekers still! seekers often make mistakes, and I wish mine to redound to my own discredit only, and not to touch Oxford'¹⁰⁷). If one looks closer, however, the rhetorical flourishes reveal more than Arnold may have intended. The 'unworthy son' begins with a somewhat gritty, all too realistic juxtaposition of 'an epoch of dissolution and transformation' with that 'august institution' which will 'be there' long after the 'short-comings, errors, heats, [and] disputes' of the times 'have blown over'.¹⁰⁸ Arnold's final paragraph seems chivalric in tone and hyperbolic in method as university and city are conflated:

Beautiful city! so venerable, so lovely, so unravaged by the fierce intellectual life of our century, so serene! . . . And yet, steeped in sentiment as she lies, spreading her gardens to the moonlight, and whispering from her towers the last enchantments of the Middle Age, who will deny that Oxford, by her ineffable charm, keeps ever calling us nearer to the true goal of all of us, to the ideal, to perfection,—to beauty, in a word, which is only truth seen from another side?—nearer, perhaps, than all the science of Tübingen. Adorable dreamer, whose heart has been so romantic! who hast given thyself so prodigally, given thyself to sides and to heroes not mine, only never to the Philistines! home of lost causes, and forsaken beliefs, and unpopular names, and impossible loyalties! . . . Apparitions of a day, what is our puny warfare against the Philistines, compared with the warfare which this queen of romance has been waging against them for centuries, and will wage after we are gone?¹⁰⁹

Victorian gender assumptions speak volumes in this peroration. Confined within a feminine sphere codified by chastity ('unravaged'), nature rather than culture ('spreading her gardens'), lack of historical

¹⁰⁷ Arnold, *Complete Prose Works*, ed. R. H. Super, 11 vols. (Ann Arbor, Mich.: University of Michigan Press, 1960–77), iii. 290.

¹⁰⁸ Ibid. 288.

¹⁰⁹ Ibid. 290.

relevance ('enchantments of the Middle Age'), fickleness ('given thyself so prodigally'), and powerlessness ('lost causes', 'queen of romance'), Oxford can be admired exhaustively yet also cited as a bittersweet counterpoint for the difficult and even 'fierce' masculine work of 'warfare against the Philistines'. And yet, this 'queen'¹¹⁰ can provide moral example and refreshment to her sons and lovers, and serve as muse to all would-be Platos and Davids, critics and poets.

Careful study of Hopkins's Oxford experience and milieu indicates that Arnold's medievalizing fantasy of Oxford as both the 'dreaming spires' and the damsel protected within the towers is just that—wishful thinking. 'Impossible loyalties' and competing epistemological and religious discourses produced not only a 'fierce intellectual life' for students and dons alike but often personally searing circumstances. There was nothing 'puny' about the cost of undergoing 'that strange, perpetual, weaving and unweaving of ourselves'.¹¹¹

In notes on Plato's philosophy gleaned from Robert Williams's lectures, Hopkins observes, in relation to the ancient theory of free will, that, 'Conditioned as man is he yet can unweave the web of life for himself' (D.VIII).¹¹² Williams's ontological speculations remind one of the extent to which the texture of Hopkins's life, present and future, was determined by his four years at Oxford. To reconstruct and even revision his Oxford life, each major discursive thread—letters, poetry, diary and journal entries, and essays and notes—must be considered twice: for its own 'sake', to borrow a favourite Hopkinsian term, and a second time in the context of all the other writings. 'Seeing how they were woven and interwoven'¹¹³ enables one to grasp how remarkably he coped, as did Aristotle before him, with 'different and partly disagreeing premisses, partial conclusions, etc. These he sifts, examines their validity, and is at last able to establish premisses of his own' (D.VIII).

¹¹⁰ Ruskin's *Sesame and Lilies* was also published in 1865; the duties of women are defined in part 2, 'Of Queen's Gardens'.

¹¹¹ Walter Pater, *The Renaissance: Studies in Art and Poetry*, ed. Donald L. Hill (Berkeley, Calif.: University of California Press, 1980), 188.

¹¹² Williams thus anticipates Pater (1873) and George Eliot, whose narrator in *Middlemarch* (1872) famously explains that, as a 'belated historian', she has 'so much to do in unravelling certain human lots, and seeing how they were woven and interwoven, that all the light I can command must be concentrated on this particular web, and not dispersed over that tempting range of relevancies called the universe'. *Middlemarch: A Study of Provincial Life*, ed. Gordon S. Haight (Boston, Mass.: Houghton Mifflin, 1968), 105.

¹¹³ *Ibid.*

CHRONOLOGY OF HOPKINS'S OXFORD AND BIRMINGHAM YEARS

Biographical information and academic records have been collated below, along with titles of the poems composed while Hopkins was studying at Oxford.¹¹⁴ Relevant manuscripts have also been identified by numerical codes and dates; conjectured dates are indicated by (?). Invaluable details about Hopkins's curriculum and progress have been provided by the 'Collections Log-Book' maintained by the Master of Balliol, Robert Scott.¹¹⁵ 'Collections' at Balliol referred to two rituals of assessment: the oral quizzes regarding religious and academic studies that students underwent several times each year, and the session, attended by the students, in which tutors presented a summary of their charge's progress, 'in the presence of the Master' (also known as 'Handshaking').¹¹⁶

Balliol tutors are identified whenever possible, as are the university lectures available each term.¹¹⁷ A hitherto unprecedented number of Balliol Fellows had appointments as university professors at this time (Benjamin Jowett, Regius Professor of Greek; Robert Scott, Dean Ireland's Professor of the Exegesis of Holy Scripture; Henry Smith, Savilian Professor of Geometry; Henry Wall, Professor of Logic). The Oxford academic year consisted of the Michaelmas term, Hilary term (divided into Lent and Easter) and Trinity term (or Acts).¹¹⁸

¹¹⁴ John McDermott's *A Hopkins Chronology* (London: Macmillan, 1997) has been helpful. Yet in dealing with the D manuscripts he has followed the tradition of ascribing inaccurate dates for some of them; the abbreviated chronology at the beginning includes a number of key mistakes. Details for these listings and the chronology which prefaces the volume have also been culled from Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*; White, *Hopkins*; Alfred Thomas, S.J., *Hopkins the Jesuit: The Years of Training* (London: Oxford University Press, 1969); and C. Wordsworth, *The Ancient Kalendar of the University of Oxford*, Oxford Historical Society Publications 45 (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1904).

¹¹⁵ Partially transcribed, although misleadingly described, in appendix II of Carl Schmidt, 'Classical Studies at Balliol in the 1860's: The Undergraduate Essays of Gerard Manley Hopkins', in John Prest (ed.), *Balliol Studies* (London: Leopard's Head Press, 1982), 181–2.

¹¹⁶ John Jones, *Balliol College: A History, 1263–1939* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1988), 36.

¹¹⁷ Information provided by *Documents Relating to the Proceedings of the University*, Bodleian MSS G.A. Oxon c.79, 80.

¹¹⁸ Specific details about Jowett's classes in Lent term 1866 and Michaelmas term 1866 are contained on three loose sheets of paper in the Jowett collection at Balliol

1862

As a Highgate student, wins the Governors' Gold Medal for Latin Verse and (in April) a Highgate School Exhibition.

In October, sits his first scholarship examination for Balliol; he is not successful.

Poems: 'Promêtheus'; 'Il Mystico'; 'A windy day'; 'Fragment of anything'; 'Vision . . . Mermaids'.

1863

In January, sits his second scholarship examination at Balliol; is awarded an Exhibition (£60 per year).¹¹⁹

GMH sits his final, Easter exams at Highgate School (*Corr.* 22.03.1863).

Enters Oxford 17 April.

Matriculates 18 April.

During term, regularly attends the Revd Henry Liddon's Sunday evening lectures at St Edmund Hall.

Vacations with his family on the Isle of Wight, July and August; studies Latin classics.

Returns to Oxford in October.

MSS: B.II, C.I (dated 24 September 1863), ?D.I.

Poems: 'Winter—1863', 'Spring and Death'.

Easter term 1863 (Wednesday, 8 April to Friday, 22 May)

Studies with Robinson Ellis: Latin.

Studies with Benjamin Jowett: Thucydides.

Studies with Edwin Palmer: Demosthenes, Aeschines, Virgil.

Studies with James Riddell: Aeschylus, Homer.

Studies with Henry Smith: Mathematics.

Catechetical lectures on Church of England doctrine are delivered every Sunday afternoon by Edward Woolcombe or Henry Wall;

College Library (the notations are in Jowett's handwriting). Two of the blue sheets constitute a rough draft and a finished notice for 'Mr Jowett's Lectures' commencing 17 October [1866]; the other sheet is headed 'Mr Jowett's Lectures | Lent Term'.

¹¹⁹ The arduous three-day examination process, which included 'Greek and Latin translation, Greek and Latin verse composition, and an English essay' (White, *Hopkins*, 39) and a viva voce or oral examination featuring about a dozen college Fellows, is humorously recalled in *Son of Belial*.

students are required to write and submit summaries of the lectures.¹²⁰

University lecture series: Paul's Epistle to the Ephesians (Robert Scott); 'On the Style and Philosophy of Plato' and Plato's *Republic* (Benjamin Jowett); Geometry lectures on 'Surfaces of the Second Order' (Henry Smith). Liddon's Sunday-evening lectures: 1 Corinthians.

Trinity (or Acts) term 1863 (Saturday, 23 May to Saturday, 11 July)

Same curriculum as in previous term.

'Collections' report (for Easter and Trinity): Acts of the Apostles, Aeschines, Aeschylus, Thucydides, *Aeneid* VII–XII.

The Master's comments on GMH: 'very promising'.

On 13 June Matthew Arnold delivers 'Heinrich Heine' as Professor of Poetry.¹²¹ Liddon's Sunday-evening lectures: 1 Corinthians.

GMH's reading over the summer vacation (known as the 'Long') includes Virgil's *Georgics*, Tacitus, and at least some of Cicero's *Philippics* (*Corr.* 10.07.1863).

Michaelmas term 1863 (Saturday, 10 October to Thursday, 17 December)

Studies with Edwin Palmer: Demosthenes.

Studies with Benjamin Jowett: Thucydides II, III.

Studies with James Riddell: Aeschylus (*Agamemnon*).

'Collections' report: St Matthew, Demosthenes, Thucydides II, III, Aeschylus, Virgil's *Georgics*, Juvenal, Logic.

The Master's comments on GMH: 'Catech. Fair'—'very Fair except in Divinity'.

University lecture series: 'The History of Greek Philosophy before Socrates' (H. L. Mansel); 'Fragments of the Early Greek Philosophers' (Benjamin Jowett); 'The Compendium of Aldrich' (Henry Wall); 'Higher Plane Geometry' (Henry Smith); 'The Book of

¹²⁰ College records show that, on 25 May 1859, 'Resolved, that Undergraduates be required to do the Catechetical Exercises for one entire course (of 30 lectures): power being given to the Lecturer at his discretion to shorten this period in the case of those whom he thinks deserving of that favour.' *Balliol English Records 1794–1875*, fo. 190^v.

¹²¹ In September 1864 GMH recommends 'Matthew Arnold on The literary influence of Academies in the August Cornhill' to his friend Baillie. The essay was reprinted in *Essays in Criticism*, 1st series. See 'The Literary Influence of Academies', in Arnold, *Complete Prose Works*, ed. Super, iii. 232–57.

Daniel' (Edward Pusey). On 28 November, Matthew Arnold lectures on 'A French Coleridge'. Liddon's Sunday-evening lectures: 1 Corinthians.

1864

Confesses to the Revd Henry Liddon 2 February (Ash Wednesday), 11 March, 26 November.¹²²

In July, is introduced to Christina Rossetti, William Holman Hunt, and Jenny Lind at a party.

Moderations exams commence Monday, 20 November; GMH is awarded a First.¹²³

MSS: B.II, C.I, C.II (dated 9 September 1864), ?D.I.

Poems: 'Pilate'; 'She schools'; 'A soliloquy . . . spies'; 'Lover's Stars'; 'During the eastering'; 'Peacock's eye'; 'Love preparing'; 'Barnfloor'; 'New Readings'; 'He hath abolish'd'; 'Heaven-Haven'; various epigrams and fragments (including 'I must hunt', 'Foolish bands', 'Richard', 'Why if it be', 'Hard thing', 'Glimmer'd along'); the unfinished verse drama 'Floris'; 'Io'; 'Rainbow'; 'No, they are come'; 'Star Images'; 'A Voice'; 'Although she be'; 'Picture . . . Dorothea' (four versions were written between 1864 and 1871); 'Queen's Crowning'.

Lent term 1864 (Tuesday, 14 January to Saturday, 19 March)

Studies with Edward Woollcombe: St John.

Studies with Edwin Palmer: Demosthenes.

Studies with Benjamin Jowett: Sophocles (*Ajax*, *Women of Trachis*).¹²⁴

¹²² GMH's personal journals (C.I and C.II) do not contain complete records of his meetings with Revd Liddon. Dates for the latter have been culled from Liddon's diaries. For further information, see *Collected Works*, vol. iii.

¹²³ As MacKenzie explains, 'shortly after his First in Mods [GMH] entered for the Ireland Scholarship [a prestigious classical scholarship; candidates sat the written exams in March] . . . although he did not win it [he] was afterwards congratulated on having done very well'. 'From Manuscript to Printed Text: The Hazardous Transmission of the Hopkins Canon', in Dave Oliphant (ed.), *Hopkins Lives: An Exhibition and Catalogue* (Austin, Tex.: Harry Ransom Humanities Center, 1989), 68.

¹²⁴ The following appeared on modest posters throughout the university: 'THE REGIUS PROFESSOR OF | GREEK will give the following | Lectures during the ensuing | Term: — | Sophocles' Ajax, on Tuesdays | and Thursdays, at One. These | Lectures will begin on Tuesday, | Jan. 26. | Plato's Republic, on Mondays, | Wednesdays, and Fridays, at One. | These Lectures will begin on | Monday, Jan. 25. | The Professor will be happy to receive | Exercises in English and Greek (Greek Prose as well as Verse) from Members of the University.' Bodleian MSS G.A. Oxon c.79 and c.80.

Studies with James Riddell: Virgil (*Aeneid* I–VI), Homer (*Odyssey*).

‘Collections’ report: St John, Demosthenes, *Odyssey* I–VI, *Aeneid* I–VI, Sophocles.

The Master’s comments on GMH: ‘Very satisfactory’.

University lecture series: Paul’s Epistle to the Romans (Robert Scott); ‘The Methods of Aristotle’s *Ethics*’ and ‘Bacon’s *Novum Organon*’ (Henry Wall); Sophocles, Plato (Benjamin Jowett); Psalms (Edward Pusey); Geometry (Henry Smith): ‘On the Origin of Fables’ (Max Müller). On 5 March, Matthew Arnold delivers ‘Pagan and Christian Religious Sentiment’. Liddon’s Sunday-evening lectures: 1 Corinthians.

Easter term 1864 (Wednesday, 30 March to Friday, 13 May)

Studies logic; the Gospels; grammar, translation, and composition.

Studies with Benjamin Jowett: Sophocles.

University lecture series: Sophocles, Plato’s *Republic*, and ‘The Philosophy of Plato’ (Benjamin Jowett); Paul’s Epistle to the Romans (Robert Scott). Liddon’s Sunday-evening lectures: 1 Corinthians.

Trinity (or Acts) term 1864 (Saturday, 14 May to Saturday, 9 July)

Same curriculum as previous term.

‘Collections’ report (for Easter and Trinity): no records were made.

The Master’s comments on GMH: ‘Satisfactory’.

GMH’s reading during the ‘Long’ vacation includes Sophocles, Cicero, and a review of the first twelve books of Homer’s *Odyssey*.

Michaelmas term 1864 (Monday, 10 October to Saturday, 17 December)

Studies with Benjamin Jowett: Sophocles.

‘Collections’ report: Gospels, Demosthenes, Aristophanes (four plays), Sophocles (five plays), Homer, Cicero’s *Philippics*, Tacitus’s *Histories*, Virgil, Juvenal, logic.

The Master’s comments on GMH: ‘Extremely Satisfactory’.

University lecture series: ‘Fragments of the Greek Philosophers’, Thucydides (Benjamin Jowett); Paul’s Epistle to the Romans (Robert Scott); Psalms (Edward Pusey); ‘The Elements of Logic’ (Henry Wall); ‘On the Principles of Comparative Grammar’ (Max Müller). Liddon’s Sunday-evening lectures: 1 Corinthians (until 30 October) and ‘possibly 2 Corinthians’.¹²⁵ On 24 November, Benjamin Disraeli

¹²⁵ Nixon, ‘Gerard Manley Hopkins and Henry Parry Liddon’, 29.

spoke at the Sheldonian Theatre on 'whether man was an angel or an ape'.¹²⁶

1865

Meets Digby Mackworth Dolben in February.¹²⁷

Makes his confession to Liddon 25 March; visits him 28 March and 13 May; makes his confession to Pusey 16 December.

MSS: B.II, C.II, ?D.II, D.IV (dated 12 May 1865), D.V (dated 22 May 22 1865), ?G.I. ?M.II.

Poems: various fragments (for *Stephen and Barberie*, 'A noise of waters', 'When eyes'); 'Summer Malison'; 'St. Thecla'; 'Easter Communion'; 'O Death'; 'Love me'; 'To Oxford'; 'Where art thou'; 'Confirmed beauty'; 'The beginning'; 'Alchemist'; 'Myself unholy'; 'See how Spring'; the continuation of Richard Garnett's *Nix*; 'O what a silence'; fragments for *Castara Victrix*; 'My prayers'; 'Shakspeare'; 'Trees'; 'Let me be'; 'Half-way House';¹²⁸ 'A Complaint'; 'Moonless darkness'; 'Earth and heaven'.

¹²⁶ 'Disraeli put himself squarely—most said facetiously—on the side of the angels.' Allsopp, 'Gerard Manley Hopkins, Oxford, and Edward Urquhart: Doctrinal Controversy and Religious Conversion', in Michael Allsopp and David Downes (eds.), *Saving Beauty: Further Studies in Hopkins* (New York: Garland, 1994), 162.

¹²⁷ Martin, White, and many others have discussed GMH's emotional, homoerotic attachment to this young man, whom he met but once in February 1865, yet thought about for several years (Dolben drowned on 28 June 1867). For a discussion of Dolben's poetry, and the editorial work of Robert Bridges (a distant cousin of Dolben's) to stress the 'youthfulness' of the author, see Margaret Johnson, 'Insisting on Orthodoxy: Robert Bridges's Edition of Digby Dolben's Poetry', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 26/3–4 (Summer/Fall 1999), 82–101, and Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 90.

¹²⁸ The title borrows John Henry Newman's notion of the Church of England as a half-way point between Roman Catholicism and atheism. Featured in *Apologia Pro Vita Sua* (first published, in eight instalments, in the spring and summer of 1864, rev. edn. 1865) is Newman's poem 'Lead, Kindly Light', which GMH copied into his diary in October 1865 when 'forecasting' about 'leaving our church' for the Church of Rome. On the Newman–Hopkins personal bond and intertextual connections, see Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*; Michael Moore, 'Dangerous Beauty: Hopkins and Newman', in Michael Allsopp and Michael Sundermeier (eds.), *Gerard Manley Hopkins (1844–1889): New Essays on his Life, Writing, and Place in English Literature* (Lewiston, NY: E. Mellen Press, 1989), 85–112; Nixon, 'The Kindly Light: A Reappraisal of the Influence of Newman on Hopkins', *Texas Studies in Literature and Language*, 31/1 (1989), 105–42; Nixon, *Gerard Manley Hopkins and his Contemporaries*; and Ward, *World as Word*, 100–30.

Lent term 1865 (Saturday, 14 January to Saturday, 8 April)

Studies with Benjamin Jowett: Plato (*Republic* I–IV).

Studies with William Newman: Greek history, Herodotus.

Studies with Henry Wall: Aristotle (*Ethics*).

‘Collections’ report: Paul, Epistle to Romans, Plato’s *Republic* I–IV, Grote [*History of Greece*] vol. ii.

The Master’s comments on GMH: ‘very steady & Creditable’.

University lecture series: Paul’s Epistle to the Romans (Robert Scott); ‘Fragments of the Greek Philosophers’, Thucydides, Plato’s *Republic* (Benjamin Jowett);¹²⁹ ‘The Method of Aristotle’s *Ethics*’, ‘Aristotle’s *Metaphysics*’ (Henry Wall); ‘Extracts from German Prose Writers, 17th and 18th Centuries, Beginning with Leibniz’ (Max Müller).

Easter term 1865 (Wednesday, 19 April to Friday, 2 June)

Studies St Mark.

Studies with Benjamin Jowett: Plato.

Studies with William Newman: Herodotus.

University lecture series: Paul’s Epistle to the Romans (Robert Scott); ‘The Method of Aristotle’s *Ethics*’ (Henry Wall); ‘Extracts from 18th century German Literature’, ‘French Etymology’ (Max Müller), ‘The Trees and Shrubs of the Ancients’ (Charles G. B. Daubeny).

Trinity (or Acts) term (Saturday, 3 June to Saturday, 8 July)

Same curriculum as previous term.

‘Collections’ report (for Easter and Trinity): St Mark, Plato’s *Republic*, Herodotus Bk. I, Grote’s *History of Greece*.

The Master’s comments on GMH: ‘very industrious, but not quite regular at Chapel’.¹³⁰

Michaelmas term 1865 (Tuesday, 10 October to Monday, 18 December)

‘Collections’ report: Joshua, Judges, Ruth, Aristotle (*Ethics* I–III), Livy I–V, Political Economy.

The Master’s comments on GMH: ‘very Creditable’.

¹²⁹ Jowett’s salary dispute erupted again that winter and spring; on 4 March 1865 it was announced that ‘The Regius Professor of Greek is obliged to discontinue his lectures and other work during the remainder of the Term.’ Bodleian MS G.A. Oxon c.81 (76).

¹³⁰ Also ‘irregular’ in their attendance at chapel were Vincent Coles, Charles Fyffe, James Carlisle, and several others.

University lecture series: Epistle of St James (Robert Scott); 'The Elements of Science' (Henry Wall); 'Fragments of the Greek Philosophers' (Benjamin Jowett); Psalms (Edward Pusey). On 6 and 7 December Matthew Arnold lectures on 'The Study of Celtic Literature'. Liddon's Sunday-evening lectures: (?)2 Corinthians and (as of 10 December) 2 John.

1866

Makes his confession to Liddon 6 February, 17 May.

Begins 'coaching' with Pater, April 1866.

In May, moves out of Balliol into lodgings in New Inn Hall Street, with William Addis.¹³¹

Becomes convinced he should convert to Roman Catholicism, 16–18 July.

Is received into the Church by John Henry Newman, 21 October; confirmed by Archbishop Manning 4 November.¹³²

MSS: C.II (ends during Lent, 1866), A.I (2 May 1866–24 July 1866), ?D.VI, ?D.VII, D.III (May 1866).

Poems: 'Nightingale', 'Habit of Perfection', 'Nondum', 'Easter', 'Summa', 'Jesu Dulcis', 'Inundatio', 'To Jesus on my bed I sue'.¹³³

Lent term 1866 (Monday, 15 January to Saturday, 24 March)

Studies with Jowett: Plato (*Republic* I–IV) and Greek composition.

'Collections' report: 2 Samuel, 1 and 2 Kings, Aristotle (*Ethics* III–IV, IX, X), Plato, Livy VI–X, Bacon (*Novum Organon*).

The Master's comments on GMH: 'Working Hard'.

University lecture series: Epistle of James (Robert Scott); Plato's *Republic*, Sophocles' *Ajax* (Benjamin Jowett); 'The Method of

¹³¹ Ordinarily, 'undergraduates were required to live in College and were allowed only one change of rooms while there. That spring, however, part of the quadrangle in which Hopkins lived was torn down in the great rebuilding scheme of Balliol. Rooms were scarce, and . . . permission was given to a few undergraduates to live in lodgings. . . . Addis, like Hopkins, belonged to the High Church Hexameron Society, and he read papers to the group when it met in their shared lodgings.' Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 129.

¹³² Henry Edward Manning (1808–92) was Archbishop of Westminster from 1865, Cardinal from 1875; he 'preached at the funeral Mass of the nuns drowned on the Deutschland'. McDermott, *A Hopkins Chronology*, 140.

¹³³ The couplet, 'To Jesus on my bed I sue | When bed-room doors are fastened to' is published and discussed in Feeney, 'An Unpublished Hopkins Couplet', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 29/1–2 (Winter/Spring 2002), 21–4.

Aristotle's *Ethics* (Henry Wall); Psalms, Deuteronomy (Edward Pusey).

Matthew Arnold delivers his third lecture on 'The Study of Celtic Literature' on 24 February. Liddon's Sunday-evening lectures: 2 John and (as of 4 February) Epistle to the Romans.

Easter term (Wednesday, 4 April to Friday, 18 May)

Studies Paul, Epistle to Hebrews, John; Aristotle (*Ethics* V, VI, VIII, IX); Theodor Mommsen's *The History of Rome*.

Studies with Jowett: Plato (*Republic* V–X).

University lecture series: Isaiah (Edward Pusey); Paul's Epistle to the Philippians (Robert Scott); 'The Philosophy of Plato', Plato's *Republic*, Thucydides (Benjamin Jowett); 'The Currency' (J. E. T. Rogers). Liddon's Sunday-evening lectures: Epistle to the Romans.

Trinity (or Acts) term (Saturday, 19 May to Saturday, 7 July)

Same curriculum as in previous term.

'Collections' report (Easter and Trinity): Epistle to Hebrews, St John, Plato, Aristotle, Roman history (Arnold III, Mommsen II).

The Master's comments on GMH: 'Satisfactory'.

University lectures: Matthew Arnold delivers 'The Celtic Element in English Poetry' on 26 May.¹³⁴

GMH hears Pusey's final Bampton lecture, 'Our Lord's Divinity' on 3 June. Liddon's Sunday-evening lectures: Epistle to the Romans.

Michaelmas term 1866 (Wednesday, 10 October to Monday, 17 December)

Studies with Robert Williams: Plato.

Studies with Benjamin Jowett: ancient philosophy, featuring Preller's *Fragments of Early Greek Philosophy*.

'Collections' report: Herodotus, Roman history, Preller.

The Master's comments on GMH: 'Fairly Satisfactory'.

University lecture series: Paul's Epistle to the Colossians (Robert Scott); 'Fragments of the Greek Philosophers', Thucydides (Benjamin Jowett); 'Elements of Logic', 'Aristotle's *Ethics*' (Henry Wall); Isaiah (Edward Pusey). Liddon's Sunday-evening lectures: Epistle to the Romans.

¹³⁴ GMH noted his attendance in his journal (26.05.1866).

1867

In mid-January, GMH visits Birmingham to make a week-long religious retreat; subsequently, Newman writes to offer GMH a teaching position at the Oratory (22 February).

Shares lodgings with Alfred Garrett, also a convert, at 12 Holywell; they move back to Balliol at the end of the Easter term to prepare for their exams.

Greats examinations (Final Honour School, *Literae Humaniores*) begin in June; GMH achieves First Class Honours.¹³⁵

Summer holidays in France and England.

Joins staff of Birmingham Oratory School, 10 September.

MSS: A.II (dated 10 July 1867), ?D.VIII, D.IX (dated Hilary Term '67), ?D.X, ?D.XI, ?D.VII.

Poems: various Latin elegiacs and English poetical translations of Horace.

Lent term 1867 (Monday, 14 January to Saturday, 13 April)

Studies history of Greek philosophy; Hegel's *Philosophy of History*; Roman history; logic.

Studies with T. H. Green: Aristotle (*Ethics*).

'Collections' report: Aristotle, history of Greek philosophy, Hegel, Roman history (Arnold III, Mommsen II, III), logic.

The Master's comments on GMH: 'Satisfactory'.

University lecture series: Paul's Epistle to the Colossians (Robert Scott); 'Anharmonic Properties of Figures' (Henry Smith); History of Greek Philosophy, Plato's *Republic*, Sophocles' *Oedipus Rex* (Benjamin Jowett); 'Methods of Aristotle's *Ethics*', 'Higher Doctrines of Logic' (Henry Wall). Liddon's Sunday-evening lectures: Epistle to the Romans.

Easter term 1867 (Wednesday, 24 April to Friday, 7 June)

Final preparations for Greats examinations, which begin 7 June.

The 'Collections' process is changed at this time; as a note in Scott's log-book explains, 'the Master only received Reports of those Gentlemen whom the Tutors considered to require special warning or remark'.

¹³⁵ His standing is recorded in the names of candidates from all of the colleges nominated for honours, Trinity term 1867. The results: 7 'firsts'; 11 'seconds'; 7 'thirds'; 3 'fourths'; 103 'satisfactory'.

1868

Continues teaching at Oratory until 15 April.¹³⁶

Goes on retreat at the Jesuits' Manresa House, Roehampton (in south London); 'resolved to be a religious' by 5 May;¹³⁷ burns copies of his poems 11 May.

Returns to Oxford to take his degree 29 May; the next day, he learns that he has been accepted into the Jesuit novitiate.

Walking holiday in Switzerland, 3 July to 1 August.

Enters novitiate at Roehampton, 7 September.

MSS: A.II (ends 16 April 1868); A.III (17 April to 18 July 1868), A.IV (19 July 1868 to 10 August 1872), ?D.VII, D.XII (dated 9 February 1868).

Poems: 'Elopement'; '*Oratio Patris Condren*'.

NOTES ON HOPKINS'S TUTORS

Some questions regarding who tutored whom are answered by the *Balliol College Register* (1914, 1934), but not all. The 1914 edition, prepared when James Strachan-Davidson was Master, only included the names of those alumni and 'members of the College' still living; Hopkins therefore was not mentioned. The information regarding principal tutors for students (identified by initials) is useful as a point of reference, but incomplete. Regarding Henry Maxwell Spooner, for example (Balliol 1864–8), we are told that he was tutored by Woolcombe, Wall,

¹³⁶ In a 30 September 1867 letter to his friend Edward Urquhart, GMH explains why, as a teacher, he has 'scarcely had a minute of leisure': 'Fancy me getting up at a quarter past six: it is however done with a melancholy punctuality nearly every morning. The boys' mass is at seven; then what they call Preparation fr. 7.45 to 8.30; then breakfast in Hall, so to speak; at 9.30 school till 12; dinner in Hall at 1; school from 2 to 3; then the boys and sometimes I go to their field . . . for a game, just now hockey but soon football; at 6 tea in Hall; from 6.30 to 8.30 school. My class is the fifth but besides this my work includes two private pupils who come to me fr. 8.45 to 10 on all nights but Saturday and fr. 5 to 6 on the half-holidays Tuesday, Thursday, and Saturday. With reading the class books and looking over exercises (which takes a long time) I find all my time occupied' (30.09.1867). He had, however, only 'seven' pupils, and Fr. Ambrose was 'going to make an arrangement by which' GMH would 'get some time for private reading' (ibid.).

¹³⁷ Newman writes to GMH on 14 May 1868 to congratulate him on his decision: 'I am both surprised and glad at your news. . . . Don't call the "Jesuit discipline hard", it will bring you to heaven. The Benedictines would not have suited you' (*Corr.* 14.05.1868).

Riddell, Jowett, Palmer, Green, and Newman. Yet for Hopkins's close friend William Addis (1861–6), only one tutor, Jowett, is mentioned, and for Hopkins himself only Riddell and Jowett are identified. One can now augment the list from a close study of Hopkins's Oxford essays, journal notes, and Balliol College records. Among other friends, Alexander Baillie (1862–7) and William Macfarlane (Balliol 1863, then St John's, 1864–6) were tutored by Jowett; Ernest Myers (1863–7), by Jowett, Palmer, and Newman; James Strachan-Davidson (1862–7), Jowett, Riddell, Woolcombe, Palmer, Newman, and Wall; Vincent Coles (1864–8), Riddell and Palmer.

ELLIS, Robinson (1834–1913)

Enrolled in Balliol in 1852, a contemporary of William Newman (Jowett was one of his tutors). He became a Fellow of Trinity College, Oxford in 1858; Professor of Latin at University College, London in 1870; and then returned to Oxford as Corpus Professor of Latin in 1893. Ellis was one of the people whom J. A. Symonds (Balliol 1858–62) identified as being 'the men of my set—Conington, Edwin Palmer, C. C. Puller, A. O. Rutson, Francis Otter, Robinson Ellis'.¹³⁸ In 1864 Hopkins's Wednesday evening schedule included 'Robinson Ellis. 9 p.m. Compo' (*Jour.* 01.1864).

GREEN, Thomas Hill (1836–82)

A Yorkshire native, he was educated at Rugby and Balliol (his principal tutor was Jowett). Awarded a first in Greats in 1859. Green was a member of the Old Mortality essay society from 1858 to its demise in 1866. He became a Balliol Lecturer in ancient and modern history in 1860, and a Fellow the following year. Upon the death of James Riddell in September 1866 he became a college Tutor. In 1871 he married Charlotte Symonds, John Addington's sister. In 1878 he was named Whyte's Professor of Moral Philosophy. According to R. L. Nettleship, 'Jowett's advice was probably the strongest among various influences which determined [Green's] career',¹³⁹ he was also known as 'the great

¹³⁸ *The Memoirs of John Addington Symonds*, ed. Phyllis Grosskurth (London: Hutchinson, 1984), 118.

¹³⁹ Nettleship, 'Memoir', in *Works of Thomas Hill Green*, ed. Nettleship (London, 1885–8), p. xvii. Richard Lewis Nettleship (1846–92) was a Balliol student from 1864 (Greats, 1869) who won many scholarships (Balliol, Hertford, Ireland; Gaisford Greek Verse Prize) before becoming a Fellow of the college in 1869. Subsequently, he was a Tutor in Philosophy. In addition to several editorial projects (for T. H. Green, Mark

exponent of social conscience" in the college . . . a partisan of radical causes as varied as Matthew Arnold's lectures, the Huxley faction in the great Evolution debate with Wilberforce in the new Oxford Museum, and Jowett's position in the *Essays and Reviews* controversy'.¹⁴⁰ It was not until the late 1860s, Nettleship observes, that Green relaxed in his role as instructor—from Christmas 1868 onwards, 'he became more accessible and expansive'.¹⁴¹ Nevertheless, 'he often allowed those who had brought essays to him to go away with a sense that he was equally dissatisfied both with what they had written and with his own attempts to improve it'.¹⁴² Jowett was sufficiently aware of Green's deficiencies as an instructor that, in December 1872, he 'persuaded the Revd. Hegel Green to give up lecturing for a year & take to writing, whereby the minds of our undergraduates will be greatly clarified'.¹⁴³

On 29 December 1868 Green wrote to his friend Henry Scott Holland,

'I am glad that you and Nettleship saw Hopkins [at Rochampton]. A step such as he has taken, tho' I can't quite admit it to be heroic, must needs be painful, and its pain should not be aggravated—as it is pretty sure to be—by separation from old friends. I never had his intimacy, but always liked him very much. I imagine him—perhaps uncharitably—to be one of those, like his ideal J. H. Newman, who instead of simply opening themselves to the revelation of God in the reasonable world, are fain to put themselves into an attitude—saintly, it is true, but still an attitude.'¹⁴⁴

After Green's death Hopkins wrote to Baillie, 'I always liked and admired poor Green. He seemed to me upright in mind and life. I wish I had made more of the opportunities I had of seeing him in

Pattison, and others), his *Philosophical Lectures and Remains* (ed. Bradley and Benson) were published in 1897. He died of exposure on Mont Blanc in 1892. Jowett's Memorial Sermon (16 October 1892) declares that 'His death is one of the greatest misfortunes which could happen to us. Hardly, if at all, among Oxford teachers was his equal to be found.' Jowett, *College Sermons*, ed. W. H. Fremantle (London, 1896), 267. He is mentioned once in GMH's Oxford diary (20.05.1866). Together with Henry Scott Holland, Nettleship visited GMH at Rochampton in December 1868; in 1884 he 'sent a testimonial supporting GMH's candidature for the Chair of Greek, University College, Dublin. After GMH's death he wrote to Mrs Hopkins: "He and I were great friends when we were undergraduates at Balliol. Since that time we met but little. This was more my fault than his."' *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 351.

¹⁴⁰ White, *Hopkins*, 96.

¹⁴¹ Nettleship, 'Mémorial', p. lxxv.

¹⁴² *Ibid.*, p. lxxvii.

¹⁴³ Jowett, *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 235.

¹⁴⁴ Holland, *Memoirs and Letters*, ed. Stephen Paget (London: Longman, 1921), 29.

my 10 months [1878–9] at Oxford' (*Corr.* 6.05.1882). Green is best known as an exponent of a new Idealist philosophy based on Kant and Hegel; his *Prolegomena to Ethics* (published posthumously in 1883, edited by A. C. Bradley¹⁴⁵) is the most famous text in the *Works*. Green was the model for the character Mr Gray in Mrs Humphry Ward's novel *Robert Elsmere* (1888).¹⁴⁶ Green initialled Hopkins's essays 'T. H. G.'.

JOWETT, Revd Benjamin (1817–93)¹⁴⁷

Eldest son of evangelical parents. Educated at St Paul's and Balliol (1836–9), where he distinguished himself as a promising young scholar and translator. Elected a Fellow of Balliol in 1838, while still an

¹⁴⁵ Andrew Cecil Bradley (1851–1935) was Professor of Literature at Liverpool and Glasgow before becoming Oxford's Professor of Poetry (1901–6). He is most famous for his Shakespearean scholarship. His brother, the philosopher Francis Herbert Bradley (*Ethical Studies*, 1876; *Principles of Logic*, 1883; *Appearance and Reality*, 1893), was one of Green's students in the late 1860s.

¹⁴⁶ A Green-like figure, Dr Friedland, appears in *Helbeck of Bannisdale*, Mary Ward's 1898 *roman à clef*. In a fascinating but very speculative article, Myers suggests that GMH was the model for Ward's fictional Jesuit scholastic, Edward 'Teddy' Williams, a 'dangerously neurotic' figure in *Helbeck*; see Myers, 'Hopkins and Mrs. Humphry Ward's *Helbeck of Bannisdale*', in Francis Fennell (ed.), *Rereading Hopkins: Selected New Essays* (Victoria, BC: University of Victoria Press, 1996), 65. Ward's father, Thomas Arnold (1823–1900), was a colleague of GMH's in Dublin. Thomas was Matthew Arnold's younger brother. After moving to New Zealand in the 1850s, he became a Roman Catholic in 1856; he left the church in 1865, but rejoined it eleven years later. When Arnold returned to Oxford in 1865, Jowett described him as 'a singular' man: '20 years ago he was one of the most prominent & distinguished Oxford undergraduates. . . . [He] went to New Zealand in search of a Utopia—became a R. Catholic. . . . & has now come back & is still a perfectly good & disinterested man, with a great deal of freshness & some genius.' Jowett, *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 59. Arnold was Professor of English Language and Literature at the Catholic University, Dublin from 1856 to 1862, and again from 1882 to 1900. Ward's husband, Humphry, was Pater's colleague at Brasenose for several years.

¹⁴⁷ In retrospect, the contrary aspects of Jowett's life seem wholly Victorian: he was an indefatigable and renowned scholar, yet subject to 'recurring bouts of depression' throughout his life; he led a sexually celibate life, partially to retain his position at Balliol, but was emotionally involved with Florence Nightingale for many years; he considered himself to be a religious man, and protected his status as an ordained minister of the Church of England, yet was labelled 'heretic' by students, peers, and superiors. The major sources for this discussion are Abbott and Campbell, *Life and Letters of Benjamin Jowett*; Faber, *Jowett*; Prest, *Robert Scott and Benjamin Jowett*. A Supplement to the *Balliol College Register* (Oxford: Balliol College, 1966); Sulloway, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*; and Jowett's letters to Nightingale. A copious collection of Jowett's papers is housed in the Balliol College Library.

undergraduate. He became a Tutor in 1842, the same year as his ordination. Jowett was a vocal supporter of university reform in the 1850s, and a proponent of a Broad Church or latitudinarian theology throughout his adult life. With the help of William Gladstone, who arranged to have Robert Scott, then Master of the College, appointed to the deanery of Rochester, Jowett became Master of Balliol in 1870, a position that he held until his death. He also served as Vice-Chancellor of Oxford from 1882 to 1886. His translations of the complete dialogues of Plato are still famous, and widely used. Some of his students nicknamed him 'The Jowler'. Jowett is parodied as Dr Jenkinson in W. H. Mallock, *The New Republic* (1877) and as Mr Jobbles in Anthony Trollope's *The Three Clerks* (1858). In Martin Geldart's fictional autobiography, *A Son of Belial* (1888), Jowett is Professor Jewell. 'Such a man was never found', J. A. Symonds observes in 1860, 'so great to inspire confidence & to rouse to efforts. Other people may prate for hours, & yet never stir your lethargy. By a single word, with no argument but a slight appeal to the natural powers of most men, & a plea for work as work, *he* makes one feel that to be successful is the only thing short of dishonour.'¹⁴⁸ There is less 'Jowettolatry'¹⁴⁹ in Walter Sichel's assessment: 'He enjoyed the wide reputation of combining the wisdom of the serpent with the innocence of the dove. . . . He was always setting you up or down. Rudeness and mildness alternated in his bearing, much as it may have done in the case of Socrates.'¹⁵⁰

My understanding of the relationship between Gerard Manley Hopkins and Benjamin Jowett is at variance with traditional descriptions: it contradicts Lahey's statement, 'It has, I think, been wrongly suggested that Jowett repelled the young undergraduate',¹⁵¹ calls into question Pick's assertion, 'in spite of Jowett's 'great influence on the students in the college', he was 'to have little permanent effect on Hopkins',¹⁵² and qualifies Storey's sweeping pronouncement, 'Hopkins was never a "Jowett-worshipper"', as Jowett's inner circle of pupils were

¹⁴⁸ Symonds, *Letters*, ed. Herbert Schueller and Robert Peters, 3 vols. (Detroit, Mich.: Wayne State University Press, 1967), i. 225.

¹⁴⁹ Lionel Tollemache, *Old and Odd Memories* (London: Edward Arnold, 1908), 183.

¹⁵⁰ Sichel, *The Sands of Time* (London: Hutchinson, 1923), 105.

¹⁵¹ Lahey, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 21.

¹⁵² John Pick, *Gerard Manley Hopkins, Priest and Poet*, 2nd edn. (London: Oxford University Press, 1966), 12.

called; but it is clear that he came under his spell.¹⁵³ For four years, Hopkins was in virtually daily contact with Jowett. In a letter to his mother written soon after his arrival at Balliol, Hopkins reports:

Jowett is my tutor. . . . [He also] lectures in Thucydides. Each lecture lasts an hour. Besides preparing these, the catechisms, and mathematics, we have an essay a week, alternately Latin and English, but none this week. When I called on Jowett, he advised me to take great pains with this, as on it would depend my success more than on anything else . . . and to be careful to have no debts beyond at latest the end of the term. (22.04.1863)

Four years later, he describes to his mother preparations for the Greats examinations: 'Jowett put me through a two days' examination—a most trying thing. He has now gone abroad: only a few men are up' (13.04.1867). In the intervening years, Hopkins was a member of at least one Jowett group tutorial almost every term, attending lectures on some of the fundamental subjects in the *Literae Humaniores* program. Overall, he had very mixed relations with Jowett: he benefited from his tutelage, but endured the consequences of displeasing him.

If academic life constituted the woof of Jowett's life, theology was the warp. In his parents' home he was expected to follow a staunchly evangelical creed. At Balliol, however, he was influenced by W. G. Ward and the Tractarians. 'He described himself', Hinchcliff reports, 'as having virtually become a Puseyite, a danger—if danger it was—that he himself took seriously.'¹⁵⁴ Given this personal experience, one might have expected Jowett to be sympathetic to those of his students who found themselves drawn to Pusey and Newman. The more his own views broadened, however, the more hesitant his acceptance of the Real Presence, atonement, and Christian miracles became, and the more he advocated rationalism for his charges. For J. A. Symonds (Balliol 1858–62), as an example, 'Jowett's [religious] influence was negative to the extent that it reinforced an already latent scepticism'.¹⁵⁵ Another student, Lionel Tollemache (Balliol 1856–60), concedes that, 'In consequence of my evangelical training, I fell under his influence with extreme reluctance; for I firmly believed that his pupils ran great risk of

¹⁵³ Graham Storey, *A Preface to Hopkins* (London: Longman, 1981), 17.

¹⁵⁴ Peter Hinchcliff, 'Benjamin Jowett and the Church of England', in John Prest (ed.), *Balliol Studies* (London: Leopard's Head Press, 1982), 132–3.

¹⁵⁵ Phyllis Grosskurth, *John Addington Symonds: A Biography* (New York: Arno Press, 1975), 52.

becoming strangers to the household of faith, and of denying the Lord that bought them.¹⁵⁶

Glowing accounts of Jowett's skill and dedication as a tutor are legion, from students as diverse as William Newman, Symonds, A. C. Swinburne, and Walter Pater. When students brought their essays to him,

he used commonly to seat himself in a chair placed immediately in front of the fire and close to it, and to intersperse his abrupt, decided and pithy comments on one's work with vigorous pokes of the fire. Occasionally he would lapse into silence, and say nothing whatever for two or three minutes; but, if one rose to go, one often found his best remarks still remained to be uttered.¹⁵⁷

Jowett was always quick to correct or question a student. Yet, as G. G. Ramsay recalls, 'You did not feel exactly that you could resent anything he said: and he took you at your word when you replied "Certainly not" to his not unusual query, "You don't mind my saying what I think about this essay?" When the criticism came, it was often pretty cutting, always curt, simple and fundamental'.¹⁵⁸ In several of Hopkins's essays there are tell-tale signs of having received just such a careful critique.

Jowett's skills as a lecturer had a direct bearing on the quality and frequency of notes which Hopkins made; ironically, they may also indirectly relate to Hopkins's own lack of success behind the lectern. 'Jowett's lectures', according to William Newman,

were not in my experience of much direct use for the examination of schools; they were hardly systematic enough for that—but they showed us how to state and handle questions, and as [T. H.] Green once said to me, they 'gave one glimpses'.¹⁵⁹

Pater recalls the lectures as being 'informal, unwritten, and seemingly unpremeditated, but with many a long-remembered gem of expression, or delightfully novel idea, which seemed to be lying in wait whenever, at a loss for a moment in his somewhat hesitating discourse, he opened a book of loose notes'.¹⁶⁰ Jowett's mature style of lecturing is captured in the notes on Plato and Greek drama that Hopkins recorded in B.II. In

¹⁵⁶ Tollemache, *Benjamin Jowett*, 3.

¹⁵⁷ W. L. Newman, quoted in Abbott and Campbell, *The Life and Letters of Benjamin Jowett*, i. 217. Newman became Hopkins's tutor in 1866.

¹⁵⁸ G. G. Ramsay, quoted *ibid.* 330. ¹⁵⁹ *Ibid.* 218–19.

¹⁶⁰ Pater to Lewis Campbell, 6 May 1894, *ibid.* 329–30; see also Pater, *Letters*, ed. Lawrence Evans (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1970), 264–5.

particular, by comparing Jowett's set of notes entitled 'Lectures on the Republic, Lent 1865'¹⁶¹ with Hopkins's corresponding (and startlingly precise) entries in B.II, I have found that Jowett's quick-witted animadversions were both engaging in the breadth of ideas entertained and uncompromising in the opinions and judgements expressed. James Riddell's lectures on Aeschylus (B.II, fos. 54–69) seem more scholarly and thorough than Jowett's on Sophocles (B.II, fos. 77–87, 107 ff.), but Hopkins's notes reveal that Jowett's were more compelling and contentious.

NEWMAN, William Lambert (1834–1923)

Educated at Cheltenham and Balliol (1851–5). Elected a Fellow of Balliol in 1854, while still an undergraduate. He served as Lecturer in modern and Greek history from 1858 to 1859, and 1861 to 1870, and Reader in ancient history from 1868 to 1870. One former student declared Newman 'the most brilliant and stimulating of Oxford lecturers in ancient history'.¹⁶² Jowett candidly pronounced him 'a remarkable man who has the greatest knowledge of history & the greatest power of thinking about it of any one whom I have known. I don't think that his judgement is equal to his knowledge or genius, & he is one of those persons who appears to be absolutely without the religious sense, though he is a good man. . . . He was describing to me the other day, quite with excitement, the pleasure which he had in thinking.'¹⁶³ Ill health forced Newman to retire from teaching in 1870, but he continued as a Senior Fellow until his death. Newman is probably the instructor who initialled several of Hopkins's essays 'N'.

PALMER, Revd Edwin (1824–95)

Eldest son of an Oxfordshire rector. Educated at Charterhouse and Balliol (1841–5), where he distinguished himself as a Latin specialist. Palmer was a Fellow of Balliol from 1845 to 1867. In 1870 he became Corpus Professor of Latin and a Fellow of Corpus Christi College. Eight years later he was named Archdeacon of Oxford and Canon of Christ Church. In 1867 he married Henrietta Riddell, James Riddell's sister. Through connections with Highgate school, Palmer served as

¹⁶¹ Found in a notebook entitled 'Rough notes & lectures on Plato and Aristotle', Balliol College Library.

¹⁶² Quoted in the *Balliol College Register*, 8.

¹⁶³ Jowett, *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 98–9.

external examiner for the sixth form Easter exams during Hopkins's last year at the school (*Corr.* 22.03.1863). 'Palmer's lectures in Aeschines and Virgil', Hopkins remarked in April 1863, 'shew a height of scholarship which makes me awestruck. When he lectures, he does not hesitate, as in private, but reads long passages in the most beautiful fluent English' (*Corr.* 22.04.1863). Another former student remembers that he had 'the bulk of the [Latin] composition teaching in his hands . . . his evenings, from eight to eleven o'clock, were divided into nine parcels of twenty minutes, in which he corrected his men's prose, gave them versions of his own, and so forth. . . . He had nothing of the partisan about him; but he was . . . a scholarly, well-trained "High Churchman", with one of the fairest minds that I ever met.'¹⁶⁴

PATER, Walter Horatio (1839-94)

Pater was educated at Canterbury and then Queen's College, Oxford (1858-62). As a Queen's student he was at first quite removed from Jowett's sphere of influence. William Wolfe Capes was his principal tutor, a Latin scholar whose catholic interests included Greek philosophy and history, French and German literature and culture, and the visual arts.¹⁶⁵ Pater undoubtedly heard quite a bit about Jowett from his friend John McQueen, a Balliol student (and Puseyite) from 1858 to 1862. Curiosity may have inspired Pater's first visits to Jowett's lectures, but he soon became a regular auditor. 'Like many others', Pater generously stated, 'I received much kindness and help from him when I was reading for my degree [1860 to 1862] and afterwards. A large number of his hours in every week of Term-time must have been spent in the private teaching of undergraduates, not of his own College. . . . They found him a very encouraging but really critical judge of their work—essays and the like,—listening from 7:30-10:30 to a pupil, or a pair of pupils, for half an hour in turn.'¹⁶⁶ According to Edmund Gosse, Jowett 'was so much struck with [Pater's] power that he very generously offered to coach him for nothing',¹⁶⁷ Monsman states that, 'during the

¹⁶⁴ Edward Talbot, *Memories of Early Life* (London: A. R. Mowbray, 1924), 30-1.

¹⁶⁵ See T. H. S. Escott, 'Some Oxford Memories of the Prae-Aesthetic Age', *National Review*, 140 (Oct. 1894), 233-4, and Michael Levey, *The Case of Walter Pater* (London: Thames & Hudson, 1978), 75-6. Capes's comments about Pater are quoted in Thomas Wright, *The Life of Walter Pater*, 2 vols. (London: Everett, 1907), i. 160, 165.

¹⁶⁶ Pater, *Letters*, ed. Evans, 267.

¹⁶⁷ Gosse, *Critical Kit-Kats* (New York, 1896), 248.

1861 Lent term', Pater 'prepared a weekly essay' for Jowett.¹⁶⁸ Both sources repeat the story that Jowett once confided to Pater, 'I think you have a mind that will come to great eminence.' It is no accident that Pater's interest in German philosophy and criticism flourished from 1860 onwards. One of his contemporaries recalls meeting with Jowett ostensibly to discuss an essay on the Eleatics: once the paper had been evaluated, Jowett proceeded to give 'a lecture on Hegel. He thinks him marvellous in metaphysical distinction, practical acumen, and poetry. His theory, one in which the existence of a universal God is to be seen in all things and thought. Distinct personalities are allowed by this God to exist under and independent of Him. This I had not understood from Hegel.'¹⁶⁹ Pater's sisters, Hester and Clara, were living in Heidelberg at this time; his visits to them during the Long Vacations of 1859 and 1860 facilitated his German language studies. By the autumn of 1860 he was reading Goethe's *Faust* in the original; during the next two years he worked his way avidly through the prose of Fichte, Kant, and Hegel.

Although his commitment to the Church of England had seriously wavered in the late 1850s, Pater hoped to be ordained after graduation. This plan was thwarted in December 1862 by the intervention of John McQueen and Liddon, who reported his near-agnosticism to the Bishop of London. Pater was elected to a non-clerical fellowship at Brasenose College in February 1864. The previous year he had joined the Old Mortality essay society; his fellow members included T. H. Green, Algernon Swinburne, and J. A. Symonds. In addition to tutoring Brasenose students, Pater 'coached' (a private tutorial, see below) a number of young men preparing for their examinations. Jowett has been credited with engineering 'the vogue [Pater] enjoyed as a philosophy coach for the final schools'.¹⁷⁰ Hopkins began 'coaching with W. H. Pater' in Trinity term (April) 1866 (*Jour.* 2.05.1866); in all probability, he continued to do so until the Greats examinations in June 1867. From all accounts, Pater's was a gently ironic demeanour—and therefore far removed from the judgemental attitudes of a Jowett or a Liddon. It is not surprising that Hopkins responded to a mind that 'delighted in paradox, and in a kind of whimsical perversity',¹⁷¹ a 'challenging' temperament that was 'crisp, terse, and mentally athletic even in being

¹⁶⁸ Monsman, *Walter Pater*, 24.

¹⁶⁹ Quoted in Brown, *Hopkins' Idealism*, 84.

¹⁷⁰ Escott, 'Some Oxford Memories of the Prae-Aesthetic Age', 238.

¹⁷¹ A. C. Benson, *Walter Pater* (London: Macmillan, 1906).

aesthetic'.¹⁷² The most thorough account of Pater's style as tutor and coach comes from Humphry Ward:

In two ways his teaching was immensely fruitful. His ideas, his view of life, were fresh and original . . . and his criticism of style, though administered with the lightest possible touch, was convincing and final. Vulgarity of expression, overemphasis, exaggeration, could not stand for a moment before his correcting pencil; they shrivelled up at a word, and a word was all he gave them. Perhaps he seemed to undervalue learning as such, but no man demanded more clear and accurate thinking, or a more exact expression of it in words.¹⁷³

Ward also recalls being 'one of the very small group of men attending what I believe to have been Walter Pater's first course of lectures' at 'the end of 1866 or beginning of 1867'.¹⁷⁴ (*Plato and Platonism*, 1893, provides a conspectus of Pater's lectures.) The intellectual breadth of the presentation was rigorous and unexpected for some: 'the easy way in which the teacher moved amid his material was a little confusing to slow-moving minds'.¹⁷⁵ Yet former students also stress that one of Pater's chief assets as an instructor was his rare ability 'to understand the point of view and thoughts of the people from whom he differed'.¹⁷⁶

In the 1860s Pater's essays for the Old Mortality Society,¹⁷⁷ and his articles in the *Westminster Review* ('Coleridge's Writings', January 1866; 'Winckelmann', January 1867; 'Poems by William Morris', October 1868), made him 'celebrated' throughout the university and somewhat of a 'cult figure, especially among the undergraduates'.¹⁷⁸ The publication of *The Renaissance* in 1873 created a storm of controversy; Pater's other major publications include *Marius the Epicurean* (1885), *Imaginary Portraits* (1887), *Appreciations: With an Essay on Style* (1889), and *Plato and Platonism* (1893).

Hopkins renewed his friendship with Pater when stationed in Oxford (at St Aloysius's) from November 1878 to October 1879. I would doubt, however, that he ever knew about Jowett's devastating interference in

¹⁷² Levey, *The Case of Walter Pater*, 116.

¹⁷³ Ward, 'Brasenose, 1864-1872', *Brasenose College Quatercentenary Monographs*, 14/2 (1909), 75.

¹⁷⁴ Ibid. 74.

¹⁷⁵ Ibid. 75.

¹⁷⁶ Wright, *The Life of Walter Pater*, i. 239.

¹⁷⁷ Monsman and others speculate that Pater's 'Diaphaneité' (published in *Miscellaneous Studies*, 247-54), dated July 1864, is a polished version of the '“infidel”' essay on 'subjective immortality' that Pater delivered on 20 February 1864 to the Old Mortality Society.

¹⁷⁸ Levey, *The Case of Walter Pater*, 71.

Pater's life in the late 1870s. Jowett's antipathy towards the aesthetic¹⁷⁹ and moral daring of *The Renaissance* was only partially responsible for declaring Pater a 'demoralizing moralizer'.¹⁸⁰ For years, critics debated whether this 'estrangement' between Pater and Jowett resulted in the latter's deliberate attempts to block Pater's advancement within the university—specifically, his failure to become Junior Proctor in 1874, or Professor of Poetry in 1876, or Slade Professor of Art in 1885. Evidence has come to light, however, that Jowett did act against Pater—due to moral outrage and homophobia. Ellmann provides an overview of events:

An undergraduate at Balliol named William Money Hardinge, whom Wilde knew as one of Ruskin's roadbuilders, was disclosed to have received letters from Walter Pater signed, 'Yours lovingly.' Hardinge had also written and circulated some homosexual poems. The affair was brought to the attention of the authorities by Balliol students who feared that the 'Balliol Bugger', as Hardinge was called, was giving the college a bad name. . . . [Jowett] was apprised of the Pater letters and the sonnets. He now broke with Pater—a famous rupture—and summoned Hardinge on the official charge of 'keeping and reciting immoral poetry.' Hardinge denied it at first, but when threatened with proctorial inquiry agreed to resign.¹⁸¹

¹⁷⁹ Although he had read the first volume of *Modern Painters* with 'greatest delight' in 1844, Jowett was also less than enthusiastic about Ruskin's subsequent aesthetic discourses. Undergraduates in the audience for Ruskin's inaugural lecture as Slade Professor of Fine Art (8 February 1870) were enthralled by the presentation, but, according to Kenneth Clark, 'senior members of the University were less favourably impressed. At the end . . . when the applause had died down, a small clear voice was heard to say: "Very poor taste, very poor taste." It was the voice of Dr. Jowett.' Clark, *Ruskin at Oxford* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1947), 4. Abbott and Campbell merely report that Jowett's attitude towards Ruskin was 'hesitating'. *The Life and Letters of Benjamin Jowett*, ii. 75. Jowett observed to Nightingale in July 1871, 'I think that it is a very curious question, "What is the limit of the advantages to be gained from art & nature." How far they educate & at what point they injure & weaken the mind as, e.g. in Ruskin? One of the phenomena of Sceptical times is the love of art, in which men fancy that they have a kind of rest. I see this in the musical & Esthetical revival in the Church, and also in a small knot of people at Oxford who preach art & necessity, & believe in a man named Pater, of Brasenose. Goethe did a great deal of harm to the world by turning all things, including human characters, into forms of art, & he is the great Apostle of the Sect.' *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 210.

¹⁸⁰ Wright alludes to the remark, but does not name a source. *The Life of Walter Pater*, i. 255. Both Levey (*The Case of Walter Pater*, 143) and Evans (in his introduction to *Letters*, p. xxi) attribute the phrase to Jowett.

¹⁸¹ Richard Ellmann, *Oscar Wilde at Oxford* (Washington, DC: Library of Congress, 1984), 23. Details of the Hardinge case were uncovered by one of Ellmann's students, Alon Kadish. By comparing A. C. Benson's diary notations about his Pater research

The 'disclosure' of the letters to Jowett was allegedly made by W. H. Mallock, an acquaintance of Hardinge; Jowett then confronted Pater and 'vowed he would produce [the letters] if P. ever thought of standing for any University office'.¹⁸² As A. C. Benson, Pater's biographer, confided to his diary, 'Pater's whole nature changed under the strain, after the dreadful interview with Jowett. He became old, crushed, despairing—[and] this dreadful weight lasted for years; it was years before he realised that J. would not use them.'¹⁸³

RIDDELL, Revd James (1823–66)

Educated at Shrewsbury and Balliol (1840–5). He was ordained in 1845, the same year he became a Fellow of Balliol (he was named Tutor shortly afterwards). Riddell was Oxford's Senior Proctor and Select Preacher in 1862, and a Whitehall Preacher in 1865. 'He and his lectures', Hopkins reported to his mother in April 1863, 'are much thought of and popular' (*Corr.* 22.04.1863). A supporter of Pusey, Riddell was believed to have cast the deciding vote for Robert Scott (and against Jowett) in the 1854 election for the Master of Balliol. Riddell died suddenly on 14 September 1866, probably a victim of heart disease. Hopkins quotes the *Guardian* obituary in a letter to Edward Urquhart—a tribute which states that Riddell 'enjoyed the reputation of being one of the best—some wd. go so far as to say the best—Greek scholar of his standing in Oxford . . . [old friends] recall the facts of his singular goodness, innocence, and purity' (24.09.1866). 'It was a pleasure to take [a] composition to him', one young man recalled, 'for a gentle sigh was his only comment on the most discreditable blunder, and he would substitute for some clumsy phrase or line an emendation which . . . we should

with the biography he published in 1906, Laurel Brake first discovered just how much information Benson felt compelled to suppress. Specifically, with Pater's sisters still alive and Oscar Wilde's trials still luridly fresh in the public's mind, Benson avoided any mention of Pater's homoeroticism, and remained silent as to Jowett's actions and threats. Billie Inman's extensive research on Hardinge and the Pater–Hardinge–Jowett affair is invaluable; she has recovered the letters that chronicle the incidents of 1874–6, and clarified the chronology of events. Inman, 'Estrangement and Connection: Walter Pater, Benjamin Jowett, and William M. Hardinge', in Laurel Brake and Ian Small (eds.), *Pater in the 1990s* (Greensboro, NC: ELT Press, 1991).

¹⁸² A. C. Benson, MS diary vol. lxii (12 November 1904), 5^r–5^v, quoted in Brake, 'Judas and the Widow: Thomas Wright and A. C. Benson as Biographers of Walter Pater', in Philip Dodd (ed.), *Walter Pater: An Imaginative Sense of Fact* (London: Frank Cass, 1981), 45. Benson records in his diary Edmund Gosse's account of what transpired; Gosse was purportedly informed by Pater.

¹⁸³ Quoted in Brake, 'Judas and the Widow', 45.

have thought to be a communication from Sophocles.¹⁸⁴ More than one former student considered Riddell to be 'the type of a Christian gentleman. . . . No one could resist the quiet charm of his gracious manner, half diffident at first sight, but on better knowledge found to be not shyness but the reserve and self-suppression of "a beautiful soul."¹⁸⁵

SCOTT, Revd Robert (1811–87)

Educated at Shrewsbury and Christ Church, where he took a first in Greats in 1835. Elected a Fellow of Balliol in 1835, after which he served as Fellow and Tutor until 1840. Scott was ordained in 1836. In 1840, he took a college 'living' in Cornwall, where he became the rector of Duloe. In 1845 he was appointed Prebendary of Exeter Cathedral; from 1850 to 1854 he was a rector in Rutland. The famous *Greek–English Lexicon*, which he produced with Henry Liddell, was first published in 1843. In 1854, members of Balliol wishing to block Benjamin Jowett's possible election to the mastership nominated Scott for the position—and Scott was the successful candidate (see 'Inside Balliol', below). Although he was Master from 1854 to 1870, Scott's authority gradually eroded as supporters of Jowett joined the ranks of Tutors and Fellows. In 1870 William Gladstone offered Scott the Deanery of Rochester; Scott had no choice but to accept the new appointment. Scott initialled Hopkins's essays 'RS' or 'R.S.', often with a coloured pencil; his comments about Hopkins's progress each term were recorded in the Master's 'Collections Log-Book' (see 'Chronology', above).

SMITH, Henry John Stephen (1826–83)

Born in Dublin; educated at Rugby and Balliol (1844–8), where he won the Ireland Classical Scholarship. Smith took a double first in *Litterae Humaniores* and mathematics in 1848. A Fellow of Balliol from 1850 to 1874, he was the college Tutor in mathematics and the university's Savilian Professor of Geometry from 1860. Students, including Hopkins, referred to him as 'Oily Smith' (*Corr.* 22.04.1863), but in 1860 J. A. Symonds described Smith as 'the greatest genius Oxford has'.¹⁸⁶ His colleague Goldwin Smith remarked that, 'but for his early death, good

¹⁸⁴ Quoted in White, *Hopkins: A Literary Biography*, 53.

¹⁸⁵ P. A. Wright Henderson, 'Glasgow and Balliol', *Blackwood's Magazine*, 155/991 (Mar. 1894), 352–3.

¹⁸⁶ Letter to Charlotte Symonds, 5 February 1860, in *Letters*, ed. Schueller and Peters, i. 220.

judges thought [him] a Newton or a La Place'.¹⁸⁷ From February 1864 onwards he had as his assistant mathematical lecturer G. D. Davenport, a Fellow of Brasenose College.¹⁸⁸

WALL, Revd Henry (1810–73)

Although his parents were residents of Barbados, he was educated at St Alban Hall, Oxford, where he took his BA in 1833. Wall served as Vice-Principal of St Alban Hall from 1837 to 1851, and Fellow and Chaplain of Balliol from 1839 to 1871. He was named Junior Bursar in 1842, and Senior Bursar two years later (see *Corr.* 22.04.1863). 'When receiving battels [students' accounts payable to the college]', a former student recalled, 'he gave no change, and he was believed to have amassed in this way for the college enormous wealth. His explanation of mysterious items in the battel-bills was conclusive, if not satisfactory. 'Why, sir, the reason is the immemorial custom of the college.'¹⁸⁹ In addition to his duties as the college Catechetical and Logic Lecturer, Wall was Oxford's Wykeham Professor of Logic from 1849 to 1873. In his first month at Balliol Hopkins reported going to 'evening chapel to hear Wall lecture and see Jowett laugh' (*Corr.* 4.05.1863). According to the Revd W. Tuckwell,

Scott's firmest supporter in College had been Henry Wall. . . . It was he who led the opposition to Max Müller for the 'half-a-brick' reason that he was a foreigner. His intellect was clear, logical, penetrating; his temper bigoted and arrogant. His lectures [on logic] . . . were cosmic in their reduction and formularisation of the Aldrich-Aristotle chaos. Keen-eyed, sharp-nosed, vehement in manner and gesture, he fired off questions as he went along at this or that student who caught his eye, with joyous acceptance of a neat response, scornful pounce on a dull or inattentive answer.¹⁹⁰

How deep-rooted were his religious and gender biases? 'This crusty old Wall', Hopkins informed his mother, 'on once hearing that Mrs Scott was setting a subscription on foot for an organ for Ball. Coll: Chapel, said that Mrs. S. was not going to interfere in the affairs of the coll., and that while he was there, there shd. be no organ—and there is not' (*Corr.* 4.05.1863).

¹⁸⁷ Smith, *Reminiscences* (New York: Macmillan, 1910), 276.

¹⁸⁸ Minutes of the 11 February 1864 college meeting; English Register fo. 212^v.

¹⁸⁹ 'Glasgow and Balliol', 352.

¹⁹⁰ W. Tuckwell, *Reminiscences of Oxford* (London: Cassell, 1901), 204–5.

WILLIAMS, Robert (1843–86)

Born in Oxford, he was an undergraduate at Christ Church, Oxford from 1860 to 1864, when he took a first in Greats. Fellow of Merton College from 1866 to 1875. Williams became a barrister at Lincoln's Inn in 1872, and practised in the Temple (see *Corr.* 24.02.1874). Frances Williams, Robert's sister, married Hopkins's friend Francis de Paravicini.¹⁹¹ When Hopkins returned to Oxford in 1878–9, as a parish priest for St Aloysius's, he spent considerable time with the Paravicinis (see *Corr.* 19.01.1879, 19.11.1879, and 15.06.1881).

WOOLLCOMBE, Edward Cooper (1816–80)

Educated at Repton, then Oriel College, Oxford (1833–7). After failing to secure an Oriel fellowship in 1838, he was elected a Fellow of Balliol in November 1838 (also selected at that time were William Lake, James Lonsdale, and Jowett). According to Mark Pattison, Rector of Lincoln College, Woollcombe's 'selection turned out afterwards to be a very great mistake'.¹⁹² Dean and Senior Tutor, Woollcombe often delivered the 'Catechetics', lectures in chapel on the doctrines of the Church of England, which the undergraduates had to summarize. Hopkins described Woollcombe to his mother as '“Woolx”, a pinch-faced old man, whom everybody likes as much as they yawn over his divinity lectures' (*Corr.* 22.04.1863). Woollcombe was one of Hopkins's tutors for Moderations. He held the position of Tutor from 1840 to 1869; in January 1870 Jowett informed a correspondent that he had 'the College better in hand than formerly, having got rid of Woollcombe and, I believe, of [Henry] Wall'.¹⁹³ Woollcombe is mentioned by name in Hopkins's undergraduate prose parody, 'The Legend of the Rape of the Scout'. The don initialled papers 'ECW'.

INSIDE BALLIOL

Records from Balliol's Latin Register, 1782–1916 provide the following summary of college officials during Hopkins's years:

¹⁹¹ Paravicini, 1843–1920 ('he was my contemporary and is very kind', GMH to Bridges, 19.01.1879), studied at Balliol from 1862 to 1866. He served as Senior Student [Fellow] at Christ Church from 1866 to 1871, then returned to Balliol, where he was a Tutor from 1872 to 1908 and a Fellow from 1878 to 1908.

¹⁹² Pattison, *Memoirs*, 178.

¹⁹³ Quoted in Faber, *Jowett*, 158.



Figure 3. Balliol students, 1863.

Back row, standing (l. to r.):

L. T. Rendell, Earl of Kerry,

W. Hulton, M. W. Ridley,

W. A. Brown, Hopkins,

R. Entwistle, F. A. Reiss,

G. M. Argles, T. L. Papillon,

A. Anderson, R. Doyle,

[W. A.] Harris; seated on chairs:

E. J. Myers, R. A. Hull,

C. M. B. Clive, S. J. Freemandle,

A. E. Hardy; sitting on the

ground: J. F. L[angford],

A. Barratt, E. M. Sneyd-

Kynnersley

From the Archives,

Balliol College, Oxford

Senior Bursar	1863–1867	Henry Wall
Junior Bursar	1863–1866	position vacant ¹⁹⁴
	1866–1867	Edward Woollcombe
Senior Dean	1862–1863	Henry Smith
	1863–1865	William Newman
	1865–1867	T. H. Green
Junior Dean	1862–1863	Edward Woollcombe
	1863–1864	Donald Owen
	1864–1867	Edward Woollcombe
Lecturer, Logic and Rhetoric	1863–1867	Henry Wall
Lecturer, Mathematics	1863–1867	Henry Smith
Lecturer, Philology and Composition	1863–1866	Edwin Palmer
	1866–1867	John Purves
Lecturer, Modern History	1863–1867	William Newman
Lecturer, Ethics ¹⁹⁵	1866–1867	T. H. Green

Dons and students alike were vocal in their support of High Church, Broad Church, or evangelical religious precepts and practices. Some members of the college, like James Riddell, were ardent followers of Pusey and what remained of the Tractarian movement in Oxford; others, like Jowett, were disputatious opponents of anything that seemed like 'ritualism'. In the mid-1860s, an argument concerning Holy Communion embroiled all factions. It had been the college practice to have the Communion service once a term; everyone participated in this special occasion. In Michaelmas term 1864, however, a petition began circulating among the Balliol students in support of more frequent Communion celebrations. The petition was presented to Scott in February 1865; minutes for the general meeting of college officials on 21 April state that 'A memorial from 45 of the Junior members of the College having been read requesting that the Holy Communion might be celebrated at 7 o'clock in the morning of every Sunday in Term except the two ordinary Communion Sundays it was *Resolved*

¹⁹⁴ Jowett had held the post until 1856; Henry Smith took over for the 1856/7 academic year, but then resigned. The position then remained unfilled for almost a decade. From 1856 to 1870 Jowett did not hold an official post in the college.

¹⁹⁵ This was a new position, created 13 September 1866.

that the Master and Fellows are willing to accede to the request . . . for the space of one year—i.e. until Easter 1866.¹⁹⁶ The new rule in favour of weekly Communion came into effect on 30 April 1865; in April 1866 it was extended for another year. It was his belief in transubstantiation—in Christ's 'Real Presence' in the elements of the Eucharist—which first prompted Hopkins to consider converting to Roman Catholicism.

What was a typical day during term like? 'A university day is pretty much as follows', an unsigned 1865 article in *Cornhill Magazine* declared: 'There is service in chapel at eight; at nine or ten lectures begin; these are over at one, and the afternoon is free; then, at four or five, there is chapel again, and after that dinner. Some colleges are more stringent than others, as regards attendance at chapel. . . . Three mornings a week and twice on Sunday would generally suffice.'¹⁹⁷ 'This is the programme of my day', Hopkins informed his mother in April 1863, '7.15, get up, dress; 8, chapel; 8.30, breakfast; 10, lecture; 11, second ditto; 12, sometimes third ditto; 1–2, buttery open for lunch; afternoon, boating or walking or following your own devices; 5, evening chapel, which I have never yet attended; 5.30, hall; 6, the Union; 7 to bedtime, tea and preparing lectures. On Sunday, University sermon at 10.30, evening chapel at 4.30' (22.04.1863).

Balliol was considered by many to be *the* academically superior college of the later nineteenth century. When the Master of Balliol, Dr Richard Jenkyns, died in the mid-1850s the *Times* obituary noted that 'He found Balliol [in the 1820s] a closed college among the least distinguished collegiate bodies at Oxford—he left it almost entirely open, and confessedly the foremost of all.'¹⁹⁸ An anonymous commentary, 'Oxford and its Colleges', which appeared in *The Leisure Hour* magazine in September 1866, explained to readers that Balliol's

matriculation examinations aim at a much higher standard than is the case elsewhere, and it seems generally understood that, in the ordinary course, each undergraduate member shall strive for University honours. The tutorial system is exceedingly good, and Balliol also furnishes an unusual number of men to the staff of the professorship. A Balliol scholarship ranks far

¹⁹⁶ Balliol College, English Records, 1794–1875, fo. 215^v.

¹⁹⁷ 'University Life', *Cornhill Magazine*, 11/62 (Feb. 1865), 227.

¹⁹⁸ *The Times*, 7 Mar. 1854, quoted in Jones, *Balliol College: A History*, 200.

higher than a scholarship at any other college; the fellowships are, of course, better still.¹⁹⁹

In the 1850s and 1860s, however, Balliol's scholarly reputation was equalled by a notoriety for religious controversies. The man partially responsible for both was Benjamin Jowett. The early 1850s marked 'the emergence of Jowett as the driving force in Balliol'.²⁰⁰ It was also the time when he tried to reform the university as a whole by co-operating fully with the Royal Commission investigating the state of British universities. Typically, Jowett's efforts were applauded by some but resented or decried by many. On 6 March 1854, Dr Jenkyns died. The political manoeuvring that subsequently took place was basically for or against Jowett. Robert Scott was elected the new Master of Balliol, by one vote. Greatly disappointed, Jowett withdrew from the formalities of college life, a response best described by Geoffrey Faber as a 'childish withdrawal to his tent'—but not from close contact with his supporters among the dons and students.²⁰¹ Consequently, the atmosphere throughout the college was 'strained' for more than a decade; by the early 1860s (Hopkins arrived in April 1863), 'the contention was acute and undisguised'.²⁰² Scott, a very traditional Anglican, had taken a college living in Cornwall in 1840. Upon his return to Balliol he tried to play peace-maker and act as a conscientious administrator, but he could never control his recalcitrant Achilles. As a result, a 'leaven of bitterness' permeated the college, affecting tutors and students alike. Gradually, Jowett refused to dine in Hall or to meet after dinner in the Common Room. He tried to best Scott by winning the support of as many Tutors and Fellows as possible; by the winter of 1866 Scott

¹⁹⁹ 'Oxford and its Colleges. Part V', *The Leisure Hour*, 15/768 (15 Sept. 1866), 586. There was 'a startling unanimity about the preeminence of Balliol, and nowhere was its superiority more evident than in the study of "Greats" (*Literae Humaniores*). In the seven years beginning in 1860 there were approximately 150 men in residence in the College and of those 99 read Greats, and 35 took Firsts in Finals. The tutors of Balliol were generally regarded as the intellectual élite of the University and completely devoted to teaching.' Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 33.

²⁰⁰ Tuckwell, *Reminiscences of Oxford*, 203; see also Faber, *Jowett*, 205–6.

²⁰¹ Faber, *Jowett*, 55. Hinchcliff suggests that Jowett should not have expected to win. Scott had been favoured by Jenkyns as early as 1845; he 'was not really an outsider brought back from the country to prevent the election of Jowett'. *Benjamin Jowett and the Christian Religion* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1987), 40–1.

²⁰² Abbott and Campbell, *The Life and Letters of Benjamin Jowett*, i. 269.

was virtually a 'cypher' in his own college.²⁰³ Four years later, William Gladstone stepped in and helped his old friend Jowett by offering Scott the Deanery of Rochester. Scott conceded defeat, and resigned; Jowett was named the new Master.²⁰⁴ In retrospect, it is amazing that Robert Scott stood his ground as long as he did. Paradoxically, no one helped him to maintain his position more than Jowett himself, who became embroiled in disputes outside the college.

In 1854 Jowett had been appointed the university's Regius Professor of Greek. As the title implies, this was a Crown appointment. Yet, because of a complicated series of endowments dating back to the Tudor era, Christ Church College, and not Her Majesty's Government, was responsible for the Regius Professor's salary, which had never been increased from the stipend of £40 per annum originally provided by Henry VIII. From 1854 to 1865, Jowett's supporters campaigned diligently to have his remuneration raised to an equitable amount (when the matter was finally resolved in 1865, he was awarded £500 a year). This brought Jowett into renewed conflict with Pusey, Regius Professor of Hebrew and a Canon of Christ Church. Pusey had been a behind-the-scenes opponent of Jowett's appointment—not on academic grounds, but because he vehemently disapproved of Jowett's religious rationalism. 'Battles' is actually the term often used by contemporaries to describe the conflicts that arose between Jowett (and his supporters) and Pusey (strongly endorsed by Oxford's conservative, High Church population). William Spooner, a student at New College from 1862 to 1866, recalls that 'Men were divided into hostile camps,

²⁰³ Tuckwell, *Reminiscences of Oxford*, 205. 'I fought with "beasts" in our College meeting on Tuesday', Jowett confided to Nightingale on 21 June 1866, 'but these beasts (and some of them are beasts) were tame & I got my way'. *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 90. In early September he reported that 'our College is in such a shaky, slippery state that I dare not stay away. I have always had to do work there against an opposite party who are partly bigots & partly inefficient & inert.' *Ibid.* 100. Six weeks later he happily confirmed, 'I had better success than I expected in my two days' campaign with the fellows. I am opposed by two fools & a knave, but, as we are nearly two to one & all the disinterested part of the College is with me, that does not matter. The knave [Wall] is a real knave & no mistake, though the amount of his knavery I am not able precisely to determine. He is a very clever, dexterous sort of fellow. The two fools are the Master [Scott] & the Senior Tutor [Woollcombe], who are very good men (in a sense) & gentlemen, but they are wholly incompetent & entirely without public spirit. I grudge them the large revenue which they get from the College, doing nothing but harm in return.' *Ibid.* 108. By April 1867 Jowett was happy to declare the 'complete & final defeat of the Master & Senior Tutor'; the 'battle' was over.

²⁰⁴ Prest's research into this series of developments is illuminating; see *Robert Scott and Benjamin Jowett*, 20.

who saw little and even knew little of one another; harsh things were said on both sides, and little Christian charity was often shown.²⁰⁵ This wrangling over Jowett's academic life, though, was only a prelude to battle. Gauntlets were truly thrown down when he began to publish on religious matters: specifically, the commentary on St Paul's epistles to the Thessalonians, Galatians, and Romans (June 1855; second edition 1859),²⁰⁶ and his contribution to *Essays and Reviews* (1860), one of the best-selling but also most controversial books of the century.²⁰⁷

So incensed were clergymen, scholars, and lay people alike by the 'heretical' contents of *Essays and Reviews* that two contributors, Rowland Williams and Henry Wilson, were prosecuted in the ecclesiastical Court of Arches (they were originally found guilty of heresy, but were subsequently acquitted by the Privy Council); in June 1864 both houses of the Convocation of Canterbury (the Church of England's Synod) condemned *Essays and Reviews*. The attack on Jowett within the university was again led by Pusey and the Vice-Chancellor, R. L. Cotton,

²⁰⁵ Spooner's unpublished autobiography is quoted in William Hayter, *Spooner, A Biography* (London: W. H. Allen, 1977), 59. Spooner (1844–1930) became a Fellow of New College in 1867; he was later made Dean (1883) and Warden (1903–24). His younger brother Henry was a student at Balliol from 1864 to 1868. A Hopkins journal entry reads: 'Dine with A. Spooner on Monday' (01.1865). See Sjaak Zonneveld, 'A Note on Spooner and Hopkins', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 11/1–2 (Spring and Summer 1984), 43–4.

²⁰⁶ Jowett's collaborator was A. P. Stanley (1815–81), a former Balliol student, then Fellow of University College, who was Secretary of the Oxford University Commission, 1850–2, and subsequently became Professor of Ecclesiastical History and Canon of Christ Church. Stanley's contribution to the two-volume project was a study of St Paul's letters to the Corinthians.

²⁰⁷ *Essays and Reviews* was considered sensational, 'epochal', and heretical, a 'manifesto' of the Broad Church movement; in 'their challenging of dominant methods of biblical interpretation, the Essayists were accused of shaking the very foundations of society'. Victor Shea and William Whitla, 'Part One: Reading "An Epoch in the History of Opinion"', in Shea and Whitla (eds.), *Essays and Reviews: The 1860 Text and its Reading* (Charlottesville, Va.: University Press of Virginia, 2000), 8. Published 'only a year after *The Origin of Species* . . . [it] seemed to complete the destruction of the bases of traditional Christianity begun in Darwin's book' (Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 35). More than 20,000 copies were sold by 1862; 'the total run in England from 1860 to the thirteenth edition of 1869 was 24,250 copies. Such numbers compare favorably with popular novelists, for instance with the normal first thirty-thousand run of Dickens's novels.' Shea and Whitla, 'Reading "An Epoch"', 25. The volume features seven texts: Frederick Temple, 'The Education of the World', Rowland Williams, 'Bunsen's Biblical Researches', Baden Powell, 'On the Study of the Evidences of Christianity', Henry Bristow Wilson, 'Séances Historiques de Genève: The National Church', Charles Wycliffe Goodwin, 'Mosaic Cosmogony', Mark Pattison, 'Tendencies of Religious Thought in England, 1688–1750', and Benjamin Jowett, 'On the Interpretation of Scripture'. In D.VII.2, GMH transcribes passages from Pattison's essay.

supported unstintingly by the Bishop of Oxford, Samuel Wilberforce. On 7 February 1863 Jowett, who had contributed a rationalist discussion, 'On the Interpretation of Scripture', to the volume, was issued a summons or 'monition' by the Vice-Chancellor's Court; the proceedings began on Friday, 13 February, conducted by a specially appointed Assessor, Mr Montague Bernard.²⁰⁸ Ultimately, Bernard dismissed the heresy suit for jurisdictional reasons, but Pusey continued to agitate against Jowett.²⁰⁹ It is not surprising that, in a January 1865 letter, Jowett referred to Balliol as "the War Office", in which after all that I have done for them (forgive this boasting), I am only an inferior clerk, having to force along the inefficiency of others who hate me';²¹⁰ two months later he confessed to A. P. Stanley that 'the position at Balliol is a painful one, but I get more used to it'.²¹¹ Hopkins was caught in the crossfire from 1863 to 1867; his first impression, that Balliol was 'the friendliest and snuggest of colleges' (*Corr.* 22.04.1863), was quickly dispelled.

THE OXFORD SYSTEM

Scholarships and 'Exhibitions'

Prospective students competed for college exhibitions through special examinations, written over several days. Hopkins's exams (18–21

²⁰⁸ The Vice-Chancellor was J. P. Lightfoot, Rector of Exeter College; the case was brought forward by Pusey, C. A. Heurtley (1806–95, Lady Margaret Professor of Divinity), and C. A. Ogilvie (1793–1873, Fellow of Balliol 1816–34, then Regius Professor of Pastoral Theology). The lead article in the London *Times* of 14 February 'attacked Pusey, Heurtley, and Ogilvie for availing themselves of an archaic legal manoeuvre, in hauling Jowett before a court "the jurisdiction of which has practically been confined to the recovery of small debts"' (quoted in Shea and Whitla, 'Reading "An Epoch"', 9), and denounced the 'vindictive persecutions' and 'rusty engine of intolerance'. Pusey responded by writing six letters to the *Times* during the next month. On 4 March, while the court was still considering its opinion, 'a testimonial on Jowett's behalf, signed by almost four hundred of his pupils and friends, was published in the *Times*'. Shea and Whitla (eds.), *Essays and Reviews*, 788–9, 799.

²⁰⁹ What did GMH know about the controversy when he came up to Oxford two months later? Undoubtedly people were still discussing the book, and the case, avidly. The petition protesting 'against the PROSECUTION of Professor Jowett' which appeared in the *Times* on 4 March was signed by forty-two current students and Fellows of Balliol.

²¹⁰ Jowett, *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 40.

²¹¹ Quoted in Abbott and Campbell, *Life and Letters*, i. 374.

February 1863) included the following exercises: an English essay on 'Political Consistency'; translate, from English to Latin, twenty-one lines of prose; translate, from English to Greek, twenty-one lines of prose; translate, into Latin hexameters, twenty-two lines of English verse; translate, into Latin elegiacs, twelve lines of verse; translate, into Greek iambs, nineteen lines of English verse; translate, into English, twenty lines of Aristophanes, twenty-four lines of Thucydides, twenty-one lines of Theocritus; translate, into English, twenty-one lines of Lucretius, twenty-nine lines of Cicero, nineteen lines of Tacitus; ten divinity questions; six historical questions, ranging from the history of Tyre and the life of Thomas à Beckett to the American Declaration of Independence; and twelve mathematical problems.²¹² Hopkins was awarded his 'open' exhibition in late February 1863.

Tutorials and Lectures

From the outset of their university careers, students were divided into two groups: 'the reading men' and 'the non-reading men'. The former would take full advantage of the university's three-tiered instructional system: college tutorials, professorial lectures, and private tutoring ('coaching'). The attention paid to tutorials varied from college to college. Each term, a student was assigned to a principal tutor, to whom he would read his weekly essay. At Balliol, Robert Scott also required a weekly 'Master's essay'. Announcements regarding the university professors' lectures were posted at the beginning of each term.

Private Tutors or 'Coaches'

'It was almost an invariable rule', observes A. M. M. Stedman, 'for the future first class man to "coach".'²¹³ According to the unofficial students' handbook of the day, Montagu Burrows's *Pass and Class*, private tutoring per eight-week term consisted of hour-long sessions three times a week, all for a fee (paid by the student) of £10. 'It [was] pretty nearly a universal rule with Class-men', circa the 1860s, 'to read two Terms with a Tutor before the day of trial.'²¹⁴ By starting his work with Walter Pater in the spring of 1866, a full year (or four terms) before

²¹² Bodleian MS Per. 2626 e. 36.

²¹³ Stedman, *Oxford: Its Life and Schools* (London, 1887), 262.

²¹⁴ Montagu Burrows, *Pass and Class, an Oxford Guide-Book Through the Courses of Literae Humaniores, Mathematics, Natural Sciences, and Law and Modern History* (Oxford, 1860), 61–2, 60.

Greata, Hopkins was perhaps trying to regain ground that had been lost during his year of personal and religious crises, Lent 1865 to Lent 1866. The university's dependence on private, 'unofficial' tutors was interrogated thoroughly by the Royal Commissions of 1850–2. Those who gave evidence in favour of the system included H. L. Mansel (Fellow, Tutor, and Dean of Arts, St John's College), W. C. Lake (Balliol), and George Rawlinson (Exeter).²¹⁵

Reading 'Parties'

Oxford students were expected to study during their Easter holidays and summer vacations (the 'Long'). To lighten the work with some pleasure, reading parties were organized, preferably in some rural retreat, often with a favourite tutor. Not surprisingly, the young men were very competitive regarding invitations to join particular groups or dons. 'I have no one to read with in the Long', J. A. Symonds lamented to his sister in March 1861:

Jowett has not asked me to go with him, & I cannot well propose it myself. He is going to take another man to read with him in the Easter Vacation. Before I go down I must try to speak to him alone and insinuate that I have no one to read with in the Long. More than that I cannot do. If he wd only take the hint and ask me to come & stay with him, I should be so happy. If he does not, I think I must retire for a few weeks with my friend [W. R. W.] Stephens alone to some quiet village in Wales & read my books.²¹⁶

Hopkins studied in Wales in July 1864. In the summer of 1866 he stayed 'at a farm between two and three miles fr. Horsham in Sussex with [Alfred] Garrett of our college and [William] Macfarlane of St. John's' (*Corr.* 24.07.1866).

Examinations

Many students were conditioned to pursue avidly the honours enshrined in the university's examination system. Mark Pattison, Rector of Lincoln College in Hopkins's day, was one of the most outspoken critics of 'cramming' for Honours. 'Oxford is now, with respect to its candidates for honours, little more than an examining body', he complained

²¹⁵ The hearings and findings of the Oxford University Commission (1852) are summarized in A. J. Engel, *From Clergyman to Don: The Rise of the Academic Profession in Nineteenth-Century Oxford* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1984), 38–41.

²¹⁶ *Letters*, ed. Schueller and Peters, i. 279.

in 1868. 'What caused this failure? The tyranny of the examination system. This tyranny has destroyed all desire to learn. All the aspirations of a liberal curiosity, all disinterested desire for self-improvement, is crushed before the one sentiment which now animates the honour-student, to stand high in the class-list.'²¹⁷ Previous examinations, to be used as study guides, could be purchased from the printers, John Henry & James Parker, for sixpence. Each year, the Oxford University Calendar would provide detailed information about the 'time required' for degrees (the minimum and maximum number of terms in residence required), and examination dates and subject requirements.

Matriculation. Entrance examinations, usually tried the term before taking up residence in the university.²¹⁸ Subjects included: divinity (the Gospels in Greek), two Greek texts (Homer and 'some Attic author'), one Latin text (Virgil, Cicero, or Livy), translations from English into Latin prose, Greek and Latin grammar, Euclid Books I and II, arithmetic. Students also underwent a formal matriculation ceremony soon after arriving at Oxford. Hopkins matriculated 18 April 1863, a week after his arrival.

Responsions. Unofficially known as 'Smalls', the first formal university examinations conducted by the Masters of the Schools. The authors and texts required for *Literae Humaniores* were as follows: Homer, any five consecutive books; Sophocles, Aeschylus, Euripides, two plays each; Herodotus, any two consecutive books in the first volume; Thucydides, any two consecutive books; Xenophon's *Anabasis*, any four consecutive books; Virgil, *Georgics*, *Eclogues*, and any five consecutive books of the *Aeneid*; Horace, *De Arte Poetica* and the *Satires*, *Epistles*, or any three books of the *Odes*; Juvenal, the whole canon except for *Satires* II, VI, and IX; Terence, any three plays; Livy, any three consecutive books; Sallust; Cicero, two orations against Verres, four orations against Catiline, four other orations, two books of *De Officiis*, *De Amicitia*, *De Senectute*; Euclid, Books I and II. Written papers and an oral examination (*viva voce*) were required, in these subjects:²¹⁹ algebra or Euclid; arithmetic; Greek and Latin grammar; translation from English into Latin prose; and one Greek and one

²¹⁷ Pattison, *Suggestions on Academical Organisation, with Especial Reference to Oxford* (Edinburgh, 1868), 244.

²¹⁸ In *Suggestions on Academical Organisation*, 335, Pattison provides the following statistics for numbers of students matriculating in Oxford: 1863, 452; 1864, 476; 1865, 524; 1866, 517; 1867, 501.

²¹⁹ Bodleian MS Per. 2626 e. 169.

Latin author. Successful candidates received a written certificate or *testamur* from the clerk of the Schools. In July 1863 Hopkins informed Alexander Baillie, 'We all got through Smalls. Hardy after the seizure of his *testamur* became light-headed, light-hearted, light-heeled. He, Brown and I proceeded to booze at the Mitre, and I forgot to pay my share, but I believe Hardy meant to feast us, in his delight' (*Corr.* 10.07.1863).

Moderations. The first set of public university examinations; for *Litterae Humaniores* students, they were taken 'at least six terms following' matriculation²²⁰ and conducted by the Moderators. At this time, students had to declare whether or not they were pursuing Honours degrees. Required authors and texts were as follows: Sophocles, *Oedipus Rex*, *Ajax*, *Philoctetes*; Demosthenes, *Olynthiacs* and *Philippics*; Homer, *Iliad* I–VI; Demosthenes, *De Corona*; Virgil, *Aeneid* V–VI; Cicero, *In Catilinam*²²¹ and *Pro Murena*; Horace, *Odes* I–III, *Epistles*, Books I, II; Juvenal, *Satires* (omitting *Satires* II, VI, IX). In addition, candidates vying for the 'highest Honours' were expected to prepare: Homer, any twelve consecutive books; Aeschylus, Sophocles, five plays each; Euripides, six plays; Aristophanes, four plays; all of Pindar, Theocritus; Demosthenes, *De Corona* and other orations; Herodotus, any five consecutive books; Thucydides, any four consecutive books; Virgil, Horace, Lucretius, the whole of each; Terence and Plautus, four plays each; Catullus and Propertius; Cicero, nine additional orations; Tacitus, the first six books of the *Annals*, the *Histories*; Livy, any six consecutive books. Written papers and a viva voce were required; the arduous assessment included:²²² the four Gospels, in Greek; logic or mathematics; translate, into Latin prose, twenty lines of English prose; translate, into Latin hexameters, twenty lines of English verse; translate, into Latin elegiacs, an English sonnet; translate, into Latin lyrics, nineteen lines of English verse; translate selected lines of English verse into Greek tragic iambs, hexameters, comic verse, and anapests; discuss three books selected by the candidate from a list issued by the Board of Examiners, of which at least one was in Greek, and one either a historical or philosophical text; translate and discuss passages from Latin writers (Virgil, Horace, Juvenal, Lucretius, Persius, Plautus, Cicero, Livy, Tacitus) and Greek authors (Homer, Sophocles, Aeschylus, Aristophanes, Euripides,

²²⁰ Allsopp, 'Hopkins at Oxford 1863–1867', 168.

²²¹ Which of the four *In Catilinam* speeches were required is not specified.

²²² Bodleian MS Per. 2626 e. 170.

Theocritus, Pindar, Demosthenes, Thucydides); Greek and Roman philology and grammar. Successful candidates again received a written certificate or *testamur* from the clerk of the Schools.²²³

Greats. The second and final set of public university examinations, also entailing written papers and a viva. At the outset of their preparations, candidates were advised that 'The books must be studied with reference to their subject matter. Papers are set—1st, on Greek and Roman History, requiring besides the original Authors here specified, a knowledge of the most approved modern works, as Niebuhr, Arnold, Thirwall, and Grote. 2nd, on Logic and Political and Moral Philosophy: the Papers bearing mainly on the books of Aristotle, Plato, Bacon, and Butler.'²²⁴ In addition to studying ancient history (chronology, geography, and antiquities), composition, and logic, candidates for the 'highest Honours' also prepared the following: Aristotle, *Rhetoric*, *Nicomachean Ethics*, *Politics*; Plato, *Republic*; Herodotus; Thucydides; Livy, ten books; Tacitus, the *Histories* and *Annals*, Books I–VI; Bacon, *Novum Organon*; Butler's *Sermons* or *Analogy*. Hopkins's examination subjects:²²⁵ translate, into Latin prose, twenty-two lines of English prose; translate, into Greek prose, seventeen lines of English prose; translate and comment upon passages from Latin (Livy, Tacitus) and Greek (Herodotus, Thucydides, Plato, Aristotle) authors; Roman history; Greek history; political philosophy; moral philosophy; logic; the history of philosophy. Small wonder that Hopkins observed to Bridges in November 1867, 'Is not the thought of Greats like a mill-stone round your neck now? It was to me' (*Corr.* 1.11.1867).

Enforcing Orthodoxy: The Religious 'Tests'

University reforms in 1850 did not include the complete abolition of the 'Tests', the prerequisite that obliged every member of the university—undergraduate, Tutor, or Regius Professor—to subscribe to the Thirty-Nine Articles of the Church of England and the three articles of the Thirty-Sixth Canon. Consequently, 'The University of Oxford was not only a closed religious corporation, but an exclusively Anglican one.'²²⁶ (The Tests were finally abolished in 1871.) Prior to

²²³ For a heartfelt, detailed account of 'the incubus [of] moderations' and its emotional and intellectual burdens, consult Symonds's letters to his family, 21 April to 3 June 1860. Symonds, *Letters*, ed. Schueller and Peters, i. 228–44.

²²⁴ 'The Oxford Examinations. 1865' (Oxford: Rivingtons, 1865). Bodleian MS Oxon 40 277.

²²⁵ Bodleian MS Per. 2626 e.17.

²²⁶ Bergonzi, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 9.

1854, candidates had to 'sign' the Tests at matriculation and before taking the BA and MA. The Oxford University Reform Act 1854, sections 43 and 44, forbade the imposition of any Tests at matriculation. Subsequently, there was a movement at Balliol to impose the Tests at the college level. On 8 June 1863 Hopkins wrote to his mother, 'There has been a petition got up among the Undergraduates against the abolition of tests. . . . It has been numerously signed; there are more than 900, that is three quarters of the whole, names. I signed, but I am not quite firmly convinced—yet on the whole I think I was very right. Yes I think I was quite right' (*Corr.* 8.06.1863). Ironically, the whole question of the Tests would affect him four years later when university authorities had to decide if a convert to Roman Catholicism could take an Oxford BA.²²⁷

ACADEMIC RESOURCES IN THE 1860s

Each term, the *University Intelligence* pamphlet would recommend primary and secondary reading materials for examination candidates; reading lists were also published in the annual *Oxford University Calendar*. In addition, students had a range of handbooks and 'self-help' guides to choose from, including the frequently revised *Pass and Class*, an *Oxford Guide-Book Through the Courses of Literae Humaniores, Mathematics, Natural Sciences, and Law and Modern History* by Montagu Burrows (1860). Adam Storey Farrar's *Hints to Students in Reading for Classical Honours* (1856) was also popular, along with the anonymous *Hints to Freshmen in the University of Oxford* (1853). *Pass and Class* was particularly helpful in suggesting titles of texts utilized by Hopkins, his peers, and his instructors. Like many colleges, Balliol did not offer students access to its library; Hopkins relied on the lending library at the Oxford Union, and the Bodleian.

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²²⁷ Goldwin Smith (1823–1910), Regius Professor of Modern History at Oxford from 1858 to 1866, discusses the issue at length in *A Plea for the Abolition of Tests in the University of Oxford* (Oxford, 1864). For a supportive review of Smith's work, see 'The Abolition of Religious Tests', *Westminster Review*, 81/160 (Apr. 1864), 179–85.

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AESTHETIC OPPORTUNITIES

Every Oxford college has its private treasure-hoard of portraits, plate, stained glass windows, statues, medallions, and illuminated manuscripts. The chapel of Corpus Christi, for example, features Rubens's *Adoration of the Shepherds*; the altarpiece at Merton 'is by Tintoret' (*Jour.* 04.1865). Some colleges have been particularly well endowed. In the 1860s, the impressive collection of paintings at Christ Church was displayed in the college library. Two major benefactions—the bequests of General John Guise (1765) and W. J. Fox-Strangways (1828, 1834)—had brought to Christ Church's walls a splendid sampling of Old Masters: paintings by Tintoretto and Veronese, and by members of the schools of Leonardo, Raphael, Duccio, Fra Angelico, Mantegna, and Piero della Francesca; some early Tuscan Renaissance canvases; two panels, each featuring five sibyls, from Botticelli's studio; portraits by Van Dyck and Reynolds; and landscapes by such luminaries as Salvator Rosa. Copies of major works were also on hand, as well as exquisite, original drawings by Raphael, Michelangelo, Leonardo da Vinci, Titian, and Correggio.²²⁸

²²⁸ Christ Church's collection can now be viewed in the college's Picture Gallery, which opened in 1968. For a complete catalogue, see J. Byam Shaw, *Paintings by Old Masters at Christ Church, Oxford* (London: Phaidon Press, 1967).

The university's collections were primarily on view in the Old Schools building (sculpture) and the University Galleries, which were constructed along with the Taylorian Institute in the 1840s.²²⁹ At the Galleries one could see the Lawrence/Woodburn collection of drawings by Raphael and Michelangelo (1846), paintings of the early Italian Renaissance, including Uccello's *A Hunt in the Forest* (donated by Fox-Strangways in 1850), the Douce collection of European paintings (1863), J. M. W. Turner watercolours, drawings by Watteau, and the first of several gifts (drawings and watercolours) by Ruskin. Cypriot artefacts and bronzes and the varied riches of the Tradescant family were also on display. Sculpture enthusiasts had access at the Old Schools to the superb collection of ancient statues, monuments, and inscription stones once owned by Thomas Howard, Earl of Arundel.²³⁰ Casts of the *Laocoön*, the Townley *Venus*, and several other major works were on display in the Radcliffe Camera. The only life-sized piece of Renaissance sculpture in Oxford stood in the front quad of Brasenose College, a replica of Giambologna's *Samson* that met an untimely end in the 1880s.

Pre-Raphaelite enthusiasts could still see the fading frescoes at the Oxford Union—the library of which included illustrated folios, engravings, and books such as Anna Jameson's *Sacred and Legendary Art* (1848).²³¹ 'All dons had line-engravings' in their rooms, Humphry Ward recalls, 'but they were all after Raphael. [Walter] Pater had something more characteristic: the "Three Fates", attributed to M. Angelo; a head after Correggio; and I think something of Ingres—a new name to Oxford!'²³² Hopkins, therefore, had ample opportunity to view regularly, and become familiar with, a wide range of *objets d'art*. And within easy travelling distance of Oxford and his Hampstead home were the riches of London's galleries and art institutions: everything from the

²²⁹ See David Piper, *The Treasures of Oxford* (London: Paddington Press, 1977).

²³⁰ The Earl of Arundel donated much of his collection to Oxford in 1667; the sculpture was presented in 1755. Until the 1870s the sculpture was housed in the Old Schools buildings; it was then transferred to the new Ashmolean Museum (now known as the Old Ashmolean, the Museum of the History of Science), next to the Sheldonian Theatre.

²³¹ MacKenzie, 'Hopkins and St. Dorothea', in John North and Michael Moore (eds.), *Vital Candle* (Waterloo, Ont.: University of Waterloo Press, 1984), 32. The 1875 catalogue of the Union Society's library indexes more than 120 authors of books on the philosophy, history, and criticism of art; more than thirty books on architecture are also listed. Many of these would have been in the library when GMH was an undergraduate.

²³² Quoted in Benson, *Walter Pater*, 18.

Elgin Marbles at the British Museum and the paintings in the National Gallery to the Cast Gallery at the South Kensington Museum (subsequently renamed the Victoria and Albert) and the annual exhibitions at the Royal Academy and the British Institution. A visit to the latter, in the summer of 1864, prompted the following comments to Alexander Baillie:

I went yesterday to the Junior Water Colours and the British Institution (Old Masters). The latter were charming. I had a silent gush before a Gainsborough. . . . There was a portrait of a handsome young gentleman by Leonardo (it is most knowing of all to write it Lionardo), a Baptism of Our Lord by Luini, exquisite grace refined almost into effeminacy. There were numbers of Gainsboroughs, Sir Joshuas [Reynolds] and Romneys. Romney is like them. Five Velasquezes, a Murillo, a Zurbaran, many Canalettos, which I have now unbared; . . . But I have *invented* a Canaletto with genius. His name is Guardi. If you see any of his things do not pass them by. The colouring is no warmer than Canaletto's, but the difference is vast. There were also Carlo Dolces, a Sasso Ferrato, Correggios, Rembrandt's Mill, Vandycks, Wouvermans, Tenierses, Hobbimas, a charming Cuyp, Holbeins, and a very fine landscape painter we have, Crome of Norwich. There was a landscape by Sir Joshua Reynolds, curiously. Also Sir Thomas Lawrences, Sir Peter Lelys, and Sir A. W. Calcotts. (20.07.1864)

Gallery-gazing, then, complemented Hopkins's theoretical reading (especially Ruskin's *Modern Painters* and *The Elements of Drawing*) and his practical experience as a visual artist. All three sources of expertise were called on for undergraduate essays such as 'On the signs of health and decay in the arts' (D.I.6)²³³ and 'On the true idea and excellence of sculpture' (D.V.1), and for the 1865 Platonic dialogue 'On the Origin of Beauty' (D.IV).

²³³ An essay undoubtedly prompted by comments made in D.I.5, 'On the rise of Greek Prose-writing'. 'For in a state of intellectual activity', GMH observes, 'no art is content to work out its materials completely or perfect to its realism, but aims early at idealism. And one of the dangers to intellectual progress comes from the tendency to dwell on the first attained idealisms. Healthy art is always breaking from them, forming new ones, and then again advancing. . . . [H]istory seems to show that the final triumph of idealism is the ruin of Art' (fos. 14-15).

EDITORIAL NOTES

PRINCIPLES OF TRANSCRIPTION AND TRANSLATION

‘Not read my writing?’, Hopkins once teased Robert Bridges. ‘Alas, how far from the path of salvation must that man be that endeavours to persuade his conscience he cannot read my writing!’ (*Corr.* 8.04.1879). Every attempt has been made to preserve the appearance and spirit of these undergraduate essays and notes. Cancelled words and phrases, and changes in punctuation (sometimes the work of a tutor), have been included in the text. I have followed Hopkins’s practice of placing punctuation outside closing quotation marks, and utilizing double quotation marks (“ ”). Hopkins’s consistent use of abbreviations—for *about* (abt.), *against* (agst.), *between* (betw.), *could* (cd.), *from* (fr.), *great* (gt.), *Greek* (Gk.), *point* (pt.), *should* (shd.), *which* (wh.), *would* (wd.), and *your* (yr.)—has not been altered. The spelling too remains Hopkins’s—with characteristic forms such as ‘mythes’, ‘shew’, and ‘Heracleitus’; interesting misspellings (‘Compte’ instead of Comte); and deliberate archaisms (‘treweth’ rather than truth). In his academic notes, Hopkins uses the same system of abbreviations and markings found in the diaries C.I and C.II: θ = ‘th’ and ‘the’; $\cap$ = ‘and’; $\cup$ = ‘of’; words and letters have been silently restored. Square brackets [] indicate editorial work; angled brackets < > indicate Hopkins’s infrequent use of square brackets. References to the Bible are to book, chapter, and verse according to the Authorized (King James) Version, which Hopkins used as an undergraduate. The Book of Common Prayer is also cited using an edition contemporary with Hopkins.

The Greek materials have presented special challenges. For the most part, errors or omissions in Greek words and their accents have been silently corrected. References for Greek authors are usually made to the texts and translations in the Loeb Classical Library, as these are the most readily accessible. For the essays on Pre-Socratic philosophers (Xenophanes, Parmenides, Zeno, and Melissus), however, Hopkins’s engagement with the precise words of the texts—and the complexity of the ideas conveyed by those words—makes it prudent to present exactly what he wrote, including the numerous cancelled phrases, and to

provide in the notes references to standard editions and translations to allow future scholars to do the necessary fuller explanatory work. The multiplicity of references is unavoidable: different editions of the texts, from Hopkins's time to our own, offer significantly different readings, and a full 'archaeological' explanation is beyond the scope of a diplomatic edition. All translations appear in braces { }.

CITING OTHER WORKS BY HOPKINS

All of the volumes in the *Collected Works* feature the same date-specific citation practices. Letters written by and to Hopkins are identified in this way (the notation '19.04.1866', for example, represents 19 April 1866), as are any sermons or spiritual commentaries. Entries from various personal notebooks and journals (C.I, C.II, A.I, A.II, A.III, A.IV, A.V) are dated as exactly as possible; in some cases, only the month or season (winter, spring, summer, autumn) and year can be ascertained. When necessary, the following abbreviations are used to identify specific volumes:

<i>Corr.</i>	<i>Correspondence</i>
<i>Jour.</i>	<i>Journals, Diaries, and Notebooks</i>
<i>Serm.</i>	<i>Sermons and Spiritual Writings</i>

POEMS AND POETRY FRAGMENTS BY HOPKINS

All poems and poetry fragments cited in the present volume are listed below. Where a short title has been used the expansion is given in the right-hand column.

'A Complaint'	
'A noise of waters'	'I hear a noise of waters drawn away'
'A soliloquy'	'A soliloquy of one of the spies left in the wilderness'
'A Voice'	'A Voice from the World'
'A windy day'	'A windy day in summer'
'Alchemist'	'The Alchemist in the city'
'Although she be'	'Although she be more white'
'As kingfishers'	'As kingfishers catch fire, dragonflies draw flame'
'Barnfloor'	'Barnfloor and Winepress'

- 'Binsey Poplars'
 'Caged Skylark' 'The Caged Skylark'
 'Candle' 'The Candle Indoors'
 'Carrion Comfort'
 'Confirmed beauty' 'Confirmed beauty will not bear a stress'
 'Duns Scotus' 'Duns Scotus's Oxford'
 'During the 'During the eastering of untainted morns'
 eastering '
 'Earth and heaven' 'The earth and heaven, so little known'
 'Easter'
 'Easter Communion'
 'Elopement' 'The Elopement'
 'Escorial' 'The Escorial'
 'Euridyce' 'The Loss of the Euridyce'
 'Floris' 'Floris in Italy'
 'Foolish bands' 'Why should their foolish bands, their hopeless
 hearses'
 'Fragment of 'A fragment of anything you like
 anything'
 'Glimmer'd along' 'Glimmer'd along the square-cut steep'
 'God's Grandeur'
 'Habit of Perfection' 'The Habit of Perfection'
 'Half-way House' 'The Half-way House'
 'Hard thing' 'It was a hard thing to undo this knot'
 'Harry Ploughman'
 'He hath abolish'd' 'He hath abolish'd the old drouth'
 'Heaven-Haven'
 'Henry Purcell'
 'Heraclitean Fire' 'That Nature is a Heraclitean Fire and of the
 comfort of the Resurrection'
 'Hurrahing in
 Harvest'
 'I must hunt' 'I must hunt down the prize'
 'I wake and feel' 'I wake and feel the fell of dark, not day'
 'Il Mystico'
 '*Inundatio*' '*Inundatio Oxoniana*'
 'Inversnaid'
 'Io'
 '*Jesu Dulcis*' '*Jesu Dulcis Memoria*'
 'Leaden Echo' 'The Leaden Echo and the Golden Echo'

'Let me be'	'Let me be to Thee as the circling bird'
'Love me'	'Love me as I love thee. O double sweet!'
'Love preparing'	'Love preparing to fly'
'Lover's Stars'	'The Lover's Stars'
'Magnificat'	'The May Magnificat'
'Moonless darkness'	'Moonless darkness stands between'
'Mortal Beauty'	'To what serves Mortal Beauty?'
'My prayers'	'My prayers must meet a brazen heaven'
'Myself unholy'	'Myself unholy, from myself unholy'
'New Readings'	'New Readings (two versions)'
'Nightingale'	'The Nightingale'
'No, they are come'	'No, they are come; their horn is lifted up'
'No worst'	'No worst, there is none'
' <i>Nondum</i> '	
'O Death'	'O Death, Death, He is come'
'O what a silence'	'O what a silence is this wilderness!'
' <i>Oratio Patris</i>	'To Jesus Living in Mary (<i>Oratio Patris</i>
<i>Condren</i> '	<i>Condren</i>)'
'Peace'	
'Peacock's eye'	'The peacock's eye (two versions)'
'Picture of	'For a Picture of Saint Dorothea'
Dorothea'	
'Pied Beauty'	
'Pilate'	
' <i>Prometheus</i> '	'Aeschylus: <i>Prometheus Desmotes</i> '
'Queen's Crowning'	
'Rainbow'	'The rainbow'
'Ribblesdale'	
'Richard'	
'St. Thecla'	
'St Winefred's Well'	
'See how Spring'	'See how Spring opens with disabling cold'
'Shakspere'	
'She schools'	'She schools the flighty pupils of her eyes'
'Sibyl's Leaves'	'Spelt from Sibyl's Leaves'
'Spring'	
'Spring and Death'	
'Star Images'	'Star Images: September to December 1864'
' <i>Summa</i> '	
'The beginning'	'The beginning of the end'

'Thou are indeed just'	'Thou are indeed just, Lord, if I contend'
'To Jesus'	'To Jesus on my bed I sue'
'To Oxford'	
'To seem the stranger'	'To seem the stranger lies my lot, my life'
'To R. B.'	
'Tom's Garland'	
'Trees'	'Trees by their yield'
'Vision of Mermaids'	'A Vision of the Mermaids'
'What shall I do'	'What shall I do for the land that bred me'
'When eyes'	'When eyes that cast about the heights of heaven'
'Where art thou'	'Where art thou friend, whom I shall never see'
'Why if it be'	'Why if it be so, for the dismal morn'
'Windhover'	'The Windhover'
'Winter—1863'	'Winter in the Gulf Stream' [version published in 1863]
'Wreck'	'The Wreck of the Deutschland'

MANUSCRIPTS

With one exception (D.II), the manuscripts involved in this volume are housed in Campion Hall, Oxford, part of its extensive Hopkins Archive.

D.I Notebook 19 × 22.5 cm, with maroon-coloured cloth cover. The first eight leaves have been removed; the first part of the leaf now numbered '1' has also been cut away. Inscribed inside the front cover: 'Gerard M. Hopkins./ Essays.' 26 leaves.

D.II Notebook 19 × 22.5 cm; black paper cover. The top right-hand corner of the front cover has been cut away in two places to reveal 'Credit and the causes of commercial crises' and 'ETC'. 22 leaves.¹

D.III Notebook identical with D.II, 19 × 22.5 cm. The top right-hand corner of the front cover is cut away to reveal: 'ESSAYS.—W. H.

¹ This notebook was presented to Balliol College in 1963 to commemorate the centenary of GMH's enrolment in the college. A photocopy of the manuscript is available at Campion Hall.

P.' Inscribed inside the front cover: 'Essays | for W. H. Pater Esq. | Gerard M. Hopkins.' 22 leaves; some notes on versos.

D.IV Notebook similar in style to D.II, but 19×23.5 cm. The top right-hand corner of the front cover is cut away to reveal: 'PLAT. DIAL.' Inscribed inside the front cover: 'Gerard M. Hopkins. | May 12, 1865.' 22 leaves; the notebook is to be read front to back, then turned over and read back to front.

D.V Notebook identical with D.IV, 19×23.5 cm. The top right-hand corner of the front cover is cut away to reveal: 'ESSAYS.—SCULPTURE, ETC.' Inscribed inside the front cover: 'Gerard M. Hopkins. | May 22, 1865.' 22 leaves.

D.VI Notebook identical with D.II, 19×22.5 cm. The top right-hand corner of the front cover and the first leaf are cut away. Inscribed inside the front cover: 'Gerard M. Hopkins. | Essays.' 22 leaves; the last is blank.

D.VII Notebook identical with D.II, 19×22.5 cm. The top right-hand corner of the front cover is cut away, but no title appears in the upper right-hand corner of the first leaf. Inscribed inside the front cover: 'Gerard Manley Hopkins. | Jan. 27, 1866.' Inscribed inside the back cover, to be read after turning the notebook upside down: 'Gerard Manley Hopkins.' (The covers are detached; this 'back' cover was undoubtedly the front cover of a notebook now lost.) Ten leaves remain in the notebook, six of which are used.

D.VIII Notebook identical with D.II, 19×22.5 cm. The top right-hand corner of the front cover is cut away to reveal: 'PLATO'S PHILOSOPHY—R. W.' 22 leaves; a notebook to be read front to back, then turned over and read back to front. The last three leaves are blank.

D.IX Notebook similar to D.II, but 19×23 cm. The top right-hand corner of the front cover is cut away to reveal: 'ESSAYS—HILARY TERM '67.' Inscribed inside the front cover: 'Gerard M. J. F. Hopkins. | Essays.' Half of the leaves have been removed; eleven remain.

D.X Notebook similar to D.II, but 16.4×19.9 cm. The top right-hand corner of the front cover is cut away to reveal: 'T. H. G.' Inscribed inside the front cover: 'Gerard M. Hopkins. | Essays for T. H. Green Esq.' 22 leaves; some notes on versos.

D.XI Notebook similar to D.II, but 16.4×19.9 cm. The top right-hand corner of the front cover is cut away to reveal: 'R. WILLIAMS.' Inscribed inside the front cover: 'Gerard M. Hopkins. | Essays.' 20 leaves; extensive use of versos.

D.XII Notebook similar to D.II, but 16.4×19.9 cm. The top right-hand corner of the front cover is cut away to reveal: 'NOTES ON GK. PHILOSOPHY.' Inscribed inside the front cover: 'Gerard M. Hopkins. — Notes on the history of Greek philosophy etc.' 22 leaves.

OXFORD ESSAYS AND NOTES

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D.I

Gerard M. Hopkins.

Essays



D.I.1

An Explanation and criticism of Subject, Predicate, Copula and Attribute, with an especial reference to the import of propositions.¹

It is usual to speak of the first term of a proposition as the subject, of the last term as the predicate, and of the connection between them as the copula. And these expressions are often used without distinction of theory. But strictly speaking the words subject and predicate bind one to one particular theory, a theory which has been supported lately by Sir William Hamilton. According to this view the predicate is the name of a class to which the subject belongs. Hence it is said whatever is affirmed or denied of the class must be affirmed or denied of every member of the class; and this is the well-known dictum de omni et nullo. It was first made by Aristotle.²

The opponents of this view say that the dictum is a mere truism, for this reason. The dictum cannot mean that what is true of the class collectively is true of each member of the class, e.g. the class Londoners are 3,000,000 in number, so-and-so is a Londoner, therefore he is 3,000,000 in number. It must mean therefore that the class is to be taken distributively, so that the dictum becomes this—What is true of a class taken distributively is true of the each member of the class,—or What is true of a class taken by each member of that class is true of each member of the class, a piece of tautology.

The other theory holds that the last term, the so-called predicate, is an attribute of the first term. The first theory therefore makes the predicate a whole of extension, the second makes the subject a whole of intention.

It would appear that the first theory is opposed to the laws of actual thought as will appear from the following case. If a child who has lived in a house away from the highroad, and seen only the house-dog, be shewn a book in which is a picture of a quadruped (say a bear), the child will call it by the name of the house-dog. Now on Sir William Hamilton's grounds³ the child must conceive of a class of things to which both the dog ~~she~~ it knows and the bear in the book belong; the dog and the bear resemble each other in shape, especially and prominently in being four-legged; the class then must be of four-legged living things. But long before the child had an opportunity of finding there was a class called quadrupeds it had associated the being four-legged with the dog it knew. The being four-legged had up to that time been an attribute of the dog in the child's mind; and certainly not, as Sir W. Hamilton would have it, the mark of its belonging to the class of quadrupeds. And so now the child in calling the picture by the dog's name shews a knowledge of the animal in the picture only as being like, that is, having the attributes of, the dog ~~to which~~ to which its experience extends, not of the animal in the picture and the dog as equally possessing the quality which is the mark of a class ~~independent of~~ greater than either of them.

The copula, positive or negative, is only a part of formal logic which makes the relation of two concepts understood on paper, and has no existence in the mind.⁴

1. GMH's principal sources are Sir William Hamilton and John Stuart Mill. See Hamilton, *Lectures on Metaphysics and Logic*, ed. H. L. Mansel and John Veitch, 4 vols. (Edinburgh, 1859–60), ii. 336–7; Lecture XXXVII on metaphysics. 'Every time we judge', observes Hamilton, 'we compare a total conception with a partial, and we recognise that the latter really constitutes a part of the former. One of these conceptions has received the name of *subject*, the other that of *attribute or predicate*. The verb which connects these two parts is called the *copula*. . . . The whole mental argument formed by the subject, predicate, and copula, is called, when enounced in words, proposition.' *Lectures*, ii. 336. See also Mill, *A System of Logic*, 2 vols. (London, 1843), vol. i. Mill's study eventually superseded Hamilton's as the pre-eminent Oxford text. In 1865 Mill published *An Examination of Sir Wm. Hamilton's Philosophy*. GMH may also have been familiar with the article on 'Logic' in *Encyclopaedia Britannica*, 8th edn. (1853–60), xiii. 567–634.
2. According to Mill, the logical maxim regarding the syllogism is, 'That whatever can be affirmed (or denied) of a class, may be affirmed (or denied) of everything included in the class. This axiom, supposed to be the basis of the syllogistic theory, is termed by logicians the *dictum de omni et nullo* {axiom of every and none}.' *A System of Logic*, i. 234. To rephrase: what is affirmed of a logical whole may be affirmed of a logical part of that whole, and what is denied of a logical whole may be denied of a logical part of that whole.

3. See Hamilton, *Lectures*, iii. 268–468. In his discussion of the ‘Chain-Syllogism or Sorites’ (Lecture XIX, iii. 366–71), Hamilton uses the example of the *Bicephalous*/horse/quadruped/animal class distinctions.
4. Initialled ‘RS’ [Robert Scott] in red.

D.I.2

Distinguish between the clearness and distinctness of concepts and state the method by which each is attained.

The clearness of a concept is the intelligent perception of the things it ~~deno~~ connotes, the distinctness that of the things it denotes. The following for instance is a distinct idea of primary colours—red, blue, and yellow. A concept is distincter the more it is divided; the vaguest concept as regards distinctness will be the summum genus ~~the~~ divided into its immediate genera, the most distinct the imum genus¹ divided into individuals, and an individual cannot by any process of thought be rendered a more distinct concept, though at the time it may be not at all a clear one. Division then is the process by which distinctness in concepts is attained.

Clearness in concepts is attained by definition. E.g. blue is a cold primary colour. The vaguest concept as regards clearness will be the one defined only as belonging to the summum genus, the clearest that defined as belonging to the imum genus and separated from the ~~in~~ other species of it.

To define then, that is to endeavour after clearness in concepts, it is necessary first to find the genus of the concept. In every day affairs it is seldom necessary to have to state the summum genus or indeed any of the higher genera, it being understood when a lower genus of the concept is given how its pedigree of genera runs up to the summum, but an absolutely clear definition requires all the genera to be known, and if in defining blue we only say of it that it is a cold primary colour it is because we presuppose the genera of “primary colour” to be known. If they are not our next step is to give genus after genus of “primary colour” till one is arrived at after which the pedigree is known, or failing this to reach the summum beyond which we cannot go. The second requisite is to give the so-called differentia. Again in ordinary life we use differentia which are often only generic, and in Logic it is not always necessary to do more, but the clearest definition requires the differentia to be such as distinguish the concept from other individuals of the lowest genus.

To turn to division which gives distinctness to concepts. Division is parting a concept into its genera, ~~one~~ the genera into lower genera, the lower into lower and so on, the lowest into individuals. Nearly all concepts however may be divided variously. It is necessary therefore that the same principle run through each division and each term be not included in any other term and have according to the present principle of division² nothing in common with it except possessing the properties of the summum genus, the concept first divided. Also each of the parts, and indeed the parts, short of all, taken together, must have less genera or individuals under them than the concept divided. And thirdly the parts must make up the whole divided concept, or in any words there must be nothing else of in which the property of the summum genus is found. These three rules being applied to every division we come to individuals where division ends.

Rules for ~~divis~~ definition are also laid down. The ~~thing~~ definition must be adequate to the concept defined, it must not include anything but the concept, and must not exclude any property of the concept, and secondly it must be plainer than the concept.

Clearness in concepts is attained by properly resolving a whole of intention, distinctness by properly resolving a whole of extension.³

1. GMH is distinguishing between the largest (*summum*) and the smallest (*imum*) class into which a concept may be placed.
2. Underlined in ink at the time of composition.
3. Initialed 'N' [William Newman]. Zaniello suggests that Newman, one of the Moderators for 'Mods.', the first public examination in November 1864, set the essay topic as a kind of practice exam question. *Hopkins in the Age of Darwin*, 28.

D.I.3

On cumulative and chain evidence.

Cumulative evidence is that which goes to establish a ~~proposition~~ conclusion by the concurrence of several probabilities independent of each other. Chain evidence is that in which several probabilities point to a conclusion, but in such a manner that each only does so if the others do.

If from any fact a conclusion may be drawn with any degree of ~~plausibi~~ probability and from another fact the same conclusion may be drawn also with any degree of probability, the two probabilities make the truth of the common conclusion greater, and this probability may

be indefinitely increased, never however reaching certainty. The relative force of the probabilities to each other does not matter, but only their collective force, and of course the probability of the conclusion is greater with the addition of every new probability.

In chain evidence on the contrary the greater the number of facts each pointing to a probable conclusion the less the probability of the conclusion of the chain, and the rule holds that the chain cannot be stronger than its weakest link; it may however be indefinitely weaker. The best way to see the value of chain evidence is to try it mathematically.

Cumulative or corroborative ~~evi~~ probability is what is called in law courts circumstantial evidence. But chain and cumulative probability may meet in the same case and every item of the cumulation of probability may be a chain of probability. To appraise the excellence of circumstantial evidence we may proceed thus. Supposing in ten criminal cases the probabilities have in each been ten to one against the accused's innocence, it is as probable as not that in one of these ten cases the accused has been unjustly condemned.

There is a common fallacy with regard to chain evidence which should be remarked upon. For instance this would be given as a chain of probability. If so-and-so gets a scholarship, he will probably get a first class, if he get a first class he will probably get a fellowship, if he get a fellowship he will probably be a bishop. Of¹ course this might be a real chain, but as such a sentence would be ordinarily used it is not, for evidently the getting a ~~fellowship~~ scholarship does not make it easier to get a first class. What is meant is that a man who is clever enough to get a scholarship is clever enough to get a first class and probably therefore will, and the man who is clever enough to get a first class is clever enough to get a fellowship and probably will, and so on to the bishopric. The real chain might be: if so-and-so get a scholarship, he will probably be able to ~~reside~~ enter the University, and if he enters the University he will probably read, and if he read he will probably get a first class, and if he get a first class he will probably be encouraged to read for a fellowship, and if he read for a fellowship he will probably get it, and if he gets it he will probably take orders, and if he take orders he will probably become a bishop.²

1. This final section of the paragraph (on fo. 7) has been queried—a large, pencilled mark has been made, opposite it, on fo. 6'.

2. Initialed 'ECW' [Edward Cooper Woolcombe].

D.I.4

Distinguish Induction from Example, Colligation of facts and other processes with which it has been confounded.¹

The value set from time to time in the history of scientific enquiry on ~~the Eq~~ Induction is a gauge² of the activity, and the direction, of currents of thought in the sphere of contemporaneous science. Aristotle states the principles of inductive reasoning but passes over it lightly, and what we know of scientific enquiry at that day, fortunately, in the case of Aristotle himself, shews that great energy in the field of science and even the greatest of minds there employed must fail to produce results worthy of themselves while neglecting the great principle on which their methods of acting should have been ~~thrown~~ formed. But if Aristotle was careless of Induction, the mind of the Schoolmen was at variance ~~and their treatment of it~~ with it and their treatment of it that of an enemy so to speak. In their days there was no scientific enquiry; or what there was started from wrong principles. It was when science was alive and widening that the Novum Organum³ appeared to shew the channel it must run in. Now, while science is more vigorous than ever before and asserting ~~her~~ its claim to new ground continually, efforts are made to systematise⁴ and correct as the method which works these effects. Thus method and science seem to enliven each other.

Not only is thought bestowed on the processes of Induction, but the relative positions of the two methods of argument are altered; and Induction seems in a fair way to invade the domains of syllogism,⁵ perhaps even to absorb them within its own.

In distinguishing Induction from the processes with which it has been confounded,⁶ the first and most important step is to draw it out from its false subordination to another so called method of reasoning, ~~on which~~ a position in which it loses through misapprehension of its principles much of its force, while it professes to be the real head and fountain of all reasoning and to include under itself, not to be finally included under, the syllogism. Those who hold the syllogism to be the only perfect method of argument consistently say that a perfect Induction can only be where we know all the individuals of whom the general rule arrived at can be predicated, e. g. to take Mill's example, when we say all the planets shine by reflected light because we have observed it in Mercury, Venus and every one of them. But so far from this being a perfect Induction, to say Mercury, Venus etc shine with reflected light, naming each, therefore all the planets, ~~we have spoken to~~ is to speak

tautology, and to shew Induction in its weakest light, to deprive it of its very principle, ~~this would be the worst begging of the question~~ which is to be able to predicate of the unknown by the known. This then is a recapitulation in a short form of several facts and should not be called an Induction strictly. Had we said “all planets” for “all the planets” we should have been making a real Induction. A still clearer case of many examples of a truth not forming an Induction is this. If from a number of variously coloured balls the red were picked severally, then because each was red to speak of the lot picked out as red is in no true sense an Induction.

1. GMH's principal sources: Hamilton, *Lectures*, vol. iii, and Mill, especially vol. i of *A System of Logic*.
2. This spelling was not uncommon in the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries, but the *OED* calls it 'a mere blunder'.
3. Francis Bacon, *Novum Organon* (1620). A prescribed text, the title appears among a list of 'Greats Books' prepared by GMH (*Jour.* Autumn 1864). Bacon (1561–1626), well connected to the courts of Elizabeth I and James I, was a lawyer and parliamentarian who became Lord Chancellor in 1618 (trumped-up bribery charges ended his career in 1621). A Christian humanist, he wrote histories, essays, and *The Advancement of Learning* (1605). The *Novum Organon*, designed to be part of the unfinished *Instauratio Magna*, argues for a new union between 'the mind and the universe'.
4. GMH had originally written 'systematize'; corrected in pencil.
5. Hamilton defines the syllogism (συλλογισμός) as 'an adding up'. 'For every, the most complex, web of thought may be reduced to simple syllogism; and when this is done, their truth or falsehood, at least in a logical relation, flashes at once into view.' *Lectures*, iii. 277. All syllogisms are divided by Hamilton into inductive and deductive classes (*ibid.* 321).
6. Mill takes exception to Whewell's view, as expressed in *History of the Inductive Sciences* (1837), that the colligation of facts is 'Induction itself'; instead, Mill suggests that colligation is 'but the ordinary process of finding by a comparison of phenomena, in what consists their agreement or resemblance'. It is, therefore, a preliminary operation, 'subsidiary to Induction'. *A System of Logic*, i. 210–11.

D.I.5

On the rise of Greek Prose-writing.¹

We cannot look back—at least History and the study of what is earlier than History, speech, do not help us to look back—to the time when there was no Art. And yet education makes the two words, Art and Nature, so often opposed or mutually exclusive, that our thoughts fall into the antithesis and the earliest ~~time~~ uncivilized age seems to us necessarily to have been straightforward, without the comprehension of

idealism, and free from Art art. There is proof enough what a misapprehension this is: idealism divides with realism the words wh. make language, as now it divides all the arts with it; idealism modifies the sound of words and syllables; it enters mythology; it establishes the well-recognized etiquette of uncivilized peoples; it sets up the standards of morality: whatever unusual thing the men of these ages see or do, idealism is at hand, and changes it, either to the mind or in fact, to itself its own purposes. Afterwards idealism narrows itself within its regular channels, but then all but the commonest actions of life were little arts. This is how we find poetry before prose in literature. ~~It is peculiar to Greece however that prose follows poetry so very slowly~~² Even metrical testaments are known. And in civilized times, with us and still more with the Greeks, the tendency is still found to use poetry for unusual occasions, even where prose would seem the more natural kind of writing; as for instance the verse of epitaphs, commoner with them than with us.

It is peculiar to Greece however that prose follows poetry so very slowly. Chronicles are commonly the first employment of prose, and the artificial form of chronicles is History. It is said then, it would seem with justice, that it is the want of a historical interest which delayed Greek prose-writing. The difficulty and the absence of unity which early Greek history has, took away the incitements which the breadth and simplicity of the train of events gave to the historian of the great Asiatic kingdoms. Then, when History does appear, it is in Ionia, among the neighbours of nations whose literature falls more readily and early to History than the Greek; and so wholly is it identified with them, that the second of the great names which go before Herodotus, Acusilaus of Argos, ~~the~~ a Dorian, is known to have written in Ionic dialect. The six or seven others, Cadmus, Hecataeus, Pherecydes, Charon, Hellanicus, Ilanthus, and Dionysius, are all ~~Ionians fr. Asia~~ lesser Asia; one of them, it would seem the best, Ilanthus, a Lydian born.³ These are followed by Herodotus, from Asia too. But it is scarcely enough explanation to say that the want of concentration of interest in the history of Greece was the cause why historians did not appear earlier. Why have we no accounts of the history of single states? Why were there no earlier histories of Athens than that of Pherecydes? of Miletus than that of Cadmus? of Argos than Hellanicus' account of its priestesses of Here? But it is not very strange that a people possessed so strongly of the imaginative faculty could not care, early in its literary history, for a wholly new kind of composition, and one offering, as it must have seemed at first, so little opening for idealistic treatment.

This opening however was given better by foreign history than by home, and more, by geography, discovery, the *περίοδος γῆς* {"Circuit of the World"} which Hecataeus made.⁴ These things then are to a great extent the matter of the early Greek prose-writers, and these the greatest and last of the Ionian school brought all together to form a whole with a centre⁵ of interest in his own country.⁶

The most striking point for our purpose about Herodotus' work is its unity. For however it may be full of episodes and touching things great and small, the very conception of a hinge⁷ of interest in the struggle between Europe and Asia is so wonderful, that perhaps there is not in the history of prose-literature another step so great and sudden towards the attainment of a high idealism. But this very excellence is another result of the influences which developed poetry so long before prose. For in a state of intellectual activity no art is content to work out its materials completely or perfect its realism, but aims early at idealism. And one of the dangers to intellectual progress comes from the tendency to dwell on the first attained idealisms. Healthy art is always breaking from them, forming new ones, and then again advancing.⁸ Thus Thucydides is more veritable, more scientific than Herodotus, while his idealism is of a philosophical and rhetorical rather than epic kind.⁹ The next step is made by Plato, whose style may be said to reach the perfection of the simple lucid rhythmic prose;¹⁰ his idealism is again different, that is, dramatic in character. Here we find, as so often in the history of literature, that progress is made not without the sacrifice of earlier excellencies; for this lucid, (as Matthew Arnold calls it) Attic style throws aside of necessity the richer detail and the picturesque, which we find in Herodotus. The misfortune of such a sacrifice is this, that it leaves realism little material to work on, and history seems to show that the ~~true~~ final triumph of idealism is the ruin of Art.

1. GMH's principal source is Grote, *A History of Greece*, 12 vols. (London, 1846), vol. i. As mentioned in the Introduction, GMH began reading Grote while attending Highgate. Both Jowett and Riddell relied upon Grote for their lectures. "The farther we travel back into the past", Grote remarks, "the more do we recede from the clear day of positive history, and the deeper do we plunge into the unsteady twilight and gorgeous clouds of fancy and feeling." *History*, i. 576. Earlier in the same volume he observes: "To us these [Greek] mythes are interesting fictions; to the Homeric and Hesiodic audience they were "rerum divinarum et humanarum scientia" {knowledge of things human and divine},—an aggregate of religious, physical, and historical revelations, rendered more captivating, but no less true and real, by the bright colouring and fantastic shapes in which they were presented. Throughout the whole of "mythe-bearing Hellas" they formed the staple

of the uninstructed Greek mind, upon which history and philosophy were by slow degrees superinduced; and they continued to be the aliment of ordinary thought and conversation, even after history and philosophy had partially supplanted the mythical faith among the leading men, and disturbed it more or less in the ideas of all.' *History*, i. 482.

2. A new paragraph was started, then cancelled; see below.
3. Ancient chroniclers (most, Ionians), predecessors of Herodotus, known collectively as the *Logographoi*. Their narratives constituted the transition from writing collective histories as epic poetry to histories in prose. Fragments survive of these largely uncritical records of local traditions, legends, and genealogies. Hellanicus of Mytilene, a near-contemporary of Herodotus, wrote a history of Athens (*Atthis*) which was cited by Thucydides.
4. Hecataeus, a Greek chronicler and geographer who flourished c.500 BC, wrote a 'Circuit of the World', partially based on his own travels, describing the countries of the known world (their people, customs, culture, and folklore). He also composed 'Genealogies' of the great mythical families.
5. GMH cancelled 'centre' and replaced it with 'marrow', then later cancelled 'marrow' in pencil and wrote in 'centre' once again.
6. The essay is initialled 'N' [William Newman] at this point, which suggests that the following section was added at a later time. The quality of ink is markedly different in this final paragraph.
7. The term 'hinge' has been underlined, and a question mark written above it.
8. This idea is developed further in the following essay, D.I.6.
9. Cf. Grote, *History*, i. 525–7.
10. One of Jowett's chief observations concerning Plato. In his B.II notebook GMH records the following remarks from Jowett's lectures: 'Plato the perfection of style. Perfectly equable, to be gathered fr. the whole page. . . . Persecuity the first requisite. Difficult in prop[ortion] to the fineness of a style. Must absolutely get rid of the Gk. idioms in translating. Perfect grace and freedom of his style. What cause? Perfect purity of language, never falling below proper dignity. This almost a matter of rhythm. Prose depends on this almost as [much as] poetry' (B.II, fo. 137). GMH develops his own ideas about the rhythms of prose and poetry in his 1873–4 lectures on 'Rhythm and the Other Structural Parts of Rhetoric—Verse'. See *Collected Works*, vol. vi.

D.I.6

On the signs of health and decay in the arts.¹

The enquiry here put forward will be best answered by considering what are the lawful objects of Art; and we may then conclude that as Art aims at these or passes them by, as it reaches or fails of them, wholly or in part, so will it be successful or the reverse. These objects are Truth and Beauty.² Art differs from Nature in presenting Truth; Nature presents only Beauty; and from the unartificial studies of men employments and studies of men, not as presenting Truth or Beauty,—for a prose account may be more literally true than a poetic, and unconscious

expression, the utterances of passion, and other things, may have more beauty than much found among works of art,—but as aiming at these two things, as making them not incidental but final.

Truth and Beauty then are the ends of Art: but when this is said it may be added that Truth itself is reducible probably to the head of Beauty. This will be more plainly seen from a survey of the original cause of our sense of the beautiful. The steps by wh. this original cause is reached are too many to be taken, within the bounds of an essay. It is enough to say that it is believed this cause is comparison, the apprehension of the presence of more than one thing, and that it is inseparable in a higher or lower degree from thought. We may perhaps make four degrees or dimensions of it, of wh. each, as in mathematics, exists and is implied in the dimension above it; these will be those drawn from the comparison (i), of existence with non-existence, of the conception of a thing with the former absence of the conception;—this is an inseparable accident of all thought; (ii), of ~~the continuance of law~~ a thing with itself so as to see in it the continuance of law, in wh. is implied the comparison of continuance of law with non-continuance; instances of this kind are a straight line or circle; (iii) of two or more things together, so as to include the principles of Dualism, Plurality, Repetition, Parallelism, and Variety, Contrast, Antithesis; (iv) of finite with infinite things, which can only be done by suggestion; this is the ἀρχή {origin, first cause} of the Suggestive, the Picturesque and the Sublime. Art is concerned with the last two of these classes; sometimes with the third, sometimes with both the third and fourth. The pleasure given by the presence of Truth in Art may, if the classification above be rightly made, be referred to the third head. It lies in a (not sensuous but purely intellectual) comparison of the representation in Art with the memory of the true thing; and the truer it is, the more exact the parallel between the two, the more pleasure is perceived, thus fulfilling the condition of the principle of parallelism given above: only it must be remembered that this kind of beauty however inseparable from a work of art is extrinsic and is implied in the spectator, not given, not intrinsic, as the deliberate beauty of composition, form, melody etc.³ Truth is not absolutely necessary for Art; the pursuit of deliberate Beauty alone is enough to constitute and employ an art; as for instance such lower arts as those of making arabesques, diapers⁴ etc need neither imitate Nature nor express anything beyond the beauty appreciable not by the intellect, so to speak, but by the senses, that is in fact, by the intellect employed upon the object of the sense alone and not referring

back or performing some wider act within itself. But of beauty in the stricter sense, deliberate beauty of the third head (that is, the beauty of finite things) if the principle is, as given above, comparison, the enforcement of likeness and unlikeness, the establishment of relation, then it is plain that in some cases likeness may be enforced between things unduly differing, contrast made between things unduly near, relations established at wrong distances, ~~that~~ and that in either case, in one or other of the many forms of failure,—monotony or extravagance or some other,—pain will result: it is plain also that between these lies a golden mean at which comparison, contrast, the enforcement of likeness, is just and pleasurable. And this is reached by proportion. Now though this golden mean must be hit⁵ by intuition, and that success in doing so is the production of beauty and is the power of genius, it is not the less true that science is or might be concerned in it as well: sufficient proof of this may be had from the consideration of two provinces of Art in which proportion has more or less a scientific ground and character. These are music and architecture. Science need not interfere with genius; it does not interfere with the glory⁶ of the great harmonists, nor with that of the great proportionalist architects of Greece. It is impossible to apply science so exact to the arts of painting and still less of poetry as we do to those of music and architecture, but some scientific basis of aesthetical criticism is absolutely needed; criticism cannot advance far without it; and at the beginning of any science of aesthetics must stand the analysis of the nature of Beauty. In inquiring what are the signs of a healthy and a decadent Art we must first know what Art ought to be doing and pursuing. It remains only to apply the convenient phraseology to the principles above stated; that is the word Realism to the pursuit of Truth in Art, Idealism to that of deliberate Beauty. Besides this old division a new one should be made wh. is much needed to express two kinds of Beauty. Proportion having been found to be the source or the seat of Beauty, it will appear that accordingly as proportion is expressed is the character of the beauty wh. follows from it. And it can be expressed in two ways, by interval or by continuance. Both seem really to be expressions of proportion, though it is generally associated ~~more-c~~ with the ~~latter~~ former, to our ideas. The division then is of abrupt and gradual, of parallelistic and continuous, of intervallary and chromatic,⁷ of quantitative and qualitative beauty. The beauty of an infinite curve is chromatic, of a system of curves parallelistic; of deepening colour or of a passing from one colour into another chromatic, of a collocation of colours intervallary; of the

change of note on the string of a violin or in a strain of wind chromatic, of that on the keys of a piano intervallary. Art of course combines the two kinds of beauty; some arts have more of the one, some of the other. And the distinction is important in treating of Art generally, because the difference of aesthetic temper between age and age or nation and nation or artist and artist may often lie in the preponderance of one of these two kinds over the other. Thus to take an instance, Greek architecture is rather of the quantitative or intervallary kind, Teutonic of the qualitative or chromatic; or humour is chromatic, wit abrupt, intervallary; ~~Carlyle's~~ (Dr. Newman's style is chromatic, Carlyle's the opposite;) and the drama is more chromatic than lyrical poetry, at least as far as diction is concerned.⁸

(Continued.)

Some such grounds as these must be supposed for Art criticism: the subject is as yet ~~to a systematic results~~ little worked out for all trustworthy results; but whatever the beginnings made for this desired scientific criticism, they must be carefully and by reasoning ~~arrived at, not, we may think, as some critics wish, by critical intuitions.~~ arrived at.⁹ Then taking the above as a starting place, we may conclude first that the preponderance of one of our two great elements of Art in any marked degree ~~over~~ to the setting aside of the other is ~~to~~ destroying the balance and therefore the success of Art,—the two elements namely ~~of pursuit~~ of Truth and of Beauty. The enquiry to follow out would be, whether any order is discernible in the change of relations of these two things in the history of Art. Let us see the character of Art near its beginning. We might reasonably suppose men wd. begin with ~~rep~~ copies made to the best of their ability from the things round them, ~~and~~ that these wd. be rough but conscientious,¹⁰ and that the deliberate pursuit of beauty wd. be entered on when some facility in giving truth had been attained. But it will be best to see in the remains of archaic art we possess how far this is true. First let us look at Egyptian and Assyrian¹¹ art: in these no advance beyond a certain pt. is made, and we must think of them as work in wh. the creative genius of their respective nations ~~dis~~ failed in the energy wh. carried the Art of Greece and of the middle ages to the places they have attained. Now the works of these nations we find are very conventional, so much so that they require conscious allowance in the mind and an attitude brought about by education for their due appreciation. If it be said that these marked departures from Nature, that is from truth, are not conventionalism, which implies a deliberate act, but are incorrect from incapability, are the first incomplete

efforts after truth of an age in wh. the eye had not been trained to look severely at things apart from their associations, innocently or purely as painters say; then a few instances may be brought forward to shew ~~that~~ in these ancient artists both the deliberate adoption of conventionalities as such, as requirements of a limit-setting pursuit, and the coexistent perception of things as they are, a little-indulged realism. Such is this one: in Assyrian Art, if an inferior member is in front of a superior it gives way to it so as to appear behind: thus if ~~an~~-are [a] bowman is shewn drawing the bowstring to his right ear the string is not allowed to cross and break the lines of the face, but ends suddenly when it reaches the outline of the profile, and seems to go behind. Again the winged beasts have, as is well known, five legs, so that looked at either in profile or in full they may be always seen to have four. These things shew a remarkably clear conception of Art as Art, using its own language and appealing to a critical body of its own state of civilization to accept and allow its conventionalities. Egyptian figures are all made on a fixed proportion; they were divided by a number of horizontal lines, ~~answering in~~ making parts answering in character to the modern artistic division into heads. So many are given to a standing, so many to a sitting figure. But in the rock-temple of at Ipsambul,¹² the figures being colossal and it being wished to give great massiveness and appearance of strength, (for some are seated as sovereigns and others stand as Caryatids), the common proportions are lessened by two heads. Then again the king is represented as a giant among pigmy enemies, but if he is more closely connected with one of them, as seizing or killing him, a third term of conventionalism is applied, this figure being made greater than the rest but somewhat smaller than the king. For an instance of realism in Assyrian Art we may point to the men ~~falling~~ thrown from the battlements of a besieged town, whose hair is shewn falling forwards and downwards from their heads.

But in early Greek and Middle Age Art we shall find completer instances of the coexistence of realism with broad conventionalism. We may compare the conventional treatment of trees in Middle-Age and in ~~modere~~ modern Art. The former represents a tree by a firm bounding line, giving the shape of the tree pretty correctly but typically, and within that ~~few~~ fr. twenty to forty leaves correct in shape, carefully drawn, but not grouped or in any way perspectively treated. This is what is to be seen in Missal-painting. In late Art (that is, Art in which ~~the principle~~ subordination of parts ~~have~~ has been reached and established) trees are represented not typically, but with the irregularity of

Nature, the outline is a rough furry touch, mass is given and projection or solidity, but without truth of detail. That a developed Art requires some such power of rapid generalizing treatment for its less finished is true, but the principle always goes further and in the hands of inferior men, of imitators of manner not of spirit, of a declining Art, it degenerates into mere touch, trick and mannerism. It is apparent that early Art conventionalises by representing carefully the chief, the characteristic points of a thing, the prominent details; all besides is set aside and implied in the spectator; it purports on the face of it to be a conventionalism, and if it be felt to be too stiff, too much abbreviated, succeeding Art brings correction. The other does not so choose and limit what is to be represented, it thinks nothing done unless the conventionalism be complete, proportionate ~~but~~ it gives no piece of careful realism produced at the expense of conventionalism in non-essentials, but conventionalises its subject as a whole by a general carelessness of treatment; and the realism wh. it may lose is much harder to restore to Art than is it¹³ to acquire in the other case, besides that from its impartiality and subordination it deceives, as the early work, avowedly conventional, never ~~does~~ can do.¹⁴

(Continued.)

This difference between early and late Art is caused by the desire for Perfection: that is, when any art is established and strong, the desire to see all harmonious, to blend all the elements, to treat all the subject matter with the same amount of realism and to raise it to the same pitch of idealism, not to distribute these things arbitrarily, comes into play and rules its progress. It was just and it was inevitable that the wish shd. arise not to give a tree by a typical outline and a few careful representative leaves, but by a natural irregular outline, and the confusion of ~~leaves~~ and mass of many leaves. The sense of perfection is strong with us all; ~~and those who attain to it~~ once attained all which wants it becomes painful; it is this which ~~makes~~ gives the Parthenon and Sophocles' plays their distinguished excellence; they might have been richer but then they must have been different; they fulfil, we feel, the laws of their being. How then is it that decline in Art sets it?¹⁵ It need not of course set in; with genius abounding and in a time of national health, there would be no degeneracy; it wd. be an easily-detected fallacy to say what is perfect cannot change except for the worse. The decline sets in no doubt from external causes, but it ~~avails itself~~ attacks the weak points of an art wh. has reached the state of perfection, that is of established harmony. The ~~only~~ old conventionalisms had

been abolished, but conventionalism ~~was~~ is not abolished; it is only distributed. Let us regard the art of Painting. Under the pretence of a realism which keeps all things in the due mutual proportions of nature, realism is undermined; details are subordinated, neglected, falsified, till all is true and all is untrue. Perfection is dangerous because it is deceptive. Art slips back while bearing, in its distribution of tone, or harmony, the look of a high civilization towards barbarism. Recovery must be by a breaking up, a violence, such as was the Preraphaelite school.¹⁶

This will perhaps throw light on the history of the renaissance; right or wrong it was inevitable. It looks like an abjuration of nationality; but in fact Art had worked laboriously, and Perfection presented itself with irresistible attraction to men's minds: had there been no Greek art to look to they wd. no doubt have spent the century of the renaissance and succeeding years in harmonizing their old materials, but perfection was already to be found in Greek art, and they closed with it.

We may perhaps conclude from the instances given above that conventionalism is not the confession of ~~inability~~ incapability; but on the other hand it will not express the truth to say it is absolutely chosen for its own sake without reference to the conditions and difficulties of Art. But as the metre and rhymes, conditions and restrictions of ~~poetry~~ verse, are the unexpected cause of the rise of all that we call poetry, so ~~are~~ do the conditions of painting, sculpture, and the rest of the arts contain their greatness, their strength and their decline. The arts present things to us in certain modes which in the higher shape we call idealism, in the lower conventionalism. The character of these idealisms is the best guide to the health of any age of Art, but to develop these characters is a work requiring the instancing of many examples. One example however may be given of the truth of this criterion: it is this, the love of the picturesque, the suggestive, when developed to the exclusion of the purely beautiful is a sure sign of decay and weakness: it is found in the melancholy epigrams of the Greek Anthologies, in the landscape of Claude, and most remarkably in the novels and poetry of the United States.¹⁷

1. Published in *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 74-9.

2. GMH sounds very Ruskinian in this discussion, but is actually offering a significant counter-argument. Chapter IV of volume ii of *Modern Painters* confronts four 'current' and 'False Opinions Held Concerning Beauty': 'Those erring or inconsistent positions which I would at once dismiss are: the first, that the Beautiful is the True; the second, that the Beautiful is the Useful; the third, that it is dependent on Custom; and the fourth, that it is dependent on the Association of Ideas.' Ruskin, *Works*, ed. E. T. Cook and Alexander Wedderburn, 39 vols. (London:

George Allen, 1903–12), iv. 66. Asserting that the Beautiful is synonymous with ‘the True’ is a ‘strange position’, Ruskin insists, one that is ‘instantly contradicted by each and every conclusion of experience. A stone looks as truly a stone as a rose looks a rose, and yet is not so beautiful. . . . I am at a loss to know how any so untenable a position could ever have been advanced; but it may, perhaps, have arisen from some confusion of the beauty of art with the beauty of nature, and from an illogical expansion of the very certain truth, that nothing is beautiful in art, which, professing to be an imitation, or a statement, is not as such in some sort true.’ *Works*, iv. 66–7. The need to dismantle ‘so untenable a position’ is not easily satisfied. At the outset of volume iii, a discussion of ‘the love of beauty’ is interrupted by an extended footnote to explain why he must ‘use the terms Truth and Beauty in a kind of opposition. . . . Nothing is more common than to hear people who desire to be thought philosophical, declare that “beauty is truth”, and “truth is beauty.” I would most earnestly beg every sensible person who hears such an assertion made, to nip the germinating philosopher in his ambiguous bud; and beg him, if he really believes his own assertion, never henceforward to use two words for the same thing. The fact is, truth and beauty are entirely distinct, though often related, things. One is a property of statements, the other of objects. The statement that “two and two make four” is true, but it is neither beautiful nor ugly, for it is invisible; a rose is lovely, but it is neither true nor false, for it is silent.’ Ruskin, *Works*, v. 55–6.

3. Edmund Burke championed an objective theory of beauty in his *Philosophical Enquiry into the Origin of our Ideas of the Sublime and Beautiful* (1757).
4. An ornamental design, of diamond reticulation, for walls, panels, etc.
5. The word ‘hit’ has been underlined in pencil; GMH has written above it, ‘reached’.
6. The term ‘glory’ is underlined; GMH has written above it, ‘fame’.
7. See D.II.3. Heuser notes: ‘The distinction of the kinds of beauty by use of the musical terms *chromatic* and *diatonic* is to be found in George Field, *Chromatography: or, A Treatise on Colours and Pigments and of their Powers in Painting* (London, 1835)—cited by Ruskin, *Works*, IV, p. 362.’ *The Shaping Vision*, 105 n. 5.
8. Initialled ‘RS’ [Robert Scott] (in red) at this point.
9. These words have been scored through in pencil.
10. The term ‘conscientious’ has been underlined in pencil; GMH has written ‘exact’ above it.
11. Grote devotes one chapter each to the Assyrians (pp. 386–405) and to the Egyptians (pp. 406–50) in vol. iii of the *History*. A January 1863 review article in *Fraser’s Magazine*, ‘The Decypher of Ancient Inscriptions’, focuses on Egyptian and Assyrian studies. The books reviewed include two studies by Sir G. C. Lewis, *An Inquiry into the Credibility of the Early Roman History* (1855) and *An Historical Survey of the Astronomy of the Ancients* (1862). See the ‘Decypher of Ancient Inscriptions’, *Fraser’s Magazine*, 57/397 (Jan. 1863), 121–34. The Assyrian collection in the British Museum was discussed (and praised) in ‘The Last from Ninevah’, *Fraser’s Magazine*, 68/404 (Aug. 1863), 270–6.
12. ‘*Ipsambul* (Abu Simbel), in lower Nubia, the site of the rock-temples of Rameses II, discovered by Burkhardt in 1812. GMH’s descriptions best fit the colossi of the King, Queen and gods inside the hall of the Great Temple, and the vivid pictures of Rameses’ actions in the Kadesh campaign which cover one wall. He may have seen photographs and wood-cuts of them in *Egypt, Nubia and Ethiopia* (1862), by Joseph Bonomi (whom he met nearly ten years later with his nephew, Fr. Goldie . . .): a note on 201–202 discusses the proportions of the colossi, and two

illustrations (after Rosellini's) show the King (i) about to behead his enemies and (ii) slaying a man much larger than the rest.' *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 341 n. 1.

13. MS has 'is it' with '2.' above 'is' and '1.' above 'it'.
14. Initialled 'N' [William Newman] at this point.
15. GMH probably meant 'sets in?'
16. GMH had originally written 'Praeraphaelite.' Ruskin's letters to the *London Times* in defence of the Pre-Raphaelite Brotherhood appeared 13 May 1851 and 5 May 1854 (regarding Holman Hunt's *The Light of the World*, then on display at the Royal Academy), and 25 May 1854 (regarding Hunt's *The Awakening Conscience*). The letters were not issued in pamphlet form until 1876 (see *Works*, xii. 317–35). *Pre-Raphaelitism* was published in autumn 1851, with a second edition issued on 2 April 1862. See *Works*, xii. 337–93.
17. Initialled 'RS' [Robert Scott] in red.

D.II

Etc.



D.II.1

Credit and the causes of commercial crises.

Credit is the principle wh. makes commerce elastic. Even great wealth paid at intervals in the shape of income, of a year let us suppose, might become useless to its owner for half a year or more without the action of credit. This enables men when trading to concentrate capital and throw it in any direction and at any time ~~they like by the understanding that~~ they like. The means to do this are borrowing, or the use for the time of other people's ~~property~~ capital. But it is plain¹ that inducements are wanted to make those who have money lend as readily as those who are out of it will borrow, and this leads to the questions of Interest and security. The first is money paid for the use of money, without wh. it wd. be worth no one's while or rather against anyone's wisdom to lend freely at all. But since the needs of borrowers are pressing and a certain number will pay almost any sum for the temporary use of others' money it will be plain that unchecked the lenders might ask any profit they liked, or technically whatever rate of interest. The law of supply and demand corrects the possible abuse, and brings about that the rate of interest for any particular time—speaking now without reference to the various modifications of the law—shall be the lowest at wh. money can be profitably lent. Of these modifications the most weighty is security. Money must not only be paid for when in use but it must be repaid at last, and some certainty must be given that this will take place. Almost no money lent can be looked on as quite sure of repayment and the uncertainty varies very much in different cases; ~~and~~ in every case it must be allowed for in the shape of interest. This uncertainty is best brought to light by the principle of discount, the rate of wh. wd. not vary but be determined solely by the stipulated rate of interest were it not that the restoration of certain for uncertain power over one's capital

were estimable in money. Although finally people can only borrow on the knowledge wh. others have of their power of repayment, it is not needed that the immediate lenders shd. have this knowledge: this is provided for by giving securities, or the assurances of others whose solvency is well known to the lender that the borrower is really able to pay, or else that they themselves will stand forfeit. Credit in commerce then may be looked on as in only a very slight degree moral trust, honesty being guarded by strong considerations wh. need not be described, but as the belief that capital does exist in such an amount in such a quarter.

It will be seen then that credit may also be called the agency for changing fixed into floating capital or for making fixed capital flexible. If credit itself be damaged, as happens on more and less wide fields fr. time to time, then fixed capital becomes intractable and sinks in worth, floating capital unduly rises in relative worth, and what is called now a commercial crisis follows. Incompatibility, inconvertibility, or ~~unb~~ destroyed balance of the two kinds of capital is the essence of the panics wh. have been felt five or six times in this century in England.²

Of these crises the history is difficult to work out, as turning on a number of facts and conditions not easily accessible ~~and~~. Their ultimate causes are such things as war, wherein much money is paid away for property soon destroyed or ~~yielded~~ yielding no return, ~~or like iron ships~~, like fortresses, so inconvertible as to have no representative of itself in money, or a bad harvest causing much gold to be sent fr. the country in buying corn. Thus the fixed capital of the country is represented by an unusually small amount of gold. This alone wd. not matter, and indeed the rise of a commercial crisis does not follow the ebb of coinage fr. the market, because those who have the power of paying in other ways than in coin, that is for instance the banks, issuers of paper money, at first only shew the state of things in the substitution of the more easily got shape of currency for the rarer; and as happened in some of the early crises of this century the unwarned—the country banks—continued issuing notes, while gold was draining fr. the market, more and more profusely and so as to outweigh the care of the Bank of England, wh. as better acquainted with the dangers of the time was narrowing its paper issues ~~and endeavouring to save its gold~~. issues. But in a country where³ the currency is ununiform, of more and less universal acceptance, that is where part is gold wh. is current everywhere, part paper only convertible within certain bounds of place, it is convenient to let the paper represent only large sums, the smaller being paid in different kinds of coinage. The drain on the coinage cannot therefore be concealed

after a time, since the smaller exchanges cannot go on without it. This scarceness makes the banks run on for gold and the common phenomena of commercial panic set in with the breaking of banks and failure of houses and the moral injury of loss of credit. The bank of England too feels the drain and concentrates the danger: in 1837 the country being full of paper money the exportation of gold nearly brought it to bankruptcy. Legislation⁴ has therefore been employed here legitimately to control the possible action of commercial laws. By the present system the resistance the Bank gives to the pressure of commercial crises is made elastic by the authority it has to issue notes to the sum of £14,000,000 above the gold it has in its cellars,⁵ and its steadiness is much insured by its having the government as security for much of its property. Experience has been won fr. the different crises of the century, and the legislation with regard to the Bank though not perfect has been an effectual aid both as the fruit and the seed of the better understanding ~~this subject~~ wh. has been come to on this subject; so that by these means the dangers and disturbance of felt fr. ~~these panics~~ commercial crises can be seen to be less severe every time that they appear.⁶

1. A mistake for 'it is plain . . . '.
2. See GMH's note to D.V.5. GMH's grandfather, John Simm Smith (1792–1877), dealt with the Agra and Mastermans Bank, which had to suspend payments on Wednesday, 6 June 1866. Of the several London banks forced to close during that difficult period, it was the only one to reopen, as the Agra Bank (see *Jour.* 14.05.1866, 9.06.1866). For further background, see Peter Mathias, *The First Industrial Nation: An Economic History of Britain 1700–1914*, 2nd edn. (London: Methuen, 1983), and R. C. O. Matthews, 'The Trade Cycle in Britain, 1790–1850', in Derek H. Aldcroft and Peter Fearson (eds.), *British Economic Fluctuations 1790–1939* (London: Macmillan, 1972), 97–130.
3. Initialled 'RS' [Robert Scott] in red pencil. In the MS, the lines which begin 'where the currency . . .', 'universal acceptance . . .', and 'current everywhere . . .' are written over the initials, indicating that GMH extended the essay after it was first presented. This would account for the second set of initials that appears at the conclusion of the essay.
4. Bank Act 1844.
5. See Mill, *Principles of Political Economy*, 2 vols. (London, 1848), ii. 197.
6. Initialled 'RS' [Robert Scott] in brown pencil.

D.II.2

Authenticity: why do we believe some things in ancient writers and not others?¹

In trying the truth of anything related by an ancient writer the likelihood

and unlikelihood wd. fall under the two heads of what was beforehand likely or unlikely and secondly of what depended on the consistency of the account given either with itself or with the words of other writers. In the first we shd. distinguish between ~~what~~ is the likelihood a thing has in itself and the degree of trust we put in the writer who tells us of it. Doubt for instance wd. be natural when this is of great antiquity and yet told with detail or has a symmetry (as of dates) wh. we shd. rather look for in art than in nature or is miraculous. The trustworthiness of the witness himself turns on a good many things; he may seem personally credulous as Herodotus or dishonest or prejudiced, or, going further, the conception of literary honesty may be unlike our own as for instance in Xenophon's *Cyropaedia*: still more important wd. be the difference made historically by philosophy and the degree of civilisation wh. any writer may have, by wh. he may of course be unconsciously untrustworthy. Thus the speeches in Thucydides and Livy are the result in the one case of the rhetorical philosophy of the age, in the other of a feeling for the dramatic, and are not to be taken literally. Local colour is little regarded by the ancients; they had not trained themselves to think of other ages as different fr. their own; ~~so that~~ they misconceived the facts of history and sometimes so that it is not possible to tell what was the story in its old form ~~only~~ of wh. only their modification has come down to us. The widest case of this wd. of course be their literalism about legend. This was afterwards affected by sifting what looked matter of fact fr. the poetical part of mythology, wh. Grote² shews is not a lawful process, and by allegorising as Euhemerus, wh. is very false in principle: History wh. is thus influenced by a philosophic advance does not become more trustworthy to us on that account. Thucydides is a good case for applying any canons of criticism wh. we may have: it is plain that his critical power is one of ~~the~~ most marked features of his genius, but it wd. be ~~right~~ necessary at the same time to make allowance for such shortcomings as ~~came~~ arose fr. the state of philosophy when he ~~was~~ wrote: we might say that he did not view ~~the~~ early Greece in so picturesque a way [as] a Roman historian wd. have done, and the want of this sympathy though less important wd. prevent a perfect conception being made of other times. The Greeks, perhaps because their civilisation was more concentrated and persistent, gave less local colour than the Romans: thus in poetry, not to ~~spe~~ instance Sophocles and Euripides who wd. be unaffected by criticism, Theocritus' ~~may be compared w~~ treatment of mythological subjects may be compared with Ovid's *Fasti*,³ wh., as

many other Roman poetry, shews full appreciation of the contrast between rudeness and barbarism and the civilisation of the poet's time. The same feeling leads Livy to give whenever possible the wording of ~~ancient~~ old oaths etc; but the local colour given by the ancients must be always very carefully tried. But very important in the philosophy of history is the difference in the conception of historical unity, except that it is apparent and wd. not now be likely to mislead us. In the early writing of history the unity may be called artistic or dramatic; it afterwards enters on the stage of scientific or critical unity, wh. is given by the discovery of the real principles to wh. events belong. Of the first Herodotus is the best instance: the central idea of his book, beautiful as a work of art, does not explain the facts wh. are made to ~~shew~~ exhibit it. Thucydides took remarkably the other conception, but the artistic unity though not used on so great a scale continued to affect history.

In trying history by its ~~consis~~ agreement with itself or with that in other authors dates are guides. Since the ancients seldom verified the information they got, the authenticity of accounts may be often decisively disproved or confirmed by these: on the other hand in early history ~~write~~ we find the love of symmetry, as of in cycles etc, make[s] great caution necessary. This symmetrical chronology however is sometimes a sign of the genuineness of tradition or old authorities though not of the authenticity of the history. The nature of the authorities used is a point of importance in trying the truth of ancient histories: history is now rather the choice and combination of authorities, but not so the ancient ~~history~~ and it becomes necessary to know whereever we can the character of the authors drawn from, their prejudices, their family name even, and their means of knowing the events they described.

1. GMH's principal source: Grote's *History*, vols. i and ii.
2. The first volume of Grote's *History* is devoted to its myths and legends. The point about Euhemerus is found in i. 506 ff.; a similar comment about Thucydides is found at i. 525-6. See also ii. 63-78.
3. Grote observes: 'The intimate companionship, and the occasional mistake of identity between gods and men, were in full harmony with . . . the early Greeks' reverential retrospect. And we accordingly see the poet Ovid in his *Fasti*, when he undertakes the task of unfolding the legendary antiquities of early Rome, re-acquiring, by the inspiration of Juno, the power of seeing gods and men in immediate vicinity and conjunct action, such as existed before the development of the critical and historical scene.' *History*, i. 598. GMH quotes from the *Fasti* in the 1873-4 lectures, 'Rhythm and the other Structural Parts of Rhetoric'.

D. II. 3

Poetic Diction.¹

Wordsworth's view was that poetic diction ~~did not differ~~ scarcely differed or ought to differ fr. that of prose: he said 'The most interesting parts of the best poems will be found to be strictly the language of prose when prose is well written.'² The protest wh. his criticisms and to some degree his poetry made against the wide separation ~~wh~~ existing and believed to exist between the two things was, acting as a corrective, truer for the time than anything wh. cd. be said on the other side. ~~It~~ His view cd. not however be received as decisive without more modification than is given in his essay.

If the best prose and the best poetry use the same language—(Coleridge defined poetry as the best thoughts in the best words)—³ why not use unfettered prose of the two? Because, it wd. be answered, of the beauty of verse. This is quite insufficient: then bald prose and simple statement wd. be made better by verse, whereas everyone feels that ~~it is~~ they are made worse. No, it is plain that metre, rhythm, rhyme, and all the structure wh. is called verse ~~nees~~ both necessitate and engender a difference in diction and in thought. The effect of verse is one on ~~diction~~ expression and on thought, viz. concentration and all wh. is implied by this. This does not mean terseness nor rejection of what is collateral nor emphasis nor even definiteness though these may be very well, or best, attained by verse, but mainly, though the words are not quite adequate, vividness of idea or, as they wd. especially have said in the last century, liveliness.

But what the character of poetry is will be found best by looking at the structure of verse. The ~~artifice~~ artificial part of poetry, perhaps we shall be right to say all artifice, reduces itself to ~~parallelisms~~, or the principle of parallelism. The structure of poetry is that of continuous parallelism, ranging from the technical so-called parallelisms of Hebrew poetry and the antiphons of church music up to the ~~intricate-true~~ intricacy of Greek or Italian or English verse. ~~This~~ But parallelism is of two kinds necessarily—where the opposition is clearly marked, and ~~where it lies in~~ where it is transitional rather or chromatic.⁴ Only the first kind, that of marked parallelism, is concerned with the structure of verse—in rhythm, the recurrence of a certain sequence of syllables, in metre, the recurrence of a certain sequence of rhythm, in alliteration, in assonance, and in rhyme. Now the force of this recurrence is to be⁵ beget a ~~pre-~~ a recurrence or parallelism answering to it in the words or thought and,

speaking roughly and rather for the tendency than the invariable result, the more marked parallelism in structure whether of elaboration or of emphasis begets more marked parallelism in the words and sense. And moreover parallelism in expression tends to beget or passes into parallelism in the thought. This point reached we shall be able to see and account for the peculiarities of poetic diction. To the marked or abrupt kind of parallelism ~~we assign~~ belong metaphor, simile, parable, and so on, where the effect is sought in likeness of things, and antithesis, contrast, and so on, where it is sought in unlikeness. To the chromatic parallelism belong gradation, intensity, climax, tone, expression (as the word is used in music), ~~light~~ *chiaroscuro*, perhaps emphasis: while the faculties of Fancy and Imagination might range widely over both kinds, Fancy belonging more especially to the abrupt than to the transitional ~~kind~~ class.⁶

Accordingly we may modify what Wordsworth says. An emphasis of structure stronger than the common construction of sentences ~~has~~ gives⁷ asks for an emphasis of expression stronger than that of common speech or writing, and that for an emphasis of thought stronger than that of common thought. And it ~~has been thought~~ is commonly supposed that poetry has tasked the highest powers of man's mind: this is because, as it asked for greater emphasis of thought and on a greater scale, at each stage it threw out the minds unequal to further ascent. The diction of poetry ~~cd.~~ not then be the same with that of prose, and again of prose we ~~sa~~ can see fr. the other side that its diction ought not to be that of poetry, and that the great abundance of metaphor or antithesis is displeasing because it is not called for by, and interferes with, the continuousness of its flow. For the necessities or conditions of every art are as Lessing⁸ shews the rules by wh. to try it. And to come to particulars, why for instance, on Wordsworth's principle strictly interpreted, shd. the accentuation of the last syllable of participles, wh. so common as it seems ~~alw~~ perpetually able to add fresh beauty where it is applied, be used in verse and never in prose? Or in poetry why shd. it give more pleasure than as being a complement of the mere structural apparatus of verse? as it does in lines like:

So am I as the rich whose blessed key
Can bring him to his sweet up-locked treasure.⁹

It is because where the structure forces us to appreciate each syllable it is natural and in the order of things for us to dwell on all modifications affecting the general result or type wh. the ear preserves and accordingly with such as are in themselves harmonious we are pleased, but in

prose where syllables have none or little determinate value to dwell on emphasise them is unmeaning.¹⁰

etc.

1. The heading was initially written just below the final line of the preceding essay, with the first word of the new essay, 'Wordsworth's', appearing about an inch below that. Both have been cancelled in order to allow for more space between the conclusion of D.II.2 and the start of D.II.3. Published in *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 84–5.
2. In the preface to the second edition of *Lyrical Ballads* (1800) Wordsworth writes: 'And it would be a most easy task to prove . . . that not only the language of a large portion of every good poem, even of the most elevated character, must necessarily, except with reference to the metre, in no respect differ from that of good prose, but likewise that some of the most interesting parts of the best poems will be found to be strictly the language of prose when prose is written well.' The preface is discussed at length by Shairp. GMH refers to the article in C.II (*Jour.* 04.1865) and quotes from Shairp's book in D.VII (see D.VII.6). Comments on Wordsworth's 'Parnassian' style ('judging from my own experience I should say no author palls so much as Wordsworth; this is because he writes such an "intolerable deal of" Parnassian') are found in a letter to Baillie (10.09.1864). Wordsworth is the poet cited by both Richard and his friend Sylvester in the unfinished Oxonian pastoral fragment 'Richard' (begun June 1864; reworked December 1864 and July 1865), which includes the couplets: 'A spiritual grace, | Which Wordsworth would have dwelt on, about the place | Led Richard with a sweet undoing pain | To trace some traceless loss of thought again'.
3. 'This seems to be a mistake for the definition given in *Table Talk*, 12 July 1827: "I wish our clever young poets would remember my homely definitions of prose and poetry; that is, prose = words in their best order; poetry = the best words in the best order." ' *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 342 n. 2.
4. This concept is defined in D.I.6. Cf. Robert Lowth, *De sacra poesi Hebraeorum praelectiones* (1753) [*Lectures on the Sacred Poetry of the Hebrews*].
5. GMH has forgotten to cancel this word.
6. See Coleridge, *Biographia Literaria*, ch. 13, 'On the Imagination, or Esemplastic Power'. For GMH's brief notes from the *Biographia*, see D.VII.7. Boyle suggests that GMH concurred with both Coleridge and Wordsworth in using 'fancy' to denote the 'inferior' faculty of the mind ('Fancy is given to quicken and to beguile the temporal part of our nature, Imagination to incite and to support the eternal'). Boyle, 'Hopkins' Use of Fancy', *Victorian Poetry*, 10/1 (Spring 1972), 19. Boyle further connects this early use of the term with the injunction 'Fancy, come faster' in stanza 28 of 'Wreck'.
7. This should have been cancelled as well.
8. Gotthold Ephraim Lessing, *Laocoön* (1766). Thomas De Quincey produced the first English translation of selections from the *Laocoön* in 'Lessing', *Blackwood's Magazine* (Nov. 1826 and Jan. 1827); repr. in *Collected Works* (1859), vol. xiii. (GMH was reading De Quincey by December 1864: see *Jour.* 12.1864–01.1865). In subsequent essays GMH quotes from E. C. Beasley's translation of the text (London, 1853), the full title of which is *Laocoön: An Essay on the Limits of Painting and Poetry*.
9. Shakespeare, Sonnet 52, ll. 1–2.
10. Initialled 'RS' [Robert Scott].

D.II.4 The Sophists.¹

In trying so to adjust the old views of the Sophist with that put forward by Grote in his History and his Plato as to ~~arrive~~ gain the most trustworthy knowledge wh. the loss of nearly all the memorials of their teaching allows, we seem to find that the most important and difficult fact we have is the position of Plato towards them. The historical position of the Sophists was this.² Their name σοφιστής {sophist}, originally Sage or Scholar, had commonly been given to people intellectually eminent, even to poets, but as containing an assumption was used reservedly by those to whom it belonged, especially when it began to be ~~used~~ applied to a profession. The intellectual culture of Greece, when no longer able to satisfy its wants with artistic or poetical development [*sic*], turned, naturally to the ~~polit~~ civil life of the Greeks, towards politics. The education thought proper for political life was liberal and included, speculatively some system of morals, and on the side of art and natural powers rhetoric. The teachers called forth by this want were ~~called~~ named or were Sophists. A Sophist however wd. not have been called either a Professor of Rhetoric or (still less) a Rhetoric master, because the youth who received ~~their~~ his teaching were met with not at Universities but at their own cities, and because the Sophists themselves represented in part the intellectual movement wh. had made the need for their acquirements. They taught rhetoric but also their own speculations. Circumstances therefore made them independent and they passed fr. one centre of culture to another, over the home cities and the colonies of Greece, acquiring in many cases much money and more remarkably fame wh. attended them as representing and supplying all the non-poetical thought of the age.³

The modern view of Sophists and the name sophistry come to us fr. Plato⁴ and the definition of Aristotle, or altogether fr. Plato. The question is then What is the history of this antagonism? First Socrates, himself viewed by Aristophanes as a sophist, and then his pupil Plato found themselves opposed to one after another of the eminent Sophists, and have accordingly given at least ~~the~~ so much unity to their teaching as binds them in a this opposition to themselves. But what was the distinctive principle or position wh. marked off the Philosopher fr. the Sophist? A difference of position, in spite of the evidence of Aristophanes and the arguments of Mr. Grote, ~~wd.~~ between Socrates and the Sophists it wd. not have been very hard for an Athenian to see

perhaps: he took no money and rebuked their practice in taking it and never left Athens for fame: but a difference of principles implies the question Did the Sophists have a body of principles in common? Cd. they or cd. they not be called a school?

Grote says No: their teaching differed as of one speculator fr. another;⁵ Prodicus was no more Protagoras than he was Socrates or Plato. Prodicus for instance wrote on synonyms and tried to give a philosophical fixity to language, Protagoras used the principle πάντων χρημάτων μέτρον ἄνθρωπος {man is the measure of all things},⁶ Gorgias denied Existence, that is, he says, was a Nominalist. Nor were these speculations supported by any peculiar method of argument, by sophistry in fact, for it is remarkable that Plato often uses sophisms and even against the Sophists who are arguing naturally. Then for the opposition betw. their morality and that of Socrates he brings forward on one side such moral teaching as that of Prodicus in the choice of Hercules, on the other he points out that the charge of corrupting youth fell in history most severely upon Socrates. Their morality was that of their age systematised or theorised—depending made to depend on theory. Their skepticism where it existed did not exceed the skepticism of Socrates, they were not such dangerous theorists as Plato, and, putting aside that they were more necessarily attached to an art than to enquiry, their speculations differed only fr. those of the Parmenides, the Timaeus, or the Republic in degree of originality and of genius.

But why the hostility of Socrates and Plato? What can be the reason in this case of the uniform ~~design~~ effort in the dialogues to mark off carefully marking off the Sophist as different not in degree but in kind, of making to make Protagoras not lesser Socrates but anti-Socrates, and since the philosopher lives in light to put the sophist not in 'the light of common day' but in darkness? The ~~reasons~~ differences may be perhaps be said to be partly historical, partly essential. Historically then we may suppose that the antagonism of Socrates was simpler than that of Plato. Living in the midst of the enthusiasm about the Sophists, himself sharing the intellectual gifts, culture, and relation of the Sophists but not their professional loss of freshness and subtlety, he ~~saw~~ became convinced of the untrustworthiness of that knowledge wh. seemed to map out the universe, he saw like Bacon the greater complexity of things, and he was urged to opposition by the assumption of the successful teachers. Moreover he had and no doubt enjoyed practising a far more efficient weapon of discussion than they had (in wh. indeed his

or Plato's belief was as exaggerated as that of the Sophists in the sufficiency of their knowledge). Plato inherited this natural antagonism to the assumption and to the insufficiency of the Sophists, and he cd. intensify it by the contrast betw. their wealth and the severities of Socrates, their systematised versions of popular morals and his seeming inspiration, his sacrifices, and his martyrdom. These may have given him that antipathy wh. makes him almost personally so anxious to find some essential difference betw. the Philosopher and the Sophist, to feel sure that the Philosopher is not any form of the Sophist. But there seems another reason making a difference more approaching what is essential in the mind of Plato. He was the last of the great creative minds of the golden age of Greece. Up till then creative impulse had, as it does when pleased with its own health and strength, expressed itself in definite results, concentrated in the grace and limit of a statue, in architectural proportions all the ~~proportions~~ conditions of wh. were present, or in the calculable counter-action of two speakers in a play. As this began to wear out,⁷ the reflective and melancholy spirit arose, the passing beyond limits and proportions, the feeling for the infinite and the suggestive. Euripides expresses this but Plato seems to *feel* receive the wave of the new spirit.⁸ Now when Protagoras said μέτρον ἀνθρώπου {man is the measure} and Gorgias denied Existence or put it out of the sphere of thought, whatever value these speculations might have, they offered nothing suggestive, nothing chromatic, they not only limited but imprisoned the mind. Plato was opposed to these the most conscribed and illiberal results of the earlier age of limitation.

The conclusion then we might draw wd. be this. The difference betw. the true philosopher and the sophist in our sense or in that to wh. the distinctions and exposures of Plato point is not essentially in the conclusions but in the method. Plato tried however in the Sophists of Socrates' day to realise this difference in method but cd. not have done so successfully. The method of Protagoras was less efficient only than that of Plato: the sophistry if there was any was in Plato's. The morality of the Sophists was not of itself bad nor their speculations false: it was that they were contented with limitations wh. Plato saw were not enough and blind to ideals wh. he thought it was all in all to acknowledge; their systems were not philosophy, or philosophy no longer when the mind had understood how all the constituents of thought were by Platonism reinforced with new meaning and multiplied.⁹

1. GMH's principal sources are Grote, *History*, v. 537–41 (see also vii. 51 n., viii. 521 n., 551, 597 n.); Grote, *Plato, and the Other Companions of Sokrates*, 3 vols. (London, 1865), ii. 396–434; and his own notes, in B.II, from Jowett's 1865 lectures on Plato. The catalyst for Jowett's long aside about the Sophists was his remark about the 'dramatic' licence rather than 'historic accuracy' of dates which appear in Plato's works—Cephalus, Plato, and Socrates 'cd. not have been at Athens at the same time'. GMH then records:

This true as well of the Sophists as of the philosophers (namely that we must consider strictly the antecedents of Plato and Aristotle).

What gave rise to the Sophists? Their position was education, rather than philosophy—teaching the language among other things. But its so systematic form, elsewhere unknown? First politics—they were in a free city. Athenian needed to be a *[sic]* orator or a lawyer. But besides there was a literary want—for prose writing. History was taking place of poetry and poetry becoming purely dramatic. But most of all the philosophic state. The sophists represent the age wh. believes everything true, everything false, everything useful. Besides religion was phasing. Besides the conflict of abstract ideas with one another, and to this confusion the sophists came in to give a sort of knowledge (such as in modern science there is).

Their character. This wonderful phenomenon belongs to very short period. They also reduced the Gk. language to th[is] long after age of the imitators, rhetoricians etc.

Their moral character. Plato gives the black picture wh. we have blackened still. On the other hand among the sophist rehabilitators Grote thinks they were a body of intelligent teachers, on whom the genius of Plato fixed a bad character.

Now in the main they were teachers of grammar, rhetoric, and not by any means essentially of morality. Besides Prodicus, when they did so teach. Their teaching was not immoral, it was unideal.

Then abt. corrupting the youth—a charge brought agst. Socrates. Grote says the character of the Athenians was no worse after the sophists than after the *Μηδικά* (the great Median or Persian war). This true. They were not individually worse. But he says more, that Plato invented the sophist, that ordinary Athenians cd. not have distinguished. But Xenophon disparages (he calls them as panders in knowledge), Isocrates too. They were then distinguished, although perhaps not in Lexicons perhaps.

And how does Plato represent the sophist?—Generally, he says they received fond joking on the subject. Grote says there was nothing disgraceful. But Gk. feeling different. But this superficial. Another difference is his irony, his thesis of knowing nothing, as opposed to knowing all things. Then morality. Sophists say Might Right, man ruled by force, fraud, social compact. Again No Truth, all opinion. *μέτρον ἀνθρώπου* {man is the measure} true to to *[sic]* me, true. But Socrates said these things are self-contradictory. There is truth, tho' we don't know it. They took a superficial pt.; he aimed at the true universal. Then gt. diff. in matters of taste, literature—btw. rhetoric and Plato. See the Phaedrus, insipid discourse on a paradox. (B.II, fos. 124^v, 125^v)

2. According to Grote, the Sophists were 'the natural product of the age'. 'The term *Sophist*, which Herodotus [i. 29, iv. 95] applies with sincere respect to men of distinguished wisdom such as Solon, Anarcharsis, Pythagoras, &c., now [at the time of Socrates] came to be applied to these teachers of virtue, rhetoric, conversation, and disputation, many of whom professed acquaintance with the whole circle of human science, physical as well as moral (then narrow enough) so far as was necessary to talk about any portion of it plausibly and effectively, and to answer any question which might be proposed to them . . . they appear to have been viewed with jealousy and dislike by a large portion of the public. . . . Sokrates carried on throughout his life a constant polemical warfare against the sophists and rhetors, in that negative vein in which he was unrivalled.' Grote, *History*, v. 540, 538–40.
3. 'These men', Grote remarks, 'were mostly not citizens of Athens, though many of

them belonged to towns comprehended in the Athenian empire, at a time when important judicial causes belonging to these towns [which they would argue, for a fee] were often carried up to be tried at Athens.' *History*, v. 538.

4. His dialogue the *Sophist* is a sequel to the *Theaetetus*. Some of the noted sophists contemporary with Plato were Gorgias, Prodicus of Ceos, and Protagoras.
5. Grote, *Plato*, ii. 431, 521.
6. *Ibid.* 325.
7. See D.II.5.
8. A similar point is made in D.II.5 about Plato's 'habitual melancholy'.
9. Initialled 'RS' [Robert Scott] in red.

D.II.5

The position of Plato to the Greek world.¹

There need be no inconsistency on either side in ~~saying of~~ seeing how Plato or other thinkers whose position at any time has given them much prominence both represent and contradict ~~their~~ the times in which they live. If we take instances we ~~shall~~ find in some the representative character the more striking and in others the opposition, but without a want of balance either in themselves or in their contemporaries being implied. Does Shakspeare express most the complexity and profusion of thought given by the mixture of two systems in the revival wh. ended the Middle Ages or the distress given by the loss of unity in the Reformation? We may say the first most, and this was what the world in England generally alone felt for the time. On the other hand Wordsworth is felt rather to ~~have~~ express the contradiction to the spirit of his times ~~rather~~ than to represent their tendency. In all such cases the same sequence of feeling or thought makes them like their contemporaries, while their reaching and exhibiting the conclusions sooner makes the opposition. It is these contrasts and disparities ~~given to great minds thinkers~~ wh. give complexity and interest to the lives or writings of great thinkers so clearly beyond what they wd. otherwise have had, making for instance their enthusiasm not free fr. pathos or, if the proportions be the other way, their denunciations fr. hope. What can be a better case of this than the position of Plato? As his writings are found to be full of thoughts wh. are not reconciled and have since acquired ~~their~~ definiteness in opposite systems, so his philosophy as ~~comp~~ and mind as compared with the Gk. contemporary world seem to offer opportunities for endless balancing, antithesis as well as parallel.

It would be possible only to shew the directions in wh. such trains of

thought might be followed out, beginning at this one perhaps, how he stands to the general culture of his age. No word seems so well to suit the character of the time as Intellectualism. A little earlier Intellect, or better Genius, wd. be the most marked feature of Greece, and to this wd. logically succeed, where circumstances do not break the success sequence, an age of general culture, with an important change of estimate, namely less regard to works of genius less as for themselves than for the intellect implied in them, a loss technically speaking of the objective interest of things, and a gain of pleasure in the realising by one's own action and by the eager and conscious appreciation of others the force of intellect. These tendencies then appear in Plato as they must appear. We The dialogues shew exhaustive and unhurried demonstration, digressions and objections, files of parallels used as proof where one wd. express the point, and so on—the processes of development not being laborious because the intellect is so flexible. And the conversation, the discussion instead of unbroken enunciation, the nature of this is to ~~make~~ bring the intellect of in itself ~~promin~~ forward, touching it in every point and shewing not force but versatility. So that the Sophists and Rhetoricians were only doing what Plato was doing. Yet no sooner has the resemblance been seen than the antithesis follows, for while the desire to have the intellect prepared for all positions, felt by all and taken in hand by the Sophists, led to the drawing of commonplaces of argument and quickly deduced schemes of ethics, politics, etc, in Plato the same wish leads to methods going much more to the root, namely a complete and infallible education of the intellect, and, by means of that, the discovery of a few first principles fr. wh. systems might be properly drawn. And again, great activity of thought at all times, in this case activity for enjoyment of the thought and not of its results, is to the multitude of the minds feeling it satisfying and engrossing—any activity is so,—and the skepticism wh. goes with it ~~has~~ cannot become painful till this zest has passed away; but Plato was able to feel the sadness of complex thought running freely to different conclusions when the old unity of belief wh. gives meaning to every subordination of thought and action was gone. Perhaps we may say that in raising the new religion of the Ideal Good to fill the place of the old we feel less his enthusiasm for the new truth, the One, the Good, or whatever it is called, than his despair at the ~~maze~~ of multiplicity of phenomena unexplained and unconnected,² the inconsistency of current speculations and the ~~pettiness of the ideals~~ on the side of enquiry, and the pettiness of the ideals of the poets on the side of imagination. He found

public opinion worse than any sophist for corrupting young men's minds, and his only hope for politics was a far-off, arduous and rigid scheme such as must always make ~~the~~ its inventor weary and incredulous himself, and besides, his own ideals cd. not but be felt to be not satisfying and contained incompatibilities wh. while they prove the comprehensiveness of his mind make the ideals themselves less credible; so that we hear of his habitual melancholy.

His mission to his age seems to lie in two things, his treatment of the mind, his method, and his application of thought, his results. Taking the former first we may say of him that it is true what was specially the case of Bacon, for new results of thought he began a new method, and that, still like Bacon, it was ultimately ~~more~~ rather the protest against the old method and the pointing a new way than the specific plan he recommended wh. benefited the world. For under narrow conditions dialectic in the hands of Socrates and in his own seemed to yield marvelous results, but it is ~~seen~~ said that Plato himself ceased in the end to insist on the only safety of this ~~method~~ kind of enquiry. But its use was to have shewn how to apply searching intelligence to all kinds of matter and to press on the attention the beginnings of many speculations on thought and its relation to ~~ext~~ outer things. So that though dialectic in Plato's sense was used no longer he refined with intelligence the atmosphere of thought for Aristotle to breathe.

Then for his system, one side of the truth is represented by the saying that he asked the questions wh. philosophy has since been trying to answer. For Platonism is that philosophy wh. never cd. be a system.³ Again his relations to his age are expressed by this, for the Sophists had systems and his successors and Aristotle had systems, but between these it was necessary for the whole field of speculation to be flooded and for the older forms to be quite fused before they cd. satisfy the advance of philosophy. Not of course that he did not have his own systems in logic, ethics, politics etc., but their use was not as defensible deductions fr. premises, as systems are understood to be, and as systems he himself almost discredits them; and accordingly as systems Aristotle treats them with the same literality as Plato used with the Sophists, both of them legitimately as needful for disposing of philosophies not so much really opposed to their own as belonging to another attitude or another feeling of mind.

Another ~~view~~ side of Plato's bearing to the Gk. world wd. allow too of much example and counter-statement. He cuts short the rhetoricians

and shews how ~~falla~~ oratory covers fallacies and he puts the poets out of his commonwealth; yet how ~~essentially~~ deeply his teaching is associated with ~~language persuasive by rhetoric what~~ that which goes beyond rhetoric into poetry⁴ and the indefinite suggestions of metaphor and even the half rhythmical diction mentioned by Aristotle: and the ideals he wishes us to accept, as the unearthly love, are made persuasive by the images he gives ~~for them~~ us for them.⁵

1. Published in *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 115–17. Complementary lecture notes on the ‘Life of Plato—in 3 parts’ are found in B.II, fos. 125^v, 126^v, 127^v. D.II.5 is one of the essays in which GMH demonstrates mostly clearly his indebtedness to Jowett’s teaching. In a notebook labelled ‘Plato & PreSocratic Philosophy’ Jowett observes that, ‘Like Homer [Plato] stands at the end ~~rather than at the beginning~~ of a great period (the second) in the history of the human mind & gathers up in one the elements of thought & fancy which preceded’ (fo. 55). From the Jowett Collection, Box A, Balliol College.
2. GMH’s note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: ‘unexplained and unconnected,

—the heavy and the weary weight
of all this unintelligible world,
the inconsistency etc.’

He is quoting Wordsworth’s ‘Tintern Abbey’, 11. 39–40 (*Poetical Works*, ed. E. de Selincourt, 2nd edn. (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1952)). Matthew Arnold quotes the same lines in his conclusion to ‘Pagan and Medieval Religious Sentiment’, published in *Cornhill Magazine*, 9 (Apr. 1864), 422–35, and repr. in *Essays and Criticism* (1865). See Arnold, *Complete Prose Works*, iii. 231. Arnold’s essay begins with a tribute to the intellectual and aesthetic riches of Roman Catholicism; ‘the man of imagination’, he observes, ‘nay, and the philosopher too, in spite of her propensity to burn him—will always have a weakness for the Catholic Church; because of the rich treasures of human life which have been stored within her pale’ (ibid. 213–14).

3. From Jowett’s lectures: ‘Next how far is [Plato] a system? In analysing him you must to some extent make one, but that is not his tendency. Many things in him, in Coleridge, in Bacon, cd. not be put into system. He is rather a mind, and his philosophy a progress fr. many things to many other things.’ B.II, fo. 131^v.
4. GMH’s notes from Jowett’s lectures: ‘Another aspect of the dial[ogue]. A poem or drama. This idea (*Laws* VII, 799 B) present to Plato, where he puns on νόμοι {laws or ‘musical strains’} as strains and laws. He wd. have them learnt by heart instead of poetry by youth. Bacon speaks of the former philosophies as plays performed before our eyes, and Plato calls the mythes taught us in youth, and he says the old poets were the sophists of their time. With a slight exagg. Plato is the last poet of philosophy, Aristot. the first prose-writer, with the bones coming through. We must treat his metaphor like myth, not distinguishing the truth fr. fiction.’ B.II, fo. 135^v.
5. Initialled ‘T. H. G.’ [Thomas Hill Green] in pencil.

D.II.6

~~The Position of Socrates to the Greek world~~ The Life of Socrates.

He was born in the year 469. His father Sophroniscus was a sculptor and Socrates for some little time pursued this calling, wh. since his family though poor claimed descent fr. Daedalus was perhaps hereditary. A work of his was even put in the Acropolis, and it is very common for unusual intellectual power to be accompanied by some artistic gift. His mother Phaenarete was a midwife, wh. gives gave point to the metaphor he commonly used about himself. Indeed the whole of his life and teaching wd. be unintelligible if the real and remarkable equality of the Athenian democracy were not taken into account. It is scarcely possible to speak of anything in his life as personal or private for the Athenian ingenium {innate quality, character}, and more strongly his own, ~~make~~ give to every biographical point a historical and even a philosophical interest. Xanthippe his wife's name is well known, and he had three sons. He not only thought but was also an actor, both things with one end and accordantly. His life therefore is his philosophy or is part of it or specifies it. ~~Phi~~ Great works though only in speculation or art shd. in criticism be viewed together with the personal conditions of their authors: sometimes their moral force, sometimes ~~their character or their~~ ~~lives~~ the character or the life or at least the temperament is concerned.¹ Works wh. are detached fr. these accidents have not the same influence or interest, they are prolusions or *ἁγωνίσματα* {contests or their prizes; declamations written for competitions}. In some cases the personal circumstances give colouring ~~only~~, as it is very truly said that Wordsworth's philosophy is temperament, and as in Plato or Shakspeare, for the absence of anything personal in these dramatic writers has been exaggerated; in some they are half of the interest or of the result, as in St. Augustine or the *Vita Nuova*,² in some it is not the acts of the mind nor its results that are the interest but the character, as Dr. Johnson. Perhaps therefore Socrates was always more than the Socratic philosophy even in Greece, certainly it has been so later.

His parents were able to give him a good education, namely under Archelaus a disciple of Anaxagoras. He learnt physics fr. him. Though the philosophers had as yet been engaged on the outer world, nature, or if on the more essential material of philosophy yet not psychologically, Socrates was not the first to choose a new starting point. The conditions of the Sophists' teaching had at least brought the tide round: for instance the principle *μέτρον ἄνθρωπος* {man is the measure} wh. may

mean so many things stands very well for a short account of Idealism. But the Sophists were not thorough, Socrates, who cd. not only use dialectic but wd. also cross-question himself in trains of thought, we are told, wh. lasted unbroken for hours, was. What he did he did consciously also. He gave up physics and mathematics, except for utility: he knew how to limit himself, wh. Goethe thought so important. The study of physics seemed vast and hopeless, though it began anew with the Timaeus of Plato even in the succession of Socrates and flourished with Aristotle: mathematics too reappear even earlier in Plato's well known superliminare.³ But such pauses are common in the history of thought. The study of physics was just then ἀπειρον {boundless, limitless} as it seemed, moreover Socrates thought it profane, not merely perhaps because it escaped the attempts to apprehend them but because the limited and scientific arrangement ~~struck him~~ of the universe struck him, as is so often the case, as destroying the awe wh. belongs to the great field of uncertainty. This leads to Socrates' religious character. Although his destructive method seemed a more dangerously to bring on skepticism than what we know of the teaching of the Sophists, he was a believer ~~among~~ amidst much skeptical feeling. He had this strong moral impulse wh. great innovators often have and owe so much of their force to and this marked him off fr. the Sophists. His belief in his mission witnessed to by his familiar spirit was ~~in some way~~ medieval, but without the depth and the grace. It strongly influenced a few, but the multitude (and of good people) was hostile, whereas St. Francis or St. Ignatius had in a sense the world with them, and even Savonarola's enemies⁴ were violent and wicked men. In Plato the religious sense is diffused and ineffective, in Aristotle it is of no importance at all, and in the Stoics who developed this side of Socrates there is the moral force but not faith or devotion. Still in Socrates himself the moral was more important than the religious, the proportion of the subjective part in virtue was not recognised, and this comes out in his ethics.

Ethics were the study he substituted for physics wh. he did not wholly give up till the middle of life. Besides the reasons above given Gk. life, especially Athenian, ~~were~~ was inevitably pointing to the studies of humanity rather than of the outer universe. His leading principle was that virtue was knowledge, vice ignorance. He hastened to add that virtue might be taught.⁵ This principle like so many of the axioms of early philosophy is capable of ~~many~~ different degrees of acceptance. We must scarcely however make Socrates mean more than the simplest.

The most important criticism, wh. wd. destroy its value in the ~~simply~~ simple sense, was soon given, but not in Socrates' time. Historically it was an advance, because it asserted that virtue was absolute in its essence wh. the common skepticism denied though religion implied and also because it ~~laid~~ gave the idea of a science of ethics, but speculatively it went back. It presents in the basest form what was the great fault of the ancient ethics, namely that it makes goodness motiveless and merely objective. This fault is lessened in Aristotle, still more in the Stoics, in Marcus Aurelius it is refined to the furthest possible degree, but is not got rid of. We may also look to the Socratic system in his own life. His virtue is proverbial; his uprightness was shewn in the trial of the commanders at Arginusae,⁶ in the refusal given to the Thirty, and most in his trial and death; he was ascetic too, having given his life to what was a holy aim, living strictly, and undergoing hardships wh. made his fellow soldiers wonder at or dislike him. He was distinguished for his physical courage too. He felt the duty of humility to the gods, listening to the warning of his guardian spirit with exact obedience, attending sacrifices, receiving with submission the voice of the oracle, and with his last breath reminding Crito of the cock vowed to Aesculapius.⁷ He was what the Romans meant by vir sanctus et fortis {a man pious and courageous}. Yet his goodness is without much sanctity. The want of sanctity, holiness, the quality wh. gives the most delicate ~~form~~ self-respect or what looks like self-respect, was of less importance in Greece necessarily than it has been since, and yet self-respect was a prominent virtue with the ancients, in the *μεγαλόψυχος* {magnanimous man} of Aristotle, in the form of self-assertion in the defence of Socrates. Not only the conception we must have of him has very deep blemishes, but the Athenians were right too: Alcibiades and Critias were not the companions of a saint.

etc.⁸

1. Jowett often addressed the issues of biography and the autobiographical elements of any given writer's canon. GMH notes:

Indications of character etc. of Plato fr. his own writings. Not altogether certain of course.

Leaving anecdotes and traditions of later ages, enquiry as hard as the other. More the art more the dramatist himself recedes.

G[rea]t. diff[erence] between illustrating character or vice versa and character without them. See Shakspeare (of whom we know as nothing as abt. any anct. writer). In Lear, Prospero, Hamlet, perh. Macbeth, he seems to speak with a deep sense of life and pathos of things, but then we have the sonnets. (B.II, fo. 126")

2. Dante Alighieri, *Vita Nuova* (1290-4); St Augustine of Hippo, *Confessions* (c.400). The Hopkins Archive, Campion Hall contains one tiny autograph slip (P.I.1)

relating to St Augustine; it reads: '*Quid tam voluntarium quam voluntas est* {what is as voluntary as free-will?} (Aug. I de Lib. Arb. I.1. c.i).' Regarding Dante, GMH may have been familiar with *The Vita Nuova of Dante*, trans., with an introduction and notes, by Theodore Martin (London, 1862), and *The Early Italian Poets*, trans. and ed. Dante Gabriel Rossetti (London: Smith, Elder, 1861). Both are reviewed in 'The "Vita Nuova" of Dante', *Fraser's Magazine*, 65/389 (May 1862), 580–94. Arnold lectured on 'The Modern Element in Dante' at Oxford in March 1862; the lecture was not published in *Essays in Criticism* (1865), but revised as 'Dante and Beatrice', *Fraser's Magazine*, 69/411 (Mar. 1864), 279–92.

3. Literally, the word refers to that which is 'above the lintel'. On the lintel of the door to the Academy, Plato had written 'ἀγεωμέτρητος μηδεὶς εἰσίτω', 'Let no one ignorant of geometry enter' (more idiomatically, if you haven't done the math, you can't do philosophy). Elias, *Commentary on Aristotle's Categories*, 118.18; cited in *Ioannis Philoponi in Aristotelis de anima libros commentaria*, ed. Michael Hayduck (Berlin, 1897). A Christian adaptation of the trope is featured in George Herbert's *The Temple* (1633): the poem 'Superliminare' links the Church-porch with the Church.
4. Fra Girolamo Savonarola (1452–98), a Dominican monk, preached zealously against social and artistic corruption in Florence. He was a leader of the democratic party in Florence after the Medici were expelled, but became more and more autocratic. In 1497 he instigated the 'Bonfire of the Vanities': books, works of art, and luxury goods deemed immoral or decadent were consigned to a huge public pyre. Ultimately he was tried, condemned, and executed as a heretic. GMH was reading George Eliot's *Romola* in early January 1865, in which Savonarola is featured. 'I have just finished *Romola* and made myself wretched over the fall of Savonarola', he explains to Edward Urquhart on 6 January; 'I must tell you that he is the only person in history (except perhaps Origen) about whom I have a real feeling, and I feel such an enthusiasm about Savonarola that I can conceive what it must have been to have been one of his followers. . . . [He] is the prophet of Christian art, and it is easy to imagine oneself a painter of his following. The author of *Romola* from being pagan, clever as she is, does not understand him' (6.01.1865; see also *Corr.* 5.01.1865 for his comments to Baillie about this 'great' but 'pagan' book). 'Curiously enough, Savonarola engaged the attention of many Victorians who were innocently pleased to find in fifteenth-century Florence an example of the kind of Puritan they thought was known only to Protestantism in their own century. For Hopkins the attraction was more complex, since he seems to have recognized a good many of his own problems in the person of the Florentine Dominican, who, like himself, was both deeply attracted to poetry and painting and repelled by the recognition of how dangerous the arts could be to his own soul.' Martin, *Gerard Manley Hopkins*, 77. GMH had read volume i of Villari's *History of Savonarola's life*, and A. F. Rio's *De l'art chrétien*. Savonarola is also mentioned in D.V.2.
5. Compare with D.III.6 and D.X.1.
6. In July 406 BC a large Athenian fleet was sent to the small islands of the Arginusae, 'opposite to Malea [on] the south-eastern cape of Lesbos', and thus prepared 'for the greatest naval encounter which had taken place throughout the whole [Peloponnesian] war'. Grote, *History*, viii. 232. The Spartans, under Kallikratidas, had 120 triremes (ships); the Athenians, 150. Losses were severe on both sides, but the Athenians were eventually victorious. The conduct of the Athenian generals in the aftermath of the battle was highly questionable. 'It was one of the privileges of a naval victory, that the party who gained it could

sail over the field of battle, and thus assist their own helpless or wounded comrades aboard the disabled ships', yet the generals took no steps to assist the men from the twenty-five disabled Athenian triremes. Survivors were 'left to be gradually drowned' (ibid. 241). The generals were subsequently recalled to Athens and arraigned before the Senate for their omission of such a 'sacred duty' (ibid. 254). Whatever their culpability, though, they were not given a fair trial; Socrates allegedly tried to change this. All eight generals were found guilty; six were put to death immediately. See Grote, *History*, vol. viii: for the battle, pp. 231-42; for the subsequent events, pp. 243-84. Socrates refers to his role in Plato's *Apology* 32A.

7. Plato, *Phaedo* 118.

8. Below the 'etc.' GMH has written in pencil: 'Aristocratic character of anct. politics.'

D.IV

A Platonic Dialogue



D.IV.1

ON THE ORIGIN OF BEAUTY: A PLATONIC DIALOGUE.¹

It was the beginning of the Long Vacation, and Oxford was nearly empty. The Professor of the newly founded chair of Aesthetics,² whose lectures had been unattended during the term, came one day in the evening to New College gardens and found John Clutterbuck a scholar of the college walking there. They knew each other, and had taken two or three turns under the chestnuts together, when a stranger came up to them and asked if these were Worcester Gardens.

"This is New College" said Clutterbuck:³ "may I direct you to Worcester?" "No," the stranger said, he had only wished to know the name; and, then shewing a ~~sketching~~ a sketching-block, he asked if there wd. be any objection to his sketching there. "Not at all" said Hanbury: "shall I bring a chair? My rooms are close by." He always drew standing, he said, and Hanbury and the Professor moved away.

"What was that paradox I heard of yours?" asked the Professor: "about criticism it was."

"O it was nothing" said Hanbury drawing back.

"But let me hear it defended. Everybody likes a good paradox. The Frenchman said the marriage-tie was in every case a bad thing, for if the married tired of each other it bound them together against their will, and if they did not it was superfluous. I like that: do not you?"

"But mine is not a good paradox" said Hanbury; "it is hardly one at all: at all events I do not see how to avoid the conclusion it brings me to. I was saying that in poetry purely common-sense criticism was not enough by itself: that is true, is it not?"

"Certainly."

"And criticism is not advocacy: it is rather judicial, is it not?"

"Judicial, it shd. be."

"And judgments depend on laws, on established laws. Now taste has few rules, and those not scientific and easily disputed, and I might add, often disputed. Am I right?"

"At least, go on" said the Professor.

"If a man disputes your judgment in taste, how can you prove he is wrong? If a man thinks beautiful what you think bad, you must believe he is sincere when he tells you so; and if he is educated how are you to say that his judgment is worse than yours? In fact de gustibus non est disputandum {about tastes there is no arguing}. Criticism therefore in matters of taste cannot be judicial. And purely common-sense criticism is not enough, we agreed. So criticism in matters of taste has no weight at all. That was it: do not be severe on it."

"I will respect it, my dear Hanbury, I will respect it, though I do not quite think you have proved yr. point. However I will not answer you directly, for do you know I am not so sure about de gustibus, which is going further back?"

"Indeed" said Hanbury. "Well if you think there are ascertainable laws,⁴ I shd. be glad of it for one; for when one is morally sure that one is right, it is a pity not to be able to refer to a logical ground⁵ for one's belief."

"I have my theory" said the Professor; "but I am afraid—"

"Do let me hear it" said Hanbury: "I shall be a disciple I am sure."

"My first" said the Professor "it will be then. But may I pursue the Socratic method? may I take up the dialectic battledore which you have just laid down?"

"The dialectic battledore do you call it? I shall be so glad to be the—what is that called now? I have been about thirteen years out of the nursery. The shuttlecock, of course—to be the shuttlecock to it."

"Now where shall I begin?" said the Professor. "I will begin here," and he pulled off one of the large lowest fans of the chestnuts.⁶ "Do you think this beautiful?"

"That? The chestnut-fan? Certainly: I have always thought the chestnut one of the most finely foliated of trees."

"You see it consists of seven leaves, the middle largest, diminishing towards the stalk, so that those nearest the stalk are smallest."

"I see" said Hanbury "I had never noticed there were seven before."

"Now if we look about we shall find—yes there is one. There is a fan, do you see? with only six leaves. Nature is irregular in these things. Can you reach it? Now which do you think the more beautiful, the one with six, or the one with seven, leaves? Shut out, if you can, the remembrance

that the six-leaved one is an anomaly or imperfection: consider it symmetrical."

"Well I daresay the six-leaved one may improve the foliage by variety, but in themselves the seven-leaved one is the handsomer."

"Just so" said the Professor; "but *cd.* you give any reason?"

"I suppose, as they are alike in all other respects, it is that seven is a prettier number than six, and that *wd.* agree with the mystical character attached to the number seven."

"Yes, but let me understand" said the Professor. "Now is 101 a prettier number than 100?"

"101? I do not know. No, I think 100 is. No: of course in fact it depends on 100 or 101 of what."

"Suppose then I had two great chestnut-fans, one with 100, one with 101, leaves, which *wd.* be the handsomer? You will say you *cd.* not tell till you saw them. But now, following the arrangements of these six-leaved and seven-leaved fans, in the 100-leaved there *wd.* be 50 radiating leaves on either side and a gap in the middle, in the 101-leaved 50 on either side and one, the greatest, in the middle. Do you see?"⁷

"Perfectly. And I think the 101-leaved, or in fact the odd-leaved one whatever its number of leaves, *wd.* be the handsomer; not, as you seem to shew, from the abstract excellence of an odd number, but because—well, I suppose because to have the greatest leaf in the middle is the handsomer way."

"But which is the more symmetrical?" asked the Professor. "Is not the six-leaved one?"

"Both have symmetry; yet, as you say, the six-leaved one seems the more so, supposing it of course to be really symmetrical, which this specimen is not."

"Is not this" asked the Professor "because it is naturally divided into two equal parts of three leaves each, while the seven-leaved is not, and cannot be symmetrical in the same way unless we physically cut the ~~middle leaf~~ greatest leaf down the middle."

"Yes that is it; I see" said Hanbury.

"And so you judge the less markedly symmetrical to be the handsomer. Still the seven-leaved one has much symmetry. But now look at the tree *fr. wh.* I pulled it. Do you like it better as it is, or *wd.* you have the boughs start *fr. the trunk* at the same height on opposite sides, symmetrically pair and pair?"

"As it is, certainly."

"Or again look at the colouring of the sky."⁸

"But" put in Hanbury "colouring is not a thing of symmetry."

"No: but now what is symmetry? Is it not regularity?"

"I shd. say, the highest regularity" said Hanbury.

"So it is. But is it not that sort of regularity wh. is measured by length and breadth and thickness? Music for instance might be regular, but not symmetrical ever; ~~wd. it not?~~ is it not so?"

"Quite so" said Hanbury.

"Let us say regularity then. The sky, you see, is blue above, then comes a pale indescribable hue, and then the red of the sundown. You admire it, do you not?"

"Very much" said Hanbury.

"But the red is the richest colour, is it not?"

"Now it is; yes."

"Shd. you then like the whole sky to be of one uniform rich red?"

"Certainly not."

"Or the red and blue to end sharply with a straight line, without anything as a gobetween?"

"No: I like the gradation."

"Again then you ~~conclude~~ approve of variety over absolute uniformity. And ~~then~~ variety is opposed to regularity, is it not? while uniformity is regularity. Is it not so?"

"Certainly. I am to conclude then that beauty is produced by irregularity" said Hanbury.

"Ah! you run on very fast" said the Professor. "I never said that. Once more, if you please, I must send my shuttlecock up to the sky. You will no doubt with your feathers of vantage see better than I can, considering how my view is cut off by the buildings of the College, that rows of level cloud run along the west of the sky."

"At all events" said he "I can see them."

"Do you think they wd. be better away?" asked the Professor.

"No; they add to the beauty of the sunset sky."

"Notice however that they are pretty symmetrical. They are straight, and parallel with the sky-line and with each other, and of a uniform colour, and other things in them are symmetrical. Should you admire them more if they were shapeless?"

"I think not" said Hanbury.

"Again when we say anyone has regular features, do we mean praise or blame?"

"Praise."

"We were speaking of the sy chestnut-trees, of their unsymmetrical growth. Now is the oak an unsymmetrical tree?"

"Very much so; ø O quite a rugged boldly-irregular tree: and this I shd. say was one of the things wh. make us invest it with certain qualities it has in poetry and in popular and national sentiment" said Hanbury.

"Very observant. You mean of course when it grows at liberty, rather than when influenced by confinement, cutting and so forth."

"Yes: what I say will of course be truest of the tree when uninfluenced by man."

"Very good. Now have you ever noticed that when the oak has grown to its full stature uninfluenced, the outline of its head is drawn by a long curve, I shd. think it wd. be that of a parabola, which, if you look at the tree from a little way off, is of almost mathematical correctness?"

"Dear me, is it indeed so? No, I had never noticed it, but now that you name it, I do seem to find something in me which verifies what you say."

"Do you happen to remember" asked the Professor "that fine oak at the top of the hill above Elsfield where you have such a wide view?"

"Of course I do. Yes a very fine tree."

"If you had analysed your admiration of it I think you wd. have had to lay a good deal of it to that strict parabolic outline. Or again if one of the three side-leaves of this seven-leaved chestnut-fan be torn off, it will be less beautiful, will it not? And this, I am sure you will now say, because the symmetry is destroyed."

"Yes" said Hanbury. "Then beauty: you wd. say perhaps, is a mixture of regularity and irregularity."¹⁰

"Complex beauty, yes. But let us inquire a little further. What is regularity? Is it not obedience to law? And what is Law? Does it not mean that several things, or all the parts of one thing, are like each other?"

"Let me understand" said Hanbury.

"I fear I ply my battledore so fiercely that the best of shuttlecocks has not time to right itself between the blows; but I will be steadier. Is not a straight line regular? and a circle?"

"Nothing can be more so" said Hanbury.

"And any part of a straight line or of a circle is exactly like another of the same size, is it not?"

"Exactly."

"They are in fact consistent with themselves, and alike throughout."

"Yes they are."

"Regularity then is consistency or agreement or likeness, either of a thing to itself or of several things to each other."

"I understand the first part of what you say, but—I am very sorry again to trouble you—not quite the second."

"It is my fault" said the Professor. "I mean that although a leaf might have an outline on one side so irregular that no law cd. be traced in it, yet if the other side exactly agreed with it, you wd. say there was law or regularity about the leaf to make one side like the other. Or if the leaf of a tree were altogether irregular, supposing such a thing were to be found in nature, yet all the leaves on the tree were exactly like it, having precisely that same irregularity, then you wd. recognize the presence of law about the tree."

"Yes: I understand perfectly now."

"Then regularity is likeness or agreement or consistency, and irregularity is the opposite, that is the difference or disagreement or change or variety. Is it so?"

"Certainly."

"Then the beauty of the oak and the chestnut-fan and the sky is a mixture of likeness and difference or agreement and disagreement or consistency and variety or symmetry and change."

"It seems so, yes."

"And if we did not feel the likeness we shd. not think them so beautiful, or if we did not feel the difference we shd. not think them so beautiful. The beauty we find is fr. the comparison we make of the things with themselves, seeing their likeness and difference, is it not?"

"Yes. But let me think a little. This may be the nature of the beauty in the things you have spoken of and of many others, but I do not at all yet see how it applies to all things, and I shd. like to ask you to account for some of them. Let me collect some instances."

He stood looking out through a loophole in one of the towers of the old wall. Meanwhile the sketcher, who had long been drawing in a desultory way, moved fr. the stand he had taken up, as though meaning to walk about. He had become more interested in this philosophy of the Gardens than in his sketching, for in the clear air of the evening he had heard almost everything that was said,¹¹ and the questioner and answerer had raised their voices: he was loth to lose the end of the debate. Hanbury hearing him move turned and asked if he wd. come in and have some tea. He thanked him and accepted the offer. It was then debated whether the party shd. go in at once or no, and it was agreed they shd. for the present at least continue to walk about. Hanbury in

courtesy began to talk on indifferent subjects, but the stranger begged the discussion might be continued.

"I am afraid" he said "I have heard more than I had any business to do, but I have become so interested that I—one's fondness for painting will be the best excuse for the interest a discussion on beauty has for one. Perhaps I might serve as alternative shuttlecock, ~~with~~ while Mr. Hanbury"—he had heard the name from the Professor's mouth in the course of the talk—"is collecting his instances. I hardly think I entirely understood the last of what was said."

"If you will be so kind" said the Professor. "But I fear that in the ardour of the game I thump the shuttlecock far too hard, in order to bring out the more resonant answers. I know quite well what sort of things Hanbury is going to bring forward, and in the meantime I wd. gladly fortify my first ground, which I took only with regard to things of abstract beauty[.] Of course everyone wd. allow as a truism that in making beautiful shapes (and the same will hold for the other kinds of abstract beauty) we must not have things too symmetrical; and most wd. allow we must not have them too unsymmetrical and rugged; but what this means and leads to they do not so much seem to consider. Now let me take an instance from those excellent frescos which are being added to the new smoking-room at the Union—" ¹²

"Excuse me" said the painter; "I have come up to paint those frescos, so perhaps you wd. find me too much prejudiced, for them to serve your purpose as examples."

"Indeed" said the others "then your name is Middleton, we are to presume."

"Yes" said he; "but pray do not let the discussion be interrupted on account of my frescos. You will, I am sure, find another instance."

"I will return then to the chestnut-fan" said the Professor. Hanbury went in to make tea, promising soon to be back, and the Professor continued. "Each leaf is symmetrical is it not? Counting from the rib or spine which runs down the back of the middle leaf, each side of the fan answers to the other, does it not?"

"Quite so."

"With the exception" went on the Professor "of such slight inequalities or imperfections as are always to be found in nature. And these wd. not be expressed at all in an ~~idealized~~ idealised chestnut-fan used in Art, wd. they? I mean of course not in a landscape picture, but in such a ~~formalized~~ formalised and conventionalised shape as the chestnut-fan wd. have in decoration and architecture and so on."

"Yes["] said Middleton; "it wd. then be quite symmetrical."

"But yet it wd. not have lost its beauty, its wd. it?—But I am really ashamed to ask these questions."

"Not at all, not at all" said Middleton; "I beg you will not be so. No, it wd. not have lost its beauty. It is in fact one of the most beautiful natural shapes at the disposal of Art."

"And what was said of ~~I said of each leaf~~ the whole fan is also true of each leaf of it, that it is symmetrical: but now let us see what this symmetry comes to. For first one side answers to the other, but yet there is a leaf, the middle one, wh. belongs to neither one side nor the other. Hanbury and I had agreed that this contrast of two opposite things, symmetry and the violation of it, was here preferable to pure symmetry. Next it radiates, but the radiation of leaves is not carried all the way round. Wd. it be improved by more regular radiation, do you think?"

"O no: whatever the beauties of regular radiation may be, the particular beauty of the chestnut-fan depends on its not being so radiated."

"Here again then contrast is preferred to agreement. Then the leaves are pretty much alike but not of the same size. You wd. not have them of the same size, I am sure, thus again preferring contrast to agreement. And one sees that, although differing, they differ by a law, diminishing as they do towards the stalk; and this I presume is more beautiful than if they differed irregularly, so that the contrast of regularity with variety is once more preferred to agreement, the agreement it wd. be in this case of entire irregularity. Is it not so?"

"I think so, yes."

"Although fr. their diminishing they do not form part of that most regular of figures the circle, yet in their diminishing they shape out another figure, do they not? partly regular, though containing variety; I mean that of a Greek Omega."¹³

"Yes, I see how you mean."

"Furthermore, although leaf answers to leaf on each side of the central one, you will see that the equal leaves are not diametrically opposite to each other—I use 'diametrically' in its strict sense, opposite as the one ~~side~~ half of a diameter is to the one on the other side of the center—, with the exception of two of them."

"No, I see" said Middleton: "the ~~largest~~ greatest is opposite the stalk, which is the slimmest thing belonging to the fan; then the two next greatest, which are nearest to the middle one, are opposite to the two smallest, which are nearest to the stalk; only the two between these two

last-mentioned pairs are both opposite and answering to each other. All this I see; and I understand that you wd. point out the contrast made by the regularity of the continuous diameter with the irregularity of the unequal opposite radii."

"That is just what I wd. say" said the Professor. "Then it is not the radiation wh. is the beauty of the fan, but the radiation heightened by its cessation near the stalk."

"Yes."

"Nor the agreement of side with side, but that agreement as reflected on by the one dominant leaf wh. belongs to neither side."

"Yes."

"Nor the likeness of the leaves, but their likeness as thrown up by their difference in size."

"Yes."

"Nor their inequality, but the inequality as tempered by their regular diminishing."

"Yes."

"Nor their each having a diametrical opposite, but that opposite being the least answering to themselves in the whole fan."

"Yes."

"I might say even more. It seems then that it is not the excellence of any two things (or more) in themselves, but those two things as viewed by the light of each other, that makes beauty. Do you understand?"

"I think so, but might I ask you still further to explain?"

"I had reserved what I think will be my best proof for the last" said the Professor. "The leaves of most trees may be roughly described as being formed by the intersection of two equal circles, in fact the figures called vesica piscis, but the leaves of this fan are not so. They are narrow near the stalk, they pass outwards with a long concave curve, then more than half-way up they turn, form a pair of rounded shoulders, so to speak, and then come round sharply to the point. Look here for instance," and he pulled one off the tree.

"Yes, the curve is more complex than in most trees; but I am not sure I do not admire the commoner shape better in leaves."

"Yes" said the Professor, "but now wd. you have the fan made of that commoner sort? I have made a mock fan, see, with lime¹⁴ leaves."

"Certainly not" said Middleton. "The more complex curve is far more beautiful in the fan, for it leaves long narrow slits of light between the leaves, and in other respects the composition is finer and richer."

"Ah! that is the pith of the matter—'its composition.' But I am afraid

to go on; I am talking to one who will laugh to see me fall into some snare as I trespass over his own grounds."

"Pray go on" said Middleton.

"If I am to do so" said the Professor "I shall put these next questions in fear and trembling. Do not painters speak of balancing mass by mass in the composition of their pictures."

"They do."

"If they balance mass by mass, the mass in one part of a picture must be unbalanced until that in another part is put in."

"Of course."

"If unbalanced then, the picture is unbeautiful."

"Yes, in that respect."

"Now suppose when the picture was finished with two masses balanced, a copy were made fr. it, and one mass put in, not the one that was put in the first in the original picture but the other, and then the copying stopped; the picture wd. then be unbalanced as before, wd. it not?"

"Just as the first picture was, yes."

"And it wd. be unbeautiful, wd. it not?"

"Yes."

"But the finished picture was beautiful."

"Yes."

"The picture that had only one mass put in was unbeautiful: now as it was to be beautiful when both masses were put in, we might suppose the beauty must lie in all that mass wh. was yet to come: when however we in our second picture, anxious to have our beauty as soon as possible, put the second mass in first, pregnant as it is was with graces, lo and behold! the result was as uninteresting as when we had the first mass alone put in. What are we to say then? The beauty does not lie in this mass or that, but in what? In this mass as supported by that, and in that as supported by this. Is it so?"

"Exactly."

"And artists call this composition. Does not then the beauty lie in the relation between the masses?"

"It seems it does."

"Beauty then is a relation."

"I suppose it is."

"And things wh. have relation are near enough to have ~~rela~~ something in common, but not near enough to be one and the same, are they not?"

"Yes."

"And to perceive the likeness and difference of things, or their relation, we must compare them, must we not?"

"Yes."

"Beauty therefore is a relation, and the apprehension of it a comparison. The sense of beauty in fact is a comparison, is it not?"

"So it wd. appear."

"I have not yet said what the relation is" said the Professor, when he was interrupted by Hanbury who had returned some time since.

"Well" said he "I must own, with all my wish for the logical ground I spoke of in discussions of taste, I feel it very unworthy to think that beauty resolves itself into a relation. However, it may be that the particular kind of beauty in a chestnut-fan, which seems after all a geometrical sort of thing, may be explained as you say, and you seem to have pulled it to pieces to exhibit that, so that I am either convinced or I really do not know what to say to the contrary; but I am sure there is in the higher forms of beauty—at least I seem to feel—something mystical, something I don't know how to call it. Is not there now something beyond what you have explained?"

"Oh! my dear friend, when one sets out with—a priori notions—I am afraid I have lost the only chance of a disciple I ever had."

"Not at all, I hope" said Middleton.

"No, no" said Hanbury; "if you will explain on your theory what I am now going to put forward I will then believe it will apply to everything else. But now where is the relation you speak of, and the comparison, in this for instance?"

O blithe New-comer! I have heard,

I hear thee and rejoice.

O Cuckoo! shall I call thee Bird

Or but a wandering Voice?¹⁵

Now is there not something mystical there, or is it all in plain broad daylight?"

"A mathematical thing, measured by compasses, that is what you think I shd. make it, do you not?"

"Well yes, if you put the ~~was~~ words into my mouth."

"But" went on the Professor "if I am to undertake the analysis of so subtle a piece of beauty as you have tasked me with, might I do it by the aid of candlelight? for it is now dark, you see, and wet underfoot, and one is almost cold, I think. I hope the tea is not."

"Ah! the tea!" said Hanbury; and they went in.¹⁶

"Now" said the Professor, when they were settled down at the tea-table, "am I to consider the stanza you have quoted by itself or with reference to the rest of the poem?"

"How do you mean?" said Hanbury.

"It is rather an important point, and I must explain a little. You wd. say that The Tempest is beautiful (I mean Shakspeare's play) wd. you not? and you wd. say that Tennyson's poems are beautiful, and I will suppose for argument's sake that you like them all without exception: now do you mean the same thing in saying The Tempest is beautiful and that Tennyson's poems are beautiful?"

"Except for a difference in the degree of my admiration I suppose I do."

"No difference in kind?"

"I see none."

"Suppose fr. the volume of Tennyson's smaller poems you there were a dozen taken away. Shd. you admire the remaining ones less?"

"Of course not. It cd. make no difference in them" said Hanbury.

"And your estimate of the Tennyson wd. be much the same without them; and so in any other like case, except so far as each fresh poem might be a proof of a wider range and greater versatility; and, other things being equal, I suppose versatility wd. put one great man above another. That by the way however. In any case the remaining poems wd. seem neither more nor less beautiful. But now if fr. a play you leave out two or three scenes, shd. you admire the remainder as much as when taken together with them?"

"No. But of course the plot wd. be destroyed by their being left out, or mangled at all events; and a plot is so necessary to a play that—but in fact it is plain a play is almost nothing at all without its plot worked out."¹⁷

"Ah yes, but it is a great deal more than that" said the Professor. "What I mean wd. apply to omissions wh. wd. not harm the plot, and I cd. make such omissions in many plays. For instance one hears a great deal about the tragic irony of the Greek playwrights, and the spirit wh. is ~~deser~~ meant by that phrase will run through a play and be developed in particular scenes, but yet have so little directly to do with the story, that a child wd. understand the play just as well if all expressions of this spirit were left out. The misconceptions, the unconsciously produced double senses, the prophecies and so on, of the characters are favourite channels of pathos and other dramatic effect with the poets. They are not needed by the plot or the bare statement of them

only is needed, but dramatically considered their loss wd. be great, wd. it not?"

"Certainly, yes."

"The unity which is needed for every work of art and especially for a play is enforced on us by many other things besides the plot. For instance, you remember Dido's curse on Aeneas and his children in ~~the~~ Virgil.¹⁸ Nothing more than the fact of the curse was needed for the story, if that. The first part, that referring to Aeneas, is fulfilled, you know, but in another sense than that meant by Dido. This seems to me, though as I say nothing to do with the intelligibility of the story, to give more and grander unity to the book than any other touch in it. The latter part,

Exoriare aliquis nostris ex ossibus ultor,

{Arise, thou unknown avenger, from my bones}

and so on, looks beyond the time of the Aeneid to Hannibal's war, quite external therefore to the plot. You feel, I am sure, how great its loss wd. be."

"O yes" said Hanbury.

"This of course" went on the Professor "implies a knowledge in the reader; but almost all works of art imply knowledge of things external to themselves in the mind of the critic—in fact all do; but this is a wide field I must not now enter on. All I want to shew is ~~there~~ that there is a relation betw. the parts of a thing to each other and again of the parts to the whole, wh. must be duly kept. If from the volume of poems we take a dozen away, we agreed there is no difference, the remainder are neither better nor worse. But if from one single work of art, one whole, we take ~~another~~ anything appreciable away, a scene from a play, a stanza fr. ~~what~~ a short piece, or whatever it is, there is a change, it must be better or worse without it; in a great man's work it will be—there are of course exceptions—worse. Is it not so?"

"Yes, it must be so" said Hanbury, "I see."

"And" said Middleton "is not this to be explained in the same way? I mean the oddness or new character a passage has wh. we have seen quoted and now come on with its context. It is not in this case that we imagined the thing to be a whole in itself and found it was only a part of a whole, because one generally sees at once that a quotation is something detached, but that our vague conception of what the drift of the context must be is found wrong. I must say that Wordsworth often disappoints me when I come upon a passage I knew by quotation: it seems less pointed, less excellent, with its context than without."

"It is the same¹⁹ with Virgil, I think" said Hanbury.

"With regard to that" said the Professor, "you see the few words of a quotation are impressed on us with a much greater intensity than the text of a long piece we are reading ~~continuity~~ continuously. This intensity therefore is incongruous, it makes the quotation almost shine out fr. the page ~~almost~~; it seems a new patch on an old garment, a purpureus pannus {purple patch}."²⁰ As you read a poet you are more and more raised to his level, you breathe his air, you accustom yourself, till things seem less striking and beautiful than when sharply contrasted with a lower, at all events a different, style, as they were in the quotation. All this is intimately akin to what I have been thinking about beauty. I need do no more than ask you to see it is again a question of comparison, for we must not wander on to first principles just now, till our present point is settled."

"Yes there is a comparison of a certain kind, I see" said Hanbury.

"Sometimes however" said Middleton "one does imagine a quotation to be a whole when it is only a part. The effect is curious. I think what I mean wd. be explained by what you were saying. I have noticed sometimes this effect with regard to those quotations and tags of poetry and so on one sees added to the titles of pictures in the catalogue of the Academy. Suppose one saw this stanza of Shelley's²¹ chosen—

Music when sweet voices die
Vibrates in the memory
Odours when sweet violets sicken
Live within the sense they quicken.

Now if one imagined this stanza was a single thought and the whole poem, or what, though opposite to that, wd. in another way be as bad, four lines namely out of some piece in the metre of his lines written among the Euganean hills, how greatly wd. the effect lose, unless I am mistaken, of that beauty it has when you add the next stanza.—

Rose-leaves when the rose is shed
Are heap'd for the belovèd's bed
And so thy thought when thou art gone
Love himself shall slumber on.

You then know the poem is complete is²² these two stanzas. In proportion to the shortness of a finished poem one may say is the emphasis of each verse. It seems to me that the feeling what [*sic*] is the precise due

emphasis, though a less important point, is almost as truly a point of noble poetry as the words on wh. the emphasis is to be laid. Pathos or majesty, I shd. imagine, demand some considerable emphasis; you cd. hardly have them given casually: while on the other hand over-emphasis is painful, sensational, if you understand me."

"Quite" said the Professor. "Sonnet-writing demands this feeling you speak of. A sonnet shd. end, or at all events may very effectively end, with a vigorous emphasis.²³ Shakspeare's end with an emphasis of pathos impressed in a rhyming couplet. I wd. use these as a strong instance of the relative character of beauty. On the one hand the sonnet wd. lose if you put two other lines instead of that couplet at the end, ~~of the~~ on the other the couplet wd. lose if quoted apart, so as to lose be without the emphasis wh. has been gathering through the sonnet and then delivers itself in those two lines wh. are seen by the eye to be final or read by the voice with a deepening of note and slowness of delivery. Wordsworth's sonnets seem to me sometimes to end too casually."

"I must not allow anything against Wordsworth" said Hanbury: "otherwise I agree. Yes, I have noticed there is a proper character belonging to beginning and ending lines wh. shd. not be misplaced; I have noticed it, as Mr. Middleton says, in the Academy catalogues. If you attribute by mistake the emphasis to a beginning line, or to an ending line that—I don't know what to call the feeling I have about the beginnings of some poems."

"It is a sort of pleasurable expectancy, I think, sometimes" said the Professor, "and sometimes an artificial low pitch which you feel will be deserted by a flight or rise into a higher one presently."

"Yes, that is very much it. In either case if you attribute the peculiar character of the one to the other you misapprehend it and the beauty is partly lost—I allow."

"Well" said the Professor to Middleton, "you and Hanbury have worked this out for me and I have had the pleasure of hearing my system developed in my silence."

"We can't say that, I fear" said Middleton.

"And now" went on the Professor "I need not ask Hanbury that question, whether I am to consider ~~that~~ the stanza he quoted by itself or with reference to the rest of the poem, any more, for I am sure he wd. say he had meant with reference to the rest of the poem."

"Yes" said he "I thought you knew the poem well; everybody does; and so I quoted only one verse. It is the spirit which I want to hear treated on your system, and that runs through all the poem. However,

that being understood, I suppose it will be shorter to examine one stanza than the whole poem."

"Well then" said the Professor, "before we pass on, we understand that the collective effect of a work of art is due to the effect of each part to the rest, in a play of each act to the rest, in a smaller poem of each stanza to the rest, and so on, and that the addition or loss of any act or stanza will not be the addition or loss of the intrinsic goodness of that act or stanza alone, but a change on the whole also, either for the better or for the worse necessarily. It depends however on the nature of the work what will be the importance of a gain or loss of this kind: I suppose that it will be greatest where the connection is strong, where the unity is strongly marked, that is a unity not of spirit alone but a structural one,—"

"Stay" said Hanbury, "what is structural unity?"

"Well, a sonnet is an instance. It must be made up of fourteen lines: if you were to take a line out, that wd. be an important loss to the structural unity."

"Ah yes. That sort of unity everyone cd. preserve, I suppose, and also at all events enough unity of plot to make a play intelligible. Unity of spirit to be well kept needs power, you wd. say."

"Yes. In the particular case before us I do not mean to say perhaps that the unity of the poem wd. lose much by the loss or addition of a stanza, beyond—"

"Oh!" cried Hanbury.

"Beyond, my enthusiastic friend, the loss of the intrinsic value of the stanzas, wh. wd. be very great, I was going to say. And now I must come to closer quarters. I am going to make a swoop, Hanbury, a fell swoop, at rhythm, metre, and rhyme."

"Ah, if you were to have everything structural your own way, the main point wd. still be untouched" said Hanbury.

"I suppose however" said Middleton "every admission widens the circle of things accounted for by the theory."

"Yes: well let him swoop."

"We must be dialectical again then" said the Professor. "You think these things beautiful, do you not, rhythm, metre, and rhyme?"

"Of course I do; everybody does. Swoop away" said Hanbury.

"And what is rhythm? Is it not the repetition of a regular sequence of syllables either by in accent or quantity?"²⁴

"The repetition of a regular sequence of syllables. If I understand, yes."

"Well" said the Professor "a trochee is a sequence of long and short; an anapaest is a sequence of short and short and long. These sequences are technically called feet, are they not? The repetition of them makes language rhythmical ~~does it not~~. The repetition of trochees gives a trochaic rhythm, of anapaests an anapaestic rhythm, and so on."

"I understand."

"You remember we agreed that regularity was the consistency or agreement or likeness either of a thing to itself or of several things to each other. Rhythm therefore is an instance of regularity, is it not?"

"Yes."

"Of exact, absolute regularity?" asked the Professor. "Must each anapaest be exactly like the next?"

"Why yes. If it were not, one of the two wd. be an anapaest no longer but some other foot."

"Let us see. We will try some English trochees, accentual trochees.

Odours when sweet violets sicken.

Live within the sense they quicken.

Is each foot there like the next exactly?"

"Yes, with certain allowances. Although our English poetry is accentual, quantity does play some not very well recognised part in it, and this makes it perhaps less regular than classical poetry, though indeed very likely accent may have played the same part in that. For this reason and also because it is made of two words, the foot when sweet is not exactly the counterpart of odours or sicken."

"That is very good, but I did not mean that. I will consider them as strictly regular as you like. Nothing else?"

"Except that violets is not a trochee at all but a dactyl. That is a licence."

"An alternative foot merely" said the Professor; "much as in the hexameter you may use the dactyl and spondee as alternative in the first four places. I do not mean ~~it~~ that either. Now you remember I wished beauty to be considered as regularity or likeness tempered by irregularity or difference: the chestnut-fan was one of my instances. In rhythm we have got the regularity, the likeness; so my aim is, as rhythm is agreed to be beautiful, to find the disagreement, the difference, in it. Do you still see none?"

"No, none. What is it?"

"This, my dear Hanbury. The accentual sequence (which we call a

trochee) in odours is the same as in when sweet or in sicken, but the foot is not exactly like them simply because it is made of a different word. Odours is not the same word as sicken, therefore the foot odours is not the exact counterpart of the foot sicken. It has the same sequence of accentuation, but illustrated in different syllables. Rhythm therefore is likeness tempered with difference, is it not?"

"Yes, it is so. Well but—No: you are right. How cd. I not see that, I wonder."

"And the beauty of rhythm is traced to the same causes as that of the chestnut-fan, is it not so."

"Yes it is."

"Now for metre" said the Professor. "Metre is the repetition of certain regular sequences of rhythm, is it not? the combination of pieces of rhythm of certain lengths, equal or unequal."

"Oh yes, if you define metre that way. A metre is a whole of which each rhythmic foot is a part, or if you like feet are the members of lines and lines of metre. But I give up metre; go on to rhyme."

"What is rhyme?" said the Professor. "Is it not an agreement of sound—?"

"With a slight disagreement, yes" broke in Hanbury. "I give up rhyme too."

"Let me however" said the Professor "in the moment of triumph insist on rhyme, which is a short and valuable instance of my principle. Rhyme is useful not only as shewing the proportion of disagreement joined with agreement wh. the ear finds most pleasurable, but also as marking the points in a work of art (each stanza being considered as a work of art) where the principle of beauty is to be strongly marked, the intervals at which a combination of regularity with disagreement so very pronounced as rhyme ~~is to~~ may be well asserted, the proportions wh. may be well borne by the more markedly, to the less markedly, structural. Do you understand?"

"Yes" said Middleton. "In fact it seems to me rhyme is the epitome of your principle. All beauty may by a metaphor be called²⁵ rhyme, may it not?"

"Indeed" said the Professor, "when explanation is added, I have not thought of any way so compendious of putting my principle. Thank you for it."

"Well and I will make a clean sweep" said Hanbury. "Assonance is not an English practice, and in this particular stanza of Wordsworth's what alliteration there is is perhaps scarcely alliteration for alliteration's

sake, but I will give up those things to save you any further trouble, and whatever else is structural in poetry. You will account for them all your own way, I see. Structure is artificial and does not require genius. The expression and spirit of my stanza are Wordsworth's own and these have to be explained yet, I wd. put it if you liked in an unrhythmical, unmetrical, unrhyming shape, and it wd. then be beautiful prose, except so far as my clumsiness might spoil it in the conversion."

"Ah, that is more than I ever asked of you" said the Professor. "No one's thoughts need be expected to look well if the channel he chose to convey them by be changed for another."

"Wordsworth's will however" said Hanbury. "He held that good poetry, if the structural part were taken away, wd. make good prose. Suppose I try.—"

Blithe New-comer, I have heard thee, even now I hear thee and my heart rejoices. O Cuckoo! is it Bird I must call thee or a wandering Voice?"

"You are generous" said the Professor. "The changes necessary to make it unrhythmical have inevitably destroyed some of the grace of expression, but not so much of it, I fear, as I shall hope to make you give up before we come to the ultimate feeling and spirit of the poem."

"Well, attack it your own way."

"First then I must ask you whether it is not necessary in things of sense that the parts of every whole must either pass into one another or else be divided fr. one another."

"Yes they must; logically, I mean, I answer that all things must of course either be close to other things or not close to them. But I do not understand the drift of the question."

"No, I will explain" said the Professor. "Take some simple figures, circle and triangle. The circle is made by a continuous line, the triangle by three lines wh. meet each other. And so arabesques must be made either of a continuous line, or if you like to say so, lines, or else of non-continuous lines."

"Or both" said Hanbury.

"Or both; that is, the arabesque or picture or whatever it ~~may be~~ is may be a compounded of continuous and non-continuous lines, all but the simplest shapes are so, generally speaking. Only you understand that all figures must be composed of continuous or of non-continuous lines or of both."

"Have you not forgotten dots?" asked Middleton. "You may ornament by means of dots alone, and though you might not be able to do much

that is complex in that way, you may help and touch up and emphasise more elaborate pictures by means of dots."

"How cd. one ornament in dots?" asked Hanbury.

"Out of five dots arranged in a particular way you make a cross, may you not? There is—what I was thinking of in especial—a very simple and pretty pattern to be made out of ~~then~~ dots, by arranging them, as it were, at the three angles of a triangle, thus—" and he dotted his meaning down on paper— $\cdot \cdot$ —"in fact making the sign of therefore because in Mathematics. This is the pattern on a girl's dress in an etching of Rossetti's, the frontispiece to Miss Rossetti's Goblin Market, if you have seen it."²⁶

"Ah, I had forgotten the pattern" said Hanbury.

"I had not thought of dots certainly" said the Professor, "but I think they need give us little trouble. They may be regarded as the extreme case of non-continuous or disjointed lines, may they not? And when they are grouped into fig patterns they shape out or suggest the figures of wh. they are the extremities, as your five dots suggest a cross and your three a triangle, wh. might be represented respectively by two straight lines at right angles cutting each other, and three straight lines—well I need not go on. Might I stop for a moment to point out the exemplification of my theory given by an analysis of the triangle dot pattern? You will of course say that the dots thus arranged are prettier on the girl's dress than actual triangles wd. be. And why is this? I shd. like to consider it as being because, while whatever beauty a triangle may have is suggested to the eye, there is added the further element of beauty in the contrast between the continuity, the absolutely symmetrical continuity, of the straight lines wh. are the sides of the suggested triangle, and the discontinuity, if I may use the word, the emphasised extreme discontinuity, of the three dots."

Hanbury said with a smile "You wd. raise the whole country to bring grist to that mill."

"A very harmless excitement" said the Professor opening his hands outwards "if I compel nobody to buy my flour."

"It seems to me we are getting it as fast as we can. But go on."

"Yes. We may consider then that all figures are made of continuous or of non-continuous lines or of both. And the same will apply to colours: they must either pass into one another or else be immediately contrasted without transition; and to shading: we must either gradate or immediately oppose black and white, or at all events two different shades. Stop me if you disagree."



Figure 4. Dante Gabriel Rossetti's frontispiece for Christina Rossetti, *Goblin Market and Other Poems* (1862). The caption: 'Buy from us with a golden curl'
 From The Rossetti Archive, <<http://www.rossettiarchive.org/>>

"It is your results I disagree with" said Hanbury.

"Thanks. 'Her very frowns are sweeter far' —. And of music I may say the same. Sounds must either pass fr. note to note, as wind does in a cranny or as may be done with the string of a violin, or notes may follow each other without transition as on the piano. Well this will apply to all things I suppose. Never mind for the time what this has to do with my theory: you can allow, whatever theory is true about beauty, and

whatever importance you attach to the fact, much or little, that it is a fact, namely that any change in things, any difference between part and part, must be either transitional or abrupt."

"Yes it is."

"Then of the many divisions one might make of beautiful things, I shall consider that there is one, never mind how unimportant, of transitional and abrupt. I think I wd. call it, though I am afraid you will laugh at the terms, a division into chromatic and diatonic beauty. The diatonic scale, you know, leaves out, the chromatic puts in, the ~~inter~~ half-notes. Of course in Music the chromatic scale is not truly chromatic; it is only ~~the~~ nearer to a true chromatic scale than the diatonic is: but that you will understand. Now therefore we may arrange under these two heads many artificial forms, especially, as we are particularly on that subject, poetical forms, wh. belong to either of them: for I think you will see that the division is not in truth unimportant, when we have made this distribution. But first I must ask some more questions. All like things are also unlike, are they not?"

"I suppose they are."

"And all unlike things are also like, are they not?"

"Let me see" said Hanbury.

"Well, things are like by virtue of their having some property in common, are they not? Now ~~all-things~~ any two things, however unlike, have something in common, if only we take a wide enough basis of comparison: one knows that fr. Logic. And in the same way any two things, however like, have some difference fr. each other, as, if they are absolutely like in all other respects, they cannot be ~~at~~ in the same place at the same time. Is it not so?"

"Quite so."

"Likeness therefore implies unlikeness, does it not, and unlikeness likeness?"

"Yes."

"And we may compare things in three ways, first, things that we regard as like to find their difference, next, things that we regard as unlike to find their likeness, and last, things about wh. we are not wholly decided to find both their likeness and unlikeness. This third is the way of comparison proper to philosophy, to science; the other two to art. You may in art mark the likeness of two things, as in simile, or the difference, as in antithesis, but you do not bring them together to say they are partly like, look, and partly unlike, do you?"

"No, certainly not."

"There are no doubt in poetry" went on the Professor "instances of comparisons of that third sort in wh. both likeness and unlikeness are deliberately regarded, but these are far from shewing the opposite of what I have just said, namely that poetry delights in single likeness or single unlikeness, if we look into them; for it will be found that they make of each resemblance a reason for surprise in the next difference and of each difference a reason for surprise in the next resemblance; and yet or such words run before each new point of comparison, and resemblances and antitheses themselves are made to make up a wider antithesis. One remembers such things in Pope, but I cannot give a better instance than Denham's well-known couplet. He wishes to compare the majestic qualities of the river Thames to the same qualities in other things, and yet shew that they are in this case unaccompanied by those kindred or contingent qualities wh. lessen their value where they are found. He says it is

Though deep yet clear, though gentle yet not dull,
Strong without rage, without o'erflowing full."²⁷

"Yes I understand."

"By the way" said the Professor "what makes those lines doubly ingenious is not generally known and is lost by their being quoted alone. It is that there is a further comparison: he says he wishes his verse might be like his theme, 'though deep yet clear' and so on. But to return. When two things are marked as being like in poetry they ~~were~~ are understood to have been considered unlike before, and when they are contrasted they are understood to have been as viewed as like before. Is it not so?"

"Yes I see. If I may interrupt, is not this a good instance of that third kind of comparison you spoke of?—

—facies non omnibus una,
non diversa tamen, qualem decet esse sororum."²⁸

"It is. Then there are practically only these two kinds of comparison in poetry, comparison for likeness' sake, to which belong metaphor, simile, and things of that kind, and comparison for unlikeness' sake, to which belong antithesis, contrast, and so on. Now there is a convenient word wh. gives us the common principle for both these ~~things~~ kinds of comparison—Parallelism. Hebrew poetry, you know, is structurally only distinguished fr. prose by its being paired off in parallelisms, subdivided of course often into lower parallelisms. This is well-known,

but the important part played by parallelism of expression in our poetry is not so well-known: I think it will surprise anyone when first pointed out. At present it will be enough to remember that it is the cause of metaphor, simile, and antithesis, to see that it is anything but unimportant. Parallelism then, that term being now understood, we put under the head of diatonic beauty; under that of chromatic beauty come emphasis, expression (in the sense it has in Music), tone, intensity, climax, and so on. When I say emphasis and intensity I am speaking incorrectly in strictness, for they may be given abruptly of course, so as to come under the other head; but terminology in this baby science is defective: perhaps tone or expression best gives the field of chromatic beauty."

"But is not that rather begging the question" said Hanbury, "to speak of diatonic beauty and chromatic beauty?"

"I will in future" said the Professor "speak of diatonism and chromatism, if you will pardon the words. Talking of the latter, it is hard for the nature of the thing to lay one's finger on examples; but I think you will feel it plays an important part in art."

"Certainly" said Hanbury. "But there is a question I want to ask. All these things, metaphor, simile, antithesis, tone, expression, and the others you have named, are found in prose as well as in poetry, as a rule more sparingly no doubt, but yet so that many prose passages have for instance more metaphor and antithesis than passages I could easily find of equal length in poetry. What difference of principle then is there between prose and poetry?"

"The plain difference which strikes all is what we call verse, is it not? It is that poetry has a regular structure and prose has not" said the Professor.

"O but you do not mean to say there is no more than that, no subtler difference than that. Upon my word that is a beggarly difference."

"Ah, my friend, this is a point on which I know I must look for more pelling than on any other. I foresee I shall be told a string of sublime unlaborious definitions of poetry, that Poetry is this and Poetry is that, and that ~~we are~~ I am not to vex the Poet's mind with my shallow wit, for I cannot fathom it, and that the divine faculty is not to be degraded to the microscope and the dissecting knife,²⁹ and that wherever a flower expands and dedicates its beauty to the sun there, there is Poetry, and that I am a Positivist (as I do not object to be called in ~~one~~ a way), and that I am a fingering slave and would peep and botanise upon my mother's grave, and that I am the carrion vulture ~~who~~ and wait, or do not wait, to

tear the Poet's heart before the crowd, and that I am a Philistine of an aggravated specious kind, and that Shakspeare and Wordsworth and Tennyson and many others have uttered curses on me, and that my only reward will be that I shall be cankered and rivelled together and crisped up by ~~the scorn of scorn, the hate of hate~~ the hate of hate, the scorn of scorn, which the Poet, the emphatic authentic ideal Poet, will treat me with. Dear me, I seem to myself to have become poetically and vividly descriptive of that last effect in my energetic forecast. Yes, I see it all with a glassy countenance. And you who made such flattering promises have cast the first stone. But do your worst: let me spell poet with a little p and perish. This is a shuttlecock that once did not disdain in the intervals of its flights to tread the vellum; now, flown with sublimities and "wingèd with desire," it has gone to its natural clouds. ~~This~~ There, Hanbury, is my farewell tribute to you of in half-rhythmical prose."

"Remember please" said Middleton "that I am alternative with Mr. Hanbury. I am anxious to hear the distinction between poetry and prose stated."

"The lowest view of prose" said the Professor "wd. make it stand to poetry as a trade to an art, or, if you like better, as an art to a fine art; but this view cd. only in ~~truth-appl~~ fact be true of the barest, most utilitarian prose. Beyond this all prose in some degree or other is artificial, aims at beauty, I presume, and uses, as our friend himself pointed out, the same unstructural forms as poetry does for that end. The truth I believe was that Hanbury thought of noble verse, (or as some people say poetry, who call what is inferior only verse), of noble verse, the work of genius, with common uninteresting prose the work of a commonplace or utilitarian pen; and with that view no wonder he thought my words unworthy and levelling. But at that rate one might just as fairly compare doggerel or commonplace verse with noble and eloquent prose, such as Burke wrote or Plato or as Shelley's preface to Adonais. No; in comparing prose and poetry, it must be commonplace prose and commonplace verse, or noble prose and noble verse. If therefore by poetry you understand all verse, we may define as it as differing fr. prose by having a continuous and regular artificial structure, the nature of which we will consider in a minute; if by poetry you mean only noble verse, then let us define verse as above, and merely add that poetry is a particular case of it, namely the case of its being noble or successful. As for the nature of the artificial structure, fr. what we agreed before I think I may conclude you will say that rhythm, metre, rhyme, alliteration,

assonance, and whatever other structural properties may belong to verse, are ~~str~~ cases of strictly regular parallelisms: Is it not so?"

"Quite so" said Middleton.

"Verse and artificial prose then" said the Professor "are arts using the medium of words, and verse is distinguished fr. prose as employing a continuous structural parallelism, ranging fr. the technically so-called parallelism of the Psalms to the intricate structure of Greek or Italian or English verse."

"Of course" said Hanbury "I do not object to ~~all~~ this. All this is very true, I dare say. But there is one thing wh. you do not seem to allow or account for at all. You seem to think that the difference between the best prose, we will say, and the best verse is only that one has the advantage of a continuous artificial structure, in fact that the advantage of ~~prose or~~ poetry over prose may be expressed by the intrinsic value of that structure, that is, of verse. But now is it not always assumed that the highest literary efforts, creative of course I mean, have been made in verse and not in prose? If you want examples of the deepest pathos and sublimity and passion and any other kind of beauty, do you not look for them in verse and not in prose? Surely this is not because ~~they~~ one thinks one may as well have the pathos or sublimity or whatever it is with verse as without, just as ~~though~~ one wd. say the best of tea was better with sugar than without."

"I had not in fact overlooked this" said the Professor; "but you are quite right to bring it forward. You see, as others have seen, that genius ~~rises~~ works more powerfully under the constraints of metre and rhyme and so on than without, that it is ~~stronger~~ more effective when conditioned than when unconditioned. It is far too late tonight to enter on a discussion of this subject, but I think I shall be able to make good my defence for considering the difference between prose and poetry what I have done. I was giving, if you remember, only a definition, a scientific definition, of poetry:³⁰ now the fact you speak of is very striking no doubt, but it is either to be considered an accident of poetry or else, what is the truer way of putting it, the logical result of the conditions of poetry: to know about poetry we must know that, but we are not to put in the definition, are we? It is too late, as I say, to discuss this now, but one may put the cause roughly like this, that the concentration, the intensity, wh. is called ~~b~~ in by means of an artificial structure brings into play the resources of genius on the one hand, and on the other brings us to the end of what inferior minds have to give us[.]"

"In the lower levels of art" said Middleton "all artists, great and

little, as Sir Joshua Reynolds³¹ says, are alike; but every new level exhausts and distinguishes. Greatness is measured by the powerful action of mind under what we look on as difficulties."

"Very true" said Hanbury, "but what has the concentration to do with it?"

"It works thus, I suppose" said the Professor: "everyone feels that it is useless to write in metre, say for instance, if you are only to say the same as you might without it. Besides the emphasis of ~~metre~~ wh. metre gives calls for point and emphasis of expression. I think this is enough for the present, and we may turn to our enquiries again. Let me see: where were we? O yes, we were speaking of chromatism and diatonism in poetry. We agreed, if you remember, to place expression and all that that implies under the former head, and under the latter parallelism both structural and unstructural. I said, you know, that I thought the great frequency and importance of parallelism (the same wh. in a recognised, rather more artificial and structural, shape is the ground-plan of Hebrew poetry) was little understood. I wish I had time to shew this by analysing a number of examples, but—"

"Why, I hope" said Hanbury "if there is not time now you will do it another day, and explain some other things besides; for I have come so far that, even if I disagreed, I shd. be anxious to hear how all things are accounted for on yr. system. Perhaps I might hear at any rate what I want to know in your next term's lectures, for I shall have leisure then."

"Earlier, if you wish; as early as you like. We are all only too glad to get a listener. A listener though! I shd. say a shuttlecock, an interlocutor, an anything that has all the arduous part of the business of system-making, all the tossing to and fro, while I sit at ease and do myself the listening. But for these parallelisms: I may choose a few examples only tonight; but perhaps when I have shewn you how to look you will find yourself an abundance of ~~instances~~ them at home especially in lyrical poetry wh. lives in them ~~as it were~~; and I think you will find they increase in number and distinctness with the rise of passion. Not to look further, let us take Shelley's little piece, wh. has served us before now tonight. What idea does the poem express? To speak vaguely, it is the place of memory in love. But if we look closer we find the idea, wh. is summed in the last two lines, is shaped as an antithesis—

—**thy thoughts, when thou art gone,
Love itself shall slumber on."

"Can you call it a deliberate antithesis?" said Hanbury. "It is beautiful, but so simple—'thy thoughts, when thou art gone,' I mean,—that it is doubtful whether it *cd.* have been put more simply."

"Well" said the Professor, "let us consider. In writing this poem Shelley must either have put before his mind an idea *wh.* he wished to embody in words, namely, as we said before, the place of memory in love, or else the idea rose in the forms of expression *wh.* we read in the poem in his mind, thought and expression indistinguishable. The latter I believe to be the truer way of regarding composition, but be that as it may, one or the other must have been the case, must it not?"

"I suppose so."

"Very well. Then if the first, out of all the conceivable ways *wh.* might have been taken to express a fertile idea, he chose this one: so the antithesis of 'thy thoughts, when thou art gone' pleased him more than other imaginable less antithetical ways of expression, and was therefore deliberate. But if the second, then his thought rose at once into his mind in that form, *wh.* shews that a singularly beautiful expression of poetry has of its essence an antithetical shape:—for that the antithesis is essential to the beauty you can easily prove by seeing how you destroy the pathos by leaving out the words 'when thou art gone'. Try it in prose: *wh.* is more beautiful?—'Love itself shall slumber on ~~the~~ thoughts of thee, when thou art gone' or 'Love itself shall slumber on the memory of thee'."

"Reduction into prose" said Hanbury "is a rough and ready sort of test, as you say. However I think you are right. Go on."

"Yes. The idea of the piece then is thrown into the shape of an antithesis. Now this is illustrated in three metaphors, making with the couplet in *wh.* the idea is expressed, a system of ~~of four~~ parallelisms in four members, the metaphors being taken *fr.* music, scented flowers, and rose-leaves. But now see further the subordination of parallelism to parallelism. Each of these metaphors contains an antithesis within itself—'Music, when sweet voices die', 'Odours, when sweet violets sicken', and 'Rose-leaves, when the rose is shed', and answer to the antithesis in 'thy thoughts, when thou art gone'. And you must not say that the antithesis is necessary to their intelligibility, for one answers at once that it is part of the substance of their beauty besides."

"Yes" said Hanbury, "that poem is made up of parallelisms. All poetry however is not so artificially constructed, I am sure. Well, well, I remember you are at present only shewing their importance in poetry, not their necessity ~~to~~.—I once saw that thing of Shelley's beautifully

illustrated in the Water-colours Exhibition some few y[ea]rs ago. I forget the name of the painter."

"Smallfield" suggested Middleton.

"Yes" said the Professor, "it was Smallfield. It was an exquisite thing.³² It is seldom one sees a picture ~~wh. shews at once~~ shewing so much imagination of the painter's own wh. yet in no way draws aside the expression of the sentiment of its text. It was full of what one calls poetry in painting and other arts: it is not in fact that the quality belongs to poetry and is borrowed by the other arts, but that it is in larger proportion to the whole amount there than anywhere else, and that, for reasons wh. wd. take some time to enquire into, the accessories without it collapse more completely and obviously than in the other arts."

"It was full of beauty, you think" said Hanbury.

"Yes."

"And closely expressing the ~~sent~~ spirit of Shelley's piece, you said, did you not?"

"Yes. I see you are setting a trap for me to walk into. Are you not?"

"Yes I am. Now where were the parallelisms?"

"O but" said the Professor "it is very unreasonable of you, when it takes us so long to analyse but one stanza, to wish to make me plunge in illustration into the wide sea of another art. You know in illustrating one art by another we do not carry over the structure of the art to be illustrated. Now structurally painting is more chromatic than poetry. However let us return to our examples of parallelism of sense in poetry. Before we come to Wordsworth's poem I will take but one poem and that not at first sight fuller of parallelisms than other lyrical poetry (When I say, at first sight, I mean that it really is not fuller of them than other lyrical poetry, not so full as much is; but I am using a moderate, not an extreme, instance). Do you know a poem called The Nix by Richard Garnett? I saw it in the collection by Coventry Patmore called The Children's Garland. I think I can repeat it.—³³

The crafty Nix, more false than fair,
Whose haunt in arrowy Iser lies,
She envied me my golden hair,
She envied me my azure eyes.

The moon in silvery cyphers traced
The leaves and on the waters play'd;
She rose, she caught me round the waist
She said, Come down with me, fair maid.

She led me to her crystal grot,
 She set me in her coral chair,
 She waved her hand, and I had not
 Or azure eyes, or golden hair.
 Her locks of jet, her eyes of flame
 Were mine, and hers my semblance fair;
 'O make me, Nix, again the same
 O give me back my golden hair'.
 She smiles in scorn, she disappears,
 And here I sit and see no sun
 My eyes of fire are quench'd in tears,
 And all my darksome locks undone.

I wished to take this poem in place of better known things for several ~~things~~ reasons. I presume the author is not very well known, so we shall estimate this piece—I do not at all say this is what one shd. always do—on its single merits without reference to the author's style: I at least am in the position to do this. I must hope you will go along with me in my admiration, for of course, in case you shd. not see beauty in it, it will be no good to analyse it to shew how its beauty is brought into being. But if I am allowed to presume on yr. feelings, I say, as postulate for my after reasonings, that it is a charming poem. But the feeling that is borne in upon me first about it is this, that it is so essentially³⁴ poetry. I will explain: it is not the power of the writer that I am impressed with—that is what one feels before all things besides in Dryden,³⁵ who seems to take thoughts that are not by nature poetical,—stubborn, and opaque, but under a kind of living force like fire they are powerfully changed and incandescent:³⁶ Dean Milman's poetry³⁷ is of this kind—; nor is it the nobleness of the thoughts or the splendour of the images brought forward, wh. might except for their concentration and elaboration perhaps have been put in prose; but I seem to see that the author has things put before himself in a light that is precisely that of poetry, that he is an absolute and unembarrassed instance of a poet, or if we may put it in another way that he is a workman come fr. his apprenticeship with the Muses skilled to perfection in his trade and having made himself master of all that the science has to give him. The poem is artificial, you see, but with that exquisite artifice wh. does not in truth belong to artificial but to simple expression, and which, except in point of polish, is found in natural and national ballad-making. This therefore is why I considered this piece a good and a typical example out of many,

because I seemed to feel it was what a poet expressed as a poet, in the transparent, almost spontaneous, artifice wh. alone can make a genuinely simple subject palatable,—for where this is not used so openly, as in some of Wordsworth's seemingly much more simple pieces, we shall find if we look a subtle complexity of emotion at the bottom, not simplicity, wh. is the secret of their beauty. Well, now let us pull the poem to pieces. You see it turns on an antithesis: if we put the central idea, that one central idea wh. critics say is what makes the essence of lyrical poetry, in its most concrete pictorial light, we shall find it is that of the transformation of the golden hair and azure eyes with the black hair and eyes of flame. This is the central idea and it is enforced also several times in the expression of the poem. Then let us see the parallelisms individually: first there is "more false than fair", heightened of course by the alliteration, always an aid in that way. Then the latter two lines of that first stanza are a marked case; they are, to avail myself of what Mr. Middleton was saying, a rhyme—only the relative position of the parts being changed. Then the description in the next two lines is couched in a slighter parallelism,—

The moon in silvery cyphers traced
The leaves, and on the waters play'd."

"Stay" said Hanbury: "wd. not that make any two clauses coupled by and into a parallelism?"

"Of course" said the Professor "they are so strictly, but we take no notice of ~~them if they are~~ it if it is, so to speak, only a utilitarian one. But you wd. say perhaps that this case is so—that the writer had no intention of giving beauty by that form of expression, but merely by the ideas. But I do not think so: it was quite possible to have drawn the look of moonlight in one clause, using more detail, but the nature of his subject, the instinctive feeling of the requirements of the precise pitch of idealism in wh. that poem is written, led him to put it into a parallelism. As soon as composition becomes formal and studied that is as soon as it enters the bounds of Art, it is curious to see how it falls into parallelisms. Read for instance the Exhortation in the Prayerbook, wh. they say is full of repetitions, meaning by that, as we may now see, that it uses parallelism to attain dignity but attains, shall we say? only pomposity, because the members of the parallelism do not bear the just proportion to each other."

"But how do they not?"

"Because, if we are to keep up the metaphor of parallel lines, the

expressions are not only parallel but equal, wh. they shd. not be, as a rule, to attain beauty—that is they are just the same thing in other words. Let me see: ‘acknowledge and confess’, ‘sins and wickedness’, ‘not dissemble nor cloke’, ‘assemble and meet together’, ‘requisite and necessary’, ‘pray and beseech’—these are not very artistic parallelisms. But let us go on. Another parallelism follows next, wh. I pass over; then in the third stanza two parallelisms play into one another; the first—

She led me to her crystal grot,
 She set me in her coral chair,
 She waved her hand,

and the other—

She waved her hand, and I had not
 Or azure eyes or golden hair.

The last line being made of an independent parallelism of its own. And there we see why we use or and or and nor and nor in that way in poetry only and not in prose; for prose has need sometimes to express alternatives fully as strongly as poetry, but when it does it says either and or and neither and nor, wh. put the parallelism of sense strongly, but not so strongly the parallelism of expression.”

“Repeat the next stanza” said Hanbury; and when it was done he said “One needs no analysis of that, I think, now: go on to the last.”

“It is not made up merely” said the Professor “of detached consecutive ~~con~~ parallelisms. Let us consider. The two terms of a parallelism make a whole of beauty, but these wholes again may be the terms of a higher whole; as so many lines make up each speech in a scene, so many speeches each scene, so many scenes each act, so many acts the play, and, on the Greek stage, four plays a ~~ter~~ tetralogy: I mean only that works of art are composite, having unity and subordination; are they not so?”

“Certainly, and each of the coordinates having a unity of its own towards its subordinates.”

“Just so. And now for this carrion-vulture business and tearing the last stanza anatomically. Of the whole stanza we may make two unequal pieces, ~~of par-~~ the first one being the first line, and the other the rest of the stanza. These make the antithesis between the nix and the maiden. Each piece may be dismembered again, the first into ‘She smiles in scorn’ and ‘She disappears’, and the second, that has more articulation,

first unequally, one member being the second line of the stanza, the other the last two lines, and afterwards each line may be divided again. “~~And here I sit and see no sun~~” is just like “~~She smiles in scorn, she dis~~”

And here I sit and see no sun

is just like

She smiles in scorn, she disappears

except that in that in the absence of and gives more antithesis. And then the antitheses of the last couplet how charming they are! how the irony of her unhappiness is summed up in the eyes of fire being quenched in tears! And for the darksome locks being undone, you know how much use poetry makes of negative words and just for the reason that they express an antithesis. —

Unhouseled, disappointed, unannealed.³⁸

1. Published in *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 86–114. GMH’s principal sources: Robert Lowth, *Lectures on the Sacred Poetry of the Hebrews* (1753); John Ruskin, *The Elements of Drawing* and *Modern Painters*. By the mid-1860s, Ruskin (1819–1900) had published the five volumes of *Modern Painters* (1843, 1846, 1856, 1860), *The Seven Lamps of Architecture* (1849), *The Stones of Venice* (1851–3), his pamphlet supporting ‘Pre-Raphaelitism’ (1851), *Notes on . . . the Royal Academy* (1855–9), *The Elements of Drawing* (1857), and *Sesame and Lilies* (1865). GMH mentions Ruskin in one of his earliest extant letters (to Baillie, 10.07.1863) and his last (to his mother, 8.05.1889). Ruskin ‘often goes astray’, GMH observes, but ‘nevertheless’ is among the rare critics whose ‘excellences utterly outweigh their defects’ (*Corr.* 6.10.1863). Throughout GMH’s notebook, passages have been bracketed in red pencil. It is impossible to say, however, if these marks are contemporary with the manuscript or the work of a twentieth-century editor or typesetter.

The Elements of Drawing has particular intertextual significance. Ruskin organized his study as a series of three ‘Letters’ to his ‘Dear Reader’, a dramatic epistolary gesture that GMH in turn fully embodies in his ‘Dialogue’. Of the three Letters—‘On First Practice’, ‘Sketching from Nature’, and ‘On Colour and Composition’—the second, which discusses the Spanish chestnuts and many other examples of trees and foliage, is especially telling in GMH’s text. GMH’s title is Darwinesque, but he conducts the aesthetic exchange in the spirit of Ruskin’s particular melding of scientific and legalistic discourse (‘the law of repetition’, ‘the law of continuity’, ‘the law of curvature’, ‘the law of radiation’, ‘the law of contrast’, ‘the law of interchange’, ‘the law of consistency’, ‘the law of harmony’. As Bernadette Ward demonstrates, GMH’s dialogue also interrogates Ruskinian assertions. Updating Coleridge’s theory of the imagination, Ruskin argues in the third volume of *Modern Painters* that the ‘penetrating possession-taking faculty of Imagination . . . [is] the highest intellectual power of man’ (*Works*, iv. 251); yet he nonetheless stresses that it functions ‘by intuition and intensity of gaze (not by reasoning, but by its authoritative and opening power)’

- (ibid. 284). Rhetorically, 'he conflates the Evangelical view of the Bible and the artistic Imagination' and 'makes the artist a magician as well as a prophet'. Ward, *World as Word*, 65. In D.IV, GMH 'does not invoke Scripture at all to justify the love of beauty. Moreover, [he] does not cast his aesthetic theory as a Ruskinian manifesto but as a Platonic dialogue. He presumes the existence of an abstract absolute standard' and counters Hanbury's undergraduate enthusiasm for 'something mystical' in 'the higher forms of beauty' with the Professor's methodical, intellectual approach through 'comparison, contrast, and the recognition of unexpected analogies' (ibid. 71). Overall, 'using Ruskin's own [discursive] weapons, [GMH] jousts with his master. The dialogue displays both Hopkins's debt to Ruskin and his independence from him' (ibid. 73).
2. The creation of such a chair was being discussed at Oxford in the mid-1860s, but the Slade professorship was not established until the end of the decade. Ruskin became the first Slade Professor of Art in 1870. See Clark, *Ruskin at Oxford*, and Tim Hilton, *John Ruskin: The Later Years* (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 2000), 165–8, 174, 224–6.
 3. GMH has underlined the name and written above it 'read Hanbury throughout'. This correction will be adopted silently throughout the rest of the essay. A thick blue pencil mark has been made through all subsequent 'Clutterbuck' references, but this is not GMH's. The mark was undoubtedly made by an editor or typesetter; similar markings are to be found in GMH letters now housed in Campion Hall, Oxford.
 4. GMH's journal entry: 'I have now found the law of the oak leaves. It is of platter-shaped stars altogether; the leaves lie close like pages, packed, and as if drawn tightly to. But these old packs, which lie at the end of their twigs, throw out now long shoots alternately and slimly leaved, looking like bright keys. All the sprays but markedly these ones shape out and as it were embrace greater circles and the dip and toss of these make the wide and less organic articulations of the tree' (19.07.1866).
 5. GMH had originally written 'standpoint', but the latter is scored through in pencil, and 'ground' written above it.
 6. Heuser notes: 'For Ruskin the horse-chestnut was "one of the crowned and lovely trees of the earth": *Modern Painters* III, Pt. IV, chap. XIV, par. 23 (*Works*, V: 265); chestnut trees appear in Tennyson, Patmore, everywhere in the Pre-Raphaelites; see Geoffrey Grigson, "Horse-Chestnut Trees", *The Harp of Aeolus and other Essays on Art, Literature & Nature* (London, 1948), 81, 83, 84.' *The Shaping Vision*, 105 n. 4.
 7. According to Ruskin, visual artists need to remember that 'there is another law of tree growth, quite as fixed as the law of radiation, which . . . all other conventional modes of execution wholly lose sight of. This second law is, that the radiating tendency shall be carried out only as a ruling spirit in reconciliation with perpetual individual caprice on the part of the separate leaves.' *Works*, xv. 113–14.
 8. See Ruskin, *Modern Painters*, vol. i, 'Of the Open Sky' (*Works*, iii. 343–57), and 'Letter 3' of *Elements of Drawing*, which stresses that 'while form is absolute, so that you can say at the moment you draw any line that it is either right or wrong, colour is wholly *relative*. . . [N]othing but the devotion of life, and great genius besides, can make a colorist' (ibid. xv. 134).
 9. In a passage which resonates with both Scotus's *haecceitas* {principle of individuation, particularity; 'this-ness'} and GMH's notion of inscape, Ruskin observes, '[W]e have to show the individual character and liberty of the separate leaves,

clouds, or rocks. And herein the great masters separate themselves finally from the inferior ones; for if the men of inferior genius ever express law at all, it is by the sacrifice of individuality. . . . [Although the “government” of “masses of form and harmony of colour”] and individuality are essential to masterly work, the individuality is the *more* essential, and the more difficult of attainment.’ *Works*, xv. 116. One ‘germ’ for GMH’s theory of instress may be found in Letter 3 of *Elements of Drawing*: ‘if we bring together in one view the principles we have ascertained in trees, we shall find they may be summed under four great laws. . . . 1. Support from one living root. 2. Radiation, or *tendency of force from some one given point*, either in the root, or in some stated connection with it. 3. Liberty of each bough to seek its own livelihood and happiness. . . . 4. Imperative requirement of each bough to stop within certain limits . . . to bring out the general perfectness of the great curve, and circumferential statelyness of the whole tree.’ *Ibid.* 166–87; my emphasis.

10. Initialled ‘N’ [William Newman] at this point.
11. ‘Said’ added after the essay was originally copied out.
12. GMH is conflating history. In 1857 the new debating hall of the Oxford Union (now the library) was decorated with ‘frescoes’ of Arthurian subjects by D. G. Rossetti, William Morris, Edward Burne-Jones, Richard Watson Dixon, and others. Unfortunately, the walls were not prepared properly, and the murals began to fade and flake almost immediately.
13. The character is Ω .
14. GMH has underscored ‘lime’ twice in pencil, and written above it, ‘laurel (?)’.
15. Wordsworth, ‘To the Cuckoo’, stanza 1.
16. Initialled ‘N’ [William Newman] at this point.
17. Aristotle, *Poetics*, chs. 9, 10, 11. GMH refers to the *Poetics* in the second extant entry in C.I (*Jour.* 24.09.1863) and in ‘Rhythm and the Other Structural Parts of Rhetoric—Verse’ (1873–4). The salient features of Aristotle’s treatise, including the primacy of plot, were discussed by Jowett during a 1864 lecture on Greek drama. GMH’s note begins: ‘Most important thing, plot. 3 elements in it . . .’ (B.II, fos. 112–13).
18. *Aeneid* IV. ll. 607–29. The quote that follows is l. 625.
19. The word has been scored through and underlined in pencil; above ‘same’ GMH has written ‘case’.
20. Commonly attributed to Horace, *De Arte Poetica*, ll. 14–16: ‘works with noble beginnings and grand promises often have one or two purple patches so stitched on as to glitter far and wide’ (ed. Fairclough, 451). A similar idea is expressed in Philodemus in *Περὶ Ποιημάτων* {On Poems}.
21. Shelley, ‘To—’ The text of the Oxford edition is:

Music, when soft voices die,
 Vibrates in the memory—
 Odours, when sweet violets sicken,
 Live within the sense they quicken.
 Rose leaves, when the rose is dead,
 Are heaped for the beloved’s bed;
 And so thy thoughts, when thou art gone,
 Love itself shall slumber on.

The Complete Poetical Works of Percy Bysshe Shelley, ed. Thomas Hutchinson (London: Oxford University Press, 1912), 633.

22. GMH's slip for 'in'.
23. GMH's extended commentary on the sonnet as a form is found in a letter to Canon Dixon (29.10.1881).
24. As a poet and classicist, GMH understood that metrics, or the patterns of measured sound-units in lines of verse, are fundamental to poetic discourse. Ancient Greek and Latin poems feature *quantitative metre*: sequences of long and short syllables counted in groups. Each group or metrical unit is known as a *foot*. English poetry in the nineteenth century features *accentual-syllabic metre*: patterns of regular numbers of stressed syllables arranged within a fixed total number of syllables (for example: *iambic pentameter* defines a line of verse that has five iambic feet). There are five basic metrical feet. *Iamb*, two syllables: the first is unstressed, the second is stressed; or, in classical poetry, one short syllable followed by a long syllable; 'The *woods decay*, the *woods decay* and *fall*' (Tennyson). *Trochee*, two syllables: the first is stressed or long, the second is unstressed; 'Tho' the *goblins cuffed* and *caught* her' (Christina Rossetti). *Spondee*, two syllables: both are stressed, or long; although they occur regularly in classical metres, they are used occasionally in English (*child/birth* and *down/town* are examples). *Dactyl*, three syllables: the first is stressed, or long, followed by two unstressed or short syllables. Classical epic and elegiac poetry features dactylic hexameters; 'Tears of the *widower*, *when* he sees' (Tennyson). *Anapests*, three syllables: the first two are short or unstressed, the third is stressed. Originally a Greek marching beat; used in English for emphasis or to suggest energetic movement; 'Neck by *neck*, stride by *stride*, never *changing* our *place*' (Browning). GMH's 'sprung rhythm' is *accentual*: he counts the number of strong stresses in a line, regardless of the number of unstressed syllables.
25. Having reached the end of his notebook, GMH turns it over and begins writing on the verso leaves.
26. In the illustration by Dante Gabriel Rossetti, the dots on the girl's dress appear in configurations of ∴ and ∷ (see **Figure 4**). *Goblin Market* was first published in 1862. GMH met Christina Rossetti at a party in July 1864 (along with William Holman Hunt and Jenny Lind). See the Rossetti Archive, <<http://www.rossettiarchive.org/>>.
27. Denham, *Cooper's Hill*, ll. 191–2.
28. Ovid, *Metamorphoses* ll. 13–14: 'They have not all the same appearance, and yet not altogether different; as it should be with sisters' (ll. 61). In the argument that follows on from these lines, GMH's adducing of parallelism and antithesis in Hebrew poetry has its source in Lowth's *De sacra poesi Hebraeorum praelectiones* [*Lectures on the Sacred Poetry of the Hebrews*].
29. Wordsworth, 'The Tables Turned':

Sweet is the love which Nature brings;
 Our meddling intellect
 Mis-shapes the beauteous forms of things:—
 We murder to dissect.

(ll. 25–8)

30. On 20 February 1865 GMH presented an essay on the 'Science of Poetry' to members of the Hexameron Club. 'Very crowded attendance', his friend Samuel Brooke noted. Quoted in Higgins, 'Hopkins and Friends at Oxford', 11.
31. Reynolds (1723–92), one of the most successful portrait painters of his era, and first president of the Royal Academy, was also a published man of letters. His

- Discourses* began as lectures to art students (1769–90); see *Discourses on Art*, ed. Robert R. Wark (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 1975).
32. Frederick Smallfield ‘exhibited in the 1864 Summer Exhibition of the Society of Painters in Water-Colours an otherwise entitled picture, No. 309, for which were quoted in the Catalogue the whole eight lines of Shelley (not the first four only, as in the Dialogue’s imagined case . . . the first line being correctly quoted “Music, when soft voices die”)’ *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 342.
 33. Richard Garnett first published *The Nix* in *Primula. A Book of Lyrics* (1858); GMH read the poem in Coventry Patmore’s edition of *The Children’s Garland from the Best Poets*. GMH’s text differs from Patmore’s in several cases: stanza 2, 1.1, ‘The moon with . . .’, 1.2, ‘The leaves, . . .’; stanza 4, 1.3, ‘. . . the same,’ 1.4, ‘. . . golden hair!’; stanza 5, 1.3, ‘. . . quenched . . .’. GMH tried his hand at a ‘Continuation’ of *The Nix* in July 1865 (see *Jour.* 07.1865).
 34. Underscored in pencil.
 35. GMH quotes from *The Hind and the Panther* by John Dryden (1631–1700), and comments on his use of ‘vowel sounds’ in ‘Rhythm and the Other Structural Parts of Rhetoric—Verse’. References to Dryden are scattered in GMH’s letters to Bridges (16.09.1881, 7.06.1882, 6.11.1887, 18.08.1888, 25.09.1888), and appear twice in letters to Dixon (3.10.1881, 12.08.1883). Bridges’s lack of admiration for Dryden is met with GMH’s ‘exasperation. And my style tends always more towards Dryden. What is there in Dryden? Much, but above all this: he is the most masculine of our poets; his style and his rhythms lay the strongest stress of all our literature on the naked thew and sinew of the English language’ (*Corr.* 6.11.1887).
 36. The simile anticipates the figurative language of ‘Heraclitean Fire’. Strikingly, Pater uses a similar figure in his preface to *The Renaissance* (1873). The aesthetic critic, he states, reaches his ‘end’ when ‘he has disengaged that virtue’ of ‘a picture, a landscape, a fair personality in life or in a book’ and ‘noted it, as a chemist notes some natural element, for himself and others. . . . Few artists, not Goethe or Byron even, work quite cleanly, casting off all *débris*, and leaving us only what the heat of their imagination has wholly fused and transformed. Take, for instance, the writings of Wordsworth. The heat of his genius, entering into the substance of his work, has crystallised a part, but only a part, of it; and in that great mass of verse there is much which might well be forgotten.’ *The Renaissance*, pp. xx–xxii.
 37. Henry Hart Milman (1791–1868), a student at Brasenose, was Oxford’s Professor of Poetry, 1821–31; he became Dean of St Paul’s in 1849. He was the author of historical texts, verse dramas, and a Miltonic epic, *Samor* (1818).
 38. *Hamlet*, I. v. 77. GMH’s Dialogue ends abruptly, unfinished.

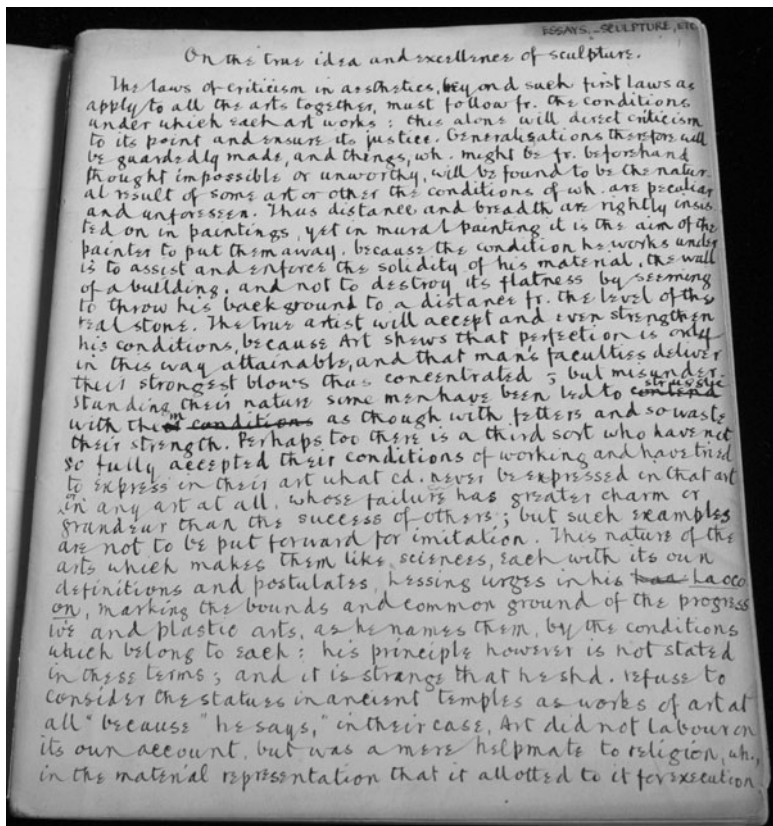


Figure 5. Hopkins's notebook D.V
 From the Hopkins Archive, Campion Hall, Oxford

D.V

Essays.—Sculpture, etc.



D.V.1

On the true idea and excellence of sculpture.¹

The laws of criticism in aesthetics, beyond such first laws as apply to all the arts together, must follow fr. the conditions under which each art works: this alone will direct criticism to its point and ensure its justice. ~~Generalizations~~ Generalisations therefore will be guardedly made, and things, wh. might be fr. beforehand thought impossible or unworthy, will be found to be the natural result of some art or other the conditions of wh. are peculiar and unforeseen. Thus distance and breadth are rightly insisted on in paintings, yet in mural painting it is the aim of the painter to put them away, because the condition he works under is to assist and enforce the solidity of his material, the wall of a building, and not to destroy its flatness by seeming to throw his background to a distance fr. the level of the real stone. The true artist will accept and even strengthen his conditions, because Art shews that perfection is only in this way attainable, and that man's faculties deliver their strongest blows thus concentrated,—but misunderstanding their nature some men have been led to ~~contend with their conditions~~ struggle with them as though with fetters and so waste their strength. Perhaps too there is a third sort who have not so fully accepted their conditions of working and have tried to express in their art what cd. never be expressed in that art or in any art at all, whose failure has greater charm or grandeur than the success of others; but such examples are not to be put forward for imitation. This nature of the arts which makes them like sciences, each with its own definitions and postulates, Lessing urges in his Laocoon, marking the bounds and common ground of the progressive and plastic arts, as he names them, by the conditions which belong to each: his principle however is not stated in these terms; and it is strange that he shd. refuse to consider the statues in ancient temples as works of art at

all "because" he says, "in their case, Art did not labour on its own account, but was a mere helpmate to religion, wh., in the material representation that it allotted to it for execution looked rather to significance than to beauty."² But were this true we shd. look for such titles to their statues at the hands of the sculptors of Greece as a Study of Beauty, Ideal Loveliness, and so on: on the contrary they naturally take up with the conventional adjuncts of the gods they represent, throwing their energies into ~~their~~ the treatment of these; and Pheidias' gold and ivory Athene, with the recognized aegis, helmet, robes, spear and even sandals, conditioned by the size of the Parthenon, the needs of worshippers and the nature of its difficult materials, is the best possible instance of Art made vigorous and efficient by being, not its own mistress, but the helpmate of religion.³

With these thoughts therefore we may pass to sculpture, and notice first that while its generic difference from the other arts is that it is representation by carving, so in itself it owns specific differences of sculpture in the round, and in low relief and high relief, or, if we divide with reference to material, in stone or wood or bronze, and that each of these species has its own conditions, not to be overstepped without weakness or exaggeration, in any case failure, these being like straight parallel hedges wh. narrow in the action in all directions but one, but yet guide without danger of misleading the more shortly to the goal aimed at. We may confine ourselves however mainly to sculpture in the round, the highest and hardest and most illustrious form of this art.

If we take its conditions one by one, the convergence of the logical results of each of them will point to a centre wh. we may conclude to be the true nature of sculpture. We may remember that though the due taking into account of ~~each~~ these conditions is the only certain ground for criticism, yet it does not follow that therefore they will be consciously present to a beholder, but rather that one who has the intuitive power of criticism in him will have these unrecognized but implicitly involved in and guiding his judgment of each work. The first we may say is the material, most often stone; and this implies several things. Stone is heavy, massive, but without toughness and able to bear but little suspension. Hence we look for repose, a sense of natural balance, action none or little or else at least not scattered, ~~so to speak~~, and centrifugal. This will discover the faults of a work lately shewn in England, very typical of the Italian school to which it belonged, called The sleep of sorrow and the dream of joy.⁴ With a certain ingenuity one figure is made to seem floating, and a crowd of flowers is cut with a delicacy



Figure 6. Raffaele Monti, *The Sleep of Sorrow and the Dream of Joy* (1862),
carved marble
Victoria and Albert Museum, London

belonging more to wood than stone carving. But nothing is gained by proving that it is possible to represent an unsupported figure in stone: once done, it will none the more look congruous or airy, for stone conveys always a sense of weight or massiveness and asks therefore for a

treatment wh. applies these to the best advantage and subjects most possessing them, at least not excluding or *resis* contending against them: much the same criticism it will be plain will apply to the flowers; so that the admirers of this work were admiring the ingenuity of the sculptor in not using but resisting his materials, and not so much his experienced skill as his ignorance. On the other hand, as hair cannot be represented in stone with any approach to what may be called illusion, no attempt to use realism upon it has been made in good work, but a conventional treatment has been recognised since Greek times, and, by one of the commonest laws in the history of Art, what was first taken up by the requirements of the artist has been afterwards thought not a sign of incapacity but a beauty, so that many things have been kept for their own sakes even longer than the altered powers of the artificer needed them. The truth of what has been said of the right aims of stone carving may be perhaps shewn by the difference of result when bronze with its new capabilities is put instead of marble. Repose we find, as the principle above stated wd. make up⁵ expect, is not so much asked for, more action is given, the details are sharper, the draperies have more narrow, ridgy folds, wh. all befit the tough and ductile material. Therefore equestrian statues are most commonly in bronze, not simply because it is easier to give the suspension thus than in stone, but—wh. follows fr. this—because the knowledge that it is metal wh. he sees pleases the beholder with a better sense of reality and security in the free action. It was justly said that bronze admits and therefore demands the bolder treatment, and the English sculptors were justly condemned on this ground who have used bronze as if it were stone, timidly and without giving action.

The hardness of stone (the same is true of bronze) brings another property of statuary into consideration. It makes it difficult to work and lasting when worked. This is in its effect a further confinement of the art. It will be natural that the ~~na~~ realism aimed at in each case, as it is limited in amount, shd. so be deeply studied and very complete; that the idealism aimed at, that is the modification of nature or truth so as to attain the beautiful, wh. also is limited, shd. task the imagination for high and concentrated effort. It is apparent to all how narrow the field of sculpture is; in that narrow field has been made the most intense study of nature known in the arts. Sir Joshua Reynolds on looking at a statue in the Vatican by Agasias the Ephesian⁶ said that it shewed a knowledge of anatomy which needed a lifetime for its acquirement. Perhaps in no art but sculpture wd. study have gone the length of

examining its subjects so deeply as to do what Michelangelo and others have done with theirs, attended dissections or themselves dissected, so as to learn all that surgery, an outside study science, cd. do for them. And on the other side it is a statue which sets the standard of the perfection of beauty in the human figure, and this standard may long continue perhaps to be set by the Belvedere Apollo;⁷ for we may presume an intensity of invention in the composition of statuary which the other arts, richer and therefore needing a less absolute dependance on a few lines, do not shew.⁸ It has been said above that practically the capacities of an art are its duties: hence the study of anatomy for wh. marble offers so great a field has become so peculiarly the pursuit of sculpture that it sometimes has, banished by a convention, banished drapery, representing as naked what shd. be, or shd. more naturally be, clothed.⁹

We may notice how simplicity and unity are natural to sculpture. This unity makes the art as a rule undramatic; either it gives repose, which excludes action, or else the action is not so much the immediate utterance of a passion displayed in the work of art, as the result of something foregone and implied in the beholder, as the story of the Python is understood to the Belvedere Apollo. In this sculpture is of course opposed to the drama wh. shews us, not implies, passion; and further the opposition is made out by this unity which sets aside the two figures or actors, essential to the true drama, or else—though this of course not without exception—makes its groups rather together to illustrate one expression than to create the expression of the whole work by the reciprocal action of the figures wh. make it up. But the expression of a single, generally simple, passion is one of its successes; and here it is that we apply Lessing's admirable criticism¹⁰ wh. forbids the representing of the climax of passion by the unprogressive arts, because the mind then having nothing further to conceive than is shewn in the work before it soon tires of and is pained by this representation; whereas the modification of passion or the presentation of its lower stage allows the imagination always to ascend and therefore bars all danger of satiety.

The religious or monumental uses of statues are among the other conditions of sculpture. We may pass these by to mark two historical results of the various conditions of the art. The first is that it is the last and least deeply influenced by those causes wh. alter the form of the sister arts, painting, poetry, architecture, and, as has been said, though called the plastic art, is in truth the least plastic of all. It seems to

maintain a comparative excellence amidst the degeneracy of the other arts, and again the inspirations of revival in Art seem to reach it the most slowly. For it is the accessories which first feel and shew a change of aesthetic temper, and these are to in sculpture very much less important than elsewhere; whereas the careful study of anatomy can scarcely yield distinguishable results in any age. The other point is the wonderful, we may perhaps say, the disproportionate, success of the Greeks in this art. It is possible that the works of Michelangelo¹¹ may shew a grander imagination and wider sympathies than any works wh. have come down to us fr. Greece, as it is not unreasonable to suppose there was no Greek sculptor who cd. be compared with his surpassing genius; it is possible too that there may be more tenderness, bolder combination of elements, and deeper suggestiveness and divinity in Middle-age work; but it is likely few will on that account adjudge the prize of excellence away fr. Greek sculpture. For those conditions wh. wd. seem to mark and limit the field of sculpture are also those under wh. the Greek mind most successfully worked: it is here unity is most strongly marked; perfection, fr. the fewness of the elements, is most directly attainable here; and sculpture expresses most of the arts that quality of a noble civilisation, distinction, the union namely of genius of a refined sort with high culture, wh. the finest of Greek poetry and other art seem naturally and beyond other nations to have assimilated to themselves.¹²

1. The British parliament's 1816 purchase of the Parthenon frieze and statuary from Lord Elgin seemed almost an official sanction for the neoclassical revival and the sustained wave of Hellenism that marked the century as a whole. Among the facets of ancient Greek culture which Victorians honoured, sculpture was especially cherished as both summary and symbol of an idealized pagan humanism. Sensuous yet restrained, an apotheosis of artistic and human form, the sculpted marbles of Greece embodied the 'breadth, centrality . . . blitheness and repose' of 'Hellenic culture' (Pater, *The Renaissance*, 170). As Turner's research indicates, 'the aesthetic criteria according to which most Victorian critics evaluated Greek sculpture derived to a very considerable extent from the *Discourses* [1778–90] of Sir Joshua Reynolds, themselves one of the monuments of Augustan humanism'. Frank Turner, *The Greek Heritage in Victorian Britain* (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 1981), 16. See also Richard Jenkyns, *The Victorians and Ancient Greece* (Cambridge, Mass.: Harvard University Press, 1980). GMH's principal sources for D.V.I: Lessing's *Laocoön*, Reynolds's *Discourses*, especially Discourse X; William Smith (ed.), *Dictionary of Greek and Roman Biography and Mythology*, 3 vols. (London: Taylor, Walton & Maberly/John Murray, 1849); Herman Grimm, *The Life of Michelangelo*, trans. Fanny Elizabeth Burnett (London, 1865); and William Michael Rossetti, 'British Sculpture; Its Conditions and Prospects', *Fraser's Magazine*, 63/376 (Apr. 1861), 493–505. The essay also reflects Jowett's

attitudes and preoccupations. Sculptural metaphors were the principal means by which Jowett taught his students to appreciate the incomparable artistry of Plato's prose style, his 'perfect perception of the plastic power of words'. (Notes from an undated (1850s–1860s), black leather-covered notebook, Jowett Collection, Box B, Balliol College.) In a series of lecture outlines written by Jowett in the late 1850s or early 1860s one finds Lecture 5, 'On the Style of Plato', which argues that the 'manliness + simplicity', the 'self restraint' of classical art is also to be found in the best philosophical literature. As Jowett explains,

You may look at a Greek statue and be struck with the flexure of the limbs, the majestic folds of the drapery, the simplicity, the strength; And yet scarcely any topics arise in the mind of the uncritical [?], only when the difference is pointed out to him between such a work as the Venus Victrise and some muse of the Augustan age or later, with its flattened ~~paste~~ cardboard looking face and thin creased robe he sees a separation not of degree but of kind. The highest art is colourless like water, it has been said; it is a surface without prominences or the irregularities over which the eye wanders impressed by the beauty of the whole with nothing to detain it at a particular point.

The same image about style—colourless as water. Criticism cannot analyse but only imperfectly describe it. It is a smooth surface over which the hand may pass without interruption, but the curious work lies beneath the surface: the effect only is seen from without. The finer the workmanship the more completely is the art concealed. When therefore I propose to give a lecture on the Style of Plato all I intend is to compare it with some other contemporary styles and the Rhetorical writing of a later age [Thucydides is his prime example]; to draw your attention to its poetical character, to offer some remarks on the influence which has been exercised on the language by the form of the Dialogue also on some particular expressions . . . (Jowett Collection, Box B, Balliol College, fos. 1–2)

(Jowett's remarks about colourless statues reflect the then contemporary misconception that Greek statuary was originally unpainted.) In this way Jowett alerted his auditors to the excellences of Greek sculpture and the unity of all Hellenistic culture, and provided a peculiarly apt frame of reference for judging Plato's classical style. GMH's 1864 notes on Greek drama (B.II) contain such Jowett-inspired remarks as the following: 'The drama was performed where one could see and hear but imperfectly. Stage narrow, very long, hundreds of feet. Looked like sculpted frieze. Tableaux vivants {'living pictures'} of deeds already done . . .' (B.II, fo. 79). GMH will make a similar observation when he notes that, during the Rifle Corp's field manoeuvres on Wimbledon Common, he 'caught that inscape in the horse that you see in the pediment especially and other bas-reliefs of the Parthenon and even which Sophocles had felt and expresses in two choruses of the Oedipus Coloneus' (*Jour.* 04.1874). References to Greek statuary are found throughout Jowett's 1865 'Lectures on the Republic'; GMH's complementary notes are found in B.II. D.V.1 clearly establishes GMH's future 'ground[s] for criticism' of sculpture (fo. 2), whether viewing Thornycroft's *Sower* or Maderna's *St. Cecilia* (*Corr.* 30.06.1886; *Jour.* 18.08.1874). GMH's precocious knowledge of sculpture and painting is demonstrated in his 1860 prize-winning poem, 'Escorial'.

2. GMH is using E. C. Beasley's translation (London, 1853), 68.
3. Phidias, 5th century BC sculptor, supervised the rebuilding of the Acropolis instituted by Pericles. His most famous works, the *Athene Parthenos* and the *Olympian Zeus* at Elis, are known only from descriptions or doubtful copies. Grote observes that art was instrumental in the creation of the Hellenistic spirit. In volume v of his *History* he explains that the 'splendid genius in sculpture and architecture, which shone forth in Greece after the Persian invasion' had as its original impetus religious expression. The development from 'primitive memorial

erected in honour of a god' to the golden statue of Zeus was remarkable, but never lost 'its pious associations' (v. 132–3). 'It was in statues of men, especially in those of the victors at Olympia and other sacred games, that genuine ideas of beauty were first aimed at and in part attained, from whence they passed afterwards to the statues of the gods' (v. 134).

4. *The Sleep of Sorrow and the Dream of Joy* by Raffaele Monti (1818–81), carved in 1861, was first exhibited at the International Exhibition, London in 1862. Trained in Milan, Monti settled in London in the late 1840s. Some of his decorative sculpture was featured in the reconstructed Crystal Palace at Sydenham. *The Sleep of Sorrow* was acquired by the Victoria and Albert Museum in 1964. See Figure 6.
5. GMH's slip for 'us'.
6. Two ancient Greek sculptors, both belonging to the school of Ephesus and flourishing c. 100 BC, were named Agasias. In the *Discourses*, Sir Joshua Reynolds cites the work of Agasias, son of Dositheus, who created the *Borghese Warrior* (found at Nettuno, Italy in 1611, it became part of the Borghese collection in 1613; purchased for the Louvre by Napoleon in 1807). Reynolds refers several times to the statue he calls 'the Gladiator', praising its 'Composition of Action', its 'grace and energy to a high degree' (p. 151). In Discourse XII, he paraphrases 'an eminent Sculptor' who 'was of [the] opinion that a work so perfect required nearly the whole life of man to perform' (p. 213). See Reynolds, *Discourses on Art*, 2nd ed., ed. Robert R. Wark (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 1975). Agasias, son of Menophilus, sculpted a statue of a warrior now housed in the National Museum of Athens.
7. GMH alludes to this sculpture in 'Escorial'; stanza 11 features the remark, 'and there, with placid eye/ Apollo views the smitten Python writhe and die'. GMH's note: 'The Belvidere [*sic*] Apollo'.
8. See Higgins, '“Bone-house” or “lovescape”: Writing the Body in Hopkins's Poetry', in Frank Fennell (ed.), *Rereading Hopkins: Selected New Essays* (Victoria, BC: University of Victoria Press, 1996), 11–35; Simon Richter, *Laocoon's Body and the Aesthetics of Pain: Winckelmann, Lessing, Herder, Moritz, Goethe* (Detroit, Mich.: Wayne State University Press, 1992).
9. See Lessing, *Laocoön*, ch. 5.
10. Ibid. 16–17.
11. Sir Joshua Reynolds had reacquainted several generations of readers with the grandeur and poetical boldness of Michelangelo, 'that truly divine man' ('Discourse XV', 282); Grimm's 1860 biography, translated into English in 1865, sparked particular interest at Oxford, where drawings by the master were available for personal inspection. Grimm's book appears on a reading list drawn up by GMH in early spring 1865. GMH renewed his interest in Michelangelo in September 1873 and February 1874 when visiting the South Kensington Museum (*Jour.* 18.09.1873) and the National Gallery (*Jour.* 16.02.1874), respectively. The Ruskin–Pater controversy over Michelangelo (Ruskin denounced his violent sensuality and theatricality; Pater countered with praise for the sweetness and strength of all his creations) did not erupt until the early 1870s. See Ruskin's June 1871 Slade lecture, 'The Relation between Michael Angelo and Tintoret' (*Works*, ii. 74–110), and Pater's November 1871 essay, 'The Poetry of Michelangelo', reprinted in *The Renaissance* (1873).
12. Initialled 'RS' [Robert Scott] in red.

D.V.2

Is history governed by general laws?¹

It will appear that the only thing wh. sets the study of history apart from the other sciences is that the working of its causes is broken upon by a power wh. is not found in them and wh. is in its nature not unlike what was once believed of chance in things of the physical world. This is the will of man; and it was this, when the first trials were made to set up history as a science, wh. led some, looking at the freedom of the will and the impossibility of saying why one will cho[o]se one thing and one another, to deny the possibility of making ~~a science of his~~ invariable rules to govern history at all. This view however cd. never be held for long; it wd. be seen that allowing to the utmost the irregularity of its working at that final point where it makes its choice between the ways of action open to it, still of those ways of action open to men one wd. be almost always easier and more pleasurable, at once or in the end, than the rest, and experience shewed in the greater number of cases this was the one chosen. And so wd. be readily granted by those who wd. at first have reasonably feared the science of history as striking at the supernatural. The next step fr. this wd. be thus taken: if the greater number of men in the greater number of cases choose the easier and more pleasurable way instead of the harder, then it might be considered as a law that masses of men will act in this way, with no great departure from scientific certainty, with such modification only as is brought about by that minority of men and minority of cases where the other way is chosen. This also must be granted; but from this onwards a field of difficulties opens out. Those who hold most strongly the exactness of the science go on to shew that in certain cases where we have very good evidence the modification to be made is so very slight that it may be all but dispensed with in scientific prediction, as soon as data for prediction have been drawn together. They appeal to averages, which shew that in the seemingly unfavourable case of murder nearly the same number of crimes are committed every year. And their principle may be pushed forward, even allowing the freedom of the will, so as ~~still~~ to gain an exact scientific character for the predictions to be made by the science; for allowing that a minority of minds seem not to be sole followers of their inclinations, yet when the proportion of virtuous acts and virtuous minds to other acts and minds is established, the two may be weighed together just as any law and its disturbant are. But Buckle says "in a given state of society a certain number of persons must put an end

to their own ~~lives~~ life. This is the general law; and the special question as to who shall commit the crime depends of course upon special laws; which, however, in their total action, must obey the large social law to which they are all subordinate. And the power of the larger law is so irresistible, that neither the love of life nor the fear of another world can avail anything towards even checking its operation" (History of Civilization in England, General Introduction, Chap. 1).² This language arises from a fallacy wh. underlies the argument: it is not that a certain number of persons must put an end to their own life, but that they do: and their doing so in repeated instances is called a law. To speak of the law as irresistible by cogent considerations which are themselves laws of the mind is to ~~make~~ give to averages a Realist or even a Pythagorean nature and efficacy. The truth is that so far from the love of life and the fear of another world availing nothing towards even checking the operation of the law, its operation only means the residue of cases in which, after the counter action of a bad state of trade or something of the sort on one side and the ~~fear~~ love of life and the fear of another world on the other, the former cause has been found stronger than the latter. The discovery of averages of this sort will be no doubt of the highest practical use to the science of history, but it must be the aim of the historian to resolve these into the laws of which they are the resultants.

The influence of great men is among the first points of issue in the question of the scientific character of history.³ It will not do always to say they represent their age, that they may be looked on as shewing forth in its highest and best ~~look~~ shape the influences wh. make the age what it is, for this is not at all of necessity a condition of genius. Some great men have plainly resisted their age: Savonarola⁴ did so, so practically did Bonaparte.⁵ It wd. appear that contrary to the common view these latter are of most importance in a ~~scientific~~ science of history, for the former do nothing more than intensify the strength of the current then running and straighten it in its course: the greater number of great men rather represent than oppose their age, and the scientific historian in making his calculations for the future wd. count on some one or other as a strong likelihood ~~to come~~ coming into being who shd. lead the current: the others are by their nature eccentric and unlooked for, and it must be very long before science cd. ~~say~~ foretell in what direction a disturbant genius wd. be likely to act. On the whole the influence of great men has been, it is likely, always overrated—that is to say the individual influence; the collective influence, of wh. in one kind ~~the liter~~ the higher literature is ~~the~~ partly the channel, partly the effect,

is another thing, and one wh. has clearly a scientific side. For we shd. look to find an average distribution of genius and gifts of mind among the things most insisted on and most sought after in this science; and supposing a certain number of creative minds for each age, the way in wh. they lay out their power is really perhaps of little weight in the scale. We shall at least have an opportunity of casting out mere greatness of creative mind fr. the strong working causes in history. Shakspeare's mind⁶ wd. seem to mark the highest point in the range given to intellect,⁷ and his fame is, if not proportionally great, at least very great; but his individual influence ~~on~~ is, we may believe, compared with his greatness of mind, almost incredibly small. Had he never lived, the collective effect of the playwrights of Queen Elizabeth's day wd. have lost little more than his single name, just as it now wd. lose supposing Marlowe's name and works were lost; and then, as it is natural to us whenever it is at all possible to put one man forward as a representative and a leader into a more forward place and brighter light than he wd. fairly have,⁸ proportionably to the merits of his fellows, we shd. make Marlowe or Ben Jonson the chief name of the Elizabethan age, and—certainly without regarding ~~as we do~~ it altogether⁹ as enthusiastically as we do now—we shd. still have much the same estimate of it and be influenced not much less,¹⁰ by it and by that estimate, than we are now. It remains to consider the influence of character and of character joined with intellect. Of this latter, the union of force of character with genius, there is no better instance than Julius Caesar, the greatest man, it wd. appear, in the history of Rome. Of the inevitable subjection of Rome to a despotic rule within no wide bound of time nothing need be said: the individual effect and history of Caesar are to be valued at their right worth and accounted for. Now these might perhaps ~~depend~~ be shewn to reduce themselves to a matter of averages or chances. For when it is said that great political changes or storms bring into being great men, we see that what is the truth must be, that of those men, so many, it may be, to a century or a thousand square miles, who have the capacity of being great, there are calculable chances of one falling upon a time of revolution: and this seems to be the ~~truth~~ case. The scientific way to look at great men therefore wd. be to ~~weigh~~ discover their frequency and chances of development before saying that their real effect on history is inappreciable, however much we might think the latter to be near the truth. This being so it will be important of what disposition these men are, for although a scientific conception of history wd. lead us to think that the influence of great men lessens as time goes on fr. the years of

their era, so that allowing enough length of time they need not be allowed for at all, yet it is plain that they do turn the currents of their time in directions differing in important respects. Thus Hampden and Cromwell¹¹ were great men in the English revolution: Hampden was killed by accident early, and it is hard not to think English history was not much altered by this within the bounds of the death of Charles I and the restoration of Charles II. Still greater was the difference made in French or indeed European history by the death of Mirabeau, for that must mean the unrivalled ascendancy of Bonaparte. Hannibal is quoted as proof how genius must fail to change the strong principles wh. rule the fate of nations, so far justly; but Hannibal was not ~~merely~~ a mere drag upon the inevitable rolling of events, he threw them in a new form. Timour and Genghis Khan¹² may be thought of also as phenomena of wh. all but the names and dates were to be predicted, because it is proved by the event that the Tartar hordes were capable, when a determining cause shd. arise, of pouring in a masses upon all the exposed lands on every side of them. Something of this sort may be said perhaps of Mohammed;¹³ yet with this case it is not certain that had he been born a few hundred years later, a development of the nations on the sea-board of the Mediterranean might have stayed the rush of the Arabs and so deeply changed the course of history.

There seems to be no other instance of one man's personal ~~influencing~~ influence so affecting the world, and this may be left to scientific historians as needing explanation, before it can be decided that chance is to [be] thrown out of ~~the~~ consideration in the greater events of history.

1. GMH's principal sources: Mill, *A System of Logic*; Grote, *History*; George Henry Lewes, *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, 4 vols. (London, 1845–6); and Henry Thomas Buckle, *History of Civilization in England*, vol. i (London, 1857).
2. Buckle, *History of Civilization*, i. 25–6. Mark Pattison reviewed volume i for the *Westminster Review*, calling it 'perhaps the most comprehensive contribution to philosophical history that has ever been attempted in the English language'. *Essays by the Late Mark Pattison*, ed. R. L. Nettleship, 2 vols. (Oxford, 1889), ii. 390. Buckle died in 1862; a tribute in *Fraser's Magazine*, 66/393 (Sept. 1862), 337–44, praises the breadth of study in the *History*, its eloquent prose style, but admits that the author 'sinned the sin of excessive generalization' (p. 343): 'That the History of Civilization in England should have excited some angry surprises, if not a deep feeling of indignation, in many quarters, it was natural to expect. The doctrines of Auguste Comte are not palatable on this side of the Channel; and although Mr. Buckle accepted M. Comte's creed with reservation, he is indebted to it for some of his theories' (p. 344).
3. The influence of great men is the particular theme of Thomas Carlyle, *On Heroes, Hero-Worship and the Heroic in History* (London, 1841). Based on a series of lectures given in 1840, *On Heroes* identifies six archetypes and several examples of

each type: the Divinity (Odin); Prophet (Mahomet); Poet (Dante, Shakespeare); Priest (Luther, Knox); Man of Letters (Johnson, Rousseau, Burns); and King (Cromwell, Napoleon). 'The history of what man has accomplished in this world', says Carlyle, 'is at bottom the History of the Great Men who have worked here' (p. 1). GMH's familiarity with this text is evident in D.V.2 and several other essays. For additional remarks about Carlyle, see *Corr.* 10.09.1864, 12.02.1868, 10.01.1879, 29.05.1881, 24.09.1881 (both GMH and R. W. Dixon), and 12.10.1881. For a discussion of GMH's 'deeper debt' to Carlyle, see David DeLaura, 'Hopkins and Carlyle: My Hero, My Chevalier', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 2/2 (July 1975), 67–76, and John Tanner, 'When God Is Hero: Worshipping God as Hero in Carlyle and Hopkins', *Hopkins Quarterly*, 10/4 (Winter 1984), 145–63. What did Jowett have to say about Carlyle? 'I can't say that I altogether like him—a man of genius & in some respects the first man living, an independent man, a tenderhearted man—the most graphic of all painters, though in a sort of irregular, magic-lantern way. Yet on the other hand, a man totally regardless of truth, totally without admiration of any active goodness—a self-contradictory man who investigates facts with the most extraordinary care in order to prove his own preconceived notions. He has stirred up the minds of young men (those impressionable beings) but not really elevated them. . . . And therefore I like better living with Socrates & Plato than with Carlyle & Ruskin. (I hear that the last two are great allies & that "I will give unto this last" &c. is the inspiration of Carlyle).' Jowett, *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 55. Ruskin's *Unto This Last* was published 1860–2 (*Works* XVII. 1–114); the title is taken from Matthew 20: 14.

4. See notes to D.II.6.
5. 'I believe', Jowett stated in September 1865, 'Napoleon I and perhaps Napoleon III to be among the greatest of men—more than half honest I do not claim for either of them, but besides genius they have the power of growth & adaptation to a changing world.' *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 73.
6. Adjacent to the following passage, on the verso of the preceding leaf, GMH has written: 'Jowett thought this about Shakspeare was quite untrue; the effect of the Elizabethan era as it is and the effect it wd. have had if Shakspeare had never lived will bear no comparison. The whole of subsequent literature deeply influenced by him. Ben Jonson quite a second-rate writer. Indeed I suppose neither Ben Jonson nor Marlowe wd. have any claim to be placed next to Shakspeare of the writers of that time. Perhaps Ford, Nash, or Dekker' (fo. 8^v). GMH's diary includes the octave of an unfinished sonnet to 'Shakspeare' (*Four.* 09.1865). His admiration for the playwright is expressed in a letter to Alexander Baillie (10.09.1864).
7. 'Shakespeare is the greatest of Intellectuals.' Carlyle, *On Heroes*, 174.
8. Comma added in pencil.
9. 'altogether' was added in pencil at a later date.
10. Comma added in pencil.
11. GMH may be thinking of Thomas Gray's 'Elegy Written in a Country Church-Yard' (1751), especially the lines:

Perhaps in this neglected spot is laid
 Some heart once pregnant with celestial fire;

 Some village Hampden, that with dauntless breast
 The little tyrant of his fields withstood;
 Some mute inglorious Milton here may rest,
 Some Cromwell guiltless of his country's blood.
 (ll. 45–6, 57–60)

John Hampden (c.1595–1643), statesman, parliamentarian; distantly related to Oliver Cromwell. At the outset of the civil war, he was deputy lieutenant of a Buckinghamshire regiment. Fatally wounded at Chalgrove Field, 18 June 1643, he died 24 June. Oliver Cromwell (1599–1658), politician and soldier, was Lord Protector from 1653 until his death.

12. Genghis Khan (c. 1162–1227) founded the Mongol Empire (1206–1368), the largest contiguous empire in world history. Timur (Timur-I Leng, Tamburlaine), a 14th century Mongol warlord, established the Timurid Empire (1370–1405) in Central Asia; remnants of the dynasty survived until the 1850s. The empire encompassed parts of Turkey, Syria, Iraq, Kuwait, Iran, Afghanistan, Russia, Pakistan, and India.
13. See D.XI.5. Concerning Mohammed's flight from Mecca eastwards to Yathreb (now Medina), Carlyle observes: 'The whole East dates its era from this Flight, Hegira as they name it: the Year 1 of this Hegira is 622 of our era, the fifty-third of Mahomet's life.' *On Heroes*, 97.

D.V.3

On the Rights and Duties of Belligerents and Neutrals.¹

The main difficulty of the subject lies in the necessary inconsistency of the coexistence of war and peace, more pointedly in the position of the neutral, owning friendship without prejudice towards warring states, wh. cannot but bring to the light anomalies and contradictions in practice. Each position of a state brings forward a body of rights and usages into temporary prominence, founded respectively on universal grounds and equally recognised by international law, but conflicting, as must happen, with each other. Conflicting rights are of course well-known also in municipal law, and require only the overruling and correction of jurisprudence. The positions of enemies ~~towards each other~~ have fr. the earliest mention of the law of nations been understood towards each other, fr. less to more detail; ~~but~~ it is the principles governing the status of neutrals that are especially covered by civilisation, and bettered and defined with the growing system of international relations. With more and more deference to neutrality, war must ~~become~~ come always more under the character of an offence against the community of nations; but since no stretch of sight can find the time as yet when it will be quite disowned, its ~~legal~~ rights must be well and legally assured to it.

Commerce naturally is the most ~~importantly-mate~~ important subject of international law wh. regards belligerents and neutrals, as open to influence fr. all the conditions of war and as representing most effectively the interests of nations. The first duty and right of neutral governments is to cover with protection therefore the commerce of its

subjects: this right is fundamental; it may be seen verified for instance in regulations of neutral ports wh. are everywhere deferred to by modern belligerents. The clash between belligerent and neutral rights appears in the conditions of the neutral trade with either belligerent ~~in ar~~ to the presumable hurt in each case of the other, and towards this trade accordingly a passive attitude has been agreed to be taken by either government, the belligerent making no cause of war out of its continuance, and the neutral not protecting its subjects whose own acts bring them under the action of the belligerent. From the nature of the case it is on the sea these principles have their prominent effect. On the part of the belligerent the most important are the right of blockade, the recognition of contraband of war, and the right of search; on that of the neutral are the equitable modifications of these rights made by, in each case, the limitation of the nature of blockade and the other provisions attached to it, the absolute freedom of vessels not carrying contraband, and the indemnification of arrested ships the character of which may be cleared by the established courts. The system of prize-courts wh. the right of search ~~has given en~~ put in requirement has acted well, and their perpetual decisions are looked on as the best materials with which to build ~~into~~ the formal law of nations on the points subject to them.

Of commerce we know ~~that~~ though one or another of the great influences may fall dormant for a time, that it alone works uniformly and is the great steady moving power of civilisation. We must expect to see then a more jealous pressure upon belligerent privileges maintained continually. Already it has limited the blockade, by the disowning of what is called paper blockades, the greatest exercise of which in history was Napoleon's Continental System, established by the decrees of Berlin and Milan.² This is undoubtedly an invaluable principle: and the demands of neutrality wd. appear to be favoured by the tendency of modern war to concentrate itself upon ~~points~~, keys of position, in strategical masses, and otherwise, and by the growing limitation of wars to the executive fr. the people of a country: it is perhaps therefore not impossible that the effect of neutral requirements may at last narrow legal blockade to a siege operation; possibly also the right of search, so much chafed at always, may come to be given up. But as a counterpoise the offence of subjects of a neutral power taking part in a war may come to be more severely visited, contraband of war or those things which being exported with a hostile intent are to be ~~detained~~ held back, if found, by the neutral government becoming more easy to localise and divert. And so, generally, ~~the n~~ isolation is not more the right than the

duty of a neutral state. But the principle of non-intervention, wh. has received of late so much political acceptance, cannot but be thought in some ways premature. When a supreme international court has been established, as we may in time look to see, this may become the absolute duty of nations; but since armed interventions and the doctrine of the balance of power, wh. both had, one more, one less, directly, the effect of law and authority, have been abandoned, international morality is without an effectual sanction and has fallen for the time into a dangerous and partly retrograde state.³

1. The impact (financial and cultural) of international politics and warfare on Britain in the nineteenth century was intense. First there were the Napoleonic Wars; then, in the 1850s, both the Crimean War and the Sepoy Uprising (known popularly in England as the Indian Mutiny). During GMH's Oxford years, the American Civil War (1861–5) was a primary preoccupation. British liberals supported the anti-slavery movement and the North. England's economy, however, was inextricably tied to American markets and the cotton industry of the South, leading many to support the Confederates. (In 1856 the 'real value' of British exports to the USA amounted to £21,476,000 (see John Ramsay McCulloch, 'Money', *Encyclopaedia Britannica*, 8th edn., xv. 494); American markets consumed nearly one-fifth of all British exports.) Jefferson Davis, head of the Confederacy, believed that England would intervene on behalf of the Southern cause; he purchased arms and ships from England for several years at least. When the Union navy blockaded seven major Confederate ports, British ships became immediately involved in the conflict. The war was reported, discussed, and debated assiduously in British newspapers and journals: see for example the series of articles in *Fraser's Magazine* from January 1861 to May 1865, especially John Stuart Mill, 'The Contest in America', *Fraser's Magazine*, 65/386 (Feb. 1862), 258–68. In 1863 the topic for the Latin essay prize at Oxford was 'Quibus nam praecipue de causis exortum sit bellum civile Americanum' {What were the principle causes that gave rise to the American Civil War?} (won by Henry Nettleship, a Fellow of Lincoln). In April of that year the Chichele Professor of International Law and Diplomacy lectured on 'Neutral Rights and Obligations'. The war was the subject of several debates at the Oxford Union. American politics was also the subject of an argument GMH had with his father during the Christmas 1865 vacation. (*Jour.* 24 December 1865).
2. GMH's interest in French history and current events is also evident in a journal entry (Spring 1866) concerning Louis Philippe and Louis Napoleon.
3. Initialled 'RS' [Robert Scott] in red.

D.V.4

On Representation.¹

The questions raised fall under two heads, Who are to be represented? and What is the manner?

To answer the first, the way the body of electors has grown up anywhere and [is] viewed at any time is a matter of history. Then if such

a body is the best possible, it must be analysed to shew what in its constitution gives it perfection; if it is not, reform must move towards such a perfection. We are to find what is the ideal body of electors.

This is a question of qualifications, speaking of them positively and negatively. Discussion on the franchise is always referring itself, either openly, or more often still to the mind, for an answer to What is the source of the right to vote? It is possible to move in a true or a false plane of reasoning on such political enquiries. We have first the theory of Natural Rights, wh. is easily understood and gets a hold on men's thoughts. It holds only however when thrown to a distance fr. the general knowledge of politics: when compared with this it is seen to go wrong as not recognising the first, the empirical, stage of concrete science, in politics the part played by history. As a postulate for a science of politics made without reference to history it wd. seem to lead to socialism.² A truer view of political rights is to look at them as the due relations of each man to the rest, the fact of ~~rela~~ the relations being given by history and ~~their~~ the bettering of these becoming subject to theory.

To take men politically as terms of relation seems the true ground of a priori reasoning on the subject. This view is clearly put by Plato. Politics are closely tied to history, through wh. we approach their study; so that political rights wd. have to be thought of rather as a posteriori, as worked out by events, and as results.

Historical politics are then however corrected by the theoretical. We might say for instance obedience is the condition of government; obedience implies a primary consent. But in reasoning of this sort we come on the old topic of "the social compact."³ Historically speaking we know the social compact has no place, but it is of importance in spite of that, as having had really a great place in ~~mens~~² men's minds, and though misunderstood being a valuable principle.⁴ If we go backwards it becomes less and less true, but with the process of time forwards it goes on ~~more and more~~ to realise itself. After saying that obedience implies a primary consent, the next step is that special obedience, that is to special orders, shd. suppose special consent; in other words the acts of the government shd. come under the discussion of the governed. In national as opposed to civic politics, wh. is their modern shape, this must be done by representatives.

But are the voices of the governed of equal value? have all equal rights to be heard? We need to classify the qualifications and disqualifications of electors. The latter may be put perhaps in four classes, moral, physical, educational, social.⁵

By the first we throw out criminals: this is a matter of detail only. The case is more important of those whose interests affect their votes morally. Here the often stated principle comes forward, that to be taxed is the qualification of having the franchise.⁶ But taxation in one or another shape is paid by all. It is however said, no doubt rightly, that for a moral effect direct taxation is needful; the indirect is inappreciable and, to uneducated people at all events, inconsiderable. This principle wh. seems theoretically persuasive is said to be borne out by American experience of municipal taxation. It becomes plainly therefore a matter of wisdom to carry down direct taxation with the carrying downwards of the franchise: Mill proposes a poll-tax with this aim.⁷ So much being said we may look to see any further moral conditions of representation as results of the other kinds of qualifications.

The next disqualifications spoken of may be called physical. They shut out women.⁸ The subject really allows of free and unperplexed reasoning, though there will always be a danger that when it becomes a common question it will often be treated in an unsatisfactory spirit. The arguments against women-suffrage seem to be fr. their natural unfitness for political opinion, the difficulties attending their giving their votes, the loss of delicacy and of respect brought about by any greater publicity, and because this will be only a first step to a general modification of public life by the entrance of women.

Of these the first cannot be called true; or if women are, as they very likely are, less fitted for political thought than men, it is a marked inferiority that is wanted to disqualify them, wh. is more than can be shewn; to shew it at all events is the business of the conservative. Then that—to take the concrete objection—the our hustings are not the place for women, is only an argument for bettering the voting system, on any ground needing reform. Of the third, the mere exercise of a vote cannot in any way harm the present status of women: political life is another thing. And lastly the argument fr. the thin end of the wedge is hardly an argument at all. That the bringing up of women is another ~~argument~~ ~~again~~ reason against their having the franchise shd. be treated of under the head, as other things, of educational disqualification: the evil of it is in fact inconsiderable.

It is in educational ~~dis~~ qualifications that the most important questions of representation lie. This class affects minors and all the ~~socially~~ uneducated or not enough educated. Of the ~~first~~ former nothing need be said; in the latter we first feel that some degree of education is certainly necessary for the franchise. Accordingly there is a great body

in our own country for instance wh. cannot on any reasonable ground be yet touched by the franchise: ~~they~~ it must be educated up to the lowest standard. But this education is by itself urgently called for, and government has scarcely any higher duty than to give it. The ground where parties join issue is what this standard ~~shd.~~ shd. be, whether it is attainable by all, that is by the minimum of ~~educated minds~~ education, the national teaching, and whether the qualification of education is better formally taken or implied fr. certain limits of social position. Theoretically the standard of education at wh. valuable votes might be given wd. be higher than seems at all the case with the narrowest franchise. It is useful to distinguish the education meant into literary and moral. To gain the latter in voters, namely that attitude of mind wh. lays it open to the influence of political virtues, to justice, self-control, reverence, and so on, all nationally considered, there might seem to need some high degree of the former. Were this so, in a modern state the franchise cd. never be expected to approach universal spread. The morality of political approval and disapproval in our own country is so discouraging that, were the literary education of the upper classes the security for and cause of its present level, to lower the franchise might seem the shipwrecking of morality altogether: if the present body of electors will accept the qualifications for ~~the premiership~~ statesmanship wh. have been supplied to it with pleasure and contentment, and public opinion allow as current political comparisons wh. if paralleled in social life cd. not be supported ~~in the face of~~ as agreeing with recognised morality, it might be thought that with the next political level we shd. come upon the possibility of demagogues. But it may be concluded that moral education for politics is not in the ratio of literary education; and it is well urged that to widen the suffrage wd. be to create, as ~~has~~ have been with whatever defects created in America, the requirements for holding it, political intelligence and political morality, possibly, after a time, of a higher kind than the constituency now in being has the expression of.⁹

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1. GMH's principal source: John Stuart Mill, *Considerations on Representative Government* (London, 1861); of especial interest is ch. VIII, 'Of the Extension of the Suffrage' (pp. 155–80). In the late 1850s and early 1860s, Jowett was an advocate of universal suffrage and the ballot. See Tollemache, *Benjamin Jowett*, 79. England's first Reform Bill, which expanded suffrage in a limited way, was passed in 1832; the second Reform Bill was passed in 1867. (Gladstone introduced a Reform Bill to parliament on 12 March 1866, but it was defeated; Disraeli was a

major force behind the successful subsequent Bill. Jowett keenly followed parliamentary developments.) Anyone familiar, as GMH was, with Plato's *Republic* and *Laws*, and Aristotle's *Politics* and *Ethics*, was aware that political and ethical questions are inextricably connected. One definition of political science by GMH reads: 'ἡ πολιτικὴ {politics} is the science under wh. the highest end comes, but in itself it treats of the good of the many, Ethics of the good of the individual' (G.I, fo. 3). To quote Grote's summary of Plato's teachings in the *Laws*: 'There are two distinct primordial forms of government—mother politics, Plato calls them—out of which all existing governments may be said to have been generated or diversified. One of these is monarchy, of which the Persians manifest the extreme: the other is democracy, of which Athens manifests the extreme. Both extremes are mischievous. The wise lawgiver must blend and combine the two together in proper proportion. Without such combination, he cannot attain good government, with its three indispensable constituents—freedom, intelligence or temperance, and mutual attachment among the citizens (*Laws*, iii, 693 B, C).' *Plato*, iii. 341.

2. According to Sjaak Zonneveld, socialism 'considered men to have a natural right to vote, as had also been argued, for instance, by Thomas Paine in his Rights of Man (1791–92). In 1872, GMH described Paine as a man with an "infidel name." ' *The Random Grim Forge: A Study of Social Ideas in the Works of Gerard Manley Hopkins* (Maastricht: Van Gorcum, 1992), 64.
3. Jean-Jacques Rousseau, *Du contrat social* (1762).
4. Compare with GMH's later views as advanced in his 1880 sermon on 'The Fall of God's First Kingdom' (*Serm.* 25.01.1880). In his notes for the sermon GMH observes, 'The first contract and the only one that bound posterity was made with Adam, not Eve, and he broke it as freely as he made it, for he was not deceived.'
5. Mill acknowledges that there are 'certain exclusions, required by positive reasons' for electors; the individual must be able 'to read, write, and, I will add, perform the common operations of arithmetic'. *Considerations on Representative Government*, 160. Otherwise, 'it is a personal injustice to withhold from any one, unless for the prevention of greater evils, the ordinary privilege of having his voice reckoned in the disposal of affairs in which he has the same interest as other people. . . . There ought to be no pariahs in a full-grown and civilized nation; no persons disqualified, except through their own default' (*ibid.* 159).
6. A popular saying since the American War of Independence—'Taxation without representation is tyranny.'
7. Mill, *Considerations on Representative Government*, 163.
8. On the subject of suffrage and gender, Mill observes: 'I have taken no account of difference of sex. I consider it to be as entirely irrelevant to political rights, as difference in height, or in the colour of hair. All human beings have the same interest in good government; the welfare of all is alike affected by it, and they have equal need of a voice in it to secure their share of its benefits' (*ibid.* 175). Mill also points out the incongruity of forbidding the franchise to women in a country currently ruled by a great woman—after all, 'the most glorious ruler whom that country ever had [Elizabeth I] was a woman' (*ibid.* 179). Jowett was discussing the issue of 'the legal rights of women' with Nightingale throughout the spring and summer of 1865.
9. Initialled 'R.S.' [Robert Scott] in pencil.

D.V.5

On the nature and use of money.¹

The definition of money is that it is that ~~it~~ commodity wh. is the universal mean of exchange for other commodities. The effect of the science of political economy in this definition is shewn in money being called not the universal mean of exchange ~~but~~ merely but the commodity wh. is the universal mean. Until the time of Adam Smith² there prevailed very naturally an antithesis ~~wh.~~ between money and the things exchanged for it, wh. was not only a fallacy to the mind but being acted on by nations on a large scale led to very harmful commercial policies. But it may be shewn by facts that money itself is under the same laws as other things, as all the things it can buy; as most prominently in the nature of its value. This is as in all other cases the cost or difficulty of getting it. As it is right in all things to understand the difference between this value and the usefulness of the thing, the two being essentially distinct, so it is more especially necessary with money the universality of wh. makes mistakes with regard to it more widely felt. Usefulness, it is taught, does not make or bear proportion in value, and this is as true of gold for instance as of fresh water. Gold is very ~~lasting~~ pure, lasting, ductile, and brilliant, but its worth over the other metals does not come fr. its advantages in these qualities, but only fr. the greater difficulty of reaching and working the veins where it is found.

In the 16th century so much gold was brought in fr. the newly-discovered America that in 100 years its value had fallen to a fourth of what it had been. In J. Caesar's time the capture of gold in Gaul depressed the value of the currency at Rome. Though suffering checks the supply of gold keeps running on as fr. year to year with no plain prospect of its ever coming to an end. It is not however found that the sinking of its value keeps pace with the rise in ~~the~~ its amount, and this meets us as not agreeing with the usual laws. But the demand for money over so great a field as the whole world with commerce in every different stage of development may long ~~out-run the supply~~ keep pace with the supply instead of being, as happens with a bounded area, satiated with it, and so hide the approach of depreciation. Money is not on this account to be thought exempt fr. the laws of supply and demand, wh. act only less markedly and suddenly fr. the constancy and regularity of the demand for it.

Money therefore is in its nature like the rest of things wh. are

exchanged, but is the most widely exchanged of all. Nor can it unless the mines fail enter the class of those things of wh. the supply is limited; indeed not even then, for the coinage is only a part of money. But it has often been thought possible to treat money as if this ~~were possible~~, cd. be done, within the bounds of single countries, by tying it up and forbidding its exportation. Such plans of governments upon the coinage must always fail, gold and silver flowing in and out of the country—and nothing is easier to smuggle than money—in spite of every guard. And in itself to tamper with the precious metals is hard; for if the coinage be raised in value by confining the amount it will be fed by supplies fr. melted plate and so on, and if depreciated it will pass away into the more ~~pref~~ profitable service of the arts until the old level is recovered, because it has a value in itself, a high cost of production, wh. is proof against interference and a usefulness, namely in the arts, wh. keeps up a demand for it. But it is otherwise with paper money. Since the cost of production here may count for nothing and if discredited it can get no exchange at the silversmith's, it must stand for something wh. has value: accordingly it stands for gold. But this imputed value must be only for those who impute it; that is, it has, possibly, and often in fact, no value beyond the country where it is issued. It is easily seen therefore to turn in some way upon credit, but it must not be thought that the principle of credit will explain all that happens with paper money, banknotes that is and bills and other issues. It is found to fall under the common law of supply and demand. If the issue of paper money has much outrun the gold it answers to it becomes depreciated, if it is felt to be small for the purposes of trade it even rises above the amount of its legal tender. Accordingly we find in paper money the greatest rises and falls wh. we meet with in the history of the science of political economy: the relations of paper and gold to each other give rise to the most difficult questions a financier has to ~~answer~~ deal with. When the balance between the two is kept with moderate evenness it is found that the paper money becomes incorporate with the ~~metal~~ coinage and is depressed by the supply of gold as though it were itself of the metal. Some such balance not only governments but banks and merchant houses are bound to maintain, with sanctions taken if needful fr. the law; for the deceitful look of easily growing wealth got fr. great paper issues and the real personal wealth won by those who issue them must always be drawing commerce, unless strong enough hindrances are in force,—~~towards~~ against it, towards dangerous revulsions and disaster.³

1. See M'Culloch, 'Money', 416–94. Another possible source: Bonamy Price, 'The Principles of Currency', *Fraser's Magazine*, 67/401 (May 1863), 581–98. Price asks that everyone treat 'the science' of currency seriously. 'Gold can be purchased all over Europe', he observes; 'it requires no long loading in ships, or tedious delays in docks. A letter or two from England would fetch, in twenty-four, or at any rate forty-eight, hours, any quantity that could be really needed' (pp. 581, 587). 'Coin is only one instrument of exchange amongst many . . . it is composed of a commodity endowed with a known marketable value' (p. 588). 'The Currency' was also a favourite subject of J. E. T. Rogers, then Oxford's Professor of Political Economy. In April 1866, for example, he delivered ten lectures on the subject: 'Metallic Currencies', 'The Regulation of Metallic Currencies by Government', 'Substitutive Currencies', 'The Functions of a Bank', 'Foreign Exchanges', 'Bank of England, to 1797', 'Suspension of Cash Payments', 'Currency to 1844', 'The Bank Charter Act', and 'The Regular Paper Currencies in the Present Day'. Bodleian MS G.A. Oxon c.82 (142).
2. Adam Smith, *An Inquiry into the Nature and Causes of the Wealth of Nations* (1776). Smith (1723–90) had been a Snell Exhibitioner at Balliol.
3. Initialled 'R.S.' [Robert Scott] in pencil. Below the last line GMH has printed a series of dates: '1815, 1825–26, 1837, 1847, 1866'. In 1815 the fluctuation in value between gold and paper depreciated the currency to a new low. The extravagant issue of paper money by the 'country banks' in 1825–6 touched off a run on the Bank of England. The enormous growth in joint-stock banks and their branches in the 1830s resulted in a new glut of paper; in 1837 the Bank of England was called in to avert the crash of the Northern and Central Bank, a near-disaster that partially paralysed national industry and commerce. Robert Peel's Bank Act of 1844 limited the Bank of England's powers to issue notes, but the Act was suspended in 1847 owing to the mismanagement of bank directors. The crisis of 1866—Overend, Gurney, London's greatest private bank, suspended payments on 10 May and subsequently failed for more than £5 million—is noted in GMH's journal (11.05.1866). The fate of his grandfather's savings, invested in the Agra and Mastermans Bank, is discussed *Jour.* 14.05.1866 and 13.06.1866.

D.VI

Essays.¹



D.VI.1

Is the difference between a priori and a posteriori truth one of degree only or of kind?²

A priori truths are otherwise called primary beliefs and are very commonly known as intuitive beliefs, under the name wh. has been put on them by one of the schools of thought wh. has discussed them. Of a belief's being primary there are two tests, its universality among men and its necessity, and the test of necessity is the inconceivableness of the opposite. ~~of the belief in question~~

Three great schools of thought have developed three theories of the nature of primary beliefs and these theories associate themselves especially with one name in each school. Descartes represents the Ontological school, Hume the Empirical, Kant the Transcendental.³

According to the Cartesian system man is born with certain beliefs, or ideas which become beliefs at the first moment ~~when verified by~~ experience of being experience. These are the Innate Ideas.

The Empirics explain the necessity which attaches to these primary beliefs by constant association. If two ideas never rise except together we become unable to ~~distinguish~~ sever them by any effort of thought. It is only in the closeness of the association that these ideas differ fr. others.

The two streams of thought fall together in Kant. He distributed all thought under twelve categories or forms, laying a new stress on the scholastic distinction of form and matter. The two most prominent forms are Space and Time. Space is the form under which we regard the outer world, time under wh. ~~our~~ the phenomena of our own ~~thought~~ minds, sensation, etc.

The transcendental philosophy has established the loss of meaning, of sanity in thought, when any attempt is made to regard space and time apart fr. their matter, or matter apart fr. these forms. It is necessary

however for the Empirics to give some ~~some~~ explanation of these most fundamental associations. In doing this they appeal to physiology. A limited idea of space is possible they say to the eye without motion, when motion is given too, ~~to the eye and also~~ the idea forms itself ~~both~~ by this organ and by the sense of touch, acting together and coordinating the idea. When touch acts alone, as in the blind, they say it can be proved that no idea of space is formed, but of time, although the language used imitates and follows that wh. the seeing have formed to describe the phenomena of space. Thus space and time are reduced to muscular sensations having a complex, composite, highly derivative form at last; space represents the muscular effort of moving the eye along a sweep of surface, time that of moving a limb.

Arguments of this sort however are attacked by the other schools for begging the question, space and time being assumed as in some way real or existing in the explanation. These ideas thus remain a priori.

A further analysis however might be used to simplify the question. It will appear that space and time may be brought under one genus. They imply sameness and difference, one and more, end and continuance. It is agreed neither form has any meaning except as implying plurality at least in thought, two sensations. The common form then wd. be Quantity. But of course any definition of quantity is out of the question, since it has no meaning except fr. being illustrated in things, in matter. It seems therefore to be true that the Empirical explanations of space and time are only simplifications of their phenomena and that the a priori notion of quantity must be held to differ in kind fr. other thought.

It may further be urged that the Empirics give no explanation of our having two and only two forms of quantity and of their incompatible difference. The sensations of the eye are given in space, those of the ear in time: why not a new form for each of the senses?

Kant considers the moral sense a form of thought besides various other categories. But whether these may be simplified by analysis or not will make no difference so long as the idea of quantity remains intuitive.⁴

1. Inscribed on the inside front cover: 'Gerard M. Hopkins. | Essays.'

2. GMH's principal source: Lewes, *A Biographical History of Philosophy*. This topic asks the student to consider the manifold distinctions between 'pure' (*a priori*) and 'empirical' (*a posteriori*) knowledge, the subject of Kant's introduction to the *Critique of Pure Reason*. To quote Lewes, Kant 'divides all judgment into two

classes, analytic and synthetic. The analytic judgment is, as it were, but a writing out of our experience. . . . The synthetic judgment, on the contrary, is when we predicate some attribute of a thing, the conception of which does not involve that attribute; such as that a straight line is the shortest road between two points. There are two classes of synthetic judgment: those a posteriori and those a priori judgments are independent of experience.' Therefore, with Kant, 'Psychology thus becomes the groundwork of all philosophy.' *Biographical History of Philosophy*, iv. 101, 104.

3. GMH has underscored 'Transcendental' in pencil and written above it, 'Psychological'. A gloss on this change is found on the verso of the leaf: 'For Transcendental say Psychological rather, for though Kant used the word he did it like many of his terms in unusual sense. His Forms are not all coordinate. There are two Forms of sense—Space and Time; Twelve (under four heads) of the understanding, Judgments; Three Ideas of the Reason, God, the Soul (ego, subject), and the World (non-ego, object). The four heads of the categories are—Quantity (Unity, Plurality, and their synthesis Totality), Quality (Reality, Negation, and their synthesis Limitation), Relation (Substance and Accident, Cause and Effect, Action and Reaction), Modality (Possibility, Existence, Necessity). They owe their arrangement only to a love for symmetry and, like the Aristotelian, repeat and overlap (and may all be reduced to Relation).' See Kant, *Critique of Pure Reason*, trans. J. M. D. Meiklejohn (London: Bohn, 1855): 'Transcendental Logic.—First Division', I. iii. §6. GMH is probably quoting from *The Philosophy of Kant: Lectures by Victor Cousin*, trans. and ed. A. G. Henderson (London: John Chapman, 1854), 68–9. It was primarily Jowett who introduced Kant and Hegel to Oxford. Kant's name first appears on an Oxford examination in 1863. Mure, 'Oxford and Philosophy', 297. Pater began reading Kant, in German, in 1861. GMH read about Kant in works such as George Henry Lewes's *A Biographical History of Philosophy*. See also D.III.5.
4. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'Under the name of the Categorical Imperative. It is not among the categories of the understanding' (fo. 2^v). See D.X.4.

D.VI.2

Causation.¹

The theories of cause and effect are practically two,² or at least the difference between the Cartesians and Kant *are* is of no importance when either is contrasted with the Empirical explanation. It is best to begin with the latter first.

Hume said³—and he had been preceded by Glanvill,⁴ Hobbes,⁵ and Malebranche⁶—that causation meant no more than a perpetual association of two things together in our experience, so that in time when we saw one we shd. look to see the other: of these the earlier we call cause and the latter effect. When he was answered that this is not all our idea, because we have a notion of power in the cause, he tried to show that this notion was a sort of illusion, and here he has been followed and his

ground worked out by Brown,⁷ Mill, and others. Brown's explanation seems taking:⁸ he says that all his notion of power, analyse it how he will, is that [one] thing infallibly follows another. One or two corrections may be made so as to give the Empirical theory in its latest form. Lewes remarks⁹ that there is no ~~reason~~ need for our experience perpetually to have associated two things together, once is ~~often~~ sometimes enough: a burnt child dreads the fire, that is associates scorching heat with the fire, after one trial. The Empirics usually define causation as invariable sequence, cause being antecedent, effect consequent; and to say that everything has a cause, they wd. explain, is to say that everything comes after something else.

With the Cartesians causation wd. be one of our innate ideas, our necessary beliefs. Kant threw causation under the third head of his twelve categories, namely Relation. He said an antecedent cannot of itself make us expect any particular consequent: the connection wh. we feel for instance between lighting a fire and the room warming must be looked for in our minds, not in the things themselves. Mere ~~anteced~~ sequence he said may be actually shewn to be insufficient, or else why is not day the cause of night?—not seeing that day is the cause of night and night of day. The belief in causation then is a form of thought and beyond this point allows no further analysis, is inexplicable.

Perhaps¹⁰ if the Positivist definition of cause and effect were made more comprehensively the Cantian [*sic*] arguments wd. not be felt so effective against it.¹¹ For we speak of effects coming before their causes, as if we take umbrellas because it is going to rain. It will of course be said that this is mis-stated: we take umbrellas because we know it is going to rain. Yet it does not appear that this really makes a difference: no one thinks it necessary to say we go out because we know we have ~~streets~~ a place to walk ~~through~~ to, but (if they are pressed for a reason) because we have a place to walk to. However, be this as it may, an indisputable case may be given of effects coexisting, being exactly timed, with their causes. An instance may be taken fr. the arts, always most useful in [an] analogy of this sort. Suppose a white disk on a dark ground, say of a frescoed wall. On the disk are four dark pear-shaped pieces, their points meeting at the centre of the disk, their round ends touching the circumference, ~~the~~ so that they make a sort of letter X.

The figure made will be a quatrefoil. [See **Figure 7.**] Its efficient cause is the draughtsman or architect, its material cause the dark colour, its formal cause the four pieces because if there had been three it wd.

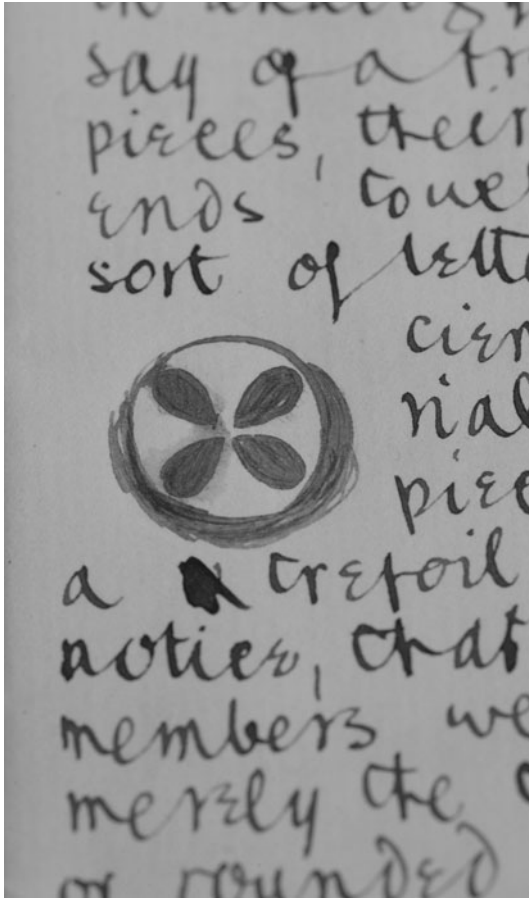


Figure 7. Hopkins's illustration for D.VI.2, 'Causation'
From the Hopkins Archive, Campion Hall, Oxford

have been a trefoil and if five a cinquefoil. Here this point deserves notice, that causes cannot be counted. If the figure had five members we shd. cease to call it a quatrefoil at all, but if merely the curves of the foiling had been ever so little prolonged or rounded together it wd. no longer have been this quatrefoil. Every point therefore in a figure is a cause, every [point] a condition. Now we have called the figure a quatrefoil, the figure so called is the effect in question, the white interstices left in the disk by their limiting and throwing up the foiling are

prominent among the causes. The eye looking at the figure on a church wall might however be suddenly struck at see by the thought that not a quatrefoil but a Maltese cross was meant, a white cross thrown up on a dark ground. At once the sheaf of causes become the effect, the old effect, the quatrefoil, is scattered into a number of causes. Accordingly an effect is nothing but the way in which the mind ties together,¹² not the sequences, but all the conditions it sees. A cause therefore is a condition of a thing considered as contrasted with the whole thing, an effect a whole as contrasted with its conditions, elements, or parts.

Further notes.

Lewes' friend who did not see that every thing must have a cause.¹³ This true principle. He wd. have seen had you explained cause, and to do that properly you take away the mystical idea.

Notwithstanding, metaphysicians have no doubt come to be mentally unable to acquiesce in the true notion of causation. This strong for the Positivists, for are other ideas any more strongly possessed with the inexplicable, mystical character?¹⁴ Explanation at all events wanted.

~~Cessante causa cessat et effectus true~~ {when a cause ceases the effect too ceases}. ~~One might say cessantibus causis effectus non est~~ {when causes cease there is no effect}

Truth too in the effect being in some way like the cause—wh. Mill kicks so much.

1. GMH's principal source: Lewes, *A Biographical History of Philosophy*.
2. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'See note at bottom of this page.' The annotation to which he refers is continued onto the verso of the leaf on which the essay begins. It reads:

This is incorrect. There are the three theories of causation just as with other questions and if we throw them into two Kant will fall with the Empirics, not the with the Ontologists.

The latter are marked off by their supposition of a reale substratum of power or force. This Kant wd. deny as fully as the Empirics and his view comes to be in truth indistinguishable fr. theirs. Kant is a refinement on Hume. (It wd. have however to be allowed that the category of causation was nothing more than one form of our power of making concepts, generalising, wd. it not?). (fos. 2^r, 3^r)

3. David Hume (1711–76), born and educated in Edinburgh, published his *Treatise of Human Nature* in 1739 and *Enquiry Concerning Human Understanding* in 1748. In the latter he argues that the 'laws of nature' are more compelling than any evidence for divine miracles, and suggests that a belief in a supreme intelligence is fundamentally imaginative rather than rational. Siding with Locke against Descartes, Hume insists that there are no innate ideas. GMH's paragraph is particularly indebted to ch. 3 of Lewes's study, 'Hume's Theory of Causation' (*Biographical History*, iv. 45–55). The Glanvill–Hobbes–Malebranche connection is discussed at iv. 45–6. 'The theory may be briefly stated', Lewes observes. 'All our experience of causation is simply that of a constant succession. An antecedent

followed by a sequent—one event followed by another. This is all that we experience' (ibid. 45).

4. Joseph Glanvill (1636–80), educated at Oxford, later a cleric, attacked scholastic philosophy in *The Vanity of Dogmatizing* (1661). *Lux Orientalis* (1662) argues for the pre-existence of souls; *Saducismus Triumphatus* (1681) upholds a belief in witches.
5. See D.XI.3, 'The moral system of Hobbes'.
6. Nicolas Malebranche (1638–1715), trained at the Sorbonne and an ordained priest, was a leading figure in the development of Cartesian philosophy, mathematics, and natural science. *De la recherche de la vérité* ('Search after Truth', 2 vols., 1674 and 1675) promoted both Descartes's theory of the soul and his own ideas about 'the doctrine of vision in God' ('That we see all things in God') and humanity's dependence on and unity with God. Willis Doney, 'Malebranche', in Paul Edwards (ed.), *The Encyclopedia of Philosophy* (London: Macmillan, 1967), v. 140. 'The *Dialogues on Metaphysics*, for which he has been called the French Plato, is the best introduction to this philosophy' (ibid.).
7. Thomas Brown (1778–1820), physician and philosopher. Greatly influenced by Dugald Stewart; a critic of David Hume's scepticism (Brown's *Observations on the Nature and Tendency of the Doctrine of Mr. Hume concerning the Relation of Cause and Effect* was published in 1804). The nineteenth edition of Brown's popular lectures on moral philosophy and logic was published in 1851. Brown's influence was largely supplanted by Sir William Hamilton, who analyses (and criticizes) Brown's doctrine of causality in *Lectures*, ii. 382–6.
8. The term has been underlined in pencil. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'American. Say seductive.' Jowett's 'fastidiousness on the score of language' is mentioned more than once by Lewis Campbell. 'Hence [his] abhorrence of slang, which some undergraduates thought a piece of donnishness.' Abbott and Campbell, *The Life and Letters of Benjamin Jowett*, i. 204. Similarly, in an account of Book II of Plato's *Republic* (D. VI. 4), GMH had written, 'a modern reader at once feels its great flaw to be that the state has no consciousness, in especial' (fo. 9), but he subsequently adds a note, 'In especial' not good. Especially' (fo. 8').
9. Lewes, *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, iv. 128. 'Thus', Lewes observes, 'belief in particular laws of causation is no more than belief in our experience; and if we are asked why we believe that our future experience will resemble the past, we answer, because we have no other possible belief of things than that which is formed by experience: we cannot possibly believe the candle as not burning us in the future, because our experience of a candle has been that it does burn, and our beliefs cannot transcend the experience which made them' (ibid. 129).
10. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'The Positivist theory of Causation properly stated wd. allow effects to coexist as well as to follow causes' (fo. 3'). An 'X' has been made adjacent to the line of text that reads 'before their causes, as if we take umbrellas because it is going [to rain]'.
11. 'About M. Comte I should like to say a few words', Jowett announced to Nightingale in May 1861:

I observe many persons are beginning to talk of the three ages of the world—Polytheism, Monotheism, Atheism—& that people who have got tired of theology or philosophy fancy they find a rest in Positivism. It seems to me that Positivism is after all a kind of metaphysical dogma. To say that everything must be founded on fact is not new since Locke. . . . Comte constantly asserts that morals & social science must rest on facts, but the whole point is really what are the facts on which they rest, towards the elucidation of which he contributes very

little. The notion of Universal law is not his discovery but due to the growing sense & knowledge of the physical world. I think the same of his philosophy of history. Hegel had traced the sequence of ideas and nations forty years ago, with less violence to facts & with much greater metaphysical and poetic insight. To reduce morals to the type of physics is a mistaken wisdom. . . . I feel & observe in reading Comte 1. excessive egotism (the very reverse of Socrates). 2. Vast generalization which is in fact a sort of metaphysical assumption. 3. an inverted Catholicism with God left out & the Saints left in. 4. a want of imagination & knowledge of human nature.' *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 6.

12. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf:

The true theory in fact anticipated by Aristotle, who gives such a list of ~~eff~~ causes for a statue as that their whole is the statue.

Mill says rightly our choice of a cause is arbitrary or rather it depends on our subject or point of view.

For Causation see the end of Jowett's essay on Necessity and Free Will. (fo. 4')

'On Pre-Destination and Free-will' is the final essay (pp. 596–632) in Jowett's two-volume *The Epistles of St. Paul to the Thessalonians, Galatians, Romans, with Critical Notes and Dissertations*, 2nd edn. (London: John Murray, 1859); published in *Scripture and Truth: Dissertations by the Late Benjamin Jowett*, ed. Lewis Campbell (London: Henry Froude, 1907), 181–225. Selections from the essay were published as 'Predestination and Free Will' and 'Necessity and Free Will' in *Select Passages from the Theological Writings of Benjamin Jowett*, ed. Lewis Campbell (London: John Murray, 1902), 94–103.

13. Lewes, *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, iv. 48.

14. A decade later, Magdalen student Oscar Wilde would note in his commonplace book, 'Modern Positivists are as men who while they deny the existence of the sun yet worship the sunlight on the Earth, who acknowledge that the fruit is sweet to eat, and the flower goodly for sight yet insist that the root is rotten, and the soil barren—. . . Positivism may be described as catholicism without Christianity as regards it's [*sic*] social aspect, philosophically it is dogmatism without criticism.' *Oscar Wilde's Oxford Notebooks*, ed. Smith and Hefland, 125, 151. Wilde may have attended services at St Aloysius's church in Oxford while GMH was serving as assistant pastor there, in 1878–9. See Higgins, 'The "piecemeal peace" of Hopkins's Return to Oxford, 1878–1879', in Eugene Hollahan (ed.), *Gerard Manley Hopkins and Critical Discourse* (New York: AMS Press, 1993), 167–82.

D.VI.3

How far may a common tendency be traced in all pre-Socratic philosophy?¹

Long before there cd. be any hope of success the Greek philosophers tried to bring all they saw in the world, all the complexity of nature, under one head, at first by finding one element in the world of matter and then by another step adding the mind of man, the sharp distinction of these two things not being made till modern philosophy.

It is not surprising that speculation shd. ~~not~~ begin with the outer world, with what might be called "cosmology": till this side of the great questions of knowledge has been tried in vain men do not suspect their

own value and position in the difficulty and so take up that side of the problem by turning the eye fr. the outer world to the laws of thought in their own minds. The Greek philosophers ~~until~~ before Socrates looked outwards, until many failures in bringing the world into order brought despair upon speculation, as shewn, on the philosophical side, in the theories of knowledge of Heraclitus and Anaxagoras, on the practical, in some of the maxims of the Sophists. Philosophy then took an inward or psychological turn.

Formal logic and the sciences generally are not only later in date than the pre-Socratic philosophers but also the spirit in wh. we are in pursuing them is later. At this time the attention has become diverted in following many methods and does not think of the whole, whereas early philosophy not suspecting the manifoldness of knowledge looks to the whole at once. The same thing may be seen in children, who raise questions to themselves beyond their age to answer and reduce all liquids for instance to mixtures of water and all curves to parts of greater or smaller circles and speculate on atoms and other such points.

However in the midst of these failures to find a general principle for the whole world philosophy threw into shape and realised to itself the great questions wh. in one way or another must always engage it, namely the bearing of man to nature, or the character of knowledge. This may be seen by glancing over the great systems of early Greece.

First then the Ionian school realised the idea of matter, not, that is, as distinct fr. man or spirit but as binding together all the objects of the senses under one name. Thus Thales said moisture was the ~~beginning~~ principle² of all things, others later substituted air or fire and Empedocles gave the four elements. Although these various systems broke up on examination the advance they made by the suggestion of a unity in nature cannot be over-valued. A more certain ~~first~~ principle than ~~water~~ τὸ ὑγρόν {water, moisture} or any of the elements now appeared in number, which was given by the Pythagoreans. The advance in this step is double: not only it puts a true basis—whether important or not—~~basis~~ for a false ~~on~~ but it supplies the first intentional ~~abstraction~~ abstract idea. The principle was at once fruitful: in a short time fr. ~~the~~ its first starting ~~of~~ the principle of abstract ideas ~~it~~ was carried to its extreme limit by the Eleatics, who treat of pure being. The Pythagoreans in their speculations on number had engaged themselves with definite numbers, with interesting results and harmonies: this was in a more abstract shape, as it now appeared, the earlier and less philosophical apprehension of form rather than principle and accordingly

the Eleatics spoke of One and Many, not of squares, cubes, and perfect numbers. This point reached the belief in truths of sensation and form had been brought to a minimum of value and began to receive those attacks (wh. it has more or less ever since undergone) fr. the pure reasoning processes of Parmenides and Zeno. But the logical assurance ~~itself~~ of the Eleatics itself was balanced by Heracleitus whose teaching about flux is the reaction against the supremacy of principles of established by reason, and substitutes for the immoveable spherical One or Whole of Xenophanes the sole unity of variety, the certainty of change. So far ~~so far~~ then the concrete and abstract treatment of the subject had been altogether outward and had failed, for Heracleitus had left no unity but that of a stream of alteration. A new direction began to be tried. With Socrates the eye was turned inwards, but the seeds of this feeling were visible in Anaxagoras³ who spoke of things being undetermined, indifferent, in themselves but that reason came in and ordered them. Moreover he sums up the results of the earlier philosophy fr. both the mental and material sides by giving a theory of atoms on the one hand and of a formative mind on the other, both being eternal.⁴

The effort of pre-Socratic philosophy has accordingly been described as an attempt to get a point of view fr. wh. the world of things shd. fall into perspective.⁵

1. GMH's principal sources: Grote, *Plato*, i. 1-112; Lewes, *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, i. 26-54; and Jowett's 1865 lectures.
2. GMH's extended note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf:

Principle as a vague word shd. be used. Lewes says beginning, but this is the explanation expression put into the wd. ἀρχή {cause, first principle} by Aristotle, and it is doubtful whether Thales and some earlier philosophers used ἀρχή at all. Moisture Thales seems to have conceived of as a network or skeleton tying all things together.

The value of the systems of the early philosophers is that though wrong they are fruitful guesses, leading to their own superseding by others truer than themselves. This the Eastern philosophies of Persia, India, China, have not got, their first guesses being worked out into developments of monstrosities. They are like the hundred-handed deities of India. Hence their little value and also because they have been so entirely without influence on our civilisation. Comte says that a theory of some sort of, a σχῆμα {schema}, to lead inquiry is most necessary at first in science.

This description of the advances made by the Eleatics over the Pythagoreans an over-refinement. (fo. 6')

Lewes notes: '[Thales] therefore asked himself, What is that invariable existence of which these are the variable states. In a word, What is the beginning of things? . . . Had historians said that Thales taught that moisture was the beginning of things, they would have greatly simplified the question; our word 'principle' has another meaning. Beginning is the correct word; and is the one used by Aristotle, ὅδωρ εἶναι τὴν ἀρχήν {water is the cause, or first principle}.—*Met.* i. 3.' *A Biographical*

History of Philosophy, i. 29 (the citation is imprecise for I. iii. 5). For Lewes's discussion of Comte, see *ibid.* iv. 259–61.

3. The teacher of Pericles, Euripides, and Socrates.
4. Anaxagoras, remarks Lewes, 'assigned to Intelligence the great Arrangement of the homoeomerioe [atoms]. His 'famous Intelligence (*νοῦς*) {mind} [was] the moving force of the Universe.' *A Biographical History*, i. 123, 121. The reference is to Aristotle, *Metaphysics* I. iii. 9 (trans. Tredennick, 21).
5. Initialled 'RS' [Robert Scott] in red.

D.VI.4

Account of the dialogue of Plato's *Republic* fr. the end of the introduction to the beginning of the discussion of mythology (II, x–xvi).¹

Glaucon and Adeimantus² have stated the popular views about honesty being, namely that it is ~~not~~ the worst policy, dissenting themselves but not knowing what to say on the other side. Socrates takes up the argument on the side of Right and says that it occurs to him that though the kind of discussion hitherto pursued has been barren of the result ~~that~~ wh. Glaucon and Adeimantus and himself wish to get at yet by looking at the question where it exists on a greater scale ~~we~~ they may find principles wh. they can afterwards apply to the subject immediately in hand.

He then argues that we speak of justice not only as interesting single men but cities. Let us then, he says, look at it in the great sphere of a city or state, and in its beginnings or *γένεσις* {genesis}, wh. will accompany the growing up of the state.

This analogy then runs through the whole work³ and is not objected to by any of the *dramatis personae*. But a modern reader at once feels ~~that~~ its great flaw to be that the state has no consciousness, in especial⁴—since the question is one of morality—no conscience. To say that the government is the state conscience ~~is a~~ wd. be a fallacy:⁵ the essence of conscience is that its approval or dissent shd. be expressed together with and at the moment of ~~any~~ every act of the mind wh. is concerned with morals, but executive acts of state are not accompanied by any one feeling of approval or dissent.⁶ Or to put it thus—the government tries to act so that the state shall seem to be guided by a conscience, but it is not on that account a conscience. How is it then that Plato not only reasons on the analogy but does not even remove objections wh. might be raised to it? The answer is that Gk. thought had a strong feeling of national unity—their whole civilisation⁷ and

history was of the growth and independence of states; while on the other hand their sense of personality was weak. Even had Plato not reasoned on this analogy this wd. have been plain. The Greeks had a perception of a standard of right absolutely true and commanding every one's obedience, not to be confused or modified for the sake of individuals, while they did not value to the right degree the assent of something in each man's mind given to this standard. This latter side is worked out by Aristotle but without the importance that modern ethics wd. give it.

Not finished.

1. GMH's principal sources: Plato, *Republic* II. 368A ff.; Grote, *Plato*, iii. 27–242, especially 38–48. A brief note (from Jowett) on Book II of the *Republic* is found in GMH's B.II notebook: 'Bk. ii. Question of ultimate advantages of justice and injustice. Difficult. Metaphysical and psychological prob[lem]s only answered by man and member of a community. This is too much forgotten in mod[ern] philosophy' (B.II, fo. 120).
2. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'To mention Glaucon and Adeimantus belongs rather to an analysis of the bk. than to a philosophical sketch of the argum[ent]' (fo. 7').
3. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'Scarcely. It is partly surrendered in the 4th bk., where it is proposed to "go another longer way", when justice is viewed in the individual' (fo. 8').
4. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: '“In especial” not good. Especially' (fo. 8').
5. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'No need to do more than state this. The development of the reasons does not strengthen and is not wanted' (fo. 8').
6. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'This side, for wh. something may be said, has been worked out by the Germans who are fond of saying the state becomes conscious in its rulers' (fo. 8').
7. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: '“Their whole civilisation” etc only darkens the clause before. An illustration of the strength of the sense of national unity may be seen in the story of the genius of the Roman empire appearing to the emperor Julian—even as late as that' (fo. 8').

D.VI.5

The Connection of Mythology and Philosophy.¹

With the Greeks mythology gave rise to poetry, history, and philosophy. It was, as Grote says, to the ages before literature the whole result of what now takes the form of literature, and the whole field and interest of the minds wh. wd. now enjoy poetry ~~speculation~~, science ~~fiction~~, history. Its bearing on philosophy can be understood only by

asking first what mythology in itself was and what the process of mind which created it or allowed and accepted it.

Two valuable ~~schemes~~ theories of the rise of mythology have been made by modern criticism and may be ~~made-used~~ to supplement one another, that of the comparative Mythologists² and that of those who like Grote on a priori grounds trace the state of mind in wh. mythology was thrown out. Combining them we explain mythology thus. Two stages can be seen in it. In the first there is the least possible power of generalisation in the mind of man, nothing but the common ~~utensils~~ objects of life and the common beasts of the field have connotative names, and even here where ~~any-are~~ the work of any craftsman is unusually elaborate and remarkable it receives a denotative name and is thought of almost or quite as a personal thing. Such is Arthur's sword Excalibur and all the multitude of famous arms and attributes of heroes.³ This state of mind is comes less of ~~imaginatio~~ excessive imagination than of defective science. We see it in children and in madness—"Cry you mercy, I took you for a joint-stool"—,⁴ and that ships and steam-engines, things that are very organic, are called she is a remnant of the same attitude. Those things wh. like the common chattels of the house are in the control of man entirely and offer no resistance except weight become generalised, that is cease to have individuality or personality, but all things wh. by their freedom fr. man's control, their irregular and unaccountable ~~aetio~~ sequence, and their influence on man himself most of all, look like persons and seem to have will[s] of their own, these receive only personal names and according to their greatness become the important figures in mythology. This state of mind, imaginative fr. want of reasoning and so without the art value of imagination, offers material to poets and men of real imagination. These describe the shows of morn, night, evening, storm, sea ~~and~~, spring, rain, and the rest under language personal as in the earliest stage but definite and interesting, and the words they use ~~become~~ are taken up and become the stock of mythes [*sic*]⁵ in any people.

At the time philosophy began in Greece the mythes had ~~ceased~~ lost their meaning as accounts of the sights of the earth and sky and were believed in as history. There had also been what may be called the cosmogonical stage, the last of mythology and the foreshadowing of philosophy, in wh. an attempt ~~was~~ is made to explain the creation of the world and the fatherhood of the best known nations. Fr. this latter kind comes the cosmological philosophy of the Ionians, prepossessed by mythology with the idea of some unity, a historical unity perhaps, in the

world and substituting for that a scheme of its physical unity. This the less important side of Gk. philosophy wins its proper development in science. The more important side springs fr. the personifying frame of mind wh. has been spoken of. As the people who produced the mythes ~~spoke~~ found of personal action in the processes of nature so the philosophers, all more or less but more prominently Anaxagoras, Socrates, Plato, were engaged in finding the results of mind in the order, both the standing constitution and the processes that is, of nature. They begin with the belief that it is there. The Pythagoreans try to see the numerical relations of nature taking up the science wh. being most abstract most represented pure intellect with themselves. Heracleitus, who felt beyond any of his predecessors the chaos, uncertainty, and illusion of all things, spoke nevertheless of a rhythm, something imposed by mind as an air on the notes of a flute. Finally Plato, with whom nature has retired into unimportance, in the doctrine of ideas tries to find in the most recondite and elastic and subtle scheme the existence of ~~intell~~ mind, that is either at once or by deduction personality, behind the confused and provoking ~~ma~~ field of natural sights and events as yet almost untouched by science.

1. The first volume of Grote's *History* is devoted to ancient myths and legends. The penultimate chapter, 16, focuses on 'Grecian Mythos, as understood, felt and interpreted by the Greeks themselves', a survey of philosophical, social, artistic, literary, and historical connections; the final chapter, 17, analyses 'The Grecian Mythical Vein compared with that of Modern Europe'. (Grote restates his points briefly at the outset of *Plato*, i. 2-4.) Jowett discussed the pertinent chapters of the *History* in his 1865 lectures (see B.II, fo. 117 ff.). GMH's specific note on Greek mythology reads: 'The legends kept by their priests in local seclusion, but spread abroad, made common by Homer, Hesiod, the Orphic poets, etc. Gk. mythology cf. with Scandinavian. Much fuller than the other of interest in neighbouring world. Really the first effort at history. Earliest form of philosophy, cosmology. Problem solved by mythology before Thales. Great egg the ἀρχή {first cause, principle} of the world before water. Localization of legend of Argonauts [*sic*] at Colechis. Early explorers localized legends. Euxine full of interest to the Gk. explorer' (B.II, fos. 128-9). GMH is also concurring with Ruskin's earliest critique of myth. In *Modern Painters*, vol. ii (1846), Ruskin declares that 'the Greek could not conceive a spirit; he could do nothing without limbs; his God is a finite God, talking, pursuing, and going [on] journeys'. *Works*, iv. 329. Similarly, GMH was clearly not swayed by the 'newer and more scientific German traditions of comparative mythology'. Birch, 'Ruskin, Myth, and Modernism', 35. Max Müller had 'two leading ideas on myth: that ancient myths derived from the worship of the sun, and that their earliest forms of expression had to do with the degeneration of language—that mythology was little more than a dangerous disease of language' (ibid. 36-7). As Birch demonstrates, Ruskin's 'reevaluation of myth' in the 1860s and 1870s prompted him to praise ancient myths as 'a source of potential wisdom in an unbelieving age' (ibid. 38). In the mid-1880s, GMH could acknowledge the 'beauty' of Greek mythology,

but would not separate ancient myths and religion from his notions of 'heathenism'. 'Could I speak too severely' of Greek mythology, he asks Dixon. 'First it is as history untrue. What is untrue history? Nothing and worse than nothing. And that history religion? Still worse. . . . For myself literally words would fail me to express the loathing and horror with which I think of [heathenism] and of man setting up the work of his own hands, of that hand within the mind the imagination, for God Almighty who made heaven and earth. Still he might set up beings perfect in their kind. But the Greek gods are rakes, and unnatural rakes' (23.10.1886). In the same letter, GMH observes that 'The Indian gods are imposing, the Greek are not.' See D.VII.4 for his notes on ancient Indian religions.

2. Max Müller could come under this category. See D.VII.4.
3. Grote states that saintly and chivalric legends 'satisfied' the demand for 'mythical narrative' in the Middle Ages. Arthurian legends are mentioned in particular. *History*, i. 623, 630-1. Tennyson had re-established the poetic and symbolic power of Excalibur in his 'Morte d'Arthur', published in *Poems* (2 vols., 1842). GMH refers to another work in this edition, 'St. Simeon Stylites', in a letter to E. H. Coleridge (3.09.1862; see also his sketch in a letter to Baillie 03.1864). Arthur, Excalibur, and the exploits of the Round Table knights were featured in the Pre-Raphaelite frescoes in the Oxford Union.
4. *King Lear*, III. vi. 52.
5. GMH is copying Grote's spelling, one which had currency from 1840 to the mid-1860s (partly due to Max Müller's usage).

D.VI.6

The contrast between the older and the newer order of the world as seen in Caste.¹

Political change shews us both activity in the people and discontent with the old order of things. Mere absence of change need not always prove more than indolence or want of spirit or want of idea; but when institutions last in full force wh. while they last are obstructive to progress and yet require constant care and watchfulness for their keeping up, we understand the strength either of the political power or of the sanction in men's ideas wh. upholds them. Caste is an instance, upheld by distinctions and ceremonial wh. ~~is~~ are artificial and yet such that ~~its~~ their observance depends plainly or² nature or second nature.

We see in Caste the meaning and force of that conservative feeling wh. is always holding back and softening social and political changes. Institutions are devised when they are needed to suit the need, and they ~~rep~~ displace others wh. once were devised in the same way: all alike therefore must either wholly or in part be utilitarian ~~matters~~ in their ~~his~~ aim and contrivance. But it is everything to an institution to have had a history. It may be shewn thus. The order of things wh. has been since ~~their youth~~ men's childhood unbroken all round ~~them-men~~ them and is

understood to have been so before they were born seems, and in a sense is, part of the way of nature. With some detail it might be shewn how far fr. false such a way of ~~regarding~~ seeing things, abstractedly looked at, is, for since the duty of children to parents is a fact of nature, and to all blood kindred and other kindred in their degree, wh. all assume without question, if the other relations of men to each other are—as a matter of fact—observed as strictly and unquestionably, then they will think these too are duties of nature and stand on the same ground, τὸ διορίζειν γὰρ οὐκ ἔστι τῶν πολλῶν {for the mass of mankind cannot discriminate}.³ And these artificial ~~duties~~ facts will be facts of nature so far as their continuance in society has gathered natural customs about them, as in caste the ~~separation~~ difference of blood now and the difference of food are true though the reason for their ever having come about might be ever so fictitious.

The well known history of morals shews more and more as we go back that a thing's being is sufficient reason why it shd. go on being: this is shewn in δική {custom, order, law} wh. means the way, the custom, and becomes the word for ~~his~~ justice. Then the saying “πατρικὸν γὰρ ἡμῖν” {for it is our tradition}, it is our way, that is, as the word shews, their fathers' way, has been quoted as the early sanction given for morality, and Herodotus says custom is lord of all, saying it of course not until the time of consciousness had come and therefore of the beginning of a new order. Now when a new order of things is proposed men do not at once accept it on its own merits, and this is ~~the point of the order~~ that point in the course of phenomena at wh. we shd. look carefully for the action of morality in the progress of the world. That a new institution or state of things shd. have a reason to exist is another way of saying that the old one has none. Yet when this is ~~shewn~~ proved we know that men will nevertheless cling to the old. There is ~~however~~ of course some explanation of this, and it is that they are supported by a moral influence. We see how people receive anything very new and unlike what they have been accustomed to: ~~it is to them~~ the shock they feel is of a moral nature. And this is because the old, customary, and traditional order of things is sanctioned to them by moral feeling, rising fr. its being supposed in accordance with nature, as said above, and what is new therefore feels to them against nature and so immoral. To examine natural morality by itself belongs, as Aristotle says, to another enquiry.

We assume then the family as an ultimate fact of nature wh. affects morals, and caste is a particular development and fixing of the family

principle. A father dying[,] his son wd. be the man most obviously to take up his craft or position. This explains hereditary trades. The convenience or common tendency ~~hard~~ hardens into a duty—the son must take up his father's craft. The various trades and positions then are only carrying out a principle of morality at that time necessary for the well being of society and for its keeping together when they jealously refused the entrance of new members into their own trade or class. ~~and~~ They did it not on selfish grounds merely or even of self-preservation but moved by ~~the~~ one of the then feelings of morality. This taking place on the widest scale and with classes, helped also by circumstances of less importance or broadness, was the rise of caste. Then also the distinctions once formed perpetuated themselves by the action of the same things wh. had first caused them, but stronger; for the fact of difference, repeating and also complicating itself, difference in manner of life, food, wealth, and—strongest morally of all—religious rites (for we know each trade, clan, or family tended to have its own), acquired the hold on men's minds wh. the order of nature ~~has been~~ always must have, seeming to belong, as it did, to the order of nature.

To illustrate this, we find in the same way throughout history ideas of an old order of things ruling men's minds even when this had really past away. Thus the Romans, ready as they were in any emergency at contriving a new magistracy, cd. never get rid of the idea of the republican officers making up the complement of the abolished royalty, and again after the fall of the commonwealth the Emperor was in like manner wd. hold the old republican offices either in his own person instead of formally superseding them (wh. might have been done), or wherever he did not do this allow the office to go on just as it did in republican times. And so generally we find present facts made to misrepresent themselves to men's minds in order to fit their time-sanctioned ideas. Legal fictions give a familiar instance.⁴

1. In 1857 the Sepoys of the Bengal army mutinied, to protest at British political intervention in their country and the Westernization of their homeland (it was widely believed that the British hoped to break down the caste system). The mutiny was suppressed. In 1858 the British Crown assumed control of India; Lord Cannon became the first Viceroy and Governor-General. Sir John Lawrence was Viceroy during GMH's Oxford years. In the nineteenth century British interest in Indian culture and philosophy burgeoned. Among the many books available, James Mill's three-volume *History of India* (1817) was a landmark; Max Müller's *Lectures on the Science of Language* (London, 1864) and his *Chips from a German Workshop*, 4 vols. (London: Charles Scribner, 1867–75) (see D.VII.4) popularized major schools of Indian philosophy and the religious sects. Among Jowett's papers there are several

(undated) sheets of notes on 'Indian Philosophy', including comments on the role of caste (Jowett Collection, Box D, Balliol College). Jowett's copy of *Chips* is now housed in the Balliol library. Jowett's particular interest in India can perhaps be dated from 1854, when he served on Lord Macaulay's committee on appointments to the East India Company's service. Caste is mentioned once in Jowett's 1865 lectures. In notes on the 'Early society of Greece in Homeric age' GMH has written 'cf. Greece also with contemporary civilization—India, e.g., why no caste? Prob. because no great unity in castes. Infinite subdivision, not unity of Greece. In some respects caste beneficial to civilization. Thus in Greece slaves have no religious position at all' (B.II, fo. 133). (GMH had been invited to write an essay on the subject 'Estimate the value of India to England' (*Jour.* Spring 1864).) For D.VI.6, GMH consulted James Mill, 'Caste', *Encyclopaedia Britannica*, 8th edn., vi. 314–20. See also 'Duties of England to India', *Fraser's Magazine*, 64/384 (Dec. 1861), 674–89. Comte analyses the role of caste in the polytheistic phase of history. See Harriet Martineau (ed. and trans.), *Comte, his Positive Philosophy*, 2 vols. (London: John Chapman, 1853), ii. 237–41.

2. GMH's slip for 'on'.

3. Aristotle, *Nicomachean Ethics* 1172^b3.

4. Initialled 'R.S.' [Robert Scott].

D.VI.7

Translation of Philebus, 15D.¹

We say Socrates. We say ~~as it were~~, then that the same thing is made by argument one and many and goes this round in every subject now or before now argued on. And ~~this~~ it is a process wh. will never stop now and has not now first begun: it is some ever-living ever-youthful affection of our nature this, it seems to me, and lies in argument itself. Every young man who has ever tasted it, in the first charm of finding a treasure trove, as it ~~see~~ were, of wisdom, runs mad with joy and leaves no argument unturned in his delight, now ~~bringing things round to their opposite and running~~ tying one with another and binding all into one, now again unwinding and subdividing them, perplexing thus first and worst of all himself, and after himself the next person he may get ~~rid~~ hold of, whether younger ~~or~~, older, or his own peer, and sparing neither father nor mother nor any other listener, almost no beast, certainly no man, for of the barbarians—we know he wd. spare no barbarian if he cd. only get an interpreter.

Protarchus. Socrates, do you see our force—all of us young men? And have you no fear we shall fall on you and Philebus if you abuse us? Still—for we understand what you mean—if ~~this~~ there is any way means or device by wh. this dreaded confusion may be calmed and retire out of our argument and a brighter way than this be discovered

towards it, your task is to find this and ours shall be to the best of our power to follow you. The argument before us is no light thing, Socrates.

Socrates. It is not indeed, my children, to use the address Philebus has for you. Well, there is no brighter way, and there can be none, than that ~~one~~ which although I am ever its lover has ~~often~~ so often by its flight left me alone and helpless.

Protarchus. What is this? Only let us hear.

Socrates. To name it is not so hard, to make use of it very. For all the discoveries in art ever made have been made through this. Think now what I am speaking of.

Protarchus. Only speak.

Socrates. A gift of ² gods to men—it is in that shape it appears to me—it was cast down fr. the gods long ago by some Prometheus' means and with I know not what specially shining fore. ~~Then~~ And the ancients, greater than we and living nearer the gods ~~received~~, handed down an utterance to this effect, ~~as though~~ that everything wh. was ever said to be has that Being fr. unity and fr. multiplicity and contains ~~limit~~ the finite and the ~~illimitable in~~ infinite as innate in itself. This being the order reigning in all things we have always one idea to presuppose in everything and in each case to look for that; for it is there and we shall find it.³ If then we ~~are prepared to take this principle up~~ have made trial of this, next to one we are to ~~consider whether two will suit~~ look for two, if not, three or some other number, and again in the same way the unity of these unities in each case, until we have caught sight of the ultimate unity not only as one and many and infinite but also the quantity—how many. But the idea of the infinite we are not to ~~expose to the crowd~~ apply to the multitude of cases before we have seen what is that number in each thing wh. lies between the infinite and the one, and this done we may let the unity of everything depart into the infinite. The gods then, as I said, have thus granted us to see and learn and teach one another; but the wise men of the day ~~make~~ stamp their unity and multiplicity ~~when once they have come upon unity~~, on things at random either faster or slower than the thing needs, and after unity in one step give infinity: the intermediate steps escape them altogether,—by which, you remember, we distinguished the logical fr. the contentious way of treating each other's arguments.

1. Grote's discussion and partial translation of the *Philebus* appears in his *Plato*, ii. 552–620. Walter Pater's translation of 15D is found in *Plato and Platonism* (London: Macmillan, 1910), 153–4.
2. The word 'the' has been inserted in pencil, not in GMH's hand. The same person

(possibly Jowett) has made two other corrections in the paragraph: replacing 'received' with 'handed down', and 'as though' with 'that'. GMH has written over the corrections in ink.

3. Compare with Grote's translation: 'It is a primaeval inspiration (he says) granted by the Gods to man along with the fire of Prometheus, and handed down to us as a tradition from that heroic race who were in nearer kindred with the Gods—That all things said to exist are composed of Unity and Multitude, and include in them a natural coalescence of Finiteness and Unity. This is the fundamental order of Nature, which we must assume and proceed upon in our investigations.' *Plato*, ii. 559.

D.VI.8

The Education of the Philosopher as set forth in bk. VII of Plato's Commonwealth with the exact service rendered by each science as far as the introduction of dialectic.¹

The sciences he prescribes are five—arithmetic, plane geometry, solid geometry, astronomy, harmonics. The nature of the teaching to be given by them he explains under arithmetic. He finds, he says, that some things we see pass before the mind without exciting thought, others have the faculty of exciting it. The ~~first~~ latter kind are those wh. contain contraries in themselves or give the senses contrary impressions. All things wh. admit of degree are of this latter kind, because whatever ~~contains some~~ has any attribute must also have the negative of that attribute or the contrary attribute, whatever for instance is hard must also be to some degree soft, if very hard then a little soft, if somewhat hard then somewhat soft, if a little hard then very soft. Then since the same sense makes report of both ~~hardness~~ hard and soft, these things and the reports of the senses on them excite thought. But nothing does this so much as number. The puzzle wh. was so common in Plato's time, that the one was also many, ~~was~~ is an instance of this faculty of exciting thought. When we use a general or a collective name we speak as of one, but including an indefinite number, and when we speak of many individuals, as those who inhabit a town, we imply unity. This always recurring coexistence of contraries is highly exciting to thought and accordingly arithmetic or the use of number is the first and most necessary study of the philosopher.

Plane geometry obviously comes next. Its practical uses—the measurement of camps, the ordering of troops, and so forth—are *πάρεργα* {subordinate, incidental} merely. Its value is that it is abstractedly true, that is absolutely true, independent of time and of any accidents of sense, and therefore leading to the knowledge of ideas.

Solid geometry, a scarcely existing science, follows. It must be studied as being preliminary to astronomy or the science of solids in motion, and also ~~it has~~ for the beauty of its problems.

Astronomy follows. We must especially be careful with this science not to be misled by ~~the~~ either the utilitarian or the sentimental sides it presents in the concrete. The stars themselves are sensuous and therefore their observation for any but abstract problems is the very opposite of the use for wh. the sciences are prescribed.

The science of music comes last. This also is to be pursued in order to find the abstract relations between sounds and not as the Empirics do.

It will be seen that all the sciences are conceived of as mathematical. Modern astronomy reduces itself to an ultimate law wh. is not itself a fact of mathematics, although every case of it as differing fr. every other case is a fact of mathematics. But Gk. ~~math~~ astronomy regarding the stars as moving in circles or modifications of circles became thus only a case of geometry. So also Plato conceives of music as an application of arithmetic. The question then rises why, since the stars and the strings of a lute are concrete, shd. Plato use the half-concrete sciences at all when he is ~~teaching~~ giving his φύλακες {guardians} a grasp of abstract ideas. The answer wd. be, because these are the actual sciences and having been pursued offer new material to the mind.

1. See Grote, *Plato*, iii. 234-9.

D.III

Essays for W. H. Pater Esq.¹



D.III.1

The origin of our moral ideas.²

Three theories are proposed, the first that of innate ideas or of one innate idea which attaches itself to some of the voluntary acts of the mind. Another is Utilitarianism which makes morality lie in what attains or tends towards attaining the greatest happiness for the greatest number.³ The third is the historical theory—an idea of morality or of good is evolved and receives localisation and recognition in the process of time: the chain of morals fr. one age to another is de facto and a succession, no further unity.

The method may be followed in this question of taking up the other end of the chain and looking at moral ideas in their composite state. By this means we shall be led on to the *τόποι* {topoi} the settlement of which must go ~~over~~ before the choice of a theory of origin.

The things which we consider most absolutely excellent in point of morality, most disinterested—to begin with *τὰ λεγόμενα* {popular opinions}⁴—, are not the earliest but the latest in point of apprehension. So the clearest and most disinterested appreciation of beauty comes of ~~app~~ education, for ~~though~~ when the innocent eye of the uneducated or of children is spoken of in art it is ~~implied~~ understood that their sense is correct, that is that they are free from fallacies implying some education, but not that it is strong or definite. Historically for instance it is plain that the sense of motive rose into consciousness later than the approval of objectively good deeds, or in the individual that the lower sanctions must be appealed to, in time, before the higher.

The analogy which has been used of beauty and moral excellence may be followed ~~til~~ to a point of divergence, since superficially at all events it is allowed to hold by all.

Beauty⁵ lies in the relation of the parts of a sensuous thing to each other, that is in a certain relation, it being absolute at one point and ~~relative~~ comparative in those nearing it or falling fr. it.⁶ Thus in those arts of which the effect is in time, not space, it is a sequence at certain intervals—elementarily at least. These arts are instanced as being nearest to morality, since action lies in time. Does then morality lie in a relation between acts or (otherwise) the parts of action? Is it a sequence of action?

The distinction of objective and subjective morality must here shew itself. The first will plainly fall more readily into ~~of~~ some such form. Justice for instance, wh. in a sense covers the whole field of morality as Aristotle says, stands in requital, and this implies antecedents and consequent action: it is a sequence of action on ~~condi~~ antecedent conditions.

But now what kind of sequences wd. be these, namely of morality? Are they like those of beauty? In sensuous ~~bea~~ things a certain proportion in the intervals makes up beauty, as it appears to us, arbitrarily. Is the relation of the conditions in a righteous act arbitrary, so to call it, and ultimate or is it one of logic? It seems then easy to see that an objectively good deed is logical. For instance when people praise the bequests of a will as just they mean that each legatee receives in proportion to his claims, wh. they are supposed to know the amount of. But for the subjective excellence of the ~~aet~~ bequests we understand that there must have been an inducement to make them otherwise ~~in-ob~~, what in fact we call a temptation.

In⁷ the general case logic without any medium determines the mind, as ~~that~~ if there is no way into a field but by a gate, we go in by the gate. It only does not do so supposing there is reason the other side, making the conclusion uncertain. In other words the premises are not properly made out, or the logic is not perfect. ~~But in morals the logic may be perfect and action not follow.~~ If two lines of reasoning are seem incompatible the difficulty is got rid of by closer attention, and fr. their composition follows a result. But in morals the logic may be perfect and action not follow. If however we use logic in the truer sense for everything wh. determines the mind to act, we find the phenomena of morals are those of two incompatible logics, for it is notorious in casuistry that the attraction of some sins is greater the greater the attention ~~and it cannot be said~~ of the mind, and it cannot be said that this holds in the same way with every train of reasoning because the essence of right and wrong lies in our consciousness of the contradiction between them.

This being the phenomenon we are able to see the questions into wh. the discussion of the spring of moral ideas will throw itself.⁸ Since there are two (in the broad sense) logics putting stress on the mind, one belonging to virtue, one to vice, (i) does the one, the moral, differ fr. the other in having (in the strict sense) a correct logical form? (ii) If so, what are its universals? since not all logic touches morals. And why does it seem to differ in kind fr. other trains of thought? (iii) Or are ~~there~~ the two motives alike, both receiving trains of reasoning or propositions and impressing each ~~their~~ its own character on them?

To take the second first—utilitarians say the morally good is what attains the good, that is the advantageous, and that of course the greatest such, and that, they add, for the greatest number. Accordingly the difficulty of the rise of our moral ideas is got over a posteriori by the a posteriori definition. The difference fr. other forms of thought might be said perhaps to come fr. ~~the~~ moral action with its specific elements having become more and more definite ~~to~~ and “accidental” in our minds by its perpetual occurrence and not at least to be more strange than that the difference between green and purple lying shd. turn on the different speed of vibrations of light in striking our retinas.

But the utilitarian formula requires much exception. As it stands it only explains the objective part of morality, that is to say it fails to explain morality at all. It is plain that we require not only that a good deed shd. please our after judgment but that ~~shall~~ it shd. have pleased its subject in the same light, and as it falls fr. this so it falls fr. pure morality. Take first cases of high moral action done with deliberate motive, not in ignorance. No life for instance can in the utilitarian point of view be better than that of a Sister of Mercy. Then if the motive of the life be the common formula we have the utilitarian morality in its whole. But if the form of the life be only a deduction fr. another motive its morality ought to be diminished. If it be said that the motive implied in devotion includes the happiness of the greatest number this may be so in fact but not in mental attitude, as is quite plain fr. the wording of devotions and from the popular sort of sayings ascribed to St. Bernard Thomas and indeed prima facie. And if this morality is yet called imperfect nevertheless it has been historically more efficient, and ~~dis~~ self-sacrificing, and it is retrograde to put another motive as the spring of morality when civilisation is always trying to realise to itself morality in a more and more disinterested, that is absolute ~~form~~, manifestations. Or take the opposite case, of moral action in ignorance. As deeds subjectively the best are those which have for their motive the happiness of

the greatest number so the value, that is the essence, of morality⁹ must lessen with the limitation of this motive, and those who act rightly—consistently of course and not by chance—without aiming at anyone's good are not moral at all. Children, if we can suppose any universal in the mind at all, must be thought to say Right is ~~what~~ to do what one is bid. The obedience of children ~~then~~ we regard as having moral worth. If the utilitarians do not, then they contradict the popular feeling, and in cases like this popular feeling is critical, because if we are to have any success in the analysis of recondite principles of the mind we must take up Aristotle's method of accepting τὰ λεγόμενα {popular opinions} as implying in themselves a history of thought and recognition wider than we cd. anywhere else get. Utilitarianism then explains neither end or extreme and fails historically both in mankind and in the individual. Or it may be attacked analytically, as not being ultimate. If we aim at the happiness of the greatest number we must do it for one of these reasons, either (i) because it is right that they shd. be happy or (ii) because the conception of the widest possible happiness fulfils an ideal in the mind or (iii) because the happiness of others is the only sure way towards our own or (iv) for love or, as the older moralists wd. say, benevolence. The first it cannot be because this already assumes morality. The two last though they are open to the same objection as the ~~utilitarianism~~ utilitarian formula itself of explaining morality a posteriori are better because simpler and ~~most~~ fr. being so generally recognised. These, though less signally, seem not to answer to the historical conditions of morality. The second reason remains—that the happiness of the greatest number fulfils an ideal in the mind. This seems to give a new starting point.

All thought is of course in a sense an effort an¹⁰ unity. This may be pursued analytically as in science or synthetically as in art or morality. In art it is essential to recognise and strive to realise on a more or less wide basis this unity in some shape or other. It seems also that the desire for unity, for an ideal, is the only definition wh. will satisfy the historical phenomena of morality. There is an important difference to be noted here. In art we strive to realise not only unity, permanence of law, likeness,¹¹ but also, with it, difference, variety, contrast: it is rhyme we like, not echo,¹² and not unison but harmony. But ~~it~~ in morality the highest consistency is the highest excellence. The reason of this seems to be that the desire of unity is prior to that of difference and whereas in art both are in our power, in moral action our utmost efforts never result in its perfect realisation, in perfect consistency. But why do we desire

unity? The first answer wd. be that the ideal, the one, is our only means of recognising successfully our being to ourselves, it unifies us, while vice destroys the sense of being by dissipating thought. *ἔστι γὰρ ἡ κακία φθαρτικὴ ἀρχὴς* {vice tends to destroy the sense of principle},¹³ since wickedness breaks up unity of principle. If this be thought mysticism further explanation may be given.

1. The title is inscribed inside the front cover: 'Essays | for W. H. Pater Esq. | Gerard M. Hopkins.' The upper right-hand corner of fo. 1 bears the identifier: 'ESSAYS.—W.H.P.'
2. Published in *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 80–3. Throughout the essay various passages or words have been underlined in pencil, probably by Pater. Only the Latin terms were underlined in ink by GMH. As Jude Nixon suggests, the title of the essay is 'Lockean and Darwinian in intention: moral ideas have an origin and that origin is discoverable. The essay sketches three approaches in determining that origin: innate ideas (of Plato and Descartes), utilitarianism (of Bentham and Mill), and the historical theory (of, possibly, Comte and Darwin). . . . [GMH] takes the side of innate ideas, which asserts that human beings have a moral sense that is the source of moral ideas.' *Gerard Manley Hopkins and his Contemporaries*, 197. See also Brown, *Hopkins' Idealism*, 128–34.
3. John Stuart Mill's *Utilitarianism* was published in book form in 1863; it had been serialized in *Fraser's Magazine* (Oct.–Dec. 1861). GMH (and/or his tutor, Robert Williams) refers to the book in D.VIII.
4. Literally, 'the things that are commonly said'.
5. A large pencilled brace (}) marks this paragraph in the left hand margin.
6. Compare with the Professor's comments in D.IV, 'On the Origin of Beauty'.
7. A pencilled 'X' marks the beginning of this line.
8. An echo of Jeremy Bentham (perhaps via John Stuart Mill), whose *A Table of the Springs of Action*, published in 1817 by James Mill, explores whether pleasure and pain are the 'springs' of human action.
9. Originally, 'the value, that is the essence of morality, must . . .'. The punctuation has been corrected in pencil.
10. GMH's slip for 'at'.
11. Comma added in pencil.
12. Commas added in pencil.
13. Aristotle, *Nicomachean Ethics* 1140^b20. A GMH journal entry reads, 'Aristotle's Ethics, but what edition?' (Winter 1865). Sir Alexander Grant's edition was published in 1857 (London; 2nd rev. edn., 1866). In a June 1881 letter to Francis de Paravicini, GMH comments that 'there is a new translation of the Nic. Ethics; why will not Robert Williams's do?' (15.06.1881). Williams's translation was published by Longman. See also GMH manuscripts G.I and M.II in *Collected Works*, vol. vi. G.I is partially an incomplete translation of the *Ethics*; the handwriting indicates undergraduate work. Physical characteristics also indicate that G.I belongs to his undergraduate period. G.I is a systematic study of the *Ethics*; the analysis, though incomplete in sections, proceeds chapter by chapter, book by book, pausing to consider crucial passages or ideas. The contents of G.I substantiate and provide a context for essays in D.IX, D.X. and D.XI. That

G.I was found tucked inside G.Ia (the *Dublin Notebook*) is not surprising—GMH no doubt referred to this study when preparing lectures. See *Collected Works* vol. 7.

D.III.2

Plato's view of the connection of art and education.¹

Plato accepted with approval the common Gk. education of his day, consisting of μουσική and γυμναστική {music and gymnastics}, and only in defines the time for the different wh. shall be taken up in his commonwealth by the different parts of it. But he examines with some detail² the elements of the μουσική {music} or art-education and expurgates many things, in doing wh. his view of right art and its bearing on man's character is discovered to us.

Μουσική means verse and music or all the arts that connect themselves with the ear:³ beside this only he examines in detail, but he says that the other arts are to be ruled by the same principles. As applied to μουσική he enforces these principles in diction, rhythm, and melody. In diction or poetical form he will allow nothing but simple narrative, monologue and dialogue are forbidden: thus the drama is thrown out ~~an~~ at once and it is finally seen that the mixed form of the epic must ~~follow them~~ follow. His objection to these is that they make the reader or poet abandon his own person and assume others ~~act in~~, play a part in fact, and ~~the effect of th~~ so the unity of nature is broken up into several persons, and the more completely the dramatic element is carried out the worse it is “ἔτι γε τούτων” he says “φαίνεται μοι εἰς σμικρότερα κατακεκερματίσθαι ἢ τοῦ [ἀνθρώπου] φύσις” {to still smaller coinage than this, in my opinion, proceeds the fractioning of [human] faculty}.⁴ Only one imitation is ~~allowed~~ he allows, and that because it ought to be no imitation at all but the pupil's own character, “τὸν τοῦ ἐπιεικοῦς μιμητὴν ἄκρατον” {the unmixed imitator of the good}.⁵ Accordingly a poet of the widest sympathies cannot be received into the state, he will be honoured and sent away, and the citizens must use “τῷ ἀσθηροτέρῳ καὶ ἀηδεστέρῳ ποιητῇ” {the more austere and less delightful poet}.⁶

In music he rejects all the moods, that is scales, wh. ~~can~~ suit pathetic, sweet, or relaxing melody and the instruments wh. suit these moods. Only that music wh. will express martial courage, temperance, endurance, is allowed.

Under ῥυθμός {rhythm} wh. includes rhythm in verse and time in

music, he chooses those kinds wh. suit what he has already laid down about λέξις and ἁρμονία {speech and harmony}.

His aim in all he says he about education is to preserve unity in the distracting multiplicity of life. Unity of character will be broken up by the assumption of parts. Even the changes of the voice he prefers to be slight: great changes are destructive to the sense of order and so of unity. Art of every kind he says is full of order and law and he wishes this to be expressed in the plainest possible way in every sight on wh. the eyes of his citizens can rest: the presence of law, order, unity is to flow in on them fr. every association of life like breathing a wholesome air. This being unbroken fr. their earliest years will give them an instinctive dissatisfaction at any failure in what they may see and prevent dangerous or mean examples fr. misleading them.

The value of this sense of unity in taste is plain, but what is its moral value? Plato regards goodness as a unity of character and thinks every quickening of the sense of unity will act on morals.⁷

etc.

1. GMH's principal sources: Plato, *Republic*, Books II and III; Grote, *Plato*, iii. 50-4, 535.
2. In *Republic* II. 376E-378, III. 398-403C.
3. 'Music means all training by means of words or sounds: speech and song, recital and repetition, reading and writing, &c.' Grote, *Plato*, iii. 50.
4. Plato, *Republic* III. 395B.
5. Ibid. 397D.
6. Ibid. 398B.
7. The final purpose of musical training, says Plato, is 'to generate a love of the Beautiful' (ibid. 403C).

D.III.3

The Pagan and Christian virtues.¹

The principle wh. Plato expresses in beginning to treat the subject of ethics and carries through his book and wh. Aristotle scarcely less supports is that morality is found in the relations between men, and most essentially where the relations are widest and most numerous, that is in the state. When Aristotle had brought into stronger relief the principle of εὐδαιμονία {prosperity, happiness} or happiness being the end of morality, the Epicureans followed with their ethics of pleasure, and ~~determined~~ the Stoics on the other hand developed their life according to nature. These three principles, the most prominent in the moral

philosophy of Greece and Rome are not inconsistent with one another and express variously the truth, but the first is the most important, namely the essence of morality as found in relations between a man and something out of himself but like himself and the meaninglessness of virtues and vices without some kind of communion and mutual action.

We cannot of course forget the close bond between the philosophy and the common facts of Greece. Just as it was in the sphere of the state that Plato and Aristotle saw ~~no~~ the action of morality lying, so it was in civic life ~~its~~ that its questions were being proposed or answered in ~~actual~~ ~~life every day~~ daily event before their eyes. Not till the interests of state politics had grown less absorbing and metaphysical analysis had become common did the Epicurean and Stoic systems rise and take their start from the individual instead of the community.

After the form of morality the next philosophical question is the motive. This was pronounced on with less force than the other. Stoics and Epicureans would seek the motive of goodness in the action of natural impulse, Socrates and Plato gave a more remarkable account of it—goodness was knowledge, vice ignorance—,² and Aristotle seems to accept a refinement of this view. On a point which never comes into discussion except in speculation no popular parallels of fact or opinion are to be quoted, and we turn to Christianity.

Since Christianity is a religion and a system which has now lasted 1800 years it is natural to expect to find in its dogmas of faith, its ethics, and its casuistry many things in relief and in detail of which we have only the beginnings or traces in ancient philosophies: we may assume that it has started all the important questions, and by taking up the most prominent of these we may compare the Christian and the pagan feeling upon them.

Accepting then the important principle that morality is to be looked for in the relations towards others we see the cause for the wide difference which there is in the appearances of Xtian and pagan virtues. Plato only once includes piety among the cardinal virtues and Aristotle gives very little notice to it, and though of course it had its recognised place in popular ~~morality~~ feeling history as well as literature shew that its associations were originally with the state or tribe or family, not with the individual, and that it kept this mould more or less to the end. We do not suppose for instance good Greeks would have been shocked to hear that an upright man did not say his prayers morning and evening. In Xtianity the all-important relation is to God, the next—"and the

second is like unto it"³—is to man, but here too one sees that the basis of relation is somewhat changed fr. that of Greece and as Aristotle says brothers love each other from having the same relations to their parents so Xtians are to love each other fr. all having the same God. These distinctions may be put in a number of lights and it is unnecessary to insist much on them. It is to this principle however, the new relation of the soul to God, that we trace almost all the peculiar forms of Xtian morality. For these we look naturally to Catholicism, the consistent acceptance of Christianity.

Since the soul is considered to receive all its relations of morality fr. God we shd. expect to find Xtianity developing a life of perpetual reference to God. All the great phenomena of Catholicism are already almost named when we state such a principle. First the saints are the great types or successes of Xtianity. In them we see one clear distinction of pagan and Xtian virtue. It wd. be very insufficient to suppose that because the old philosophers conceived of morality in the sphere of state life, therefore the force of noble impulses in the hearts of mankind then led them to no higher point than this: personal goodness, a life, was thrown out by paganism. We have asceticism in the Cynics and Stoics and the strictest regulation of the inner life in for instance M. Aurelius. It seems to be shewn that Aurelius possessed in his own shape the humility we commonly think to be peculiarly a Xtian virtue—wh. is in itself true but does not imply the impossibility of its attainment in individual cases, or else indeed we shd. be contradicting some of the teaching of theology. Humility alone, self-abasement, has no moral excellence; a man has no reason, no right, as Aristotle says, to depreciate himself below his real worth: the cause of the excessive value and success of this virtue in Christianity lies, as all virtue must, in really existing relations: the soul is humble by comparing itself with God. The character and the process of humility is exactly explained by a verse in one of the Penitential Psalms, chosen for use in the acquirement of this and other virtues,—For lo, thou requirest truth in the inward parts and shalt make me to understand wisdom secretly.⁴ It ought not to be forgotten that though to those who have not leisure or education for reasoning Xtianity gives all its strength in the shape of an impulse, and this is the face it shews us in its first establishment, in missions, and among the poor, in⁵ can in no way have any merit as a permanent thing unless grounded on the same kind of truths as were explored by Plato and Aristotle for the systems wh. they tried to build up. We apply this then to the virtue of humility: it is especially a Xtian virtue because Xtianity

has God for its centre and invites the soul to refer itself in all things to Him, and dwelling on this thought is the natural forming process of humility; it was not a pagan virtue, because all this was wanting; but it was not an inconceivable one, because it was possible—and this was actually done by M. Aurelius—for a strict and earnest mind to see ~~an ideal of excellence~~ that an ideal of human excellence even⁶ admirably fulfilled ceased to have much beauty or importance when looked at by the light of conceivable higher ideals. This however was only for individual cases and no doubt very rare, no moralist wd. have dwelt on it, only on those outlying virtues, so to speak, having a social or political ~~worth~~ value wh. are in some way grounded on humility—such as modesty and the self-depreciation wh. was humoured sometimes into *εἰρωνεία* {irony}⁷ among the Greeks.

Arguing in the same way fr. the perfect reference to God in which saintliness seems to lie, one is struck by the different values given by Xtianity and paganism to what wd. be called the subjective and objective sides of morality. We cannot but recognise the vast benefit gained fr. the distinctions of will and deed or conscience and law or spirit and letter wh. Xtianity has established when we turn to the ethics of the ancients and see the slow and incomplete unwinding of moral from mental excellences and the far greater prominence given to the fulfilment of the outward ideal of right conduct—as in *δικαιοσύνη* {righteousness}, wh. we scarcely think of as colouring a life, and have to see as realised ~~in~~ acts fr. time to time in acts of its own material—than to the intention wh. fulfils it. For an act of perfect morality we agree that both the purpose and the carrying out must be right: the reason why the latter had an undue importance in pagan ethics is not hard to find, because while morals are vague, unfixed, or broken up the moral instincts, and not a well recognised rule, give its shape to action: where uncertainty existed a good man cd. be easily told by the goodness of his actions. Xtianity however has thrown the two sides of morality with clearness and strength to a distance fr. each other: on the one hand, the subjective side, it has refined motive, on the other it has raised the outer supports to devotion, the sacraments, prayer, ritual, fasting and other discipline, and taken the utmost pains to present them as existing independently of the wishes or emotion of the soul wh. uses them. A curious instance of the different value given to intention by Xtianity may be seen in the use of the word act: Acts of love, faith, or the like being the name used in bks. of devotion not for deeds springing from these graces but for formally made professions and protestations of love or faith.

On the other side and determining Christian morality more than any other influence is dogma. Several considerations spring fr. this, the Christian virtue of faith for instance.

Etc.

1. This essay provides crucial insights into GMH's state of mind just prior to his decision, in July 1866, to convert to Roman Catholicism. The choice of topic for D.III.3 reflects the shared interests of tutor and student in the writings of Mill and Arnold. Chapter 2 of Mill's treatise *On Liberty* (1859) asserts that 'Christian morality is in great part merely a protest against paganism; its ideal is negative rather than positive, passive rather than active.' Furthermore, in crucial areas 'it falls far below the best morality of the ancients'. These challenging words were taken up in the introduction to Arnold's essay, 'Marcus Aurelius', published in the November 1863 issue of *Victoria Magazine* (*Complete Prose Works*, iii. 133–57). Both Pater and GMH were familiar with Mill's publication (a sustained analysis of Aurelius is a crucial component of Pater's *Marius the Epicurean*, 1885). The brief discussion of Aurelius in D.III.3 suggests that GMH too had read Arnold. On 5 March 1864 Arnold delivered 'Pagan and Christian Religious Sentiment' at Oxford.
2. See D.III.6.
3. Matthew 22: 39, Mark 11: 31. 'Jesus said unto him, Thou shalt love the Lord thy God with all thy heart, and with all thy soul, and with all thy mind. This is the first and great commandment. And the second is like unto it, Thou shalt love thy neighbour as thyself' (Matthew 22: 37–9).
4. Psalm 51: 6. GMH quotes from the (Anglican) Book of Common Prayer, in which the psalm is given as a morning prayer for Day 10.
5. GMH's slip for 'it'.
6. Originally 'evenly', but the suffix has been crossed out in pencil.
7. Jowett placed great stress on the irony of Socrates and Plato. GMH notes: 'Irony. This the gt. feature of Socrates. Grave and gay, deep roots in human life, yet playing on surface, now parrying jests, now over throwing sophist. Nowhere plainer than in *Apology*. Also *Phaedo* and *Crito*. He cd. not lay it aside, without ceasing to be Soc. What is irony. See Theophrast. The *ἔρωνικός* {ironist} doesn't know, didn't understand, makes excuses, came in late, excuses his enemies and calumniators, etc' (B.II, fo. 141').

D.III.4

The relations of Plato's Dialectic to modern logic and metaphysics.¹

Besides many mentions of Dialectic scattered up and down his works Plato has given in two places an account of its process: one of these, that in his latest work the *Philebus*, is simple and much what any writer might have given of the process of abstraction, the other, in his *Συμπόσιον*, {Symposium} has on the other hand all the Platonic colouring. Of these the passage from the *Philebus* has the more logical character. He here says that the puzzle of the one and many, that is of a

general name applying to many individuals and many individuals being called or becoming some kind of unity, is the commonest feature of argument and the one wh. most catches boys and beginners. The earlier philosophers had familiarised the Greeks with the difficulties of this coexistence of the one and many and it had also appeared in the lectures of the Sophists. But Plato complains that "the wise men of the day stamp their unity and multiplicity on things at random, either faster or slower than the thing needs, and after unity in one step give infinity", that is, in logical language, they spring fr. the highest genus to individuals or vice versa without further subdivision of genera and species, and he ends by saying that this attention to intermediate steps is what distinguishes dialectic fr. contentious discussion, ἐριστική {disputations}.²

We are to understand then that at least by the time this dialogue was written the distinction of universals and particulars, or as it wd. then have been said, of the one and the many or infinite, was as a distinction understood ~~and appeared~~ widely and reappearing in all discussions, as subjective and objective do now. The materials for the syllogism, namely the universal and the particular, had been therefore disengaged fr. the complexities of speech and prepared, but not yet put together into the formal logic of Aristotle. Before this cd. be done there plainly is required what Plato here insists on, that the right kind of generalisation and division shd. be used, wh. comes about, he says, in Dialectic. The Philebus itself is an example of the method, with reference then to the history of logic we find that Dialectic is the second stage in the discovery of the forms of reasoning, following on the first recognition of universals, and immediately forerunning the syllogism.

It has however a further interest. It is more important in history as having been the great instrument by wh. abstract ideas ~~by~~ were presented to philosophy. The knowledge of the one and many just spoken of did not imply or but slightly implied abstract ideas: these were won with difficulty and length of time by the use of Dialectic. This side of Dialectic however begins to furnish the link with metaphysics ~~wh.~~ and is illustrated in the passage ~~in~~ of the Συμπόσιον {Symposium}.³ Here he says that philosophy springs fr. true love: fr. loving ~~one—the mind goes on to love more and many, then~~ beauty in one the mind goes on to love it in more and in many, then to love beautiful action, then beautiful knowledge, lastly the knowledge of the beautiful itself. This gives us the process of abstraction, the concrete plainly being cast aside at each step of the ascent. And so generally the employment of Dialectic is to

disengage the idea fr. its accidents and present it to thought. Perhaps here we might stop, since Dialectic is shewn to get at the idea,⁴ wh. is Plato's great contribution to metaphysics, while the Idea itself is ἀλλης σκέψεως {belonging to another branch of study}.⁵ But it is perhaps worth noticing how singularly happy and the instance of abstraction is, because love like all strong emotion has the effect of colouring things all things and giving them relations to itself, it has, as it has been said of the feelings by Comte⁶ Comte, a logic of its own,* and this being supplied by nature gave that great impulse to philosophy wh. Plato speaks of and exhibits in the form of an inspiration: as love is an enthusiasm, he seems to say, so there is an enthusiasm of each of the Ideas, and though this is not really the case it is better for philosophy that the delusion impelled it for a time than if the purely logical character of abstract ideas had been recognised fr. the beginning.⁷

*Nor did I wonder at the lily's white
Nor praise the deep vermilion in the rose;
They were but sweet, but figures of delight,
Drawn after you, you pattern of all those.
Shakspere's XCVIIIth sonnet.

1. Compare with D.IX.3. Both Pater and Green espoused a more 'progressive' approach to metaphysics, and did so as able students of Jowett, who noted in 1865, 'When I was an undergraduate we were fed upon Bp. Butler [Butler's *Analogy*] & Aristotle's "Ethics" & almost all teaching leant to the support of doctrines of authority. Now there are new subjects, Modern History & Physical Science, & more important than this, perhaps, is the real study of metaphysics in the Literae Humaniores school; every man for the last ten years who goes in for honours has read Bacon, & probably Locke, Mill's "Logic", Plato, Aristotle & the history of Ancient Philosophy. See how impossibly this makes a return to the old doctrines of authority.' *Dear Miss Nightingale*, 70.
2. *Philebus* 17A: 'but the wise men of the present day make the one and the many too quickly or too slowly, in haphazard fashion, and they put infinity immediately after unity; they disregard all that lies between them, and this it is which distinguishes between the dialectic and the disputatious methods of discussion' (trans. Fowler, 221). ἐριστικός, adj., means contentious; ἐριστική τέχνη is a term for sophistry.
3. *Symposium* 210.
4. See D.XII.2 and D.XII.3.
5. In the *Nicomachean Ethics* (I. ix. 3), Aristotle observes that a discussion of divinely given happiness would be more germane to another branch of study (ἀλλὰ τοῦτο μὲν ἴσως ἄλλης ἂν εἴη σκέψεως οἰκειότερον) (trans. Rackman, 44); Hopkins is suggesting that Plato's Idea is beyond the scope of metaphysics, and belongs to another branch of study (theology).
6. The misspelling is repeated in *Campion Hall MS P.IV(e)*; see *Collected Works*, vol. vi. See also D.IX.3.
7. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'There is more than this in

the analogy of love' (fo. 16^v). The essay is initialled 'RS' [Robert Scott] in blue pencil.

D.III.5

Shew cases in wh. acts of apprehension apparently simple are largely influenced by the imagination.

We must first try to have some definition of the imagination.¹ This word has become ambiguous even fr. the attempts to explain it and has often been used unnaturally in the pressure of a special theory. But the same doubt does not extend to the verb, to imagine, as often happens in such cases. By imagine we mean to conceive a thing under sensuous attributes or ~~condit~~ relations wh. we have not got fr. memory or present experience. But since nihil in intellectu quod non prius in sensu {there is nothing in the mind that is not first in the senses}, it is plain we are combining different parts of our experience, and the result of our combination we say is imagined, and imagination is therefore some kind of combination.

Now if we try to look at the field of the mind at any few moments we may choose, to reflect in Locke's sense on our consciousness, we shall find two elements in our thoughts: these are first ~~an~~ images, wh. are either ~~the~~ the sensations of the things we are looking at or listening to or representations of past sensations or thirdly images like those of memory and wh. might be such, and secondly a certain order or sequence in the images—not mere sequence: mere sequence we see in remembering our dreams; but ~~such that as ever~~ such as has the character of necessity, as we commonly explain it. And broadly there are only these two elements in thought, presentations or representations and sequence. The ~~second~~ last is in the widest sense logic. It is in the former ~~more~~ that imagination lies.

Logic ~~now being~~ having two forms, the syllogism and induction, it was long ago seen that much reasoning did not, at all events at the first glance, follow these forms. It was accordingly said with modification that all sound reasoning, its order being invented one way or another and by some means abbreviated, was nevertheless logic unarranged, at all events was consistent with this formal logic. This view and any other ~~form~~ shape the defence of the syllogism may assume must break down. Logic is shewn to be a certain sequence, in philosophical language a form. When a form is altered it ceases to exist. That right reasoning

must be consistent with the syllogism cannot ~~prove that~~ make it syllogism any more than counting and calculation are the same thing because right counting will always agree with right reckoning.

I now see this is not the subject of the essay.²

1. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf and continuing onto the verso of this leaf:

Imagination has been used in three meanings:—

- (i) for the faculty of art production,
- (ii) in the logical sense, for conceiving,
- (iii) in the Kantian sense, and with the same ~~meanin~~ force as einbildung and envisager, for the process by wh. a handful of attributes are held together in unity, become an idea. (fos. 15^v, 16^v)

2. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'Gk. notion of motion as primary a curious case of the confusion wh. may come to be in an act of apprehension fr. the presence of the imagination. Our idea of motion is the synthesis of a number of impressions of the same thing perceived in a number of different spots continuously' (fo. 17^v).

D.III.6

The history and mutual connection in ancient ethics of the following questions—Can virtue be taught? Are virtue and vice severally voluntary and involuntary?¹

The above questions² go very much to the bottom of things, and the Greeks had a bias for treating of first principles which we have not got unless among ~~the students~~ philosophers and the students of special branches of knowledge; hence they come up prominently in Greek ethics, and also for other reasons which are historical and concern ~~the history of their~~ Greek thought generally, for their culture and philosophy are quick and thin-skinned and very ~~quickly~~ readily take colouring and shape from circumstances. The Sophists were in a manner teachers of morals: this wd. make the question whether virtue can be taught one which all sorts of people heard of and spoke of: thus Anytus the accuser of Socrates³ in one of Plato's dialogues⁴ is made to say that it can be taught, only ~~but~~ not by Sophists, a class he dislikes without knowing about, but by eminent statesmen.

When we are asked Can anything be taught? we make a distinction, that some things can be taught to all (who are not deformed or in some other way less than common nature), such as walking, others require a ~~part~~ special turn for the thing to be taught, such as a good ear for music.

With regard to virtue this distinction was not ~~thought of~~ clearly put by the Greeks until Aristotle. ~~This makes the question in Plato more simple than it might otherwise be.~~ It is discussed in his Meno and Protagoras.⁵ In reality the treatment of it takes this form—Is virtue knowledge or a knowledge?—for the Greeks had a passion for intellectualising everything and the first thing they thought of identifying any ~~quality~~ abstraction with was knowledge. Knowledge ~~can~~ could be taught and was in fact the only thing ~~unless we ex~~ that ~~can~~ could be, if teaching was used in the truest sense of getting a certain connection into the pupil's mind and so that he shd. be able *πιστεύειν* {to trust} and not merely *λέγειν* {to speak} (as Aristotle puts it). The imparting of opinion was on this ground not to be considered teaching, for Plato seems in one light to look on opinion as marked off fr. knowledge very much by its unconnectedness, want of sequence: the sequence of geometry is the Greek example of knowledge. This appears about Anytus: the fault which Socrates finds with great statesmen is that they do not teach their sons: to teach them wd. be to give them the connection ~~that~~ which there is in policy, instead of which they can give them but detached advice or example, which are useless: now the grounds of these statesmen are right and true ex hypothesi, because the men are good, so cd. they only shew ~~the~~ a connection between their premises and conclusions, they wd. give actual knowledge. Opinion we may conclude then was to Plato that wh. cd. give no account for itself. That great statesmen cannot teach their sons ~~virtue~~ takes away fr. virtue the character of knowledge, which however on other grounds it has. And this difficulty is not cleared up in either of the above dialogues. But while this stands over some subordinate points are discussed, as this—supposing all good means pleasure and all evil pain, virtue, if it is knowledge, must be the power of weighing pleasure agst. pleasure and pain agst. pain and of allowing for the illusions of distance and immediateness in judging them. Since nothing ought to be thought ~~at~~ to be at random in Plato, we may perhaps explain this discussion in this way. It cd. not escape anyone that ~~certain~~ to make virtue literally ~~knowledge~~ the same as knowledge will lead to conclusions wh. are unnatural to the mind of men and repulsive, and Plato seems to allow himself to take up and ~~endure~~ try these conclusions, which literalism wd. be sure to bring home to him at once, just when the proposition on wh. they depend is yet unasserted. The above is the conclusion wh. he chooses to take up: the most obvious of all ~~is of~~ however is of course ~~the ignorant~~ that the ignorant man is not to be blamed for his vice.

On this point expressions may be found taking both sides of the question, for instance that men act out what they are by nature and their nature they cannot change and did not make, that the fathers have eaten sour grapes and the childrens' teeth are set on edge,⁶ that goodness and badness of disposition depend on thriving or barren seasons in the cycle of time, and others of the same sort; but again he says that it is worse to do wrong fr. ignorance than against knowledge, and that it is unpardonable to be ignorant. It is to be observed that contradiction of this sort matters little: the point is not whether Plato in some places surrenders an opinion ~~—appearing in more than place~~ but whether an opinion is repeated strongly enough to appear one of the currents which draw his thought. His irony and the suspension of judgment which after all he allows on great questions, as Goethe did too, make us not wish to press him to a conclusion.

Speaking then with this reservation we may say that Plato does ~~no~~ make virtue the same as knowledge and thinks it may be taught. This is shewn throughout in the Republic: to knowledge and teaching a great breadth of meaning is to be allowed:—the rulers who are philosophers have the knowledge at first hand; fr. them it passes fr. end to end of the state and orders all things; the great ~~rationalisation~~ rationality of the ~~duties~~ distribution of duties being perhaps very much what the virtue which is knowledge comes to when it is realised.

But with or without irony it cd. not be avoided that Plato's ethical system shd. be criticised after his time and be forced to the conclusions which it suggests. This is done by Aristotle.⁷

1. Revised for T. H. Green. See D.X.1.
2. These questions are put to Socrates by Meno at the outset of the *Meno*. In the *Apology*, Socrates challenges Meletus to say whether he corrupts the young ἐκόντα ἢ ἄκοντα {voluntarily or involuntarily}. Meletus replies, voluntarily, but Socrates disputes this, insisting that either he does not corrupt them at all, or, if he does, he does so involuntarily. (*Apology* 25C–26A.) Jowett's notebooks indicate that this was a theme he lectured upon regularly—both Pater and GMH would have been familiar with his analysis.
3. This becomes a fixed epithet in Grote, as in 'Anytus, the accuser of Socrates before the Dikastery.' *Plato*, ii. 25.
4. Plato, *Meno* 30.
5. For Grote's analysis of this subject in the *Meno*, see *Plato*, ii. 8–17.
6. Ezekiel 18: 12 (in the Book of Common Prayer, the morning lesson for 18 August) and Jeremiah 31: 29 (the morning lesson for 2 August). Also proverbial.
7. Initialled 'RS' [Robert Scott] in red.

D.VIII

Plato's Philosophy—R. W.¹



Plato's Philosophy.²

Antecedents.

All Gk. philosophy an attempt to account for qualitative change, Becoming; by what form of thought to express it. Thus what is heat? what is the relation of the one heat to the many heats? leads to What is the relation of the One to the Many?

Answers—

(i) Ionics said there was an original matter—

(ii) Eleatics asserted matter but denied motion. They said motion did not exist because the many did not.

(iii) Heracleitus denied the One and asserted motion. This and Eleaticism though opposite lead logically to same result. Both destroy all basis for *ἐπιστήμη* {knowledge}, for H. says, when everything is changing you cannot predicate anything and the Eleatics will allow nothing to exist but the One—

(iv) Pythagoreans said nature was made up of qualities and quantities, the former always in flux, the latter alone lasting. Change is addition and subtraction: by ~~by~~ the addition of something water becomes stone. Things are all the *μιμήματα* {imitations} of numbers—

(v) Socrates a conceptualist, starts notion of definition.

Plato.

He wishes to find the permanent element, the basis of *ἐπιστήμη* {knowledge}.³ Soc[rates] had said There is a common element in the Many by comparison and then form a conception of it, but he applied this only to morals and not to physics. P[laton] applies it to all phenomena, saying I can give an account of bravery in this and that particular and of abstract bravery. Now bravery I know exists, therefore the abstract bravery exists. This is idealism, and he is said to have got it fr.

the Pythagoreans who said each man was a copy of a certain number in the clouds; Plato said of a certain man in the clouds. cf. Ar[istotle] Met [aphysics]. VI i.

Relation of Ideas to phenomena, just that of seal to its impressions. Thus we get two worlds and the defect of the Platonic as of all transcendental theories is that it confines itself to the upper world without caring at all abt. the sensible as if the abstraction were truer than the thing it was meant to explain. Thus too Spinoza⁴ conceived notion of infinite substance and then went on entirely neglecting the world of sense.

The Platonic theory to take an instance is No two half-crowns exist equally, for one must be more worn than the other; hence qua half-crowns they do not; qua silver however (that is qua being of silver) they do.

No two concrete things then are equally (i) existent, (ii) perfect, (iii) to be known—three aspects of the same thing. The Idea alone (i) exists, (ii) is perfect, (iii) can be known. All knowledge got fr. phenomena is secondhand.

Heracliteanism, Eleaticism, Socraticism, Pythagoreanism all met in Plato. In his youth he knew Cratylus the Heraclitean, then Socrates. After Soc[rates]'s death he went to Megara (where Euclid was), wh. was very Eleatic. Then he lived at Thebes, where there was a knot of Pythagoreans, including Damon a professor of music and friend of Plato. The older he grew the more Pythagorean he became.

The Heracliteans said there was nothing to know or believe but all was change, the Eleatics all was existence. The Theaetetus is the reductio ad absurdum of the Heracliteans, the Parm[enides] of the Eleatics, as neither giving a basis for *ἐπιστήμη* {knowledge}.

The purely Socratic dialogues.⁵ As Plato learns the Socratic method of Definition you see a gradual turning away fr. his former doctrines; there is no Platonism in these at all. The Laches wh. asks *τί ἐστιν ἡ ἀνδρεία* {what is courage?} is purely Socratic. There are also the Charmides and Ερασταί {The Lovers} etc. Meno is the least Socratic of this class. Here the method of definition is extended to other things besides morals. Is virtue a science? leads to What is virtue? and What is science? and the doctrine is unfolded that knowledge implies preexistent knowledge.

The Sophist, the Politician, Parmenides written while Plato was at Megara.

Purely Platonic dialogues—Phaedo, Phaedrus, Συμπόσιον {Symposium}, and side by side with them the Republic (perhaps touched up later than the rest). Timaeus has traces of Pythagoreanism.

They contain (i) the Ideas, (ii) the immortality of the soul, (iii) mystery of numbers, (iv) love, (v) asceticism and the worthlessness of this world, (vi) the greatest number of images.

Last come the Laws, dry and matter of fact, distinctly Pythagorean—Plato in his dotage.⁶

The Ideas: they make Phenomena by stamping themselves on something wh. Plato calls $\psi\lambda\eta\nu$ {matter},⁷ having itself no qualities ($\alpha\pi\epsilon\iota\rho\omicron\nu$) {boundless, limitless} or it wd. be a phenomenon but a kind of basis for the Becoming.

With Aristotle $\psi\lambda\eta\nu$ {matter} is a very practical kind of thing, with P[laton] it is a kind of malignant evil. It is fluent and so does not fully take the impress of the Ideas. Hence the evil of the phenomena impresses on imperfect matter. This is the form into wh. P[laton] throws the Heracleitean flux. See Tim[aeus] 48 E seq.

Fr. this view follow three consequences, wh. he held—

(i) Knowledge: sense-knowledge is wholly material and so imperfect;

(ii) Morals—Manichean:⁸ everything materialistic is bad, so that one must be an ascetic;

(iii) Politics: the best state of things is where all men of one class are like, are cast in one type, so that the best commonwealth is one ~~where~~ wh. has the whole forming of the citizen—a paternal despotism. For if matter is bad and form good, of the different phenomena one must be better than another, and the likeliest to the Idea is the best of all and all shd. be made as like it as possible.

Matter is $\tau\acute{o}\pi\omicron\varsigma$ {place}, he says in the Timaeus. He proves the world cannot be made of modifications of any of the elements, for ~~each~~ they all of them change: the substratum must be unchangeable, without attribute or predicate except that of being capable of all, and not to be known: this is the $\alpha\pi\epsilon\iota\rho\omicron\nu$ ⁹ {boundless}

$\pi\acute{\epsilon}\rho\alpha\varsigma$ ¹⁰ — $\gamma\nu\hat{\omega}\sigma\iota\varsigma$ ¹¹

$\tau\acute{o}\ \mu\iota\kappa\tau\acute{o}\nu$ — $\delta\acute{o}\xi\alpha$

$\alpha\pi\epsilon\iota\rho\omicron\nu$ — $\alpha\gamma\nu\omicron\iota\alpha$

The sum of existence and its degrees of knowableness.

{limit — knowledge

the mixture — philosophical
opinion

the boundless, — ignorance
limitless}

But what unites *πέρας* {limit} and the *ἄπειρον* {limitless}? We have a 4th category—*αἷτιον* {the cause of a thing} almost = efficient cause, and it is worth noticing that it is the weakness and ineffectiveness of this wh. led Ar[istotle] to introduce his 4 causes. They originated in an attempt to better the ~~philosø~~ Platonic account of Becoming.

Two things Plato disliked in existing philosophy: (i)—its scepticism.

Two kinds of scepticism, one e natura objecti {from the nature of the object}, unknowable even by the most exquisite faculties—the scepticism of Nominalism; the other e natura subjecti {from the nature of the subject}, wh. ~~invalidates~~ discredits the faculties themselves.

(ii) Its ~~materia~~ atheism = materialism = atomism.

Any system explaining the world without introducing reason in any way is logically atheism. And no philosophy is atheistic wh. introduces laws.

And so he wages a religious war agst. these two tendencies and is never happy but when he is attacking them.

Extract fr. Phaedo: Socrates' disgust at old philosophies; he turns to *λόγους*—that is, thoughts (not words).

So Spinoza said we shd. truly be said to know if we cd. find what thought or thoughts were implied in and underlay all others and the passed thence downwards. Mind and Matter, and underlying these Existence, he found were the thoughts he cd. not possibly get rid of and fr. these all knowledge must come.¹²

So of the *λόγων* {thoughts}. Soc[rates] went on asking the *λόγον* {thought} of a thing, then the *λόγον* of that, and so on till he came to *ἀρχὴν ἀνυπόθετον* {unconditioned, absolute principle}¹³—a notion requiring no other notion to explain it.

See Phaedo 101.

Idea of Good.

The above are the sketches wh. foreran the doctrine.¹⁴

The spirit of Plato agrees but contradiction in the letter may be found, e.g. about the evil of the world: at one time he attacks people fr. the optimist ground for affirming evil to exist, at another it is the world itself he is attacking for being evil.

See Ar[istotle] Met[aphysics] I ix beg[inning] for an admirable criticism.¹⁵ He says no criterion among the ideas themselves can be found; however much they may explain phenomena, they cannot explain themselves.

Try mod[ern] difficulty of origin of species.¹⁶ It is very much the same

as Plato's. It is said it wd. be solved if we cd. find or construct types for each species, but what wd. distinguish these types? What wd. prevent their shading into one another just as the concrete species do? Relation of Idea to phenomena, what? It gives them imprimis {in the first place} existence, and this is common to all; next their specific properties. Then may there not be a generic idea giving all the ideas their property of existence?

Ar[istotle]'s criticism is that Parmenides is more consistent in saying there is nothing but existence; but to bring in the Ideas in order to give existence to Phenomena is only to double the number of things to be explained, or even if the Ideas make the things to be known no more, they certainly cannot make them less.

The last stage is the notion of Dialectic. All the ideas are connected with each other in a "hierarchy" so that to know one is potentially to know all, and all lead up to the Idea of good, to know which is to know all under it and not to know which is in a manner to know none.

Platonic theory of Good.

Not Good in our sense: good in sense in wh. an idea can be good in relation to phenomena—rather to be translated Idea of the existent, knowable, perfect. So too the Megaric ἀγαθόν {good} is perfect.

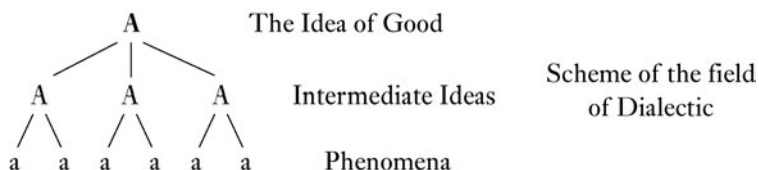
Its relation next to a personal God. Plato's language indistinct on the point. His views are given in 3 dialogues:¹⁷ in one he seems to think the αἰτία {cause} is external to the πέρας {limit} and takes it and stamps it on things; yet later he says the architectonic reason includes both αἰτίαν and πέρας. In the Rep[ublic], he thinks of the Idea of good as efficient indeed but in a way wh. loses the efficient in the formal, while in Timaeus again the πέρας is lost in the αἰτία.

These views inconsistent, but more so to us than to the Gks. then. Such ideas as personality were in Ar[istotle]'s time beginning to indurate, and in us are deeply indurated.

Ar[istotle]'s fundamental objection to P[laton]'s dialectic is that the unity of science it supposes is impossible.

Essay read.

Dialectic.



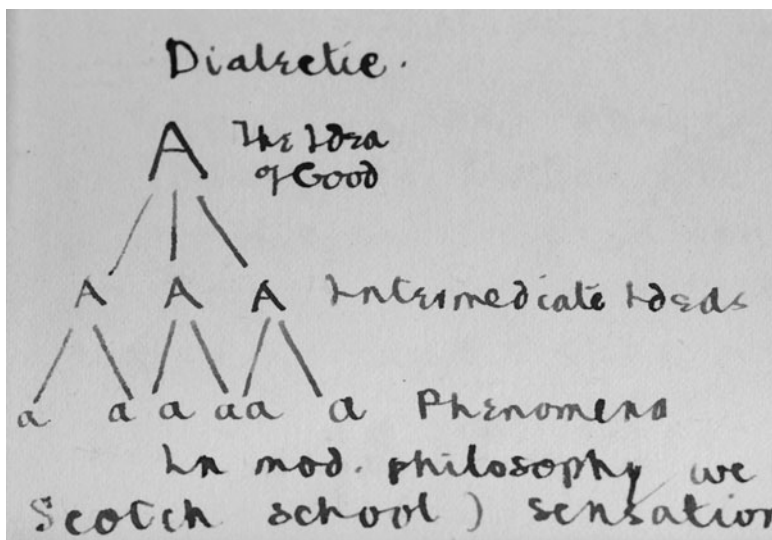


Figure 8. From D.VIII, a diagram explaining 'Dialectic'

From the Hopkins Archive, Campion Hall, Oxford

In mod[ern] philosophy we say (the subject is worked out by the Scotch school)¹⁸ sensation is no criterion of objects, perception is.

Plato draws the distinction—eyes, ears, etc, do not immediately reach the¹⁹ object. A wave he says comes fr. the subject, another fr. the object, and the mingling is what we feel.

Now the ideas we know immediately. He says it clearly: no mistaking his meaning—*αὐτῇ τῇ διανοίᾳ* {by mind itself} etc. FINISH

Hence dialectic is a certain method. He expresses himself by material metaphors.

Def[inition] of it, 532 B Rep[ublic].²⁰ It is a pathway to the Good.

It ends in giving absolute unity of knowledge—*συνοπτικὸς ὁ διαλεκτικός* {the dialectician is the one who takes a comprehensive view},²¹ for by it we know the prime cause—and no other cause is a true cause but that.

Again it is *ἀρχὴ ἀνυπόθετος* {unconditioned, absolute principle}, credible in itself—on its own evidence. So Spinoza's Substance.

Plato's philosophy a dream, and of this ideal dream Ar[istotle]'s is a practical criticism. So when people say Ar[istotle] did not understand him, we shd. say rather he did not appreciate him: that may be true; the

other not to the point, for Ar[istotle]'s criticism is that of an opposite pole of thought and made fr. a practical p[oin]t of view.

Cause, in Gk. phrase *τιμιώτερον* {more valuable, honorable} than the effect. In all philosophies leading to one cause wisdom will come to ~~me~~ be a mysticism, a rapt contemplation. So too Brahmanism,²² Spinoza, even Aristotle more mildly (*ὁ σοφός* {the wise man} will rather contemp[late] causes than work them out into effects).

All views of the Ideas consistent but differ with his temperament—the temper of the hour.

Theory of sense (Theaet[etus]). Sensible properties neither in object nor subj. The two waves make a turbinem {eddy, whirlpool}, wh. we see. And we cannot be sure two people's sensations agree, for each sends out his wave. Moreover you cannot be sure of having same sensation in different moments. Sense knowledge then only sure for the exact moment.

See Theaet[etus] 160 about.

This theory not quite consistent, for the flux is ~~many~~ in sensation, while the obj. may be permanent. But taking Plato as a poem the two both represent the worthlessness of sense knowledge.

The theory of sense drawn mostly fr. the Atomists—the *ἀπορροῶν* {effluences}²³

Plato's notion of phenomena. If you burn gum benzoin in strong draught the smoke will be thick enough to take an image fr. a magic lantern but will so waver as to break and confuse the image. This broken elusive image is what phenomena are to Plato.

See Theaet[etus] E

Platonic theory of mathematics. Most phenomena, he says, differ in the exactness of their copy of the Idea, but mathematics do not differ in degree; they only are unlike the Idea in their multiplicity. *Ἐτι παρὰ τὰ αἰσθητά* {distinct from sensible things}, Ar[istotle] Met[aphysics] I vi.²⁴ Plato says there can be but one idea of a bed, for if there were two they wd. combine in one, but in mathematics

Later phase. Can ideas be resolved? have they, as Ar[istotle] says, *στοιχεῖα* {components into which matter is ultimately divisible; elements}? have they formal and material? They are considered as dyads, a number ~~mixing~~ mingling with the one.

Slight traces of this in Rep[ublic] (number of the Beast etc)²⁵ and in Timaeus. In the Laws we have a mild un-mystic Pythagoreanism. But

our authority is Ar[istotle], who says (in lost books) that he ~~did not like~~ ~~Ar.~~ the heard Plato's lectures on the Good but understood but did not like them, while others neither understood nor liked them.

Is this true? for it is a quotation. But Ar[istotle] says it in the Met[a-physics] and that was written in ~~his~~ Plato's life or ~~im~~ soon afterwards and it is incredible such statements shd. have gone uncontradicted if untrue.

Platonic Education.

It begins with the Plat[onic] psychology.²⁶

For this see the Rep[ublic] and more ~~the~~ Timaeus.

He holds anima mundi {the soul of the world}. This gives sharp distinction betw. matter and spirit. This may be *πλεοναχῶς* {in various ways or senses}

~~This may~~

The anima mundi theory means that wherever ~~is-mind~~ is matter is mind and wherever mind matter. See Aeneid VI.

In the Tim[aeus]²⁷ he says in beginning the Demiurgus made the world and like himself as being good—spherical—and set it moving, but mechanically, until he put in *νοῦν* {intelligence, mind}. But *νοῦς* {mind} and matter are heterogeneous; therefore he made a tertium quid {third principle}—*ψυχήν* {soul}.

He peopled the universe with *θεοῖς γεννητοῖς* {generated gods} who were to complete the world, wh. they did in their own image. They put part of the world-soul into a vessel, mixing it with a material soul wh. has *θυμόν* {spirit} and *ἐπιθυμίαν* {appetite, passion}. Putting it into a body they laid *νοῦν* {mind} in the head, *θυμόν* {spirit} in the chest, *ἐπιθυμίαν* {appetite} in the belly.

His Manicheiism.²⁸

In Rep[ublic] *θυμόν* {spirit} is better than *ἐπιθυμίαν* {passion} but in Tim[aeus] there is little distinction for they are so immensely inferior to the ~~mind~~ *λόγῳ* {reason} that their relative positions matter very little.

The passages *ακ*

Cf. the want of exactness in this with the precision of the Ar[istotelian] psychology.

Ar[istotle]'s splendid speculation ab[ou]t *αἴσθησις* {sensation}, *μνήμην* {memory} etc. has no place at all in Plato.

ἀνάγκη {force, constraint, necessity} used by P[laton] in bad sense, expressing the evil of matter.

With us *ἀνάγκη* wd. mean order, necessity; with P[lato] it is the evil principle of chance, flukiness in matter.

With Ar[istotle] matter is not evil, but potentially good, potentially evil.

In Ar[istotle] nothing is bad that is *ἐν κινήσει* {in motion}. The arresting ~~is~~ is evil. The dwarf is his incarnation of evil.

In the division of

Education begins with *εἰκασία* {apprehension of images}, that is art.²⁹

Platonic theory of art.

In the clouds is the Idea, on the earth its phenomenal copy, thirdly its art-copy, fourthly the dialectical copy, wh. is nearest the Idea.

Therefore the phenomena to be given children shd. be the dialectician's copy.

The poetry has four parts (i) the ~~dietic~~ matter (ii) the (i) The matter

As God is unchangeable He is good and as good unchangeable.

Now as matter is concrete it is bad and as bad concrete.

Children shd. be taught the most abstract possible notion of God for then the idea may be conveyed to them but if they are fed on concrete mythes it cannot and they become like Glaucus.³⁰

The heroes. These are ideals of character and hence must be true ideals.

See Protag[oras] 314 E. Sophistic teaching worse than buying

(ii) Rhythm. He means the mind is bewildered in the variety of a rhythm.

(iii) *λέξις*, diction. He likes orationem obliquam {indirect speech} as less imitative than orationem rectam {direct speech}.

(iv) Music. We are to have four notes, no smaller intervals, no change of key, no octaves.

He allows *λύραν* and *κιθάραν* and *σύριγγα* {musical instruments³¹}. The two first two have four strings and the last four pipes.

Nothing abt. sculpture and architecture and painting. We may imagine he wd. think painting and statuary bad as less abstract than music.

These criticisms amount almost to the mod[ern] distinction betw. high and low art.

Dialectic presentative, not representative.

But he does not consciously say this.

It must therefore³² be quite infallible.

If ~~an-obj~~ a sense is representative it gives you no knowledge of the object, if presentative it does.

It is a science that has no ref[erence] to the world or only accidentally. It is purely transcendental, has nothing whatever to do with phenomena.

This feeling found in Parmenides,³³ St. Bonaventure,³⁴ Spinoza.

Moreover it is the unity of knowledge.

It is a mere dream—as real as Mill's dream of deductive and predictive history and bears such a relation to the facts.

Its methods—*συναγωγή* {inference} and *διαίρεσις* {division}, the first upwards ~~to~~ fr. the lowest idea (not fr. phenomena) to the highest, the other vice versa. This lowest *ἰδέα* {form, class} is an infima species {archetype}.

Cf. this with Ar[istotle]'s *σοφίαν* {wisdom}. ~~an~~ This too has an infallible method—the syll[ogism], but it starts fr. many *ἀρχῶν* {first principles}, and not *ἀνυποθέτων* {not without foundations; not hypothetical; unconditional, absolute}, that is on evidence of facts,³⁵ i.e. of facts.

Cf. also with scholastic logic ~~and~~ wh. also has its infallible syll[ogism] and starts fr. more than one *ἀρχῆς* {first principle} viz. the Bible and Aristotle.

Cf. it too with Hegel's Logic.

Note the utter abstractedness of Dialectic.

The earlier education is a mere preparation; it is quite discontinuous with it.

Wherever you have an antithetic dualism you must always have this discontinuity-point. And there is no log[ical] account to be given of the bridging over the gulf. And so he can give no explan[ation] of their *μεθέξεως* {participation}, nor of that of virtue and existence in this world. The question is attempted to be solved in Timaeus, shirked in the Rep[ublic].

You are educating a different faculty in the earlier education, viz. *δόξαν* {philosophic opinion}: what then is this to do with Dialectic? Of course one cd. understand how mathematics now wd. train a man for metaphysics.

Platonic Virtue.

His arrangement ought to be—

λόγος	—	σοφία		
θυμός	—	ἀνδρεία	—	δικαιοσύνη
ἐπιθυμία	—	σωφροσύνη		
{reason	—	wisdom		
spirit	—	courage	—	righteousness
appetite	—	moderation}		

But inconsistently he makes *σωφροσύνη* {moderation} the virtue both of *θυμοῦ* {spirit} and *ἐπιθυμίας* {appetite}.

This inconsistency arises fr. an attempt to reconcile optimism and pessimism.

See Phaedo 64.

If all bodily desires etc. bad it is not enough to reduce them to a minimum; they must be crushed altogether. Therefore he is inconsistent.

His φύλακες {guardians} are to have no bodily pleasures.

And no property.³⁶

We must not push the mythe of the [de]mocratic son of the aristocratic man.

Habituation in Ar[istotle] is physical: ἐπιθυμία {appetite} and θυμός {spirit} are to be supple like whalebone or yew wood.

In P[laton] habituation is knowledge.

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} \alpha & \alpha & & \epsilon & \alpha & \epsilon & \\ \bullet & \bullet & & \bullet & \alpha & & \bullet \\ \epsilon & & \epsilon & & & \alpha & \end{array}$$

Annus magnus {the great year}.

Platonic doctrine of immortality of the soul.

Whence does it come? It is not a formulation of pop[ular] opinion: there were two forms of opinion on it—one that of Cephalus who neither believes nor disbelieves but says old men fear it, the other Glaucon's who disbelieves but will believe it if proved.

It is Pythagorean.

Socrates did not hold it or cannot be shewn to have held it. Xenophon wd. have jumped at it if true but he does not.

After sentence is passed Soc[rates] as a bitter irony talks of the immortality of the soul (in the Apol[ogy]). It is to chaff.

Wherever this doctrine is taught dogmatically it is coupled with transmigration. Empedocles and Pythagoras teach it.

The set of other Gk. philosophies all agst. it. It is not in atomism, it is not in Anaxagoras' *νοῦς* {mind}.

In the mysteries it is certain the immortality of the soul was taught but shadowily and with transmigration.

Dissenting mystagogues—they said very vague things.

How far did they get it fr. the East?—Well if anything came fr. the East this did. Notice that its connection with transmigration is eastern: male dissidet {he strongly disagrees}: wherever it appears it is a purp. pannus (purple patch)—out of place.

Pythag[oras], as Hegel says, and the mysteries travelled E[ast] to W[est].

Moreover Platonism needs it. This only renders it a possible philosophy, an attainable though a difficult ideal.

In the Meno an early dialogue comes the *ἀνάμνησις* {recollection}

The arguments are chiefly 3 besides smaller ones—

(i) As *γένεσις* {genesis} is perpetual *φθορά* {ceasing to be, destruction} death, is not final: both things must keep going on—

(ii) *ἀνάμνησις* {recollection}

(iii) *αὐτό* {self}—anything cannot produce or suffer its contradictory, so the soul wh. is *αὐτό*—life {life itself} cannot become death.

Again (Phaedrus) the soul moves but is not moved; it is a *αὐτό-κίνησις* {self-motion}. It can be moved by no

Phaedrus 245 C read.³⁷

Then in the Rep[ublic].

The Phaedo, Phaedrus and *Συμπόσιον* {Symposium} are a trilogy on the subject.

In the Timaeus the soul is split into two parts, rational and irrational.

Beyond this all is mythe with him and his mythes overlap, contradict etc.

Mythe of the Phaedrus read. (248 D)

What is the kernel of all these mythes?—Our souls alternate betw. a transcendental and a phenomenal, a *γνώσις* {knowledge} and *δόξα* {philosophical opinion}; life.

Our bodies ($\sigma\hat{\omega}\mu\alpha$) = $\sigma\hat{\eta}\mu\alpha$ {body = tomb} are the tombs of our souls.

Necessity melts into free-will because the chain is infinite.

But

Freedom of the will in P[laton]³⁸

Question did not determinately present itself to him.

Principle may be stated wrongly—

(i) As Mill states it—strongest motive wins: we must conceive motives like weights and differing only in degree. This directly contradicts his Utilitarianism.³⁹

(ii) Will is a faculty wh. is superior to motives and

This conception makes will hold seize the tongue of the balance.

We shd. say

Plato represents man as choosing betw. good and bad but is careful not to call one the stronger and so necessitate him. Reason is in one sense

Hence what he says will always admit a contradiction.

The prob[lem] of will in Plato is like that of origin of evil.

For the latter see Rep[ublic] II end, Tim[aeus] in passages above given for the ~~For the~~ Psychology, Rep[ublic] X.

If we knew what was good we shd. do it but in this world do not know, he says. The completest contradiction is in the mythe at end of Rep[ublic].

Also $\thetaυμός$ and $\epsilonπιθυμία$ {passion, appetite} clog and hinder reason. Hence the man in the tyrant's place is worse off; yet he is not constrained: he may make a better use of his life than the man in the well ordered state.

It is but a part of the question of evil, and sin is but analogous to the physical imperfection of the universe. And all represents the principle of $\alpha\nu\acute{\alpha}\gammaκης$ {necessity} introduced by matter.

Notice too

The difficulty of free-will (Plato's and the true one) is that of two elements only one can be looked at mechanically.

Conditioned as man is he yet can unweave the web of life for himself.⁴⁰

You cannot undo the past but you can negative it.

Also reason chooses the good but nothing here is perfectly good. So too with the Beautiful P[laton]'s theory of Pleasure.

(i) That of the Phaedo 64 sgg.

(ii) " " " Philebus. Platonic theō

(iii) " " " Repub[lic].

(i) Asceticism. No ~~pleas~~ distinction can be drawn betw. love of food and love of music. All bodily pleasure bad.

(ii) This dialogue, proposing pleasure or intellect as alternative ends, finds that pleasure + intellect > [is greater than] pleasure alone, and intellect + pleasure > intellect alone. The good then must include both. Then comes the scheme of the ἀπείρου {limitless}, μικτοῦ {mixture}, and πέρατος {limit}.⁴¹ Pleasure accompanies the approach to the realisation of the Idea.

See Phileb[us] 31 B–32 C, the beginning being most important.

But in 51 B, C, D, E is a new subdivision of pleasures. All are accompanied by pain but some, as colour, smell, shape, acquisition of knowledge are not consciously painful. High above these and ~~not~~ differing in kind wholly fr. them are transcendental pleasures.

(iii) Triple psychological scheme of pleasure, first those of knowledge, 2nd. those of honour, 3rd. those of the body. ~~This~~

[	[	[	Ar[istotle]'s. crit. on the ἐνδεῖαν {want, lack, need} and ἀναπλήρωσιν {filling up, becoming full} etc.
PHAED[O]	PHIL[EBUS]	REP[UBLIC]	

But Ar[istotle]'s own view differs little fr. that of P[laton] in the Rep[ublic].

Generally, Ar[istotle]'s criticisms on Plato.

First what sort of critic was P[laton]? —He does not often criticise and when he does is always wrong. Thus what he says of the Heracliteans (Theaetetus) and in same dial[ogue] 156 of the Atomists. Nor is he fair to Protagoras (161 C Theaetetus)

What shd. we know of the earlier philosophers if we had only Plato?

Then of Ar[istotle] they say first he did not understand Plato, next he did not try to understand him, third he did not appreciate him.

The first two are overstraining historic p[oin]t of view. He either must have understood his master and contemporary or we may be sure we do not.

The third is the same fault. Ar[istotle] of course did not enter into P[laton]'s p[oin]t of view: if he had ~~we~~ there wd. have been no Ar[istotle].

Communism.⁴²

The communists say they do not pervert human nature: nature is perverted by society as it now is.

Ar[istotle] says there wd. not be the love P[lato] supposes in his communistic state and speaking fr. a practical pt. of view he must be called right.

P[lato]'s system of education wd. give force but not originality of character. They wd. be all alike. This is Ar[istotle]'s objection

Ar[istotle] wants men differing *εἰδῆι* {in kind, type} in a state. P[lato]'s education then wd. not turn out a state.

Generally, Ar[istotle] is in the disadvantageous position all common-sense philosophy is in when criticising transcendentalism.

In the Pol[itics] (II) Ar[istotle] says he is not *τῶν σοφίζεσθαι* {among those [desiring] to display ingenuity} in his criticisms of P[lato]'s Rep[ublic].⁴³

Place of Rep[ublic] in Platonic writings.

It was to have been part of a $\mp$ tetralogy—with the Timaeus, Critias (a fragment) and Hermocrates (never written).

Tim[aeus] is systematic view of the universe, Rep[ublic] of man. In order of writing Rep[ublic] comes before Tim[aeus] but metaphysically Tim[aeus] is first. Critias gives the state actually existing as in the last anno magno {great year} before the date of the dialogue. As Critias : Rep[ublic] = Rep[ublic] : metaphysic of the *ἐνός* {one} and *δυάδος* {dyad}.

The Laws might have been written after P[lato] had ~~written~~ read Ar[istotle]'s criticisms. Grote thought it was written after he had gone in disgust fr. Dion whom he ~~had inoculated~~ had tried to inoculate with his notions. More prob[ably] it is the mere revulsion fr. transcendentalism.

To understand Plato.

You must contrast him with all the previous schools with the honourable exception of Pythagoreanism.

Sophistic.

Grote says nothing in common,⁴⁴ but Yes. There is a common element in Philistinism and so in Sophistry. This is the denying all objectivity to truth and to metaphysics.

This denial destroys earnestness in life. P[lato] therefore falls foul of not Protagoras himself but their spirit.

So the people, P[laton] says, makes the sophists and are the worst sophist[s] of all.

When we look back at P[laton] as a protest agst. atomism etc. we see it is not the vague dream of transcendentalism we are inclined to think it.

P[laton] erects	truth	agst.	δόξαν {philosophical opinion}
" "	ideas	"	phenomena.
" "	dialectic	agst.	popular speech, etc.
" "	philosophy	"	popular practical view of life.

For this last we find no def[inition], so refined is it. It is more a moral than intellectual thing

Ar[istotle]	opposed	to	P[laton]	as a	natural	to a	metaphys[ical]
"	"	"	"	"	system	"	realist.
"	"	"	"	"	commonsense		poetry.
"	"	"	"	"	to ideals.		
"	"	"	"	"	optimism to		
					hopelessness		
					of the		
					material.		

For the last, Ar[istotle] says *εἰ βέλτιον οὕτως ἐχέι*. {if in this way it is better}.

Of system as opp[osed] to poetry take as instances the psychology of the *περὶ ψυχῆς* {"On the Soul"} to that of Plato, or the Nic[omachean] Ethics to Plato's, or the *Ὀργάνον* {Organon}.⁴⁵

Difference of style immense.

But wd. Ar is it not the amount of Ar[istotle]'s [th]ought which prevents his style being complete.

Plato's relation to us.

It does us good to read him—as e.g. agst. the atomism⁴⁶ of Democritus and Positivism; then also his sense of duty and terewith⁴⁷ as agst. the Saturday Review; also agst. sensualism and selfishness; finally agst. sense

1. Robert Williams. See 'Notes on Hopkins's Tutors' in the Introduction to the present volume.
2. It is impossible to say whether these notes were written during lectures or after. The quality of the handwriting in the first five and a half folios (or leaves), up until the remark 'Essay read' (fo. 6), suggests that those notes were drafted after the

tutorial. The subsequent notes are much more hurried, far less formal. The notes from 19^v to 16^v were written in pencil.

3. A basic question in philosophy: can one equate *αἴσθησις* {sensation} with *ἐπιστήμη* {knowledge}? See Grote, *Plato*, ii. 374–7.
4. Benedict (Baruch) de Spinoza (1632–77) was expelled from the Jewish community in The Hague for criticizing sacred texts. His philosophical theories constitute a conflation of Cartesian and Jewish discourses, but he argued, against Descartes, that spirit/matter dualisms are but finite modes of 'one infinite substance'. He denied the possibility of personal immortality, but argued that love of God inspires the individual to work towards piety and perfection. Although his *Ethics* was finished by 1665, it was only published twelve years later, after his death. Spinoza's *Tractatus Theologico-Politicus* appeared in 1670.
5. Grote provides a cogent summary of the debates concerning the Platonic canon in *Plato*, i. 132–98. Up until the nineteenth century, the catalogue assembled by Thrasyllus (a contemporary of the Emperor Tiberius 42 BC to AD 37) was unquestioned. Schleiermacher was the catalyst for much of the discussion about the authenticity and arrangement of the various dialogues. In 1865 GMH noted Jowett's views on German 'hypercriticism' and the 'order of the Platonic Dialogues': 'Tho' impossible to say in what order written we may ask in what order to be read as the ancients asked. Idea of Schleiermacher [*sic*], that all dialogues were one curious instance of hypercriticism. Fitting into each other like pieces of dissected map. Phaedr., Protag., Parmen., elemental d[ialogues]. Theaet., Soph., Pol., Gorg., Meno, Phaedo, Menex., transitional—Crito Timaeus, Republic, Laws' (B.II, fo. 131^v).
6. Compare Williams's comments with Jowett's:

'Genuineness of Dialogues. You may believe or doubt everything (as the Jesuit who thought all the classics forgeries of the M. Ages.)

'Now evidence for Plato. First, Aristotle. This is the greatest of all. We must not look for accuracy in his quotations and references, nor anywhere in the [*sic*] ancients. Hypercriticism of the Germans on internal evidence. On that evidence we shd. disbelieve in the Laws, but outer witness strong, and the genius and the length—long works not forged. They reject too the Sophist and the Philebus as containing sneer or slight at doctrine of Ideas. But this prob. at the Megarian rather than Platonic doctrine. Then the Parmenides, a supreme in Plato's dialectics. One evidence agst. it is that Aristotle says Plato never attempts to connect phenomena with ideas, wh. the Parm. does. But on the other hand (agst. the Germans) it contains great picturesqueness, great dialectical power—genius in both.

'Greatest work of Plato the Republic . . .' (B.II, fos. 128^v, 129^v)

7. Very idiosyncratically, GMH declines Greek nouns to fit the English-language context. In this sentence, for example, he uses the accusative case (*ἔλθιν*) rather than the nominative (*ἔλθιν*). Because he does so throughout the essays, no counter-corrections will be made; GMH's wording is reproduced.
8. Mani, 'the apostle of God', was born c. AD 216 and executed c. AD 276. Born in southern Babylonia, of Persian descent, he founded one of the most influential religions in the ancient world, one that 'incorporated Christian, Buddhist, and Zoroastrian elements'. R. McL. Wilson, 'Mani and Manichaeism', in Edwards (ed.), *Encyclopedia of Philosophy*, v. 150. Of the seven or more works said to be his, versions exist in Iranian dialects, Coptic, Turkish, and Chinese. Among his chief opponents were Augustine and Titus of Bostra. Manichaeans, persons who have 'been brought to the light', believe that they are set apart from other creatures because they 'reject any possibility of tracing the origins of good and evil to one and the same source. Evil stands as a completely independent principle against

Good, and redemption from the power of Evil is to be achieved by recognizing this dualism and following the appropriate rules of life' (ibid. 149). The Manichaeic way of life was extremely ascetic; they were vegetarians who rejected marriage because 'procreation only prolongs the reign of the powers of darkness' (ibid. 150). John Mahoney describes Manichaeism as 'a doctrine of ultimate dualism between eternal conflicting powers of light and darkness, good and evil, spirit and matter. . . . [It combined] a strong element of spiritual elitism with a contempt for the bodily.' *The Making of Moral Theology: A Study of the Roman Catholic Tradition* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1989), 38.

9. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'We see therefore how near Plato and Aristotle are: ἀπειρον = στήρησις = πέρας = εἶδος, ὅρος etc' {infinite, limitless = privation = limit = form = definition} (fo. 3^v).
10. The two columns summarize arguments presented in *Philebus* and the *Republic*. Socrates introduces the terms in the left-hand column in *Philebus* 23C–27C; Protarchus is questioned until he realizes (25E) that an appropriate kind and degree of μίγνυς {mixture} 'puts an end to the differences between opposites and makes them commensurable and harmonious by the introduction of number' (trans. Fowler, 251). See especially *Philebus* 27B.
11. The terms are taken from *Republic* V. 477C ff. Through a series of questions, Plato demonstrates that 'the type of mind that is absorbed in the concrete cannot apprehend any general aspect of things' (*Republic* I. 529, note c). GMH inverts Plato's postulate in D.IV.
12. GMH could have read more about Spinoza in Lewes, *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, iii. 129–57.
13. *Republic* VI. 510B defines this as 'a beginning or principle that transcends assumption' (trans. Shorey, ii. 111). According to Shorey, this is a non-metaphysical 'association': 'the ἀνυπόθετον is the Idea of Good so far as we assume that idea to be attainable either in ethics or in physics . . . not as a transcendental ontological mystery' (*Republic* II. 110, note a).
14. The analysis of Jowett, who taught both Williams and GMH: '[Plato on] Nature of Good and Evil. The idea seems to be Good is the element of order, Evil of disorder. In other places he considers it analogous to disease, or combination of physical urges, or a thing incidental to life and never to be got rid of. In reading Plato we shd. try to get his views of a thing and then the modern parallels' (B.II, fo. 139^v).
15. In *Metaphysics* I. viii. 24–I. ix. 35, Aristotle argues against the Platonic 'Ideal theory', in the first instance because the assumption of the Ideal doubles the number of things to be explained (trans. Tredennick, 63). 'But all learning proceeds', Aristotle states in I. ix. 33, 'wholly or in part, from what is already known; whether it is through demonstration or through definition—since the parts of the definition must be already known and familiar' (trans. Tredennick, 79).
16. This reference to Charles Darwin's *On the Origin of Species by Means of Natural Selection* (1859) is one of several verbal signals in D.VIII that GMH is studying with someone very different from Jowett or Scott. As Charles Kingsley observed (and lamented) in 1863, 'Darwin is conquering everywhere and rushing in like a flood, by the mere force of truth and fact.' *His Letters and Memories of his Life*, ed. Frances E. G. Kingsley (New York, 1877), 337. For discussions of GMH and Darwinism, see Nixon, *Gerard Manley Hopkins and his Contemporaries*, and Zaniello, *Hopkins in the Age of Darwin*.
17. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'This is in *Philebus*' (fo. 4^v).

18. 'The philosophy of the Scotch School was a protest against Scepticism.' Lewes, *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, iv. 88.
19. GMH uses the same abbreviation found in his diaries: the Greek θ {theta} for 'the'.
20. In *Republic* VII. 532B Plato defines dialectic as the 'progress of thought', a 'release from the bonds . . . and the conversion from the shadows to the images that cause them and to the light and the ascent from the subterranean cavern to the world above' (trans. Shorey, ii. 197).
21. *Republic* VII. 537C (trans. Shorey, ii. 218).
22. For GMH's knowledge of Brahmanism, see D.VII.4.
23. See for example Plato's *Meno* 96C–D, in which Socrates expands Empedocles' teachings about the 'effluences or films' given off by material objects—'colour is an effluence of figures, commensurate with sight and sensible' (trans. Lamb, 285).
24. In *Metaphysics* I. vi. 4–7 (987b) (trans. Tredennick, 20–30), Aristotle compares the way in which Plato and the Pythagoreans treat 'the objects of mathematics' as they help to define 'the One': they agree in 'stating that the numbers are the causes of Being in everything else', but Plato is 'peculiar' in 'regarding the numbers as distinct from sensible things' (trans. Tredennick, 45).
25. Revelation 13: 18: 'Here is wisdom. Let him that hath understanding count the number of the beast: for it is the number of a man; and his number is six hundred three score and six.'
26. Oscar Wilde's undergraduate essay on 'Plato's Psychology' has been published; see 'The Importance of Reading Plato', ed. Peter De Groot and Richard Kaye, *Times Literary Supplement*, 5246 (17 Oct. 2003), 16.
27. *Timaeus* 39E–40D.
28. In effect, Plato's heresy; the Manichees (third to fifth century) believed that Satan is co-eternal with God.
29. *Republic* VI (511E, 534A). Assume 'four affections occurring in the soul', he advises: 'intellection or reason for the highest, understanding for the second, assign belief to the third, and to the last picture-thinking or conjecture' (trans. Shorey, ii. 117).
30. GMH could be referring to one of several ancient figures, real and mythological. Glaucus the Boethian, a fisherman, son of Anthedon and Alcyone, ate a magic herb that made him immortal but also fish-like. He adapted to being a sea-god, and fell in love with Scylla, a sea-goddess who rejected him. Circe, in love with Glaucus, punished Scylla by transforming her into a monster. According to Euripides' *Orestes*, Glaucus was a son of Nereus who assisted Menelaus as he travelled home from Troy, and aided the Argonauts. Glaucus king of Corinth, son of Merope and Sisyphus, was said to have angered Aphrodite so much during the funeral games of King Peleas that she had his horses tear him apart. Glaucus the Spartan asked the Delphic Oracle (in the person of the Pythia, priestess of the god Apollo) if he could acquire certain property by perjuring himself; he was rebuked. See Herodotus, *History*, vi. 86.
31. The *λύρα* {lyre} is a stringed instrument with a sounding-board formed from a tortoise shell; the *κιθάρα* {cithara}, a triangular-shaped instrument with seven to eleven strings; the *σύριγξ* {pipe} is a shepherd's pipe or Pan-pipe.
32. GMH uses the mathematical symbol $\therefore$.
33. Pre-eminent Presocratic philosopher; see D.XII.7.
34. Following the example of his English mentor, Alexander of Hales, Bonaventure (1221–74) became a Franciscan; eventually, he was Minister General of the order (1257) and its major figure after St Francis of Assisi (c. 1181–1226; Bonaventure

wrote his biography). A theologian who studied, then preached and taught, in Paris, Bonaventure worked with St Thomas Aquinas (1225–74) to defend the mendicant friars. In 1273 he was made archbishop of Albano. Famous as an intellectual who valued simplicity and humility, his writings include *Journey of the Soul to God* and influential works of philosophy and mysticism. In 1588 Pope Sixtus V declared him a doctor of the Church; he is known as the Seraphic Teacher.

35. 'On evidence of facts' explains ἀρχῶν, first principles.
36. At this point GMH turned the notebook upside down and began writing on the verso leaves. The following section was written in pencil.
37. In the *Phaedrus* 245C–D, Plato advises that we 'must learn the truth about the soul divine and human by observing how it acts and is acted upon. . . . Every soul is immortal. For that which is ever moving is immortal; but that which moves something else or is moved by something else, which it ceases to move, ceases to live. Only that which moves itself, since it does not leave itself, never ceases to move, and this is also the source and beginning of motion for all other things which have motion' (trans. Fowler, 469).
38. The notes resume in ink at this point.
39. Serialized in *Fraser's Magazine* (Oct.–Dec. 1861); published in book form (London: Longman) in 1863.
40. Williams's metaphor anticipates George Eliot's, whose narrator in *Middlemarch* (1872) famously explains that, as a 'belated historian', she has 'so much to do in unravelling certain human lots, and seeing how they were woven and interwoven, that all the light I can command must be concentrated on this particular web, and not dispersed over that tempting range of relevancies called the universe' (ed. Haight, p. 105). In the infamous 'Conclusion' to the first edition of *The Renaissance* (1873), Pater casts his theory of contingent subjectivity as 'that continual vanishing away, that strange, perpetual, weaving and unweaving of ourselves' (p. 188).
41. See nn. 10, 11, and 12 above.
42. *Encyclopaedia Britannica* defined communism as 'one of the terms which have been applied to the various classes of projects for re-organizing society, and subjecting men to a more or less strict system of regulations calculated, as their framers maintain, to promote human welfare', citing as examples the Spartan regime in ancient Greece; the political organization outlined in Plato's *Republic*; the more recent French experiments of Fourier and Saint-Simon; and the theories of Robert Owen, Britain's current champion of communism. 'Communism', *Encyclopaedia Britannica*, 8th edn., vii. 206. 'The Platonic scheme is communism', observes Grote, 'so far as it concerns the Guardians; but not communism in reference to the entire Commonwealth. In this it falls short of his own ideal, and is only a second best: the best of all would be, in his view, a communion that should pervade all persons and all acts and sentiments, effacing together the separate self.' *Plato*, ii. 207. Both Robert Williams and GMH would have heard Jowett lecture on the subject. An outline of Jowett's 'Lectures on the Republic/Easter Term, '58c' survives which devotes two pages to Plato's communism. 'Plato in his ideal dream found to be a Socialist & a Communist', Jowett begins. 'Not a subject of discussion in the civilized world—tie of the family and the rights of private property regarded as an alternate fact of human nature. Yet on Plato's side may be urged . . .' (fo. 31 of a notebook inscribed 'Early Notes of Plato', Jowett Collection, Box B, Balliol College). Jowett once remarked to GMH's class: 'Abt. the communism of the *Rep.* Plato is serious. But there is a touch of humour' (B.II, fo. 121^v).

GMH's statement, 'in a manner I am a Communist' and extended explanation appear in the so-called 'red letter' to Bridges (2.08.1871). For an early discussion of GMH's 'red letter' and Bridges's subsequent epistolary silence for two and a half years, see Ritz, *Robert Bridges and Gerard Hopkins*, 53–7. Zonneveld, *The Random Grim Forge*, considers GMH's ideas in the context of 'Roman Catholic social thought' and social conditions in Victorian England and Dublin.

43. In Book II of the *Politics* (1260b; trans. Rackham, 27–36) Aristotle advises that, to study 'the form of political community that is the best of all forms for a people able to pursue the most ideal mode of life', other constitutions must be studied, both to 'discern what there is in them that is right and expedient', and to forestall objections that 'to seek for something different from them springs entirely from a desire to display ingenuity' (trans. Rackham, 69).
44. That is, Grote suggests that the various sophists had nothing in common. GMH disagrees.
45. *Organon* is the collective title for six works by Aristotle: *Categories*, *On Interpretation*, *Prior Analytics*, *Posterior Analytics*, *Topics*, *On Sophistical Refutations*.
46. Historically, the 'key figure' in discussions of atomism was 'Epicurus's disciple Lucretius, the first-century Latin poet and philosopher who . . . set out in his poem *De Rerum Natura* ("On the Nature of Things") to explain the universe on the basis of laws governing the tiny particles of matter . . . called atoms. . . . Victorians argued incessantly and minutely about atomism. Some insisted on using the word *atom*, literally "uncuttable", while others preferred *ultimate particle*, which implied no further division of the particle was possible. Lucretius's reconciliation of the determinism of his "fortuitous concourse of atoms" with his belief in free will also appealed to Victorians.' Zaniello, *Hopkins in the Age of Darwin*, 36, 37. Bacon and Hobbes were the seventeenth-century philosophers who particularly admired the ancient atomists because they 'attempted to "dissect" nature "into parts." Hobbes, Bacon's secretary for a time, carried his mentor's ideas into the political and psychological areas' (ibid. 53). See D.XI.3, 'The moral system of Hobbes', written for Williams. Tennyson's 'Lucretius', a dramatic monologue, appeared in 1868.
47. GMH's rendering of the late medieval/early Renaissance spelling of *truth*. An earlier example of this can be found in his lecture notes on Plato. 'But Plato. Believed in Terewth, Religion, Immortality, because he cd. not have kept up the feigning' (B.II, fo. 126'). GMH may also be mocking someone's pronunciation.

D.XI

R. Williams



D.XI.1

The possibility of separating ἠθική {ethics} fr. πολιτική ἐπιστήμη {political science}.¹

Two ambiguities entangle the question or two forms of the same. If one looks at the rise of morals in history it comes, we are told, out of the intercourse of ~~man~~ men or not fr. the man; and also if one looks at the whole of morality as it ~~stands~~ exists now it will exactly cover the duties of men to each other in all their developments and deductions. If both things were quite true they wd. not prove that personal morality is the same as political morality, and the failure of insight of which this fallacy is an instance is being made by the Empirical and Utilitarian schools to overrun the whole field of thought. To know the growth fr. first to last is not to know the thing wh. grows and to know all ~~the~~ the parts is not to know the whole. In the same way the first knowledge of natural history came altogether fr. the hunting and pastoral life and the ~~beasts~~ animals which engage its ~~cares~~ attention. This knowledge is exact in proportion to its interest, and it might have been maintained once that it was the science of shepherds and graziers and ~~huntsm~~ hunters; when they gave names to the successive years of the stag— ~~pricket~~ brocket, pricket, and the rest; but now these ages have lost any importance above other facts of growth.

But however neither is strictly true. It is not true historically because it explains only the general ~~relatio~~ morality and the steps and slow changes for the better, not the more brilliant side of ethical history, the impulses of single men, and all the attractive difference of the subject.

And under ~~this~~ the same head they overlook this, that personal morality conditions political before political personal. The future of a perfectible race, all moralists wd. say, is when all men will be good and happy. By good you mean men who obey a good conscience. But

political morality has no business with a good conscience; when its ideal is attained then morality in itself will be worth least: this is not its future, but one only in which men will be happy. Happiness has but two conditions, if we ~~exclude~~ shut out the prepossessions we have got fr. personal morality, as we ought to do—comfort and amusement: and these are what pure political ethics ought to aim at. But in fact there is the historical carrying out of all this. A morality too simply political and objective ~~does-en~~ as that of the ancients, does end in amusement. It happened with Athens and with the Roman empire, especially with the Hellenised Levant. Amusement is what one means when one ventures to speak of art as having any influence to speak of on the mass of the world. Perhaps the first and most striking colour of the Roman empire is the spread of amusement—the ~~en~~ Circus shows, the theatres, the public gardens, Pompeii and the seaside places, the desertion of the country, and other signs. The morality which took its spring fr. the individual was thrown away in the midst of all this: Cynicism died almost like a nine days' wonder; Stoicism threw out men like Cato who were portents; the schemes which turned on brotherly love like those of Epictetus, even when they guided the emperor, as happened with Aurelius, could not help the world; Christianity broke up the empire ~~almost~~ in its success.

Still no one wd. deny that the political virtues were the first, and ~~that~~ to ~~unwind~~ that the unwinding of the idea of ~~disinterested~~ disinterested goodness fr. the complex intercourse of men is the most important thing in the history of ethics, only it is not quite the whole of it.

And no more will the political relations explain the whole of morality as it stands now. But this has to be remembered, that, if one takes any ~~premise~~ premiss whatever which is true, the whole sum of deductions which can be made fr. it—that is, its applications to all the matter of ~~morals will be the~~ ethics—will be the whole duty of man. Anyone who was possessed with the Roman sense of duty to the father of the family or the Chinese awe for parents or patriotism or universal love or sensibility to suffering or self-respect or devotion to wife or husband wd. have no other way of perfectly fulfilling those duties which personally were the prepossession unless by fulfilling all the rest. The right manner towards a father or wife cd. not be strongly acquired without a habit of amiability, that is universal ~~amiam~~ amiability; sensibility to suffering wd. require chastity even in thought.² Still one sees that the knowledge of the wider duties is presupposed, for though the true devotion to a wife ~~wd.~~ is not ~~be~~ uxoriousness yet that wd. be in itself ~~the~~ what it wd.

most naturally lead to. With the premisses given above it is more or less clear that, though each in the end involves all other duties, ~~it~~ they are not capable alone of bearing all the weight of morals; but if instead of any of these we put the whole relations of man to man, that is a much more plausible ~~base~~ stand to take and well wide enough to mislead.

There are two ~~things~~ parts in moral action, the thing to be done and the impulse to do it, and this enquiry about referring morals to the relations of man towards men of course only wishes to touch the thing to be done and to ~~settle~~ say what ~~it~~ that is. The Utilitarian view which ~~only~~ acknowledges but this latter side is too rude, and does not apprehend or explain the points debated. Perhaps though the objection which is palpable in this case is not altogether avoided by the better theory and that every theory in fact is become ~~too~~ half-barbarous wh. looks at the outward conditions of morality ~~neglecting~~ passing by the inward, and still pursues the comprehension of the idea “*πρὸς τομῶντι πῆματι*” {over a pain that needs surgery},³ when now the intention asks to be analysed.

It might very soon be objected to the political morality that there were also religious relationships. And this at the same time may be set aside, because perhaps if the premisses are granted the conclusions follow and to admit these relationships is but widening the scope of the theory we have already got and more adapting than abandoning it. But we also hear of a man's duties to himself, and, speaking purely in the field of thought, it becomes a more serious question if the subject has relations to himself than any change in the outer relations can raise. Then some wd. think duty ~~of~~ to oneself and self-respect and self-love in a good sense are inaccurate phrases or only impartial applications to oneself of a general law not coming fr. oneself. Certainly it is true that these ideas come in when most we objectify ourselves—still to speak metaphysically—, and self-love becomes the reverse of selfishness and self-respect of self-conceit, still more of vanity: for humility too comes of objectifying ourselves and comparing ourselves with our betters. And we are more shocked with disgraceful unworthy actions in others than in ourselves, being unprejudiced and seeing their bearings all at one glance, and accordingly we have to put ourselves outside ourselves to gain the same feeling. But out of the very words there seems to arise a thought wh. gives a another start to the reasoning. An unworthy action is unworthy of something foregone, and ideal. Ideal answers to idea: an idea is our thought of a thing as substantive, as one, as holding together its own parts and conditions; an ideal is the thing thought of when it is most substantive and succeeds in being distinctive and one and holding

its parts or conditions together in its own way. The unworthy action may be unworthy either of our ideal of the man ~~of~~ or of man generally: say it is of man generally; but by this you mean of man as other than ~~beasts~~ brutes and have to see that morality does not lie in the intercourse merely of living beings but of such beings, and so are thrown back from what is relative to what is absolute and substantive. And it is of course generally true that a knowledge of any relation is barren without a knowledge of the terms of the relation in themselves. Man comes into relation with other men but bringing with him his ~~own~~ properties and his accidents. Morality has already begun with him⁴ before relations with others arise—scarcely in time but in thought. Conscience or the Imperative working outwards find[s] its first matter in the man himself: a man can compare his today with his yesterday, his aims with his results: many things follow fr. man being his own object. Gluttony and drunkenness are social vices too, but this gives but a slight impulse of abhorrence: they make him not himself; not a natural mind, for he is heavy and sleepy, not a natural body, for he cannot keep his feet.

1. Published in *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 122–4.
2. Plato, *Lysis* 219D. Socrates' *primum amabile* {highest good}, the Good: *πρώτον φίλον* {the first of desirable things}. Grote's summary: 'We must come ultimately to something which is dear *per se* . . .—to some *primum amabile*, dear by its own nature, to which all other dear things refer, and from which they are derivatives. It is this *primum amabile* which is the primitive, essential, and constant object of our affections: we love other things only from their being associated with it.' *Plato*, i. 512. Aristotle answers the Platonic *primum amabile* with a *primum amicitia* (*Nicomachean Ethics* VIII. 2 (1155^b12); VIII. 5 (1157^a30); VIII. 4; *Eudemian Ethics*, VII. 2 (1236^a15)). According to Grote, this *primum amicitia* affirms 'that the diversities of friendship are not a species comprehended under the same genus, but gradations or degeneracies departing in one direction or another from the First or pure Friendship. The *Primum Amabile*, in Plato's view, appears to be the Good, though he does not explicitly declare it: the *Prima Amicitia*, with Aristotle, is friendship subsisting between two good persons, who have had sufficient experience to know, esteem, and trust, each other.' *Plato*, i. 525.
3. Sophocles, *Ajax* 582. Alternative translation: 'a disease that requires the knife'. GMH studied this play in 1864 with Jowett.
4. At this point the essay continues on the verso of the preceding leaf; GMH has turned the page 90 degrees and written from bottom to top.

D.XI.2

Connection of the Cyrenaic Philosophy with the Cyrenaic morals.¹

The Cyrenaic philosophy presents sensationalism in a very complete

shape: the Cyrenaics however were not the only sensualists; they were contemporary with or anticipated by the Sophists, by Protagoras in particular. Partly for this reason, partly fr. the dislike both intellectual and moral wh. existed in Greece agst. scepticism, expressed just as fully by Plato as by the prosecutors of Socrates, Aristippus is called by Aristotle and others a Sophist. His system however is logical and complete, wh. may be considered a test perhaps of a philosophy as distinguished fr. a rhetorical habit of thought. His psychology may be easily put: we can be ~~ee~~ sure of nothing but of having our own sensations, white and black, sweet and bitter; we cannot prove ~~tho~~ our own are like those of others' but agree to use the same names; and there is no reason why the objects shd. be in any [way] like the sensations they give, for in jaundice men see yellow and in ophthalmia red and drunkards and madmen see double.

The ethics of the school will be found ~~to~~ parallel to the psychology. Pleasure and pain must be taken as the starting point here as sensations generally above. Good and bad are relative and subject to debate; pleasure and pain are ultimate and fixed. All Gk. ethics ~~assume~~ begin by assuming in some sense or other ~~that~~ happiness as their end; a form of happiness appears therefore in the Cyrenaic system. But as their psychology shews life to be a string of sensations of which only the present is certain, so their happiness is made to be ~~a σύστημα~~ τὸ ἐκ τῶν μερικῶν ἡδονῶν σύστημα, a sum total of particular pleasures. As the present only is ~~present to~~ apprehended by the intellect so the particular pleasures are to be seized for their own sakes, as substantive and as alone certain. Exactly as sensationalism destroys the unity of thought so happiness is made to be, not as Aristotle wd. have it a result ~~ex.~~ to wh. various and even contrary causes may work together, true universally but not to be realised in any one particular moment, but on the contrary simply a name for a succession of moments of ~~like~~ similar sensations ~~not a composite but a homogeneous thing~~

In pleasure they placed the good ~~and the bad in pain~~ and in pain the bad, arguing fr. the certainty with wh. all creatures follow and avoid them and on the other hand the uncertainty and shiftings of the morality which is has to be expressed νόμος, by law or convention. If the real substantive good lies in pleasure it is reasonable to make pleasure good wherever it may be found. Dishonest pleasures were to be avoided for their consequences. And this theory is just as capable of being the basis for the ordinary rules of morality as Utilitarianism.²

1. The essay begins on fo. 6^v; GMH has written above the title '<Continued on the opposite page>', and has drawn an arrow from the last word of the passage on fo. 6^v to the top of fo. 7. Grote discusses Aristippus in *Plato*, iii. 530–50; an overview of the 'Kyrenaic' philosophers is featured *ibid.* 550–61.
2. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'Only the present is certain, no likeness can be proved betw. the present sensation and any past or to come, hence the wise man will seize the pleasure wherever it is ~~to be~~ found. With the same premisses the Cynics refused pleasure, because it was gone and became a nothing. With the same atomist or nominalist premisses, the principle of probability being added, we have Utilitarianism.'

D.XI.3

The moral system of Hobbes.¹

His moral system is consistently drawn fr. his psychology and the chain of connection may be made thus.

Matter, he says using the terminology of the Gk. physics and of the Schoolmen, exists in motion and motion in matter.

Motion is caused by motion and nothing but motion can come of motion for ever, and that in matter.

We say that objects affect the mind, that is, modify or change it, that is, stir or move it.

Objects affect us by sensation: sensation then is motion—the motion of matter, for the motion of matter can cause only the motion of matter. The mind then is matter.

Whatever other modifications the mind has are the residue motion left by the original strokes of matter on our organs, that is, by the sensations: they are sea rolling after the wind has fallen. All thought then comes back to sensation and sensation to the motion of the matter of our bodies.²

Underlying substance in the scholastic sense and the spiritual or immaterial are not denied to exist but they can never be known by us ~~except~~ unless by revelation, for our minds are matter and can only know matter: it is wrapped up in the words, for thought is a motion of matter and nothing can move matter but matter. Nothing in our minds then has any affinity for anything immaterial or spiritual.

Since then all knowledge is of or from sensation, and that our own sensation, general ideas in the Realist sense are impossible and only general names are used.³

~~Naturally~~ In nature man is born without religion or morality, neither with them nor with the seeds of them: they are pure compounds or constructions.

In nature man acts on the passions or, as the phrase of that age said, the motions, of nature: the needs or the leanings of nature are called his Rights and the things that satisfy them his Goods: both words are purely relative to the man; there is no absolute standard.⁴

In this way men meet and clash and a state of war is formed: a state of nature is a state of war.

For mutual, or rather for respective, convenience a contract is made, men enter into community, and a commonwealth is formed. In doing this men give up their rights and goods altogether to the commonwealth and in future have what rights alone the commonwealth allots them and enjoy what good alone the commonwealth sets before them and lets out to them.

And this is to be looked on as a real contract, not as an expression of the relation between man and men founded in nature and perpetually depending on man's consent of will for its continuance: then it might be dissolved; but it cannot be, any more than an axiom can be disputed after reasoning has proceeded on it: ~~in~~ what conditions men are born in they must go on with.

The commonwealth however will need a representative, wh. is the government whatever it may be—a monarch is the best governor because he is the best representative: the government shd. be executive, law, and justice at once, and obedience, it is plain, must be absolute.

Besides its occasional mouthpiece, the government, the commonwealth will need a standing rule for its subjects, a code of law: these laws will be the only standard of morals and the only conscience of ~~every~~ the citizens.

Besides the duties laid down by laws there are duties laid down by religion. What Hobbes says of religion need not be entered into, but it is to be like other things wholly subject to the commonwealth and the faith of the state is to be the faith of the citizen: all other beliefs are superstitions, that is, unlawful, that is, immoral.

Morals then are obedience to the laws and religion of the commonwealth and nothing else, and the system of morality is the most absolutely objective which could be framed.

1. GMH's principal sources: Lewes, *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, iii. 160–73; Jowett's 1865 lectures; and Williams's lectures on Plato (see D.VIII, n. 26). GMH heard Jowett illustrate remarks on 'Sophistical morality' as follows:

Thrasymachus boldly says might is right, but did anybody ever do so? It has been said if a no man preached immorality without being pelted.

Hobbes and Mandeville something like this. Hobbes holds government supreme over morals even.

But this is not Thras.' doctrine. Hobbes says absence of gov. so much worse than evils of government we are bound at all risks to obey it. Now Hobbes wrote imm[ediately] after civil war and tho' no friend of church, friend of Stuarts.

Mandeville said (later) that private evils public benefits. Extravagance e.g. stimulative to industry. Read beginning (XV chap.) of II part of Hobbes' *Leviathan*. (B.II, fo. 126)

Similarly, Jowett interrupted his analysis of the *Republic* to comment: 'Theoret[ical].—Doctrine of expediency. Hobbes' doctrine was society a compact to wh. we give consent or tacit consent and must passively obey. But besides gt. influence of his conn[ection] with exiled Royal Family and other circumstances of his life there is even in so clear a writer a confusion of ideas, viz. of abstract and actual rulers' (B.II, fo. 141^v).

2. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'Memory, he says, is decaying sense' (fo. 8^v). Lewes observes: 'Imagination Hobbes defines as a "conception remaining and by little and little decaying from and after the act of sense." ' *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, iii. 167. Accordingly, Hobbes explains memory in this way: 'This decaying sense, when we would express the thing itself, I mean *fancy* itself, we call *imagination*, as I have said before: but when we would express the decay, and signify that the sense is fading, old, and fast, it is called *memory*. So that imagination and memory are but one thing, which, for divers considerations hath divers names.' Quoted *ibid.* 168.
3. GMH's notes, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'All concepts, that is every thought more complex than a sensation, come fr. association of sensations or, beyond that, association of ideas' (fo. 8^v).
4. Additional commentary, written on the verso of the preceding leaf and continued on the verso of this leaf:

Moved thus by passions alone ~~men aim at gratifying~~ men's only natural aim is to gratify them, that is, ~~at~~ their aim is power. Thus laughter, a pleasurable emotion, is fr. the consciousness of superiority; hatred, a painful one, is the attitude of the mind towards greater power. They mutually hate or persecute, the strong the weak and the weak combined the strong. In forming the commonwealth they cease to persecute, fr. no forbearance but fr. the loss of power: they have handed it to the executive and have broken their swords.

The same one principle, atomism, is enforced all through. Thought is reduced to its unit ~~or atom~~ in the atom sensation, society to its unit in the atom of the individual, and the commonwealth itself is strictly an individual too. Hence monarchy is best as being the strongest executive and most keeping the commonwealth an individual. The man's own passions were in the state of nature a law to himself, fr. which there cd. not be in the nature of things an appeal; so the laws of the state are the motions or words of an individual. Plainly then there can be no absolute standard of right or wrong, truth or falsehood. But as a man may make a contradiction in terms so the commonwealth may be inconsistent with itself. Difficulties arising fr. such a cause must be left wholly to the executive.

The relations of his commonwealth to other ones Hobbes, like Plato, does not consider; he regards but one. (fos. 8^v, 9^v)

The latter point is also pursued in Grote, *Plato*, iii. 123–4.

D.XI.4

Connection of Aristotle's metaphysics with his ethics.

There are three stages in the conception of all Beings—the potential,

the actual, and the passing fr. the one to the other: these answer to the Not-being, Being, and Becoming wh. appear in various philosophies fr. Heracleitus to Hegel. The passing over or becoming is called by Aristotle ἐντελέχεια κίνησις {process}, defined as ἐνέργεια τοῦ δυνάμει ἢ δυνάμει {the actuality of what exists in potential insofar as it is potential}.

Withdrawing Withdraw these conceptions fr. the field of the purely abstract: in the world subject to our reason we have three conceptions answering to them—pure matter, wh. in itself is negation and cannot be known by us; and the concrete world inner and outer, wh. is ~~informed~~ ^{informed} matter in various degrees of form. The change or passing fr. the one to the other is motion and its meaning is form ~~wh. is realising itself~~ the realisation of form in matter.¹

There are then, it follows, two arch-sciences, physics of matter, metaphysics of form. These two meet preeminently in man, whose essence is a body of matter informed by a soul.

The study of physics ends in man as the highest piece of organisation in the world, in other words the highest realisation of form. The same principle is carried into any science wh. deals with man only: the science as a science will concern itself with finding the highest degree of form attainable by man in that particular field, but the ~~ma~~ thing will not stop there: action will follow, in wh. man will realise the form proposed.

Matter, form, and motion have been spoken of: it is necessary to mention the fourth cause wh. throws the three things into ~~æ~~ its relation with each other: this is the efficient or spring of motion, ἀρχὴ τῆς κινήσεως {source of motion}.

With reference to the efficient we give new names to form and motion: form is called the end or final cause, motion is called the outworking or ἐνέργεια {actuality}.

Now all through nature we have found the action of some efficient cause wh. drove matter towards its fullest or highest form, the fullest or highest that is of wh. the particular matter was capable. Can this principle fail in man? On the contrary as man is the highest organisation of nature, it must be eminently true of him.

Man is himself an agent, an efficient cause; his own action therefore must realise his proper end.

What is his end?—the end, it has been said, is the form. That property plainly wh. is not common to trees or beasts. This is mind. And so Aristotle incidentally says in his Ethics that the mind is the man.

But all this is in the field of the concrete. It is not possible to realise his end in one leap, by one act of thought. It is thus we come to the

concrete science of morals.² The complexity of matter (and man is the most complex of all matter) makes it possible to realise the end with endless degrees of completeness and of directness and allows of an absolute or primary and of a secondary and a tertiary and so on.

It has been already implied what is the absolutely highest end of man; it must be the fullest action of his mind—that is contemplation, and that on the purest attainable forms, namely what is eternally and unchangeably true. But for many reasons this is only possible to a few and we must enquire the secondary realisation of the end.

Now man is a sheaf of faculties, capacities, or potentialities, each having its own form or end the realisation of which is its virtue, and man has as many virtues as he has faculties.³ But how is their right form to be known? It is found by right reason, for the mind being the form of the man and reason being the action or process of mind reason must necessarily impose the forms on the faculties—besides that the Gk. language allows Aristotle to force a conclusion, for to ~~main~~ deny this wd. be to maintain a contradiction. But what is the right form of the mind, what is the right reason? We reach two questions of psychology at last—What is the nature of man's faculties? and What is the nature of his reason?—and here the a priori enquiry ends.

1. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf:

For the formal cause there ~~any~~ are many names used by Aristotle—*λόγος* {definition}, *λόγος τῆς οὐσίας* {definition of essence}, *τὸ τί ᾗν εἶναι* {the essence}, *ὅρος* {definition}, *ὁρισμός* {definition}, *μορφή* {form}, *εἶδος* {form, body}.

Take anything concrete, body say: *σῶμα* = *λόγος* and *ὅλη* {body = definition and matter}, and this *ὅλη* again = *λόγος* and *ὅλη* {matter again = definition and matter} because the matter of our bodies is organised, and this again = *λόγος* and *ὅλη* {definition and matter}, and so on down to pure matter at last, *στέρησιν* {deprivation}, the negation of form.

A child is *δυνάμει* {in potentiality} a philosopher: his learning philosophy is the *ἐνέργεια τοῦ δυνάμει* {actuality of what is in potential}, and he becomes a philosopher: then merely to be a philosopher, even if he never act his philosophy, *καθεύδοντα* {sleeping}, is his first *ἐντελέχεια* {actuality}; his second is to act as a philosopher, to philosophise; and if philosophy is *θεῖον* {divine} and leads up to divinity then the second *ἐντελέχεια* {actuality} (wh. is also the *ἐνέργεια* {actuality}) of the philosopher is fr. another point of view the movement, the *ἐνέργεια τοῦ δυνάμει ᾗ δυνάμει* {actuality of what exists in potential insofar as it is potential}, towards a divine state. (fo. 11^r)

2. GMH's opening statement in notebook G.I, his analysis of the *Nicomachean Ethics*:

This treatise first systematic work on Morals, in other wds. Aristotle first tried to make a distinct science of it. Even he had not fully unravelled the idea of it fr. the Political Science. Thus the student of it is called *ὁ πολιτικός* {the statesman}. And the last chapter of the work slides off into his Politics. The latter had before been a science, as in Plato's Commonwealth. Aristotle's work in history of science is the disentangling of the two things.

The purpose of the book must be thought of thus.—with us principle of duty, or more definitely principle of responsibility (to God), a guide to action. The latter form not known, or very vaguely, to Greeks; the other form not understood by Aristotle; idea of duty not present

to him. This, with w[or]d δει {it is necessary, right} as moral command, due to the Stoics. (G.I, fo. 1)

3. GMH's gloss on the *Nicomachean Ethics* V. xi: 'Of the good man Aristotle says first he has a root of stability in himself, still he is in some degree liable to change, that is, his μακαριότης {state of bliss} is, but not really his εὐδαιμονία {good fortune, destiny}, for he adds something to his definition of the latter' (G.I, fo. 7).

D.XI.5

The Philosophy of history—what is meant by it?¹

It will be useful first to say what the question does not mean. It does not mean Do general laws govern history? Is history uniform? What is philosophical is not empirical: now things do not really cease to be empirical because they will fall under laws. Laws for instance rule grammar, but grammar is scarcely yet, and when the Alexandrian and Sanskrit grammarians wrote was not at all, philosophical. Or to turn to matter closely akin—social statistics have been gathered together wh. prove ~~there are~~ laws in ~~see~~ the ordinary action of men but the laws prove nothing.

But is there a logic of history? that is, do the facts and changes of history shew a rational sequence? It is of course necessary that there shd. be laws or uniformity if there is logic.

In all other fields of enquiry to affirm a logic to hold is to affirm a science to hold and to have entered its deductive stage—the stage in wh. we predict with certainty. Positivists assume the same to be involved in affirming there is a logic of history. The differentia {specific difference} of history is of course the alleged free will of man.

First it is to be noticed that this differentia will not ~~disallo~~ destroy the logic in wh. events follow when they have taken place, although it may baffle prediction before it. Everything will happen if not μετὰ λόγου {with reason}, led hand in hand by necessity, yet οὐκ ἄνευ λόγου {never without, apart from reason} never contradicting reason. As a fool must, whatever he says, talk his own tongue so the perversest action must accent some one or other of the laws in wh. we live.

Whatever happens therefore will have been, if we can look far enough, not without a cause, that is rational, and the uniform truth of this leads to the mistake—or say unwarranted assumption—that there is a science of history. This is the elusiveness of the subject—everything must seem natural and the right thing because it cannot be unnatural

and wrong, but because the actuality is reasonable it does not follow the possibilities were not so.

So much is a priori, but the immediate enquiry will be What proportion does the absolutely scientific part of history bear to the other part?

It is plain an answer must wait till a body of facts is brought to bear—we must know, first, the ~~natural~~ physical facts, geography ~~and~~ for instance, next the psychological, temperament for instance: it is then the enquiry turns to the influence of the disturbant law. Still even long beforehand certain points may be forestalled. It will not be hard to see that even were a science in the strict sense established it must have a matter more baffling than that of any other, unless indeed one ~~in~~ which deals with the individual: ~~for~~ chance—we may use such a word of the action of wholly irrelevant laws in the midst of another order of things—² will ~~exereise~~ play so important ~~an action~~ a part. What necessity brought the elements together wh. made the temperament of Mahommed? For does it not answer to our notion of chance that the Hegira shd. have taken place when it did and no[t] earlier or later?³ But had it happened earlier or later the countries on the sea-board of the Mediterranean might have been under a more solid rule and the Mussulman outbreak have been held back near its ~~outset~~ beginning.

1. Compare with D.V.2, 'Is history governed by natural laws.'
2. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'No, because Aristotle defines chance as *ἄδηλος αἰτίων ἀνθρωπίνῳ λογισμῷ* {a cause inscrutable to human calculation}.—But in the first place we are not bound by his definition for our notion of chance is other than his, and next the definition will suit the text if you make the proviso that the cause cannot be foretold by the laws of the particular matter' (fo. 16^v). In *Metaphysics* XI. viii. 10–12 Aristotle is probing the nature of teleology, and the difference between 'what is *true* and what is *accidental*' (trans. Tredennick, 93); he defines chance as being 'inscrutable to human calculation, and . . . a cause only accidentally' (1065A). Compare *Eudemian Ethics* 1247^b7–8.
3. See notes for D.V.2.

D.XI.6

Arguments for and against the progressiveness of morality.¹

The arguments for the progressiveness of morality are historical. They are to be found in speech, in early poems, in early law, and in the savage races of our own day.

For those drawn fr. speech we must go ~~to~~ not to modern tongues, for they hear the marks both of Christianity and of the ancient civilisation, but to the primitive ones. Their evidence seems to give two facts of early morality—that it is concrete and particular and without principles and secondly that such principles or common names as it has are improper extensions from peculiar cases. The first is a negative argument: in early speech general names are wanting, as in other things so in morality. Now and then a form of speech gives a positive witness to this, as for instance the word *θέμιστες* {oracles} instead of *θέμις* {rules established by custom}, this is pointed out by Maine.² Of the other fact, the impropriety of the general ideas, such words as *δίκη* {custom, what is right}, *fas* {divine law}, *ἀρετή* {goodness, excellence, valour}, *virtus* {manliness, strength, courage} are instances: *δίκη* is ~~way or~~ the way or the custom, *fas* the judgment of the court—the idea of justice was got then in one case fr. usage, in the other fr. laws: *ἀρετή* and *virtus* are courage, and this points to a time when war is the normal or the admired ~~business~~ condition of men.

Such instances are easiest found in early poems, wh. however besides verbal proof will shew us the early working of morality ~~in early times~~. Among the instances given is the binding force of the letter without remembrance of the spirit in ~~a~~ contracts between men, so that we are told of someone who was unequalled.

κλεπτοσύνη θ' ὄρκῳ τε—~~and this is the conception a child has.~~

κλεπτοσύνη θ' ὄρκῳ τε {in thievery and in oaths}³—and this is the conception a child has.

Still more proof is given by codes of law. No instance is more striking than the *wehrgelt*, the money reckoning of murder and other great crimes.⁴ A money compensation must have some standard; there can be no other standard but ~~by~~ the money loss the crime has caused; the crime then is looked on ~~as a damage done merely or primarily~~ merely or primarily as a damage done—that is it is so looked on by the law, for vengeance will, it is known, be sought for by the kinsfolk, and so blood-vengeance is recognised and sanctuaries provided. The *lex talionis* {law of retaliation in kind}, the eye for eye and tooth for tooth,⁵ illustrates the literalness of early codes.

These instances must stand for many, for the evidence producible is very wide indeed.

On the other side the appeal is to the moral sense, wh., as Socrates says, is not taught and wh. acts with full force in children. The approval

of the conscience is the last test of morality and this approval must always have been given or withheld.

This is a true answer to those who suppose—Hobbes did for instance and various French writers whom Kant refutes and others still—that morality has arisen at some epoch within the age of man's reason. The conscience, the moral form, must have had matter ever since reason worked. For reason, as Aristotle implies, must perpetually feed it with matter. But it is also true that with the growing complexity of thought and of relations more ~~matter~~ and more matter is borne under the play of the conscience and that with every shift of the men and the things both in politics and in social life a virtue and a vice new either to man or to men singly ~~will~~ must always develop themselves and must give the possibilities of right and of wrong action.⁶

1. The verso of the preceding leaf (17^v) is occupied with a diagram, not in GMH's handwriting, demonstrating the relationships among the Savage, Man, and *Θεός* {God}.
2. Sir Henry Maine, *Ancient Law: Its Connection with the Early History of Society and its Relation to Modern Ideas* (London, 1861).
3. Homer, *Odyssey* XIX. 396: As the loyal servant washes the disguised Odysseus's feet she notices the scar on his leg, which he received from a boar while hunting with his grandfather, Autolycus, 'who excelled all men in thievery and in oaths'. *Odyssey*, trans. A. T. Murray, 2 vols. (Cambridge, Mass.: Harvard University Press, 1919, 1998), ii. 263.
4. From Jowett's comments on Greek history: 'Orphans. Improvement of their position in later Greece. Mutilation of the dead comes to be disapproved. Homicide in early society an offence agst. a family, to be expiated by private revenge, later an offence agst. the state who punished it. Note the pt. where the *wehrgeld* {literally, *man-price*; compensation paid to the family of the dead man} disappears, supplanted by state punishment' (B.II, fo. 131). Cf. Grote: ultimately, he observes, the dictates and best interests of society prevailed over the private revenge ethos. 'The Homeric society, in regard to this capital point in human progression, is on a level with that of the German tribes described by Tacitus [they believed in personal compensation or revenge]. But the subsequent course of German legislation takes a direction completely different from that of the German codes: the primitive and acknowledged right of private revenge (unless where bought off by pecuniary payment), instead of being developed into practical working, is superseded by more comprehensive views of a public wrong requiring public intervention, or by religious fears respecting the posthumous wrath of the murdered person.' *A History of Greece*, ii. 128.
5. Exodus 21: 24.
6. Inside the back cover of the notebook, not in GMH's handwriting, is a diagram illustrating the attributes of *λόγος* {reason}.

D.X

Essays for T. H. Green Esq.¹



D.X.1

The history and mutual connection in ancient ethics of the following questions—Can virtue be taught? Are virtue and vice severally voluntary and involuntary?²

The above questions go very much to the root: the Greeks had a greater bias for treating first principles than we have, except among those whose especial business it is, philosophers and the student of the different branches of knowledge: accordingly they come up prominently in Greek ethics and also for other reasons which are historical and apply to Greek thought generally: their culture and philosophy may be called quick and thin-skinned, readily taking shape or colour fr. politics and other things: no Greek philosopher wd. have been taking his MS to the bookseller while the battle of Jena was going on.³ The Sophists were in one light teachers of morals; they were well-known men everywhere and so the question whether virtue can be taught was one which all sorts of people heard and talked of: thus in one of Plato's dialogues⁴ Anytus the ~~accuser of S~~ prosecutor of Socrates is made to say that it can be taught—not by Sophists, a class he dislikes without knowing about—but by great statesmen.

When we are asked if anything can be taught we make a distinction, that some things can be taught to all (who are not deformed or in any way less than common nature), such as to talk, others want a special turn for the thing to be taught, such as for music a good ear: the distinction ought to be made, though it is only one of degree. With regard to virtue this distinction was not very clearly put by the Greeks until Aristotle, but its presence complicates the ethical questions which Plato treats. Whether virtue can be taught is discussed in his Meno and Protagoras. In reality the discussion comes to this—Is virtue knowledge or a knowledge?—for the Greeks had a passion for intellectualising

everything and one might say that the first thing they thought of identifying any abstraction with is knowledge. Knowledge is that wh. can be taught and perhaps is the only thing wh. can be, if teaching is used in the truest sense of getting a certain connection into the pupil's mind and so that he shall be able, as Aristotle puts it, πιστεῦειν {to trust} and not merely λέγειν {to speak}. On this ground imparting opinion is not to be called teaching, for in one way Plato seems to look on opinion as marked off fr. knowledge very much by its unconnectedness: the sequence of geometry is the example of knowledge. This appears in the above-mentioned talk with Anytus: the fault which Socrates finds with great statesmen is that they do not teach their sons; they can but give them detached advice or example, wh. are useless, because particular cases do not come again: but they themselves act rightly, so cd. they only shew the link between their ~~premi~~ acts and their principles they wd. give real knowledge of virtue. To Plato then opinion means that wh. can give no account for itself. That great statesmen cannot teach it to their sons takes away fr. virtue the character of knowledge, wh. however on other grounds it has. This is a difficulty; it is not cleared up in either of the above dialogues. But while this stands over some subordinate points are discussed, as this—supposing all good means pleasure and all evil pain, virtue, if it is the same as knowledge, must be the power of weighing pleasure against pleasure and pain agst. pain and allowing for the illusions of distance and nearness in judging them. Since nothing ought to be thought to be at random in Plato we may perhaps ~~th~~ explain how this discussion comes in ~~in this way~~ in the following way. It cd. not escape anyone that to make virtue simply the same as knowledge will lead to conclusions which are unnatural and repulsive to the mind and feelings, and Plato seems to let himself take up and try these conclusions, wh. literalisers wd. be sure to bring home to him, just when the proposition on wh. they depend is yet unasserted. The above is the conclusion he chooses to take up: the most obvious of all of course is that the ignorant man is not ~~fer~~ to be blamed for his vice. On this great question expressions may be found on both sides in his works, for instance that men act out what they are by nature and their nature they cannot change and did not make, that goodness or badness of disposition depend on thriving or barren seasons in the cycle of time, that (as we might say) the fathers have eaten sour grapes and the children's teeth are set on edge,⁵ and others of the same sort; but again he says that ignorance is unpardonable and it is worse to do wrong from ignorance than agst. knowledge. It is to be observed that contradictions of this sort

matter very little: the point is not whether in some places Plato gives up an opinion but whether an opinion is put strongly enough or often enough to appear one of the currents which draw his thought. His irony and his way of after all allowing suspension of judgment ~~after all~~ on great questions, ~~like~~ wh. is Goethe's also, make us not wish to press him to a conclusions.

Speaking then with this reservation one wd. say that Plato does make virtue the same as knowledge and thinks it may be taught. But if ~~ignorance~~ wickedness is ignorance and ignorance is wrong, then that wrong itself is ignorance and so on for ever, and this Plato can never have overlooked. One asks then what he means to express. When a new view is being taught it is sometimes wisdom (wh. Plato much uses) to put it in its most extreme and paradoxical shape, because this is ~~most~~ salient and attractive and expresses the difference of principle, wh. is the important ~~thing~~ difference to express, and also because it is ironical, and comprehensive minds like irony, wh. rises naturally fr. two opposite lines of thought being entertained both together and consciously. ~~So~~ ~~Plato~~ Plato then seems by this principle that virtue is knowledge—contradictory as it may sound—to be asserting the freedom of the will, the freedom of virtue and its self-existence, against that view of it wh. wd. make it but a charm of nature like strength or beauty: that wh. is great statesmen have but cannot teach their sons is an unreasoning graceful knack ~~like~~ or an instinct like a painter's or a poet's, but that wh. begins with true principles and hangs together like geometry is necessary and self-existent and unattached and free to all. And what he means we find, when in action, in the Republic. The rulers, who are philosophers, have the knowledge wh. is virtue at first hand; fr. them wisdom passes "a fine usque ad finem, fortiter suaviterque disponens omnia" {from one end of the earth to the other mightily, and she orders all things well⁶}, and in the perfect harmony of the ideal state every one has part ~~of it~~ and is part of it: if it is hard to see how virtue is knowledge in each man, it is easy and attractive to think how truth and ~~good~~ right pass into one in the strict rationality of the allotment of duties to all the citizens of the state.

But with or without irony, it cd. not be avoided that after Plato's ~~death~~ time his ethical system shd. be criticised with strictness and argued with upon the logical conclusions wh. it suggests. This is done by Aristotle. That vice is ignorance is a thought of course not only of Plato or Socrates but commonly expressed. He [Aristotle] quotes, as he often does with common themes, a line of verse which puts it tersely,

οὐδείς ἐκὼν πονηρὸς οὐδ' ἄκων μάκαρ {‘no one is willingly wretched/ worthless or unwillingly blessed/fortunate’}.⁷

Etc.

1. ‘Green is coaching me in Plato’, J. A. Symonds reported in July 1860: ‘He does it well, for he knows an immense deal about the Platonic and Aristotelian philosophy, as well as about modern systems. On the other hand, because he is a very original thinker, he does not express himself quite as clearly and fluently as such beginners as myself would like’ (letter to W. R. W. Stephens, 19 July 1860, in *Letters*, ed. Schueller and Peters, i. 251). Among the auditors for Green’s 1867 lecture series on moral philosophy was F. H. Bradley; his lecture notes are among the Bradley papers at Merton College, Oxford. Brown, *Hopkins’ Idealism*, 135.
2. A more polished version of D.III.6. See notes for that essay.
3. GMH’s barb is directed at Hegel. To quote Lewes: Hegel ‘finished writing this work [*Phänomenologie des Geistes*] on the night of the ever memorable battle of Jena. While the artillery was roaring under the walls, the Philosopher was deep in his work, unconscious of all that was going on.’ *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, iv. 199. Napoleon defeated the Prussians at Jena in 1806.
4. *Meno* 91B–93B.
5. Jeremiah 31: 29.
6. The source of GMH’s text is the book of Wisdom (*Sapientia*) in the Vulgate, or Roman Catholic, Bible; it may be translated as: ‘[She reaches mightily] from one end of the earth to the other, and she orders all things well’ (8: 1 in the *New Revised Standard Version: The New Oxford Annotated Bible* (New York, Oxford University Press, 1994)). The book, considered apocryphal, is not normally included in the Protestant Bible.
7. Aristotle, *Nicomachean Ethics* III. v. 4 (1113^b15). This is possibly a verse from Solon.

D.X.2

Anticipations in Plato of the Aristotelian doctrine of the syllogism.¹

The philosophers before Plato had all been aiming at in one way or another at disentangling the ideas of abstraction or generalisation or universals or the One and presenting them to the mind: One in Many and Many in One was a thought by that time familiar to the educated and thence caught up by young men (as appears from passages in *Philebus* and the *Republic*). In point of fact to aim at the One and to contrast it with the Many is the aim of human thought, in art for the simple pleasure wh. this gives, in philosophy for knowledge’[s] sake. Plato perhaps will have engaged himself ~~beyond all other philosophers~~ on this great aim more constantly and with less frequent reference to subordinate questions, than other philosophers. Hence the special

feature and also paradox of his writings, that he pairs together two such opposite things as dialectic of strict reasoning and love. Dialectic is the logic wh. by its generalisations leads to the One, love, like all affections or passions but more than the rest, covers every unlike act, place, sight, sound, or circumstance with one character; so while logic makes the generalisations of the head, love makes those of the blood. Accordingly we naturally find Plato giving cautions about the right form and the common mistakes of generalising and dividing. He gives makes no anticipation of the syllogism as such, its formal cause of three propositions, but he gives the materials ready to be thrown together, in ~~one~~ a shape which he has elaborated or corrected. The following passages may be taken. In the Republic (454 A) he says that dialectic sinks into quibbling by the neglect of *διαίρεισθαι κατ'εἶδη* {to apply the proper divisions and distinctions²}, that is, Division. His saying this is occasioned by this difficulty started by one speaker: ~~that~~ if the women in his state ~~were~~ are trained to act like men, the canon that everyone ~~must~~ shall attend to his own is broken through; for the properties of men and women are not the same. He answers that in the same way, if bald men make good cobblers, one ought to say that men with hair cannot. This is in fact to correct ~~di~~ cross division. In the Sophist (253 B)³ he says the philosopher may be told fr. the sophist by his knowing (i) how far things may or may not be put side by side under one head, as a grammarian knows how far letters may ~~be put side~~ or may not be put side by side without breaking phonetic rules,⁴ (ii) in making divisions whether the principle of the division is that of real and complete distinction or whether there is any confusion and overlapping. Since *γένη* {classes}, genera, or classes may ~~overlaps~~ overlap one another (*πρὸς ἄλληλα [κατὰ ταῦτά] μίξεως ἔχειν [ὡμολογήκαμεν]*) {the classes or genera also commingle with one another},⁵ knowledge, that is a known principle, is needed to lead a reasoner through his matter and discover whether his classes are subordinate and coordinate (as we shd. say) or whether there is any cross. His expression is “*δείξειν ποῖα ποίοις συμφωνεῖ τῶν γενῶν καὶ ποῖα ἀλλήλα οὐδέχεται*” {to show correctly which of the classes harmonize with which, and which reject one another},⁶ a metaphor which has lost its force fr. the change in music, ancient part-singing being all in unison and not in harmony: he conceives of subordinate genera as voices taking up in a ~~higher or lower key the same note as~~ the same or another octave a note which is already borne by, say, a chorus of voices; the genera which are not received by the others (as he says) are voices taking up another note, so that while there is a concert of sound

the singers are not meaning the same thing.⁷ Besides the agreement or continuousness of genera we are also on the other hand to guard against too great much agreement in dividing, that is so that the division shall rise fr. real distinction. Another passage is in Phaedrus (265 D)⁸ and states the two forms in which argument exists, generalisation and division. And Philebus has a well-known passage parallel to what Bacon says of axiomata media {middle principles}.⁹ He wrote too, it is likely, his Parmenides and Sophist later than the Republic, and in these he is feeling his way towards a truer knowledge of the processes of thought, for instance, his earlier view was of some association ~~between~~ of τὰ μὴ ὄντα {Not-Being} and with ignorance and sophists: sophists were those whose mind was engaged or acquainted with things that are not, philosophers those who had knowledge of things that truly are; later he sees that the mind of the sophist or the ignorant is rather that wh. confuses τὰ μὴ ὄντα {Not-Being} and τὰ ὄντα {Being}.

ἡ ἐπανω ὁδός {the path upward}, going up to from particulars to universals, ~~is with Plato~~ the Aristotelian ἐπαγωγή {argument by induction} is with Plato συναγωγή {inference}. The appliance by wh. differences are cast by and a higher general reached is a negative conveyed in the ἐρώτημα {in dialectic, 'a question inviting an answer which may help to refute an opponent'} wh. is implied in the first meaning of the word διαλεκτική {dialectic, discussion by question and answer}.

1. 'It is often remarked that Aristotle's use of the word Dialectics differs from Plato's use of it. Indeed, with Plato, dialectics was the science of Being, with Aristotle, it was no more than the instrument of Thought.' Lewes, *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, ii. 115.
2. GMH has here adapted Plato's words 'κατ' εἶδη διαιρούμενοι' {to apply the proper divisions and distinctions} (trans. Shorey, i. 440), to suit the syntax of his English sentence.
3. Grote, *Plato*, ii. 420.
4. GMH's gloss, written on the verso of the preceding leaf (fo. 8'): 'Sophist 253 B[—C]. "ἐπειδὴ καὶ τὰ γένη πρὸς ἄλληλα κατὰ ταῦτά" —this refers to what has just gone before. — "μίξεως ἔχειν ὁμολογήκαμεν, ἀρ' οὐ μετ' ἐπιστήμης τινὸς ἀναγκαῖον διὰ τῶν λόγων πορεύεσθαι τὸν ὀρθῶς μέλλοντα δείξειν ποῖα ποίοις συμφωνεῖ τῶν γενῶν καὶ ποῖα ἄλληλα οὐ δέχεται; καὶ δὴ καὶ διὰ πάντων εἰ συνέχοντ' ἅττ' αὐτ' ἐστίν, ὥστε συμμίσγυσθαι δυνατὰ εἶναι, καὶ πάλιν ἐν ταῖς διαιρέσεσιν εἰ δι' ὧν ἕτερα τῆς διαιρέσεως αἵτια;" And see on for several pages.' {Now since we have agreed that the classes or genera also commingle with one another, or do not commingle, in the same way, must not he possess some science and proceed by the processes of reason who is to show correctly which of the classes harmonize with which, and which reject one another, and also if he is to show whether there are some elements extending through all and holding them together so that they can mingle, and again, when they separate, whether there are other universal causes of separation?} (trans. Fowler, 400–1).

5. *Sophist* 253B (trans. Fowler, 400–1).
6. *Ibid.* (trans. Fowler, 400).
7. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf (fo. 8'): 'And the result is (*ex hypothesi*, it being unharmonised music) discord, wh. has no meaning or place in art: so cross-division has no place in philosophy'.
8. GMH's gloss, written on the verso of the preceding leaf (fo. 9'): 'εἰς μίαν τε ιδέαν συννοῶντα ἄγειν τὰ πολλαχῇ διεσπαρμένα, ἢ ἑκάστον ὀριζόμενος δῆλον ποιῇ, περὶ οὗ ἂν αἰεὶ διδάσκειν ἐθέλη, . . . 'Τὸ δ' ἕτερον . . . εἶδος . . . ' τὸ πάλιν κατ' εἶδη δύνασθαι τέμνειν, κατ' ἄρθρα ἧ πέφυκε, καὶ μὴ ἐπιχειρεῖν καταγνύναι μέρος μηδέν, κακοῦ μαγείρου τρόπῳ χρώμενον.' [Plato, *Phaedrus* 265D–E] He then gives the illustration of the right and left hands'. {Phaedrus asks, 'What principles?' Socrates replies, 'That of perceiving and bringing together in one idea the scattered particulars, that one may make clear by definition the particular thing which he wishes to explain. . . .' Phaedrus: 'And what is the other principle?' Socrates: 'That of dividing things again by classes, where the natural joints are, and not trying to break any part, after the manner of a bad carver'; trans. Fowler, 533, 535}.
9. In *A System of Logic*, Mill states that, 'Bacon has judiciously observed that the axiomata media of every science principally constitutes its value', yet goes on to identify 'what is radically wrong in his doctrine'. *A System of Logic* (London, 1846), ii. 458–59. Pater translates the phrase as 'comparatively temperate thoughts' in *Plato and Platonism* (London, 1895), p. 42.

D.X.3

The relation of the Aristotelian *ἠθικὴ ἀρετή* {ethical virtue}

φρόνησις {moral discernment} to the modern Moral sense and

~~*φρόνησις* to~~ *προαίρεσις* {moral judgement} to Free Will¹

We constantly see that the Greek morals were objective (as we say); their interest lay in seeing an ideal fulfilled with completeness and not in the work of fulfilling it. Another way of saying this wd. be that to their eyes good works took their merit fr. the ideal they went to fulfill, the means fr. the end ~~to their eyes~~: in theology one rather says that ~~the outer life~~ merit lies in the energies themselves and turns upon their strength, so that the outer life must not indeed contradict the forces within but can only rudely register them and will become more and more less and less their adequate expression ~~of the forces within~~. Thus Aristotle's chief pains are given to the faculty which chooses ~~and trains~~ the ideal and trains man to it; it is an intellectual one, wisdom or good sense: the last seems to express the thing best though the Gk. name has a more eulogistic ~~char~~ shade of meaning. He saw however and clearly named the other part of goodness, virtue of character. He defines that in this way: it is a habit by which we purpose, having the nature of the mean as towards ourselves, defined by reason, and it is doubtful whether defined by reason refers to habit or the nature of the mean.

This is a definition not of one of the two factors of virtue but of fulfilled actual virtue as seen fr. one side. All virtuous acts will have the two factors, which it will be no strain to call the objective and the subjective, rightness in the end and rightness in the intention as towards the end. The first belongs to his faculty of good sense, the latter to the virtue of character. You must however shew something which ties together the good end and the good character: this is wish, for where an end is seen to be good—that is, a good, for the Greeks felt more strongly the oneness of these two ideas than the world has since done—a wish for that good arises fr. the necessity of our nature. And something more is needed to bring together the wish and the accomplishment: this is purpose. He defines it as longing wh. goes with reason or reason which goes with longing; it is no matter which we call it, for it has these two factors. Reason debates and settles what is the good end or the best means to it, the good character—we might say the heart—loves the end proposed to it or for the sake of the end the means and forms a wish, and the two together give birth to the purpose wh. will perform the means or gain the end. This is the phenomenon of moral action as Aristotle gives it.

He ~~then~~ here naturally discusses those questions of free will which have since become so common. As a Greek and as the disciple of the disciple of Socrates he thinks of ignorance and its debated blame the first. Pure ignorance, we may say, he puts out of the field of morals. But the ignorance of a depraved nature he does not, and he says that particular ignorance may be excused but ignorance of the universal cannot: he wd. say for instance that to have abused someone might be overlooked but not to have any sense that one shd. bridle one's tongue ~~could not be~~ is a thing wh. is not to be forgiven. This however clearly throws us back to a wider and antecedent difficulty, which may be seen also in his next question, whether resentment and the ~~passions~~ desires make action involuntary. Then also he says there ought to be no such thing as voluntary action with them. But we are bid to ~~desire~~ feel a righteous resentment and to desire good ends, which is without meaning if the things are involuntary. Then it is said that perhaps men's natures are such that they cannot wish for what they should and that what is not good to their fancy ~~look so~~ may look as if it were. But they are guilty in the first case of forming and allowing such natures and such diseased fancies. Still the difficulty returns that the fault may have been fr. the very beginning. To this his answer is interesting: we require man to be born with a sense for the right as much as with eyes and seeing:

those who are otherwise in fact may be in some sense excusable but they are ~~not~~ less than the human nature he is treating of, they are not the subjects of morals. His goodness of character then is still just what the Greek word expresses, a virtue, either in action or in capacity a perfection of the organisation and likely to be finest in the finest, and not the impartial field on which all men with ~~just~~ quite as interesting stakes the one as the other are winning merit or guilt. And the same feeling perhaps makes it more possible for him to lay down with so unsatisfactory an answer as he finally gives the question of the will, ~~which~~ while the history of human thought since his time has made all sides ~~so~~ uncompromisingly ask Is it free or is it not free? and ~~pre~~ each press his own answer on the world.

If we are to ~~think of~~ take what he says here not so speculatively as he wrote it but with the interest the question has got now, we may say that practically he asserts the freedom of the will though in the ultimate case he does not feel the repugnance familiar to us in surrendering it. Perhaps however some things he says suggest an answer more completely affirmative and by a new method. Following his order but using the word will with the definiteness it now wears, we may speak of actions as being determined by purpose, purpose by the decision of the will of which phenomenon it is only the later shape, the will in its decision by wishes, wish by longings of nature, and those longings by the whole constitution of the man and of men.² The Necessitarians arguing the other way, upwards, have no difficulty in bringing about all the developments and action of the mind by the synthesis of the first elements: it is needless to state their case. But we may say as follows. A wish is particular; craving, longing, or want may be general.³ We may well consult common speech, which is healthy and disinterested, upon this. We say for instance There is a want of something, I cannot ~~say~~ tell what it is, and we have longings and cravings—children especially do, and we do in seeing a pathetic landscape or hearing such music—which we do not know what ~~to~~ will satisfy: the pain is in fact in not knowing what to wish. But it is not right to say I wish for I do not know what, when we wish then we are wanting something particular. ~~But~~ By the particular we mean what is conditioned, for particulars must have more conditions than generals, being more concrete. But it is the essence of the impossible to have no conditions, in other words a thing is impossible which no conditions bring about.⁴ So far therefore as we wish for impossibilities we do it not knowing that they are or else we put in some proviso like I wish it were possible: you ~~may~~ wd. not say I wish to be

Shakspere but you may say I wish I could be Shakspere. Hence too we cannot have two incompatible wishes except by not feeling their incompatibility. There is an instance of all that one can say about longing and wishing in Wordsworth's poem The Forsaken.⁵ What the man's craving is for is the dead Barbara, but the impossibility of her return is so full that he does not shape a wish for it. Yet since a blind craving is always engendering a wish, he does utter a wish his prayer for the cottage to move "from behind yon oak", because although the thing is impossible yet the cottage and tree being before his eyes he can manage to picture them otherwise and thus give in his ~~thoughts~~ thought the conditions to the impossible. Then since the sense that there is no power to move the cottage cannot be kept out of sight for long, he passes from one wish to another, because their existence is only possible by not dwelling ~~them~~ on them.

Supposing every condition ~~of~~ for gaining a wish is fulfilled and the man has no other opposite wish and nothing remains but for him to bring it about, as for instance if he notices a flower and there is nothing to hinder his picking it and yet he does not, we know he cannot wish for the flower. This proves that by wish we mean the purpose, all other conditions allowing, to bring about a result: our wishes and the pain they give us and their preoccupation of our thoughts are the expression of purpose in us with regard to things wh. are not present. Wish then presupposes purpose and purpose will. Accordingly will is in knowledge and the truth of things antecedent to wish and not as the Necessitarians say coming after it. And if when they tell us the phenomena of willing may all be resolved into the mind balancing its different wishes and since wish has been shewn to imply already purpose they put desire or craving in ~~the~~ its place, then we may in the same way shew that desire or craving implies wish. For by a desire, craving, longing, or want we mean that we are not satisfied without a certain filling up and in the mean time the void is painful, and just as we come ~~knowing~~ nearer knowing where the void is so our craving grows more of a wish and the further we are fr. knowing—and this is where the truth appears—the more is our feeling one of pain and not of desire. It is only because they become the matter of the wishes that these cravings are raised into meaning or interest above the blind and unimportant pains of nature, such as the sick feel and forget again unless they are remembered through their intensity. Thus desire or want presupposes wish and wish purpose and purpose is will. The true principle cannot but be that things truly exist ~~in~~ only in their fullest organisation and highest

development, not in their lowest, as the type is to be found in the full-grown man and not in the baby, in the lily in bloom and not in the lily-bulb. And it is quite plain our thoughts grow and become complex and determine in this way or that by strength of their own and principles independent of the accidents under which their experience comes to individuals: if not, we should not find one man's thoughts agreeing with another's, break-downs wd. be happening in our intelligibility, and generally the play of innumerable circumstances, ~~each little gust~~ "every little gust of sense", as someone writes,⁶ would throw ~~our sensatio~~ the matter of our ideas together into groups as accidental and uninformed by any law of subordination as the packs of bubbles spinning in a tea-cup. Indeed while science is always making the idea of the chance clashing of atoms more and more unnatural in the outer world, this theory applies Epicureanism ~~of the~~ to the making of the mind. To conclude then, every account of the will has to deal with wishing, and if we can shew therefore that wish presupposes will and not will wish, we shall have taken away those particular things which were said to be the complete conditions of the will and shall have left it ~~on~~ unconditioned to the degree which was supposed before, in other words free.

1. Aristotle distinguishes between *φρόνησις* {intelligence}, *σοφία* {wisdom}, and *προαίρεσις* {deliberate choice} in *Nicomachean Ethics* VI. 5, 1140-1. This is 'a psychological' examination of intelligence, GMH notes in G.I (fo. 21).
2. Grote discusses 'desire' in relation to Plato's *Philebus* (35C-36B): 'In sensation, the body and mind are both affected: such sensation is treasured up in the memory, and the mental part of it is recalled (without the bodily part) by reminiscence. Memory and reminiscence are the foundations of desire or appetite. . . . [Desire] is a state of mind apart from the body, resting upon memory.' *Plato*, ii. 568-9.
3. Compare with T. H. Green's essay, 'Desire, Intellect, and Will': 'The distinction has already been pointed out between instinctive impulse and desire of that kind which is a factor in our human experience. The latter involves a consciousness of its object, which in turn implies a consciousness of self.' In *Prolegomena to Ethics*, ed. A. C. Bradley (Oxford, 1883), 123.
4. 'The objects of a man's various desires form a system, connected by memory and anticipation, in which each is qualified by the rest.' *Ibid.* 133.
5. 'The Forsaken' is the twelfth work in a cycle of poems by Wordsworth. GMH is confusing the details of no. 12 with no. 13, 'Tis said, that some have died for love.' Only in the latter is 'dead Barbara' named and the disposition of the cottage pondered. 'The Forsaken' is also interesting for the ways in which it anticipates such GMH poems as 'Peace' and several of the Dublin sonnets, especially 'Thou art indeed just':

The Forsaken

The peace which others seek they find;
 The heaviest storms not longest last;
 Heaven grants even to the guiltiest mind
 An amnesty for what is past;
 When will my sentence be reversed?
 I only pray to know the worst;
 And wish, as if my heart would burst.

O weary struggle! silent years
 Tell seemingly no doubtful tale;
 And yet they leave it short, and fears
 And hopes are strong and will prevail.
 My calmest faith escapes not pain;
 And, feeling that the hope is vain,
 I think that he will come again.

Wordsworth, *Poetical Works*, ii. 32

6. 'From George Crabbe's *Inebriety; A Poem in Three Parts* (Ipswich, 1775):
 Flaminus 'Quaffs the bright juice, with all the gust of sense/ And clouds his brain
 in torpid elegance' (ll. 111-12).

D.X.4

The Autonomy of the Will.¹

This is a phrase of Kant's and takes its rise fr. the meeting of these two trains of thought: on the one hand the will of all reasoning beings is free—free that is from what he calls mechanical causation—because freedom is implied in having reason; on the other hand those who give us most signs of the freedom, that is the independence, of their wills, for instance the inflexibly honest, are for that reason the most consistent with themselves, the most clearly bound by one principle, that is the most clearly bound by law: the will then, which does not take any law fr. the outer world, must be a law to itself, or in Greek phrase autonomous.

Kant recognised ultimately but one law wh. touched the will and this in his own system he called the Categorical Imperative ~~mean~~. He meant by this a principle of the mind by wh. we are led to act in only one possible way uninfluenced by personal or special interests of any kind. What we see called the action of the moral sense, the dictates of conscience, or other names Kant brought down to the Categorical Imperative. By Imperative he meant that one could regard it best in the character of a command. He put the Imperative ~~as he calls it~~ which was to suit all cases, the most universal Imperative, in a form of words—Act so that your action may belong to a universal principle, that is Do

yourself what everyone ought to do: of course no such complex idea rises to our thoughts in action and to the ignorant never at all, but the feeling wh. is put formally in those words is this—that I personally am bound to do so and so, everyone is and I am, wishes, temptations, times and seasons, and everything special notwithstanding. By categorical he means an opposition to hypothetical or conditional. He makes it as ultimate and absolute as can be in order that it may stand as a starting-place for ethics: it is very happy, because just the absoluteness which gives it the character of a start or postulate also makes it disinterested and purely ethical.

This idea of the autonomy of the will is fertile and seems to suggest various thoughts. One might sketch two or three of them. For instance, supposing all mankind acted on the Categorical Imperative they wd. all be acting, as we might compare it, in parallels, and this wd. give the look of acting by strict law, as the track of a rake on a garden bed does, and this in fact wd. be the case: yet again this look wd. come fr. the freedom and not the constraint of their action, and thus law and freedom wd. be reconciled, or thus—a free will which is only free by obeying law, an unconditioned thing wh. however is unconditioned only on the condition that it conditions itself, is a remarkable position; but it is to be observed that all that advocates for free will ought to claim is that ~~it is~~ the will is unconditioned by what conditions other things, for it belongs to another order of existences (as Kant himself says) the conditions of which we do not know and cannot say about: but whatever belongs to any order of things must be concerned with the conditions of that order. Or again—man, Kant suggests to us, must act with reference to mankind, the part to the whole; for a part, which has the form it has as being a part, when it acts begins to move independently and to be detached fr. its relations becomes contradictory or loses meaning.

It is to be noticed however that in this system the inspiration or prepossession Kant has is that reason, to be reason, must be free, that morals, to be morals, must be free. It is hard to talk about free will without losing oneself at last in quibbling: one might of course say that a will subject to an imperative wh. is formed by the reason is subject to the reason, that is, not free. Perhaps none but theologians are very sensitive about ~~surrendering~~ the freedom of the will beyond a certain point to which their speculations have pushed it back and hence they do not satisfy the interest of the enquiry: the most successful philosophies seem those where we know the sensitiveness or bias which is the spring;

this makes them inventive, that is, constructive; unchecked analysis is wearisome and narrows and dies away into unimportance.²

1. Compare with D.VI.1, 'Is the difference between a priori and a posteriori truth one of degree only or of kind?' GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'See Ar[istotle's] Eth[ics's] VI, xi, 4, 5' (fo. 18^v). GMH's principal source: Kant, *Critique of Practical Reason*, ch. I, Problem 5. GMH has gone beyond Lewes's analyses by this point—Lewes does not use the term 'Categorical Imperative' nor 'autonomy'—only 'Man is a being who acts as well as knows. This activity must have some principle, and that principle is *freedom of will*.' *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, iv. 119. Copleston observes that, 'The imperative serves, not as a premiss for deduction by mere analysis, but as a criterion for judging the morality of concrete principles of conduct.' Accordingly, 'the moral imperative must be *categorical*. That is to say, it must command actions, not as means to any end, but as good in themselves.' Frederick Copleston, S.J., *History of Philosophy*, 9 vols. (Garden City, NY: Doubleday, 1985), vi. 324, 323.
2. Initialled 'RS' [Robert Scott] in red pencil.

D.IX

Essays—Hilary Term '67



D.IX.1

Distinguish exactly between deduction, induction, analogy, and example.¹

Deduction is the name of the process by wh. we argue from general propositions. Its form is the syllogism. Its conclusions are indifferently general, particular, or individual propositions. Mathematics are the most complete instance of the method: starting fr. a small number of definitions, axioms, and postulates geometry for instance gives a large number of propositions wh. follow fr. them, and this number might be indefinitely increased.

Induction is the name of the process by wh. we make general propositions out of individual ~~ones~~. Its conclusions therefore are all general propositions, for if it be wished to prove a particular or an individual one this is done by attaching a syllogism to the general proposition. However in a wider sense induction is used for all inference wh. ~~began~~ begins not with general propositions but with individual, and proceeds to make a general proposition.

Aristotle says that the general proposition is arrived at by simple enumeration of the individual ones. It is necessary to go through every case. This is strict induction. But commonly a shorter form is used, in wh. one or more instances are made to stand for all: this is called Example, and the principle by wh. they are allowed so to stand is Analogy or argument fr. likeness, that is it supposes the instances chosen are so like the other individuals of the class that what is true of them will be true of the rest.

Let us say All double ~~flowers~~ roses are barren. It being impossible to reach this proposition by simple enumeration it must be formed upon a number of observed instances. But what right have we to make a proposition wider than the actual number observed? The question

brings out the real nature of the inductive process and serves to put in a right light certain notions held about it in modern times. In becoming double a ~~flower~~ rose changes its generative organs into petals and we find that we are stating identical propositions: a double ~~flower~~ rose is one with an unusual number of petals: the number of petals is increased by the conversion of the stamens etc: a ~~flower~~ rose without stamens etc is barren.² If we know these facts we are stating a certain causal tie wh. must hold good everywhere or still more strongly, we are stating what are the mutual parts of ~~the~~ a phenomenon and wherever the phenomenon is found it will have these parts, else it is not the same phenomenon. This however has changed the inference into deduction. If we argue without this certainty it is as presuming the causal tie though unseen to exist, but it is plain that certainty can only be had either by shewing this or else by simple enumeration of all the cases. Modern induction therefore wh. does not go upon simple enumeration is ~~founded on~~ analogy.

1. Compare with D.I.4, 'Distinguish Induction from Example, Colligation of facts and other processes with which it has been confounded'.
2. The botanical example cited 'had recently become a locus classicus in the field. . . . [It was] the heart of Goethe's major contribution to early nineteenth-century science. In plant development, according to Goethe, all parts of a flower—petals and calyx together with the sexual organs, stamen and anther—develop from the primary or primordial leaf and are all variations of the leaf. Although Goethe published "On the Metamorphosis of Plants" in 1817, a full translation by Emily M. Cox did not appear until late 1863, in the *Journal of Botany, British and Foreign*. Hopkins did have access to G. H. Lewes's popular *Life and Works of Goethe* (1855), which was in his family's library, but Lewes did not go into the botanical detail of plant morphology that was to be found only in Cox's translation.' Zaniello, *Hopkins in the Age of Darwin*, 131.

D.IX.2

The tests of a progressive science.¹

A science is advancing wh. is giving ~~up~~ us fresh knowledge of facts in the same way as a trade is advancing wh. is widening its connection. The way however in wh. the knowledge is brought in differs. It may be inductively or deductively, or, put in another way, by explaining more facts or by explaining them ~~in an exacter and more~~ in a more exact and comprehensive manner. In explaining more facts however it will make a great difference whether it be by way of supplement to the classes we already have formed or be an extension of class-division ~~after~~ over a

field lying on the outskirts of the science. Thus the discovery of a new species of willow or the observation of parthenogenesis in aphids two generations longer than had before been found possible shews little progressiveness in science; on the other hand the ~~spectrum~~ spectral analysis by wh. the chemical composition of non-terrestrial masses is made out is a development of optics wh. cannot be called supplemental but a complete widening or alteration of its beat.²

The other advance is the more exact or the more comprehensive and rational treatment of facts. This may be called deductive development of science. A science must be exact in order to be deductive and to allow prediction. But so far this is rather the perfection than the progress of a science, for becoming deductive it has in a sense reached a stand-still. The advance of a ~~method~~ science in this stage is to be looked for in development of method. This means the gathering of some of its facts and laws into groups which give new starting-points and postulates. The process meant is most conspicuously seen in mathematics: thus the ~~conception~~ properties of ~~triangles~~ angles given in Euclid is are in trigonometry thrown together into a new conception of the ~~triangles~~ angle as a measure for a wide and alien field of matter. The change of view has in fact brought within our reach facts wh. the prior science was too cumbrous to treat of: and this change of view is paralleled in all the sciences where we can find a ~~pla~~ link of blending between a higher and a lower.³

1. A very Comtean topic. Comte's work, in effect, charts the progress or advances in learning in the various natural sciences, which he has arranged hierarchically, from the most abstract (astronomy) to the least (physics); he recognizes, in order, three 'inorganic' (astronomy, physics, chemistry) and two 'organic' (physiology, sociology) sciences. In Harriet Martineau's translation, all of vol. ii is devoted to the 'new' science of social physics (sociology). Zaniello notes GMH's 'grasp of contemporary scientific issues and an ability to place those issues in a theoretical framework. . . . Hopkins's three examples—parthenogenesis and spectral analysis as examples of induction, a "new conception of the angle" as an example of deduction—were all topics of great interest in scientific circles during the 1850s and the 1860s. His first example, the extended generation of aphids by nonsexual reproduction, reflected the work of Richard Owen, whose standard essay, *On Parthenogenesis* (1849), introduced the term *parthenogenesis* into English. The plant lice known as aphids, according to Owen, provided the classic example of "virgin-birth." . . . [S]pectral analysis of heavenly bodies, that is, determining the composition of their matter by analyzing the spectrum or component bands of light emitted or reflected by these bodies . . . [was] still controversial throughout the 1860s. The seminal work in spectral analysis had been accomplished in the 1850s through the collaboration of the German scientists Gustav Kirchhoff and Robert Bunsen. . . . Hopkins's mathematical example illustrating the "deductive" development of science is the most problematical. . . . Despite the reference to trigonometry, which

Hopkins had studied, the only contemporary candidate for an “alien field of matter” is non-Euclidean geometry. This subject would certainly have provided a heady contrast to the normal Euclidean fare for Oxford undergraduates. . . . Only non-Euclidean geometry, with its assault on the axiom about parallel lines and its creation of spherical triangles, which did not behave as plane-surface triangles did, could be such “an alien field of matter.”’ Zaniello, *Hopkins in the Age of Darwin*, 144–5.

2. In 1861 *Fraser's* published a series of papers on ‘The Progress and Prospects of Astronomy’. ‘We cannot regard without sincere pleasure’, the author remarks, ‘the wide accession of popularity which astronomy has received in England of late years. . . . [T]he direct teaching of the telescope is the glory of God . . . and whatever facilitates the deciphering of its glorious characters must be looked upon as an intellectual and spiritual benefit.’ ‘The Progress and Prospects of Astronomy’, *Fraser's Magazine*, 63/376 (Apr. 1861), 464. The discoveries of Kirchoff and Bunsen were examined in ‘Spectrum Analysis and the Sun's Physical Constitution’, *Fraser's Magazine* 72/428 (Aug. 1865), 242–6. For a thorough analysis of GMH and astronomy, see David H. Levy, ‘The Starlight Night: Hopkins and Astronomy’, MA thesis, Queen's University, Kingston, 1979.
3. The essay ends on fo. 4; the rest of the leaf and part of fo. 3^v are taken up with mathematical notations in someone else's handwriting, possibly Robert Williams's. The initials ‘R.W.’ occur. The handwriting is similar to that found in notes in D.XI.

D.IX.3

The probable future of metaphysics.¹

The Positivists foretell and many other people begin to fear,² the end of all metaphysics is at hand. Purely material psychology is the *τριακτῆρ* {conqueror} foretold and feared.

But others point out that these are shortsighted expectations. The things differ in kind and neither can be made to fall under the other. Material explanation cannot be refined into explaining thought and it is all to no purpose to ~~know~~ show an organ for each faculty and a nerve vibrating for each ~~thought~~ idea,³ because this only shows in the last detail what broadly no one doubted, to wit that the activities of the spirit are conveyed in those of the body as scent is conveyed in spirits of wine, remaining still inexplicably distinct. Indeed it wd. be necessary first ~~to~~ in the material world ~~itself~~ to resolve force and matter into one thing and then afterwards to approach that wh. to all appearance alone has the power of ~~sub~~ disposing force itself, that is mind, and subsume that too under the head of the material.

Still there is a second worst forecast, a view wh. will make future metaphysics a disappointment though not an illusion.⁴ Psychology and physiology may withdraw to themselves everything that is special and detailed in the action of the mind and metaphysics will be left as the

mode by wh. we give the bare statement of ~~their~~ there being another side than the phenomenal when we regard things—and nothing more than this, mere abstraction so far as any attempt at apprehending it goes, and always to be pushed back to the outermost skyline of science.

This thought is well-founded so far as it foresees how psychology will exercise its own office over almost all the field now held to belong solely to metaphysics, but it is ill-founded in supposing an emptying out and barrenness in metaphysics as a consequence. It will always ~~to~~ be possible to shew how science is atomic, not to be grasped and held together, "scopeless", without metaphysics: this alone gives meaning to laws and sequences and causes and developments—things wh. stand in a position so peculiar that we can neither say of them ~~that~~ they hold in nature whether the mind sees ~~or~~ them or not nor again that they are found by the mind because it first put them there.

The tide we may foresee will always run and turn between ~~ma~~ idealism and materialism: this is clear fr. history, and historical generalisations are true if anywhere in tracing the phases of speculation: but it is possible to draw wrong inferences fr. this. We shd. turn to the analogy of the individual and that even the physical analogy. There is a particular refinement, pitch, of thought wh. catches all the most subtle and true influences the world has to give: this state or period is the orthodoxy of philosophy—there is just such an orthodoxy in art the sway of which is nothing comparative or a matter of words but real and absolute, ~~the going off of which~~ and its decline may be dated to within a few years. This orthodoxy lasts but a limited time; it is like the freshness and strain of thoughts in the morning: materialism follows, the afternoon of thought, in which, just as in the afternoon poetry is lost on us if we read, so we are blunted to the more abstract and elusive speculation. It is not exactly that this weariness or slackening constrains individual minds, though to some degree it does even constrain, but that the run of thought in the age braces up and carries out what lies its own way and discourages and minimises what is constitutionally against its set: different times like a shifted light give prominence by turns to different things.

But the opposition of the two schools or two tempers of thought (under whatever names) will continue to be more intelligent as time goes on, illusions about the bearing and import of lines of speculations be less possible: the past indeed must ~~contin-~~ be have less and less power to hit the needs of the present; still Hume's reasoning perhaps will have settled something and people will have ~~some~~ a foresight even at the first

hint, ~~to what~~ when they come upon that kind of thought wh. runs upon the concrete and the particular, wh. disintegrates and drops towards ~~some kind of~~ atomism in some shape or other, to what this may be carried, how far a seeming victory is likely to be final, and perhaps what sort of things ~~idealism~~ transcendentalism will say in reasserting itself.

But to come to particulars, what form will metaphysics take in the immediate future? They say there are three great seasons in the history of ~~metaphysics~~ philosophy, the first that of Plato, Aristotle, and the Schoolmen, the second that of Bacon and physical science and Positivism, the third that of Hegel and the philosophy of development in time. The first is led by the ideas Form and Matter and even its ~~most~~ lowest, its most material matter is still half metaphysical and abstract; the second is led by the ideas Facts and Law and even its highest, its most formal expressions are half ~~mater~~ physical and concrete; the third is led by the ideas of Historical Development, of things both in thought and fact detaching and differencing and individualising and expressing themselves, of continuity and of time. The first necessarily has a claim to be final and the second makes the claim for its results; as for the third it is in a sort of dilemma that it must contradict itself whether it claims to be final or not. The full sway then and application of this idea of development is foretold as the philosophy of the immediate future. And this at least must be allowed, that ~~metaphysics~~ philosophy must ~~speak~~ not so much speak of right and wrong in systems but must acknowledge its history and growth to itself and see that it is meaningless without such a history and growth.⁵ Only the matter cannot be dropped here. There is an analogy: one sees that the ideas so rife now of a continuity without fixed points, not to say saltus {leaps} or breaks, of development in one chain of necessity, of species having no absolute types and ~~following~~ only accidentally fixed, all this is a philosophy of flux opposed to Platonism and it can call out nothing but Platonism against it. And this, or to speak more correctly Realism, is perhaps soon to return.

One may even see, speaking hazardously, some points—three main points—in which it will challenge the prevalent philosophy of continuity or flux. The first is that of type or species. To the prevalent philosophy and science nature is a string all the differences in which are really chromatic but certain places in it have become accidentally, ~~one might say arbit~~ fixed and the series of fixed points becomes an arbitrary scale. The new Realism will maintain that in musical strings the roots of chords, to use technical wording, are mathematically fixed and give a standard by wh. to fix ~~the~~ all the notes of the appropriate scale: when

points between these are sounded the ear is annoyed by a solecism, or to analyse ~~me~~ deeper, the mind cannot grasp the notes of the scale and the intermediate sound in one conception; so also there are certain ~~designs~~ forms wh. have a great hold on the mind and are always reappearing and seem imperishable, such as the designs of Greek vases and lyres, the cone upon Indian shawls, the honeysuckle moulding, the fleur-de-lys, while every day we see designs both simple and elaborate wh. do not live and are at once forgotten; and some pictures we may long look at and never grasp or hold together, while the ~~compositions~~ composition of others strikes the mind with a conception of unity wh. is never dislodged: and these things are inexplicable on the theory of pure chromatism or continuity—the forms have in some sense or other an absolute existence. It may be maintainable then that species are fixed and to be fixed ~~at~~ only at definite distances in the string and that the developing principle will only act when the precise conditions are fulfilled. To ascertain these distances and to point out how they are to be mathematically or quasi-mathematically expressed will be one work of this metaphysic.

A second point at issue may be the prevalent principle that knowledge is fr. the birth upwards; is a history of growth, and mounts fr. the part to the whole. Realism will undoubtedly once more maintain that the Idea is only given—whatever may be the actual form education takes—fr. the whole downwards to the parts.

The last principle traverses modern thought generally and is wider than the philosophy of continuity. A form of atomism like a stiffness or sprain seems to hang upon and hamper our speculation: it is an overpowering, a disproportioned sense of personality. It has been opposed indeed but, as will happen, the opposing principle as all against the grain of popular thought has suffered and come out too abstract, unpregnant, and inefficient—Spinoza as they point out laudatur et alget {is praised and neglected},⁶ has no disciples. The new school of metaphysics will probably encounter this atomism of personality with some shape of the Platonic ideas.

1. Published in *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 116–21. GMH's principal sources: Lewes, *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, vol. iv, the penultimate chapter entitled 'Present State of Philosophy in England, Germany, and France'; see also Lewes, *Comte's Philosophy of the Sciences* (London: H. G. Bohn, 1853). Mill's highly critical articles on Comte were serialized in the *Westminster Review* in 1865 and published that same year as *Auguste Comte and Positivism*. See also 'Positivism', *Encyclopaedia Britannica*, 8th edn., xviii. 401.

2. See, for example, John Grote, *Exploratio Philosophica: Rough Notes on Modern*

Intellectual Science (Cambridge, 1865), and Walter Pater, 'Coleridge's Writings', *Westminster Review*, 85 (Jan. 1866), 48–60.

3. GMH is criticizing phrenology, the study of the cranium as an index to various mental 'organs' and capabilities, still very popular in his day. 'Phrenology claims its thousands of disciples', Lewes observes; 'the English mind rejects as frivolous, because useless, all speculation that does not come within the sphere of positive science.' *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, iv. 233.
4. 'Metaphysics are still cultivated in certain quarters', remarks Lewes; 'but generally as a mental gymnastic, or else because the fashion for German Literature has created a desire to know something of German Philosophy. Whatever individual exceptions there may be, it remains indisputable that there is not a School of Philosophy in England; there is not even a doctrine elaborated which would possibly, by propaganda, form a School. In other words, Philosophy has ceased to form a portion of the national culture.' *A Biographical History of Philosophy*, iv. 234.
5. A similar point is made by John Grote in *Exploratio Philosophica*.
6. From Juvenal, *Satire* I, l. 74.

D.IX.4

ἐξεταστική γὰρ οὐσα (sc. ἡ διαλεκτική) πρὸς τὰς ἀπασῶν τῶν μεθόδων ἀρχὰς ὁδὸν ἔχει.

{For, being of the nature of an investigation, [dialectic] lies along the path to the principles of all methods of inquiry.}¹
 Explain and illustrate this use of διαλεκτική {dialectic} in Aristotle.²

With both Aristotle and Plato Dialectic is the especial method of the philosopher for in discovering truth and is opposed to "Sophistic". All the hints and elements of logic which are found in Plato are part of his Dialectic: with Aristotle these had been gathered together, bettered in form and supplemented, and cast into the scientific ~~form~~ shape of the Aristotelian logic: hence Dialectic can no longer be the same scientific and formal process that it was with Plato.

We may assign its place to Dialectic by dividing the field of knowledge thus—Philosophy is the knowledge of first principles, of causes, and therefore of the universe as a whole, including by implication all particular knowledge under it; Logic is the scientific form of the ~~sei~~ particular sciences ~~when~~ where they are wholly or partly perfect (for so far as they are ~~imperf~~ imperfect Logic of course will not apply to them) and also of philosophy itself; Dialectic is the tentative, flexible, and informal method which tests the truth of first principles and processes, and compares and corrects the particular sciences part with part and one with another. It is the method of Aristotle himself in building up

his sciences. Thus the science of Ethics begins with a final cause agreed upon in name but variously defined, with different and partly disagreeing premisses, partial conclusions, etc. These he sifts, examines their validity, and is at last able to establish premisses ~~and~~ of his own. This process is the Aristotelian Dialectic. Considered as a process it is a tentative logic, considered with reference to the knowledge and habit of mind it implies it is a tentative philosophy.

1. Aristotle, *Topics* 101^b (I. ii): 'This process belongs peculiarly, or most appropriately to dialectic; for, being of the nature of an investigation, it lies along the path to the principles of all methods of inquiry' (trans. Forster, 277, 279).
2. GMH's principal source: Aristotle, *Topics* I. ii (101^b3).

D.VII

Extracts etc¹



D.VII.1

[From Talleyrand]²

De nos jours il n'est pas facile de tromper longtemps. Il y a quelqu'un qui a plus d'esprit que Voltaire, plus d'esprit que Bonaparte, plus d'esprit que chacun des directeurs, que chacun des ministres passés, présents, à venir, c'est tout le monde.—Talleyrand: speech for the liberty of the press, July 24, 1821, before the Chamber of Peers.

1. The date 'Jan. 27. 1866' is inscribed inside the (unattached) front cover now housed with D.VII, but the cover may not belong to the 'Extracts' notebook. The entries themselves do not follow any chronological order. GMH was probably transferring quotations from miscellaneous slips of paper into D.VII. The extracts in the notebook end with John Grote's *Exploratio Philosophica*. I have added two other miscellaneous quotations (written on separate slips of paper) originally found in D.VII, but catalogued as P.I. The quotations from Shairp and Coleridge, contemporary with the D notebooks, further our knowledge of GMH's reading at this crucial stage in his intellectual and creative development. The Shairp extract appears on a single sheet which could have been torn from D.VII.

As Jonathan Keates observes, 'Victorian public schools, their ethos lasting well beyond the death of the Queen, encouraged the keeping of such personal anthologies by teachers as well as by pupils. The apophthegms and *obiter dicta* came in handy for prize-givings, after-dinner speeches and the occasional sermon, as well as supplying useful quotations for larding end-of-term reports or sharpening the impact of comments on essays.' 'Elegant Extracts', *Times Literary Supplement* (18 Apr. 2003), 36. For a detailed and illuminating history of the commonplace book, see Earle Havens, *Commonplace Books: A History of Manuscripts and Printed Books from Antiquity to the Twentieth Century* (New Haven, Conn.: Beinecke Rare Books and Manuscripts Library, Yale University, 2001).

2. The entire speech is translated into English, and quoted in French in a footnote, in Edward Bulwer-Lytton, *Talleyrand, the Politic Man*, vol. i of *Historical Characters*, 6 vols. (London, 1868), 381–90. This quotation is taken from the penultimate paragraph of the speech; Lytton has italicized, in English, the passage which GMH quotes. Bulwer-Lytton's translation: 'Now-a-days it is not easy to deceive for long. There is some one who has more intelligence than Voltaire; more

intelligence than Bonaparte; more intelligence than each of the Directors—than each of the ministers, past, present, and to come. That some one is everybody' (p. 390). Charles-Maurice de Talleyrand-Périgord (1754–1838) was an incomparable statesman and diplomat; through political acumen and flexibility, he survived, flourished under, and variously advised French revolutionaries, Napoleon, and two monarchs restored to the French throne. In the first years of the revolution, as a member of the National Assembly, he played a key role in drafting the new constitution. As a business man in the United States, in the mid-1790s, he became very wealthy. He served as foreign minister to Louis XVIII; his greatest diplomatic skill was exercised at the Congress of Vienna (September 1814–June 1815). He was Louis-Philippe's ambassador to Britain from 1830 to 1834.

D.VII.2

Fr. Mark Pattison's Essay¹

Where each text of Scripture has but one sense—the sense in which the writer penned it—it can only be cited in that sense without doing it violence. This was the turn by wh. Selden so discomfited the Puritan divines, who, like the Catholic mystics, made scripture words the vehicle of their own feelings. “Perhaps in yr. little pocket Bibles with gilt edges the translation may be thus, but the Greek or Hebrew signifies otherwise”. Whitelocke, ap. Johnson's Life of Selden, p. 303.²

Collins said of St. Paul “that he had a great respect for him as both a man of sense and a gentleman”.³

“Or shall a poor countryman be eternally ~~lost~~ happy for having the chance to be born in Italy? Or a day labourer be unavoidably lost because he had the ill-luck to be born in England?” Locke—Essay, bk. IV, ch. xix, §3.⁴

In the present day when a godless orthodoxy threatens, as in the 15th century, to extinguish religious thought altogether. . . .⁵

1. From Mark Pattison, “Tendencies of Religious Thought in England, 1688–1750”, in Frederick Temple et al. (eds.), *Essays and Reviews* (London, 1860), 254–329; see also Shea and Whitla (eds.), *Essays and Reviews: The 1860 Text and its Reading*, 387–476. Jowett was among the other contributors to this notorious book, which was condemned by Oxford's Convocation (governing body) in 1863. In his essay Pattison identifies the period 1688–1750 as ‘one of decay of religion, licentiousness of morals, public corruption, profaneness of language—a day of “rebuke” and “blasphemy”’ (‘Tendencies of Religious Thought’, 254; see also Shea and Whitla (eds.), *Essays*, 387). For a cogent discussion of Pattison's essay, see Shea and Whitla (eds.), *Essays*, 95–105. See also the Introduction to this volume, n. 85. Pattison's essay was republished, after his death, by Henry Nettleship, in *Essays by the Late Mark Pattison*.

2. Pattison, 'Tendencies of Religious Thought', 278–9.
3. Ibid. 279.
4. Quoted ibid. 292, where Locke is positioned 'as one of the philosophical precursors to deism: the role of human understanding of natural religion leads in Locke to an assertion of the reasonableness of Christianity' (Shea and Whitla (eds.), *Essays*, 100). GMH was reading Locke's *Of the Conduct of the Understanding* (1706) in 1864 (*Jour.* Winter 1864).
5. 'Tendencies of Religious Thought', 297.

D.VII.3

[From Rémusat]¹

“Parmi nous un homme religieux est trop souvent un homme qui se croit entouré d’ennemis, qui voit avec défiance ou scandale les événements et les institutions du siècle, qui se désole d’être né dans les jours maudits, et qui a besoin d’un grand fond de bonté innée pour empêcher ses pieuses aversions de devenir de mortelles haines” <Fr. Rémusat>.²

1. Charles Rémusat, *L’Angleterre en dix-huitième siècle*, 2 vols. (Paris, 1856), i. 44. Two other titles of note: *Abélard; sa vie, sa philosophie, et sa théologie*, 2 vols. (1855) and *Critiques et études littéraires ou passé et présent*, 2 vols. (1857). Translation: ‘Among us a religious man is too often a man who believes himself surrounded by enemies, who sees with distrust or scandal the events and the institutions of the century, who laments being born in damned days, and who needs a large base of innate kindness to prevent his pious aversions from becoming mortal hatreds.’ My thanks to Dr D. M. G. Sutherland for identifying this quotation, and to Dr. M.-C. Leps for the translation.
2. Here and throughout D.VII.4, GMH’s square brackets are indicated by < > to distinguish them from the editor’s square brackets.

D.VII.4

Fr. Max Müller’s Chips fr. a German Workshop¹

In those Three Persons the One God was shown,
Each First in place, each Last,—not one alone;
Of Śiva, Viṣṇu, Brahma, each may be
First, second, third, among the Blessed Three
<Fr. Kalidāsa>.²

<Development of the idea of Brāhman, literally> force, will, wish, and the propulsive power of creation . . . <but> in the sense of prayer also, originally what bursts forth fr. the soul, and, in one sense, what

is revealed <into the idea of Self and next of the god Brahma; whereas the idea of Âtman> . . . originally breath or spirit <in fact *ἀτμός*, constantly signified self>.

<The Rig-veda> “who has seen the first born, when he who has no bones bore him that had bones? Where was the life, the blood, the Self of the world? Who went to ask this from any that knew it?”

<Again> “Self is the lord of all things, Self is the king of all things. As all the spokes of a wheel are contained in the nave and the circumference all things are contained in this Self; all selves are contained in this Self. Bráhma itself is but Self.”

~~<It seems one sh. write Jaggernâth.>~~

<Again—>³

The only one breathed breathless by itself,

Other than it there nothing since has been.

<It seems one sh. write Jaggernâth.>

<Prob[able]⁴ date of Buddha's death—abt. 477 B.C.>⁵

<Establishment of Buddhism by Asoka “the Constantine of India”, grandson of Kandrágupta the contemporary of Seleucus Nicator, in about 246 A.D.>⁶

<It appears Christianity numbers more souls than any other religion.> It is difficult in China to say to what religion a man belongs. The emperor himself, after sacrificing according to the ritual of Confucius, visits a Tao-ssé temple, and afterwards bows before an image of Fo in a Buddhist chapel. (‘Mélanges Asiatiques de St. Pétersbourg’, vol. ii, p. 374.) ~~<apparently bn.~~ <By subtracting the Confucians and Taoists (or whatever is the right word) the number of Buddhists falls below that of Christians>.⁷

<The Brahmins> alone cd. tell what god shd. be invoked, what sacrifice be offered, and the slightest ~~neglect~~ mistake of pronunciation, the slightest neglect abt. clarified butter, or the length of the sacrificial ladle in wh. it was to be offered, might bring destruction upon the head of the unassisted worshipper. <—This is the original notion of religio, superstitio—strictness, scrupulousness of observance>⁸

<Yet in the Brahman ~~phil~~ schools of philosophy the names of the gods were never mentioned.> Their existence was neither ~~affirmed nor~~ denied nor asserted; they were of no greater importance in the system of the world of thought than trees or mountains, men or animals; and to offer sacrifices to them with a hope of rewards, so far from being meritorious, was considered as dangerous to that emancipation to wh. a clear

perception of ~~The Rig-veda contains 1017 hymns.~~ philosophical truth was to lead the patient student.⁹

<Three systems of Brahman philosophy are mentioned—(i) a monism—one Being, without a second: all else delusion to be removed by true knowledge; (ii) a dualism—of self-existent self and matter: phenomena reflection of self in ~~ma~~ mirror of matter: emancipation won by withdrawal into self; (iii) rigid atomism.>¹⁰

<Buddha's Four Verities—(i) existence of pain; (ii) ~~pain~~ the cause of pain is sin; (iii) pain may cease by Nirvâna; (iv) the way to Nirvâna is by (1) "right faith (orthodoxy)", (2) "right judgment (logic)", (3) "right language (veracity)", (4) "right purpose (honesty)", (5) "right practice (religious life)", (6) "right obedience (lawful life)", (7) right memory, (8) right meditation.>¹¹

<The following is the or a recognised Buddhist metaphysic—existence is caused by attachment; attachment an object; an object perception; perception contact; contact, at least sensuous contact (and to this it fairly resolves itself), the senses; the senses are only possible by the form, the distinctness, the distinction of things; distinction comes from ~~our~~ ideas, our illusory ideas; these from ignorance of the truth: hence ignorance (*avidyâ*) is the cause of existence;—The seizure of the notion of distinction is the accentual and also the interesting and valuable part of this.>¹²

The famous hymn wh. resounds ~~through~~ in heaven when the luminous rays of the smile of Buddha¹³ penetrate through the clouds, is "All is transitory, all is misery, all is void, all is without substance".

Recognition of Buddhism in China 65 A.D.

<Ke-loo having 'ventured to ask about death'>¹⁴

"The Master said 'I wd. prefer not speaking'.

Tsze-kung said 'If you, Master, do not speak what shall we yr. disciples have to record?'

The Master said 'Does Heaven speak? The four seasons pursue their courses and all things are continually being produced; but does Heaven say anything?' "¹⁵

<There are 1017 hymns in the Rig-veda.>¹⁶

1. Max Müller, *Chips From a German Workshop*, vol. i: *Essays on the Science of Religion* (1867); vol. ii: *Essays on Mythology, Traditions and Customs* (1867); vol. iii: *Essays on Literature, Biography, and Antiquities* (1870); vol. iv: *Essays on Mythology and Folklore* (1875). GMH's notes are taken from volume i. There are only minor errors and omissions in transcription. When GMH arrived in Oxford in April

1863, Müller, who had been cited in ‘the pages of Manley Hopkins’s *Hawaii* (1862)’ (Nixon, *Gerard Manley Hopkins and his Contemporaries*, 143), was ‘in the midst of delivering the second series of his immensely popular *Lectures on the Science of Language* at the Royal Institution. Their publication in the following year roughly coincides with Hopkins’s reference to Müller in his Oxford diaries among authors to be read.’ Cary Plotkin, *The Tenth Muse: Victorian Philology and the Genesis of the Poetic Language of Gerard Manley Hopkins* (Carbondale, Ill.: Southern Illinois University Press, 1989), 65. Müller (1823–1900), philologist and orientalist, studied in Berlin (with Bopp and Schelling) and Paris before Baron Bunsen, then Prussian minister in London, introduced him to English businessmen and intellectuals. A commission from the East India Company financed his edition of the Sanskrit *Rig-veda* (1849–73). He settled in Oxford in 1848, and became a member of Christ Church in 1851 and then All Souls in 1858. From 1854 to 1868 he was Taylorian Professor of Modern European Languages; in 1868 he ‘acceded to the chair of comparative philology that had been created for him’ at Oxford (Plotkin, *The Tenth Muse*, 51). He was a much-honoured and extremely influential figure in the fields of Sanskrit, the ‘science’ of religion, comparative mythology, philology, and philosophy. For a discussion of GMH and Müller (who was acquainted with GMH’s father), and of Müller’s significance to ‘Philology at Mid-Victorian Oxford’, see Plotkin, *The Tenth Muse*, 42–70, and Nixon, *Gerard Manley Hopkins and his Contemporaries*, 143–8. See also Michael Sprinker, ‘A Counterpoint of Dissonance’: *The Aesthetics and Poetry of Gerard Manley Hopkins* (Baltimore, Md.: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1980), 46–76, and Dowling, *Language and Decadence in the Victorian Fin de Siècle*. For the relevance of Müller’s argument that myth is a disease of language, see D.VI.5. To compare GMH’s undergraduate response to Müller’s work with Oscar Wilde’s, see Smith and Helfand’s introduction to *Oscar Wilde’s Oxford Notebooks*, 8–10.

2. Müller, *Chips from a German Workshop*, i, p. xviii.
3. Ibid. 70.
4. Ibid. 205. Müller disagrees with the date—543 BC—put forward by other experts. Modern scholars put the date c.483 BC, very close to Müller’s.
5. GMH’s note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: ‘And 478 is the date of Confucius’s. This is remarkable’ (fo. 2). The latter is from Müller, *Chips*, i. 309.
6. *Chips*, i. 14, 223. ‘Buddhism’, observes Müller, ‘whatever the date of its founder, became the state religion of India under Aśoka, the Constantine of India, in the middle of the third century B.C. This Aśoka was the third king of a new dynasty founded by Kandragupta, the well-known contemporary of Alexander and Seleucus, about 315 B.C.’ (ibid. 14). GMH’s note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: ‘246 is the date of the great council, a sort of Nicean council, at which the ~~council~~ canon was closed’ (fo. 2). He is paraphrasing Müller: ‘We must bear in mind that the doctrine of Buddha arose in India about two centuries before Alexander’s conquest, and it produced a vast literature, which was collected into a canon at a council held about 246 B.C.’ (*Chips*, i. 292). The Seleucid dynasty inherited the major portion of Alexander the Great’s empire, notably Asia. Seleucus I became supreme in Asia by defeating Antigonus I at the battle of Ipsus (301 BC); he was assassinated in 281. Seleucus II (247–226 BC) was one of several rulers preoccupied with wars against the Ptolemies for the possession of Phoenicia and Palestine.
7. *Chips*, i. 215. Müller writes: ‘It is difficult in China to say what religion a man belongs to, as the same person may profess two or three. The emperor . . .’.
8. Ibid. 244.

9. Ibid. 245.
10. Ibid.
11. Ibid. 250.
12. A summary of Müller, *Chips*, i. 251.
13. Ibid. 273. This passage is a possible source for the final image in 'Pied Beauty'.
14. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf (fo. 4^v): 'Ke-loo asks the first question about death. This is a second enquiry made perhaps not by him but by Tsze-kung. Max Müller says "and again (p. 190)."'
15. Müller, *Chips*, i. 312.
16. According to Müller, it 'contains altogether 1028 hymns' (ibid. 10).

D.VII.5

Fr. John Grote's Exploratio Philosophica¹

The physiologist may deny that there is any meaning in the term 'feeling' as distinguished fr. the phenomenal process wh. he exhibits: if he does so he only brings out into stronger relief the fundamental difference betw. the phenomenal and philosophical domains of thought, so that on the principles of the one, the other is in the first instance not even conceivable, and the simplest facts of the one may be denied by the other without any appeal wh. can settle the question. <Phenomenalism>²

At this moment, with the distinctest phenomenal conceptions, no one can tell but that what he sees as green may be seen by another as blue (provided the difference of inward view, so to call it, is consistent), and no increase of knowledge our physical knowledge abt. blue and green will help us in the least to know this. <Ibid.>³

Proper unity is not phenomenal: ph. u. is always a supposition. <Ib.>⁴

On this <viz. Macaulay's "treadmill"-talk>⁵ Mr. Ellis has drawn attention to the high degree in which, on the other hand, what Bacon considered was that applicability to practice and use was a test of the reality of the knowledge, and a security agst. its being merely verbal and visionary. <Ibid.>⁶

An instance of what appears to me the confusion betw. philosophy or logic on the one side and physiology or phenomenalism on the other appears in the manner in wh. the whole question of sensation has ~~been~~ constantly been treated. 'Sensation', meaning by the term an affection or modification (however we may style it) of our senses (to use that misleading expression), nerves, and brain, is a phenomenon belonging to the domain of physiology. It is what I have above called 'communication'. 'Sensation', meaning by the term a feeling on our part, or a

portion or instance of consciousness, which, in whatever manner, grows into knowledge, is a fact, so far as we call it one, belonging to a different order of thought, and it is philosophy or logic wh. must deal with it so far as it can be dealt with.

Our whole body is a sense to, or, if we prefer the expression, the sense of, our intelligent self, wh. latter is the 'We' or 'I' of consciousness, and the subject of knowledge. <Philosophy and Consciousness>⁷

1. John Grote (1813–66), the Knightsbridge Professor of Moral Philosophy at Cambridge, was George Grote's younger brother. GMH is quoting from the first two chapters of *Exploratio Philosophica*, part I; part II was published posthumously in 1900. Grote states in his introduction that he wishes to answer some of the assertions made by John Stuart Mill in *Utilitarianism*, and to address the 'three main heads or kinds of philosophy in England at present ["psychology", "the true and real philosophy", and "ultra-phenomenalism" or "positivism"]', each of which it seems to me has appendent error' (*Exploratio*, i, p. ix). His views on sensation and epistemology anticipate GMH's theories of inscape and instress. Grote, for example, objects to the use of 'impression' as a synonym for 'sensation' because the former 'suggests the notion . . . of sensation or perception being passive on our part' (ibid. 8). His is an *active* concept of perception: 'We have nothing then, phenomenally, to do with the way in which the universe is known to us, but we have of course to do with the way in which the different parts of it communicate, as I have said, with our bodily frame' (ibid. 10). Phenomenally, the universe operates according to the principles of space, time, and force; the 'natural agents' in the universe 'communicate with the nerves of our body' because they are in effect the 'forces' in matter (ibid. 10–11). GMH adapts Grote's description of forces to account, in D.XII.5, for the way in which an image is received in the mind as a 'physical and a refined energy accenting the nerves' (D.XII.5, fo. 5; see below). GMH also utilizes the active–passive perceptual model to differentiate between the mind's 'two kinds of energy' (D.XII.5, fos. 5–6; see below).
2. Grote, *Exploratio*, i. 7.
3. Ibid. 9.
4. Ibid. 11.
5. Macaulay's essay 'Lord Bacon' first appeared in the *Edinburgh Review*, 65 (July 1837), 1–104, a review of Basil Montagu's new sixteen-volume edition of Bacon's *Works* (1825–34). The essay was reprinted in pamphlet form later that same year, and published in *The Works of Lord Macaulay* (London, 1898), viii. 496–647.
6. Grote, *Exploratio*, i. 13.
7. Ibid. 19–20.

D.VII.6

[From J. C. Shairp, *Studies in Poetry and Philosophy*]¹

With regard to Wordsworth's "ideal light" which "brings out . . . vividly the real heart of nature, the inmost feeling, wh. is really there, and is recognised by Wordsworth's eye in virtue of the kinship betw.

nature and his soul" Mr. Shairp adds in a note of defence: "Each scene in nature has in it a power of awakening, in every beholder of sensibility, an impression peculiar to itself, such as no other scene can exactly call up. This may be called the 'heart' or 'character' of that scene. It is quite analogous to, if somewhat vaguer than, the partic[ular] impression produced upon us by the presence of each indiv[idual] man. Now the aggregate of the impressions produced by many scenes in nature, or rather the power in nature on a large scale of producing such impressions; is what, for want of another name, I have called the 'heart' of nature. The test of what is the real heart or character of any scene is to be ascertained by the experience of what the largest no. of men of the truest poetic sensibility feel in the presence of that scene. What it is in nat[ure] wh. produces these impressions on human imaginations I do not undertake to say. But because one cannot explain the cause or mode of operation, is no reason why one shd. not notice and name the fact".

Studies in P

Studies in poetry and philosophy: Wordsworth. J. C. Shairp.²

1. This MS is catalogued as P.I.4. Shairp's unsigned essay on Wordsworth, 'Wordsworth: The Man and the Poet', was published in the *North British Review*, 41/71 (Aug. 1864), 1-54 (see *Jour.* 04.1865), then expanded and included in Shairp's *Studies in Poetry and Philosophy* (Edinburgh, 1868). Matthew Arnold has high praise for Shairp's 'excellent notice of Wordsworth' in the introductory paragraph of 'The Function of Criticism at the Present Time', a lecture delivered at Oxford in October 1864 and published the next month in the *National Review* (repr. in *Essays in Criticism* (1865), and *Complete Prose Works*, iii. 258-87). A GMH journal entry in the winter of 1865 refers to Arnold's article 'in the National'; see also the Introduction to this volume. Shairp and Arnold had been friends since their undergraduate days at Balliol. The passage which GMH selects anticipates his own discovery of inscape and instress, and parallels in many ways the points made by Grote in his *Exploratio Philosophica*.
2. *Studies in Poetry and Philosophy*, 70-1.

D.VII.7

[From Samuel Taylor Coleridge, *Biographia Literaria*]¹

"A man"—the Revd. James Bowyer*—"whose severities,² even now not seldom furnish the dreams by wh. the blind fancy wd. fain interpret to the mind the painful sensations of ~~disordered~~ distempered sleep."

*"many years Head Master of Christ's Hospital"³

Coleridge: *Biographia Literaria*, chap. i.⁴

“This fact”—the delirious girl who talked Latin, Greek, Hebrew, etc—[“] . . . contributes to make it even probable that all thoughts are in themselves imperishable and that if the intelligent faculty shd. be rendered more comprehensive it wd. require only a different and appor-tioned organisation, the body celestial instead of the body terrestrial, to bring before every human soul the collective experience of its whole past existence. And this, this perchance is the dread bk. of judgment, in whose mysterious hieroglyphics every idle word is recorded.”

Ibid vi

Reliability—intensifying

1. This MS, a fragment quoted from Samuel Taylor Coleridge's *Biographia Literaria* (1817), is catalogued as P.I.5. GMH alludes to Coleridge's *Table Talk* in D.II.3. In September 1863, he identifies Coleridge as one of 'Shakspeare's critics' whose work involves 'instances of genius, of deep insight, of great delicacy, of power, of poetry, of ingenuity, of everything a critic should have' (*Corr.* 6.09.1863). For a discussion of how and why Coleridge 'occupies a position of great significance in the history of nineteenth-century English theology' (Geoffrey Rowell, *Hell and the Victorians* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1974), 62), see C. R. Sanders, *Coleridge and the Broad Church Movement* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 1942); J. D. Boulger, *Coleridge as Religious Thinker* (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 1961); Rowell, *Hell and the Victorians*, 62–70; and Norman Vance, *The Sinews of the Spirit: The Ideal of Christian Manliness in Victorian Literature and Religious Thought* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1985), 46–52. As Vance states, 'Coleridge had strayed [from the 'traditional Anglican manner'] after the French Revolution, Pantheism and Unitarianism in youth, but *Aids to Reflection* (1825) and *On the Constitution of Church and State* (1830), his most influential religious works, were deeply imbued with the traditions of the Church of England and the former soon became standard reading for Anglican intellectuals' (p. 43). Ernest Hartley Coleridge (1846–1920), STC's grandson, was GMH's friend at both Highgate and Balliol (many of EHC's papers are now housed in the University of Texas at Austin: see Joseph Feeney, 'The Gerard Manley Hopkins Archive of the Harry Ransom Humanities Research Center,' in Dave Oliphant (ed.), *Hopkins Lives: An Exhibition and Catalogue*, compiled by Carl Sutton (Austin: Harry Ransom Humanities Research Center, 1989), 27, 29). Coleridge's great-nephew, Fr Henry Coleridge (1822–93), also a convert, met GMH in April 1868, when GMH was on retreat and considering a vocation. Subsequently, Fr Coleridge, although GMH's 'oldest friend in the Society', rejected 'The Wreck of the Deutschland' for publication in *The Month*, which he edited. He 'read the poem and could not understand it, and he did not relish publishing any poem that he himself could not master'. Quoted in White, *Gerard Manley Hopkins in Wales*, 124. Fr Coleridge had been the first to publish Newman's *The Dream of Gerontius* in 1865.
2. Coleridge writes 'activities'. *Biographia Literaria*, ed. George Watson (London: Dent, 1965), 5.
3. Coleridge's note: 'Head Master of the Grammar School, Christ's Hospital.' Ibid. 3.
4. GMH quotes from ch. 1 (p. 3), ch. 6 (p. 66). Coleridge praises his 'very sensible' although 'very severe master' for having 'moulded my taste to the preference of

Demosthenes to Cicero, of Homer and Theocritus to Virgil, and again of Virgil to Ovid. . . . At the same time that we were studying the Greek tragic poets he made us read Shakespeare and Milton as lessons' (ibid. 3). As a young poet, Coleridge 'saw and admitted the superiority of an austerer and more natural style'; Bowyer taught him 'that poetry, even that of the loftiest and, seemingly, that of the wildest odes, had a logic of its own as severe as that of science; and more difficult, because more subtle, more complex, and dependent on more and more fugitive causes' (ibid.). On 20 February 1865 GMH presented a paper on 'The Science of Poetry' to the Hexameron essay club (see *Corr.* 10.09.1864, 5.01.1865). McDermott, *A Hopkins Chronology*, 10.

D.XII

Notes on Gk. Philosophy¹



D.XII.1

[Great feature of the old Gk. philosophy]

Great feature of the old Gk. philosophy, Pater said, its holding certain truths, chiefly logical, out of proportion to the rest of its knowledge, as Parmenides his dialectic abt. Being and Not-being, Zeno the contradictions involved in Motion, the Megarians and Heracleitus the difficulties of identity. The explanation of this perhaps is that they argued on the Idea alone, on the thought in its first blush, unrealised. This is not the same as saying, what ~~it~~ is obviously true, that they argued in abstractions without referring to the concrete, because ~~they~~ that is just leaving the question open of whether abstractions exist apart in any way fr. the concrete, of Nominalism and Realism in their merely logical bearing in fact. The Idea, it is to be remembered, is not the abstraction, ~~it is~~ indeed it is as much the concrete as the abstract and exists before the universal has been abstracted from the particulars and the particulars realised in the ~~abstract~~ universal. Any Idea ~~of which time~~ into wh. time enters as any considerable element, may be felt before and afterwards but at the time of its realisation is felt incorrectly or imperfectly or hardly at all. Before one spends a happy week anywhere one throws out an idea of the week to be spent, and because this can scarcely ever be correct in its arrangement of the times and places and accidents and ~~is not~~ never can be fully realised, it either is forgotten or at least ~~it~~ in its integrity lost. Again afterwards one forms an idea in looking back, and this is correct: yet it answers to no one time, it was never true while the things lasted, though now it is the true, in fact, the only, way of ~~lookin~~ thinking of them. So we in the midst of an elaborated knowledge of ~~science~~ the concrete, in the midst of science, have a difficulty in putting ourselves in the position of these philosophers, and those who are quite grimed with the concrete, like the lesser Positivists, say ~~at once~~ that their

reasonings were at once fruitless and their difficulties meaningless. But their difficulties cannot be pooh-poohed: some perhaps are really resolved, but generally they exist still. It is true that if we acknowledge the Idea now at all it is likely to be a better conception, after the knowledge of the concrete, than before that came, when they ~~only~~ knew it almost by the abstract alone—for no doubt, taking the Idea for a hand and ~~its~~ the name for a its glove left behind, then although ~~one~~ to handle it by the concrete may leave it a dry crumpled piece of skin, abstraction may as injuriously blow it out into a graceless bladdery animation; in either case the charm is gone. But if we cd. again catch the Idea in its freshness the difficulties wd. be there.

1. Inscribed on the notebook's inside front fly-leaf: 'Gerard M. Hopkins. | Notes on the history of Greek philosophy etc.'

D.XII.2

[With regard to the Idea]

With regard to the Idea before hand and after—we we may say the Idea asks us a riddle of which the question is more beautiful than the answer.

D.XII.3

[The figure shewing how the Idea can be one]

The ~~image~~ figure shewing how the Idea can be one though it exists in many is that of the sun in broken water, where the sun's face being once crossed by the ripples each one carries ~~down with its a sun~~ an image down with it ~~for~~ as its own sun; and these images are always mounting the ripples and trying to fall back into one again. We must therefore think wherever we see many things having one idea that they all are falling back or wd. fall back but are held away by their conditions, and those philosophers have very truly said everything is becoming.

D.XII.4

[The answer to Aristotle's objection]

The answer to Aristotle's objection that ~~that~~ what is complex cannot have a ~~sing~~ simple Idea (the Idea is complex because it exists in many individuals, but, if it is complex, how can it be the Idea of the individual, which is simple?) is ~~met-by~~ to ~~shewing~~ shew that what is simple may have a complex Idea; for if we know a thing well the better idea we must have of it, but if we know a man well we have a less clear image of him than if we had seen him but one or two times: in the latter case we remember one or two attitudes and these are to us his picture or words for him, in the former anything will recall him, a place one has seen with him, a phrase of his, a book of his, the idea having in a sense taken these things into it as part of itself: and even his ~~image is r~~ body, seen in every light and on every side, cannot give a same picture, and yet it must give the fullest and truest.

D.XII.5

Feb. 9, 1868¹

All words mean either things or relations of things: you may also say then substances or attributes or again wholes or parts. Eg. man and quarter.

To every word meaning a thing and not a relation belongs a passion or prepossession or enthusiasm wh. it has the power of suggesting or producing but not always or in everyone. This not always refers to its evolution in the man and ~~in man~~ secondly in man historically.

The latter element may be called for convenience the prepossession of a word. It is in fact the form, but there are reasons for being cautious in using form here, and it bears a valuable analogy to the soul, one however wh. is not complete, because all names but proper names ~~being~~ are general while the soul is individual.

Since every definition is the definition of a word and every word may be considered as the contraction or coinciding-point of its definitions we may for convenience use word and definition with a certain freedom of interchange.

A word then has three terms belonging to it, ὅροι {terms}, or moments—its prepossession of feeling; its definition, abstraction, vocal expression or other utterance; and its application, "extension", the concrete things coming under it.

It is plain that of these only one in propriety is the word; the third is not a word but a thing meant by it, the first is not a word but something connotatively meant by it, the nature of which is further to be explored.

But not even the whole field of the middle term is covered by the word. For the word is the expression, uttering of the idea in the mind. That idea itself has its two terms, the image (of sight or sound or scapes of the other senses), which is in fact physical and a refined energy² accenting the nerves, a word to oneself, an inchoate word, and secondly the conception.

The mind has two kinds of energy,³ a transitional kind, when one thought or sensation follows another, wh. is ~~either active~~ to reason, whether actively as in deliberation, criticism, or passively, so to call it, as in reading etc; (ii) an abiding kind for which I remember no name, in which the mind is absorbed (as far as that may be), taken up, by, dwells upon, enjoys, a single thought: we may call it contemplation, but it includes pleasures, supposing they, however turbid, do not require a transition to another term of another kind, for contemplation in its absoluteness is impossible unless in a trance and it is enough for the mind to repeat the same energy on the same matter.

Art exacts this energy of contemplation but also the other one, and in fact they are not incompatible, for even in the successive arts as music, for full enjoyment, the synthesis of the succession shd. give, unlock, the contemplative enjoyment of the unity of the whole. It is however true that in the successive arts with their greater complexity and length the whole's unity retires, is less important, serves rather for the framework of that of the parts.

The more intellectual, less physical, the spell of contemplation the more complex must be the object, the more close and elaborate must be the comparison the mind has to keep making betw. the whole and the parts, the parts and the whole. For this reference of or comparison is what the sense of unity means; mere sense that such a thing is one and not two has no interest or value except accidentally.

Works of art of course like words utter the idea and in representing ~~true~~ real things ~~express~~ convey the prepossession with more or less success.

The further in anything, as a work of art, the organisation is carried out, the deeper the form penetrates, the prepossession flushes the matter, the more effort will be required in apprehension, the more power of comparison, ~~wh.~~ the more capacity for receiving that synthesis of (either successive or spatially-distinct) impressions wh. gives

us ~~the prepossession in~~ the unity with the prepossession conveyed by it.

The saner moreover is the act of contemplation as contemplating that wh. really is expressed in the object.

But some minds prefer that the prepossession they are to receive shd. be conveyed by the least organic, expressive, by the most suggestive, way. By this means the prepossession and the definition, uttering, are distinguished and unwound, wh. is the less sane attitude.

Along with this preference for the disengaged and unconditioned ~~conveyan~~ prepossession in these minds is often found an intellectual attraction for very sharp and pure dialectic or, in other matter, hard and telling art-forms; in fact we have in them the two axes on wh. rhetoric turns.

1. Published in *Journals*, ed. House and Storey, 125–6.
2. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'That is when ~~first~~ deliberately formed or when a thought is recalled, for when produced by sensation from without or when as in dreams etc it presents itself unbidden it comes from the involuntary working of nature' (fo. 5').
3. See note for D.VII.5 regarding John Grote's *Exploratio Philosophica*.

D.XII.6¹

Xenophanes²

Xenophanes—date uncertain; but he mentioned Pythagoras³ and is sneered at by Heracleitus.⁴ He came fr. Colophon and is universally called founder of the Eleatic school though it is only said that he lived at Zancle and Catana: he wrote verses however in honour of the founding of Elea by the Phocaeans⁵

He attacks Homer and Hesiod for anthropomorphism and worse.⁶ Horses wd. paint their gods (“καί κε θεῶν ιδέας ἔγραφον”⁷ {they would draw the figures of gods}) like horses and oxen like oxen

God (but he seems to say it of Being $\epsilon\tau$ — “εἴ τι ἔστι” {if something exists}) cannot γενέσθαι {have come into being} $\text{ἢ}\epsilon\tau$ ³, for it must be from like or unlike—not fr. unlike, for if better came fr. worse etc or worse fr. better “τὸ οὐκ ὄν ἐξ-~~ον~~ ἐξ ὄντος ἂν γενέσθαι” {the non-existent would arise from the existent}, nor from like, for why shd. it “τεκνωθῆναι μᾶλλον ἢ τεκνώσαι”? {have been begotten rather than beget} since real equals or likes must have absolutely the same relation to each other⁸

There can be but one God, for God is *κράτιστος* {most powerful} and there can be but one ~~such~~ *κράτιστος*. “τοῦτο γὰρ θεὸν καὶ θεοῦ δύναμιν εἶναι, κρατεῖν ἀλλὰ μὴ κρατεῖσθαι καὶ πάντα κράτιστον εἶναι· ὥστε καθὸ μὴ κρείττων κατὰ τοσοῦτον οὐκ εἶναι θεόν”⁹ {For this is what god and god’s nature is: to master and not to be mastered, and to be the strongest with respect to all things. So that insofar as he were not the strongest, to this extent he would not be god.}

For much the same reason He must be flush (“οὗλος ὁρᾷ οὗλος δὲ νοεῖ οὗλος δέ τ’ ἀκούει”—Sext. Emp. prob. fr. Xenoph.)⁷ {whole he sees, whole he thinks, and whole he hears}, “εἰ γὰρ μὴ κρατεῖν ἂν καὶ κρατεῖσθαι ὑπ’ ἀλλήλων τὰ μέρη θεοῦ ὄντα, ὅπερ ἀδύνατον, πάντη δ’ ὅμοιον ὄντα σφαιροειδῆ εἶναι, οὐ γὰρ τῇ μὲν τῇ δ’ οὗ τοιοῦτον ~~ἔντα~~ εἶναι ἀλλὰ πάντη,”¹¹ {for if this were not so, the parts of god would rule and be ruled by one another; which is impossible. Being alike in all parts he is spherical, for he cannot be of such a nature in one part but not in another, but (must be of such a nature) in every part} on wh. thought Ar[istotle] says that he is “εἰς τὸν ὅλον οὐρανὸν ἀποβλέψας τὸ ἓν ἐν εἰναί φησι τὸν θεόν”¹² {with regard to the whole universe he says that the one is god}

God eternal (*αἰδῖος*), one, and spherelike is neither boundedless nor ~~un~~bounded (“οὐτ’ ἄπειρον εἶναι οὔτε πεπεράσθαι”¹³) {neither limited nor unlimited}—not ~~un~~boundedless, because it is not-being that is boundless, having neither beginning, middle, nor end; not bounded, because it is the many that are bounded, limiting one another: the one has nothing to limit it (“περαίνειν δὲ πρὸς ἄλληλα εἰ πλείω εἶεν, τὸ δὲ ἓν ἐν οὔτε τῷ οὐκ ὄντι οὔτε τοῖς πολλοῖς ὁμοιοῦσθαι, ἐν γὰρ οὐκ ἔχει πρὸς ὅ τι περανεῖ”¹⁴) {If being were many, then the many would limit one another, but the one is similar neither to what is not nor to the many, for <being one> it does not have anything in relation to which it will have a limit}

So too He neither moves nor is ~~at rest~~ unmoved—is not at rest, because it is not-being that is immoveable, for moving needs terms and not-being can go to nothing nor anything come to it; does not move, because it is the many that move, to and from one another. He says He “ἐν τωὐτω .. μένει” {remains in the same place} by a rest transcending rest and motion (“κατὰ τὴν” ἡρεμίαν “ἀπὸ κινήσεως καὶ ἡρεμίας ἐξηρημένην”¹⁵ {at rest as the state which is deprived of motion and rest}

Air above and earth beneath are boundless (“ἄπειρον τό τε βάθος τῆς γῆς καὶ τοῦ ἀέρος”¹⁶) {the depth of the earth and air are unlimited}. ~~It seems likely th~~ From shells and fossils found on land he argued the earth has risen from the water¹⁷

1. The scholarly editing and notes for D.XII.6 are the work of Dr. Ross G. Arthur
2. For a roughly contemporary discussion of Xenophanes, see George Grote, *Plato*, i. 16–9; for more recent views, and a guide to intervening scholarship, see J. H. Lesher, ed. and trans., *Xenophanes of Colophon, Fragments: A Text and Translation with a Commentary* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 1992). To assist further textual studies, references are provided, as appropriate, to Ritter and Preller, *Historia Philosophiae Graecae*, (1st edn. 1838; 2nd edn. 1857,) (cited by excerpt number and line); to J. M. Edmonds, ed. and trans, *Elegy and Iambus: Part I: Elegiac Poets from Callinus to Critias* (Cambridge Mass.: Harvard University Press, 1931), cited by page number; to Hermann Diels, *Die Fragmente der Vorsokratiker: Griechisch und Deutsch*, ed. Walther Kranz (Berlin: Weidmann, 1954), cited by fragment number, as D–K; to Kathleen Freeman, *Ancilla to the Pre-Socratic Philosophers: A Complete Translation of the Fragments in Diels' 'Fragmente der Vorsokratiker'* (Oxford: Basil Blackwell, 1948) (cited by page number); and to Lesher (cited by page number). Except as noted, translations are based on Lesher, adapted to suit GMH's readings.
3. 'Concerning his (Pythagoras)' having become another person at another time Xenophanes bears witness in an elegy, the beginning of which is, "Now I will come to yet another account, and I will show the way." That which he says of him (Pythagoras) goes as follows "And they say that once as he was passing by a puppy being beaten, / he felt compassion and said this: / 'Stop, don't beat it, since in truth it is the soul of a friend / which I recognized upon hearing it cry out.'" Diogenes Laertius, *Lives of the Philosophers* 8.36; D–K, 21 B7; Edmonds, 196–7; Lesher, 18–9 and 78. Lesher argues that Xenophanes might be ridiculing not Pythagoras' belief in metempsychosis but simply his claim to recognize the soul of a dear friend in a particular dog. R&P quote nothing from Xenophanes about Pythagoras, limiting themselves to a brief note saying that he mentions him.
4. 'Much learning does not teach one to have intelligence; for it would have taught Hesiod and Pythagoras, and again, Xenophanes and Hecateus' (trans. Freeman 27). R&P, 30; D–K, 22 B40. In connection with Xenophanes, R&P note only that Heraclitus mentions him; GMH's words 'sneered at' show knowledge of this fragment.
5. R&P, 129 note; D–K, 21 A1; Lesher, 196.
6. 'Homer and Hesiod have attributed to the gods / all sorts of things which are matters of reproach and censure among men: / theft, adultery, and mutual deceit.' R&P, 132; Edmonds, 200; D–K, 21 B11; Lesher, 23.
7. R&P, 133.7; Edmonds, 200; D–K, 21 B15.4; Freeman, 22; Lesher, 24–5: 'But if horses or oxen or lions had hands / or could draw with their hands and accomplish such works as men, / horses would draw the figures of the gods as similar to horses, and the oxen as similar to oxen, / and they would make the bodies / of the sort which each of them had.'
8. GMH relied heavily on a text which at the time was generally known as Aristotle, *On Xenophanes, Zeno and Gorgias*. Doubts about its authenticity were raised as early as 1861, and by 1888, Schultess and Wellmann in their revision of R&P were confident in asserting that it was not by Aristotle at all and that its subjects were Melissus, Xenophanes, and Gorgias. For modern views, see Lesher 192–4. The quotations in this paragraph come from *On Xenophanes* 977a14–22; with minor but significant variations and suggested emendations, they may be found in R&P, 134; Hett, 483; D–K, 21 A28, section 3; and Lesher, 204. The cancelled 'ἐξ ου' (perhaps 'ἐξ ου') occurs at the precise point where most editors have felt the need to emend because of a gap in the sense of the Greek.

9. *On Xenophanes* 977a27–9; R&P, 135.5–7; Hett, 483; D–K, 21 A28.3.3; Leshner, 205.
10. R&P, 136 note; Edmonds, 206; D–K, 21 B24; Freeman, 23; Leshner, 31. GMH's caution in saying 'probably from Xenophanes' reflects the fact (noted by R&P) that Xenophanes' name is not explicitly associated with this poetic line, although prose paraphrases in Aristotle and Diogenes Laertius vouch for its authenticity. Edmonds translates 'is all eye, all mind, all ear.'
11. *On Xenophanes* 977a38–b2; R&P 136.3–6; Hett, 485; D–K, 21 A28.3.6–7; Leshner, 205. The accented *oŷ* is GMH's modification of the original, perhaps unconscious, and shows increased stress on the opposition between 'in one part' and 'not in another'.
12. Aristotle, *Metaphysics* 986b; R&P, 137.17–8; Tredennick, 39; D–K, 21 A30; Leshner, 211.
13. *On Xenophanes* 977b3; R&P, 137.1–2; Hett, 485; D–K, 21 A28.3.8; Leshner, 205. The form *πεπεράσθαι* is found in the first edition of R&P, but has been changed to *πεπεράνθαι* in all later editions.
14. *On Xenophanes* 977b6–8; R&P, 137.6–8; Hett, 485; D–K, 21 A28.3.8; Leshner, 205.
15. R&P, 138.17–20; D–K, 21 B26; Edmonds, 206; Freeman, 23; Leshner, 32–3. The fuller context of the *testimonium* (D–K, 21 A31.7; Leshner, 212) makes things a little clearer: 'So also when he says that it remains in the same place and does not move, "... always he abides in the same place, not moving at all, / nor is it seemly for him to travel to different places at different times," he does not mean that it remains at rest as the state of being opposite to movement, but only that it is deprived of motion and rest.'
16. *On Melissus* 976a32; Hett 477; D–K, 30 A5.2.21; not in Leshner; the translation here follows Hett.
17. D–K, 21 A33; Leshner, 213–4.

D.XII.7

Parmenides¹

Parmenides—citizen and lawgiver of Elea, perhaps disciple of Xenophanes, visited Athens acc[ording] to Plato when Socrates was a very young man (he was born in 468) in ~~to~~ company with Zeno and was then 65

His great text, which he repeats with religious conviction, is that Being is and ~~n~~Not-being is not—which perhaps one can say, a little over-defining his meaning, ~~he~~ means that all things are upheld by instress and are meaningless without it. An undetermined ~~idealism~~ Pantheist idealism runs through the fragments which makes it hard to translate them satisfactorily in a subjective or in a wholly outward sense. His feeling for instress, for the flush and foredrawn, and for inscape/is most striking and from this one can understand Plato's reverence for him as the great father of Realism

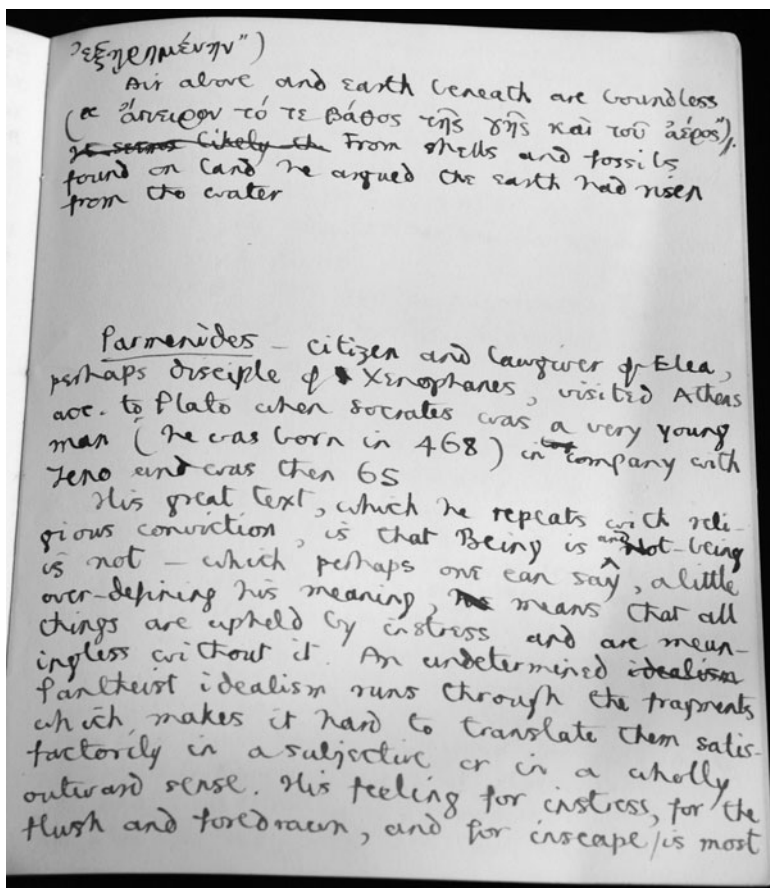


Figure 9. From D.XII.7, 'Parmenides'
 From the Hopkins Archive, Campion Hall, Oxford

ἡ μὲν <ὁδὸς διζήσιος>, ὅπως ἔστι τε καὶ ὡς οὐκ ἔστι μὴ εἶναι,
 πειθοὺς ἔστι κέλευθος, ἀληθείᾳ³ γὰρ ὁπηδεῖ,
 (it is therefore in part a matter of dialectic)
 ἡ δ', ὡς οὐκ ἔστι τε καὶ ὡς χρεὼν ἔστι μὴ εἶναι,
 τὴν δὴ τοι φράζω παναπειθέα ἔμμεν ἀταρπόν.
 οὔτε γὰρ ἂν γνοίης τὸό γε μὴ εἶναι, οὐ γὰρ ἔφικτόν,
 οὔτε φράσαις.⁴

{the one <way of inquiry> that IT IS, and it is not possible for IT NOT TO BE,
 is the way of credibility, for it follows Truth; the other, that IT IS NOT, and that

IT IS bound NOT TO BE: this I tell you is a path that cannot be explored; for you could neither recognise that which IS NOT, for it is not attainable, nor express it.}

ἐστι may roughly be expressed by things are or there is truth. Grammatically it = it is or there is. But indeed I have often felt when I have been in this mood and felt the depth of an instress or how fast the inscape holds a thing that nothing is so pregnant and straightforward to the truth as simple yes and is. 'Thou couldst never either know or say/ a ~~thing that~~ what was not, there wd. be no coming at it.'⁵ No There wd. be no bridge, no stem of stress between us and things to bear us out and carry the mind over: without⁶ stress we might not and could not say/ Blood is red / but only / This blood is red / or / The last blood I saw was red / nor even that, for in later language not only universals would not be true but the copula wd. break down even in particular judgments. He goes on—

χρή σε λέγειν τε νοεῖν τ' ἐὼν ἔμμεναι. ἐστι γὰρ εἶναι

μηδὲν δ' οὐκ εἶναι. τά τε σὲ φράζεσθαι ἄνωγα.⁷

{You should both say and think that Being Is; for To Be is possible, and Nothingness is not possible. This I command you to consider.}

Of being

Of being he says—

ἀγένητον ἐὼν καὶ ἀνώλεθρόν ἐστιν,

οὐλον μουνογενές τε καὶ ἀτρεμές ἡδ' ἀτάλαντον.

“(a conjecture—ἀτέλεστον, ἀτέλευτον, ἀγένητον in the books)—

(a conjecture—ἀτέλεστον, ἀτέλευτον, ἀγένητον in the MSS⁸)

οὐδέ ποτ' ἦν οὐδ' ἔσται, ἐπεὶ νῦν ἐστιν ὁμοῦ πάν,

ἐν συνεχῆς.⁷

{<Being> has no coming-into-being and no destruction, for it is whole of limb, without motion, and in equipoise. And it never Was, nor Will Be, because it Is now, a Whole all together, One, continuous}

It cd. not come from not-being nor can being come from being. ~~Again~~

οὐδέ ποτ' ἐκ τοῦ ἐόντος ἐφήσει πίστοσιος ἴσχυς

γίνεσθαι τι παρ' αὐτό/

'Nor yet is there any force of faith will grant that from Being ~~anything~~ can ever come anything side by side with it.'¹⁰

It is the unextended, foredrawn—~~'Look at it though absent yet as to thought fast present here to thought; for that <absence> will not break~~

~~Being off from holding on by Being—not make it <a thing> that scattered here, there, and everywhere through the world nor that gathers up <from many quarters>’~~

‘Look at it, though ^xabsent, yet to the mind’s eye as fast ^xpresent here; for absence cannot break B off Being from its hold on Being: it is not a thing to scatter here, there, and everywhere through all the world nor to come together from here and there and everywhere’ . . .¹¹

οὐδὲ διαίρετόν ἐστιν, ἐπεὶ πᾶν ἐστιν ὁμοῖον,

οὐδέ τί πῃ¹² μᾶλλον, τό κεν εἴργοι μιν συνέχεσθαι

(σ. || = ‘from foredrawing’).

οὐδέ τι χειρότερον, πᾶν γὰρ πλεόν ἐστιν ἐόντος,

*τῷ συνεχές πᾶν ἐστιν, ἐὼν γὰρ ἐόντι πελάζει.*¹³

(. . . ‘for Being draws-home to Being’).

{Nor is Being divisible, since it is all alike. Nor is there anything anywhere which could prevent it from holding together, nor any lesser thing, for all is full of Being. Therefore it is altogether continuous; for Being is close to Being.}

It is

ἀναρχον, ἄπαυστον, ἐπεὶ γένεσις καὶ ὄλεθρος

τῇλε μάλ’ ἐπλάγχθησαν, ἀπώσε δὲ πίστις ἀληθείης—

{without beginning, without cease, since Becoming and Destruction have been driven very far away, and true conviction has rejected them.}

‘. . . are beside wh. almost = ‘. . . are beside the question: unerring faith puts ~~them~~ such things by’¹⁴—shewing the mixture of real with logical in the thought—‘and it lies by itself the selfsame thing abiding in the selfsame place: so it abides, steadfast there; for strong Necessity has it in the bonds of that bound that guards it all about. And this is ~~may~~ why it is not lawful to call Being without end (*ἀτελεύτητον*); for ~~it~~ Being needs nothing and ~~then~~ if it were so it wd. need all’¹⁵ (the reading however is here corrupt).¹⁶

He compares it like Xenophanes¹⁷ to ~~the~~ a ball rounded true and may very well mean this as an analogy merely, especially as the comparison is to the s outline and surface¹⁸ rather than to the inner ~~temper~~ flushness, the temper and equality of weight. It cannot be greater or less in one place than another, he says,

οὔτε γὰρ οὐκ ἐόν ἐστι, τό κεν παύοι μιν εἰκέσθαι

*εἰς ὁμόν,*¹⁹

{nor is there Not-Being which could check it from reaching to the same point}

(Not-being is here seen as want of oneness, all that is unfordrawn, waste space which offers either nothing to the eye to foredraw or many things foredrawing away from one another)

οὐτ' ἔόν ἐστιν ὅπως εἴη κεν ἔόντος
τῇ μάλλον τῇ δ' ἥσσον, ἐπεὶ πᾶν ἐστιν ἄσυλον.²⁰

{nor is it possible for Being to be more in this direction, less in that, than Being, because it is an inviolate whole}

Being and knowing To be and to know or Being and thought are the same. The truth in thought is Being, stress, and each word is one way of acknowledging Being and each sentence by its copula *is* (or its equivalent) the utterance and assertion of it.

ταῦτόν δ' ἐστὶ νοεῖν καὶ οὐνεκὲν ἐστὶ νόημα.
οὐ γὰρ ἄνευ τοῦ ἔόντος ἐν ᾧ πεφασισμένον ἐστιν
εὐρήσεις τὸ νοεῖν.²¹

{To think is the same as the thought that It Is; for you will not find thinking without Being, in (*regard to*) which there is an expression.}

(“ἐν ᾧ π. ἐ.” [ἐν ᾧ πεφασισμένον ἐστιν] Ritter and Preller translate “in quo enuntiatum est sive a quo quid cogitatur”²² {about which something is said or by means of which it is conceived}, referring it to the subject. Perhaps it ~~will~~ wd. be better referred to the object and Parm. ~~wd.~~ will say that the mind’s grasp—*νοεῖν*²³, the foredrawing act—that this is blood or that blood is red is ~~not~~ to be looked for in Being, the fore-drawn, alone, not in the thing we named blood or the blood we worded as being red. *φατίζεσθαι*²⁴ is to ‘give it a name’, to come out with something, to word or put a thought or thing.) Everything else is but a name (“τῷ πάντ’ ὄνομ’ ἐστίν”) or disguise for it—coming to be or perishing, Yes and No (“εἶναί τε καὶ οὐκί”), change of place, change of colour.²⁵

The way men judge in particular is determined for each by his own inscape, which depends on the mingling of the two elements, those in which the heat-principle predominates having the finer wits, “οὐ μὴν ἀλλὰ καὶ ταύτην <διάνοιαν> δεῖσθαι τινος συμμετρίας” Theophrastus says (de sens. 3) {yet even such knowledge requires a certain proportion} and then he quotes—

ὥς γὰρ ἕκαστος ἔχει κρᾶσιν μελέων πολυκάμπτων [or “~~ἐκαστῶ~~ ἐκάστω . . κρᾶσις”]

τὼς νόος ἀνθρώποισι παρέστηκεν· τὸ γὰρ αὐτὸ²⁶
ἐστιν ὅπερ φρονέει μελέων φύσις ἀνθρώποισιν
καὶ πᾶσιν καὶ παντί· τὸ γὰρ πλεόν ἐστὶ νόημα²⁷

(‘According to the matching of his members / with the thousand turns they take / so for each man is the thought the man will think, for the sense that lives in this frame man wears is only the seeing of one selfsame thing—one thing ~~selfsame~~ for all men and for every man: <there are ten thousand ~~thin~~ men to think and ten thousand things for them to think of but they are but names given and taken, eye and lip service to the truth, husks and scapes of it: the truth itself, the burl,> the fulness is the thought’)²⁸. For the phenomenal world (and the distinction between ~~man~~ men or subjects and the things without them is unimportant in Parmenides: the contrast is between the one ~~and the~~ and the many) is the brink, limbus, lapping, run-and-mingle / of two principles which meet in the scape of everything—probably Being, under its modification or siding of particular oneness or Being, and Not-being, under its siding of the Many. The two may be called two degrees of siding in the scale of Being. Foreshortening and equivalency will explain all possible difference. The inscape will be the proportion of the mixture.

Materially the two principles are fire and earth or, as he puts it, ‘ethery flame of fire, comforting the heart <he is thinking of it perhaps as a vital principle>, marvellously subtle, throughout one with itself, not one with the other’²⁹ and ‘unmeaning (*ἄδαῆ*) night, thick and wedged body’³⁰—which makes Ar[istotle] say that he “*δύο τὰς ἀρχὰς καὶ δύο τὰς αἰτίας πάλιν τίθησι, θερμὸ αἰτίας καὶ δύο τὰς ἀρχὰς τίθησι, θερμὸν καὶ ψυχρόν, οἷον πῦρ καὶ γῆν λέγων. τούτων δὲ κατὰ μὲν τὸ ὄν τὸ θερμὸν τάττει, θατερόν δὲ κατὰ τὸ μὴ ὄν*”.³¹ {He posits in his turn two causes, *i.e.* two first principles, Hot and Cold; or in other words, Fire and Earth. Of these he ranks Hot under Being and the other under Not-Being.} It is remarkable that he himself speaks of these as conventional, men’s names for things, and one of them, body, as wrongly given. Ar[istotle] says “*τὸ ἐν μὲν κατὰ τὸν λόγον, πλείω δὲ κατὰ τὴν αἴσθησιν ὑπολαμβάνων εἶναι δύο τὰς*”³² {assuming that Being is one in definition but many in respect of sensation} etc as above, but he assumes Parmenides’ One to be a oneness of inlay³³ only. Melissus “*ἐν τοῖς πρὸς ἀλήθειαν ἐν εἶναι λέγων τὸ ὄν ἐν τοῖς πρὸς δόξαν δύο φησὶν εἶναι τὰς ἀρχὰς τῶν ὄντων, πῦρ καὶ ὕδωρ*”³⁴ {in the section on truth, saying that Being is one, in the part on opinion he says that there are two first principles of what exists, fire and water}.

His cosmology was a system of concentric (?) *στεφάναι*³⁵ {rings}, spheres or cylinders, ranging ~~in material~~ between fire and night, governed by a spirit (*δαίμων*)³⁶ in the midst, also called Justice

or Necessity. This spirit was the cause of the gods, creating Love first—by which he clearly allegorises. ~~This and~~ The beginning of Empedocles' clashing of like and unlike may be seen in this spirit's mixing of male with female to make the world,³⁷ and of his theory of sensation by like and like in Parmenides' saying that the corpse which can no longer feel heat, because the fire has left it, feels cold, silence etc. “καὶ ὅλως δὲ πᾶν τὸ ὄν ἔχειν τινα γυνῶσιν”³⁸ (Theophrastus)

Men, he thought, had sprung from the slime³⁹

1. The scholarly editing and notes for D.XII.7 are the work of Dr. Ross G. Arthur.
2. The full 'textual archaeology' of this essay, to which these notes must be regarded as a preface, has yet to be written. GMH's paragraphing closely follows the excerpt divisions in the first edition of Ritter and Preller, *Historia Philosophiae Graecae* (1838), and he quotes one of its Latin paraphrases. He made extensive use of the textual apparatus in R&P, and perhaps of other sources as well; in one case, he seems to have made a conscious emendation; there are also some clear errors. House and Storey, in the belief that he relied on the second edition, sometimes alter GMH's Greek to correspond to R&P 2 and sometimes fault him for not following it closely enough. In combination with some other small slips, editorial choices, and brief comments, this has had the unfortunate effect of obscuring GMH's working procedures and the degree of his involvement in the material. References here are to R&P 1, cited by excerpt number and line number; to Diels-Kranz, cited by fragment number and line number; and to Freeman, cited by page; translations are based on Freeman, supplemented by David Gallop, *Parmenides of Elea* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 1984), minimally altered to reflect the differences between D-K, which served as the base text for both Freeman and Gallop, and the forms GMH wrote.
3. R&P write ἀληθείη γὰρ ὀπηρεῖ, 'truth follows it'; GMH's dative form, which makes the words mean 'it follows truth', is in the wrong dialect, but later editors concur with his grammatical choice: D-K write Ἀληθείῃ γὰρ ὀπηρεῖ. House and Storey follow R&P.
4. R&P, 144.41–46; D-K, 28 B2.3–8; Freeman, 42.
5. GMH's translation, 'coming at', highlights the preposition + root force of the verbal root of ἐφικτόν, ἐφικνέομαι, 'to reach at, to extend, to come upon'; later editors choose the reading ἀνυστόν, 'practicable', from Simplicius, in preference to Proclus's ἐφικτόν.
6. GMH began to write 'we' but altered the 'e' to an 'i' for 'without'.
7. R&P, 144.47–8; D-K, 28 B6.1–2; Freeman, 43. Later editors restore the MS reading χρῆ τὸ λέγειν; the interpretation of this fragment is extremely controversial: see Gallop 61 and Charles H. Kahn, *The Verb 'Be' in Ancient Greek* (Dordrecht: Reidel, 1973), 294 n. 57.
8. R&P routinely use the abbreviation 'Libb.' (= Latin Libri, 'books') in the *apparatus criticus* to refer to readings from incunabula rather than recent editions; GMH seems to have cancelled the entire line in order to replace 'books' with the more expected 'MSS'.
9. R&P, 145.60–3; D-K, 28 B8.3–6; Freeman, 43. ἀτάλαντον, 'in equipoise', shows traces of revision; later editors settled on ἀτέλευτον, 'without end'. R&P 2 accepts Karsten's emendation of the beginning of this line to οὐ ποτ' ἔην; later editors do not. House and Storey follow GMH.

10. R&P, 145.69–70, D–K, 28 B8.12–13; Freeman, 43. GMH has misplaced the accent (*ἰσχυς*); House and Storey print the orthographically correct form *ισχύς*. On the verso of the preceding leaf GMH notes that the first line of the text he quotes does not replicate any of forms found in different manuscripts of Simplicius's *Commentary on Aristotle's Physics*, but is based on an editorial emendation: “‘ἐκ τοῦ’ is Karsten's conj[ecture]. Simplicius' quotations give “ἐκ γε μὴ” and “ἐκ μὴ”.’ This fact is appropriately noted in the *apparatus criticus* to R&P. D–K restore the negative ‘μὴ’, which is why Freeman's translation reads ‘Nor will the force of credibility ever admit that anything should come into being, beside Being itself, out of Not-Being’.
11. Λεῦσσε δ' ὅμως ἀπείοντα νόῳ παρεόντα βεβαίως / οὐ γὰρ ἀποτμήξει τὸ ἐὸν τοῦ ἔντος ἔχθεσθαι, / οὔτε σκιδνάμενον πάντῃ πάντως κατὰ κόσμον / οὔτε συνιστάμενον. R&P, 146.73–6; D–K, 28 B4; Freeman, 42; the corrected, uncanceled version is written on the verso of the preceding leaf, along with a note: “ἀπέεόντα, παρέεόντα—I suppose the acc[usative] sing[ular] masculine to make it personal’. As House and Storey note (*Journals*, 344), ἀπείοντα and παρεόντα are better read as identically-spelled accusative neuter plural forms, ‘things far off’ and ‘things near by.’ The version printed by House and Storey includes an emendation from R&P 2 (ἀποτμήξῃ for ἀποτμήξει) which was not accepted by later editors. Freeman translates: ‘Observe nevertheless how things absent are securely present to the mind; for it will not sever Being from its connection with Being, whether it is scattered everywhere utterly throughout the universe, or whether it is collected together.’
12. House and Storey's note (344) ‘R & P here give τῇ in the text’ is true only of R&P 2; R&P 1 read ‘πῇ’; the cancelled ῇ shows that GMH was paying close attention to this word, ‘anywhere’.
13. R&P, 146.83–6, D–K, 28 B8.22–25; Freeman, 44. GMH's ‘foredrawing’ = Parmenides's συνέχεσθαι = Freeman's ‘holding together’ and the cognate συνεχές = Freeman's ‘continuous’. GMH's ‘draws-home’ = Parmenides's πελάζει = Freeman's ‘is close to’.
14. R&P, 146.88–9, D–K, 28 B8.27–28; Freeman, 44. Parmenides' πίστις ἀληθής = GMH's ‘unerring faith’ = Freeman's ‘true conviction’; Parmenides' ἀπόωσ = GMH's ‘puts . . . by’ = Freeman's ‘has rejected’. GMH's iambic tetrameter preserves the preposition + root structure of the Greek verb; its treatment of the aorist as gnomic rather than preterite maintains the timelessness of the underlying thought.
15. ‘τῶτόν τ' ἐν τῶντῳ τε μένον καθ' ἑωυτὸ τε κείται / οὕτως ἔμπεδον αἰθι μένει· κρατερὴ γὰρ ἀνάγκη / πείρατος ἐν δεσμοῖσιν ἔχει, τό μιν ἀμφίς ἔεργει. / οὐνεκεν οὐκ ἀτελεύτητον τὸ ἐὸν θέμις εἶναι / ἐστὶ γὰρ οὐκ ἐπιδυεύς· ἐὸν γὰρ αἶν παντὸς ἐδεῖτο.’ R&P, 146.90–4, D–K, 28 B8.29–33; Freeman, 44. Freeman translates: ‘And remaining the same in the same place, it rests by itself and thus remains there fixed; for powerful Necessity holds it in the bonds of a Limit, which constrains it round about, because it is decreed by divine law that Being shall not be without boundary. For it is not lacking; but if it were (*spatially infinite*), it would be lacking everything.’
16. The textual corruption affects only the last six words of the passage.
17. *On Xenophanes* 977b1; R&P, 137.2; D–K, 21 A28.8; Leshner 205.
18. Αὐτὰρ ἐπεὶ πείρας πύματον τετελεσμένον ἐστίν, / πάντοθεν εὐκύκλου σφαίρης ἐναλίγκιον ὄγκῳ / μεσσόθεν ἰσοπαλές πάντῃ’ R&P, 147.103–5; D–K, 28 B8.41–3; Freeman, 44. Freeman translates, ‘But since there is a (*spatial*) Limit, it is complete on every side, like the mass of a well-rounded sphere, equally balanced from

its centre in every direction.' GMH apparently treated Parmenides's ὄγκω (Freeman's 'mass') as a reference to size rather than weight. Thomas Aquinas, *De Physico Auditu sive Physicorum Aristotelis Commentaria*, ed. P. Fr. Angeli and M. Priotta (Naples: M. d'Auria, 1953), 3.11, n. 748, expresses approval for Parmenides's belief in a spatially delimited universe in terms related to the centre, lines, and circumference of a sphere rather than bulk.

19. R&P, 147.107–8, D–K, 28 B8.46–47; Freeman, 44. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'The MSS read "παύη" and "ἰκνεῖσθαι". The latter word need not be displaced.' That is, he accepts the editors' decision to emend the subjunctive παύη to the optative παύοι (which, although subject to doubt, is based on solid rules of Greek syntax) but does not accept the change from the quite acceptable present infinitive ἰκνεῖσθαι (which implies continuous action of reaching towards) to the aorist infinitive ἰκέσθαι (which implies a single action of attaining the goal). D–K make the same choice as GMH, and print παύοι μιν ἰκνεῖσθαι.
20. R&P, 147.108–9, D–K, 28 B8.47–48; Freeman, 44. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'MSS "κενὸν ἐόντος" {empty of being}.' That is, where the manuscripts read κενὸν ἐόντος, editors have emended to κεν ἐόντος; the manuscript reading is in the *apparatus criticus* of R&P, but is not mentioned by D–K.
21. R&P, 148.95–7; D–K, 28 B8.34–36; Freeman, 44. GMH uncharacteristically drops the word τε from the first line, slightly weakening the correlation of the two terms of the equation and spoiling the metre: it should read '... νοεῖν τε καὶ ...'. The complexity of the interpretation of this passage is clear from Gallop 71.
22. These words are found in this form only R&P 1, in the notes to fragment 148; they are modified in R&P 2 to 'in quo enuntiatum est (i.e. quid cogitatur)'.
23. Prosaically, lexicographically, νοεῖν = 'perceive, apprehend, think, consider, conceive'.
24. This is the middle/passive infinitive form of the same verb of which πεφατισμένον (above) is the perfect passive participle; not surprisingly, GMH's translations go beyond those of the lexicographers.
25. R&P, 148.99–102: τῷ πάντ' ὄνομ' ἐστίν, / ὅσσα βροτοὶ κατέθεντο, πεποιθότες εἶναι ἀληθῆ, / γίνεσθαι τε καὶ ὀλλυσθαι, εἶναί τε καὶ οὐκί, / καὶ τόπον ἀλλάσειν, διὰ τε χροῖα φανὸν ἀμείβειν. D–K, 28 B8.38–40; Freeman, 44: 'all things that mortals have established, believing in their truth, are just a name: Becoming and Perishing, Being and Not-Being, and Change of position, and alteration of bright colour.' Parmenides's εἶναι τε καὶ οὐκί = GMH's 'Yes and No' = Freeman's 'Being and Not-Being'.
26. R&P, 152.6–9, D–K, 28 B16; Freeman, 46. GMH's note, written on the verso of the preceding leaf: 'αὐτό ἐστιν I have written for αὐτὸ ἐστίν, for which there seems no reason.' He first wrote αὐτὸ, with the grave accent that would have been required if it were followed by ἐστίν, but then changed his mind. Standard Greek grammars normally assert blithely that 'ἐστι is written ἐστι . . . when it expresses existence or possibility' (Smyth's *Greek Grammar* (1876)) or 'Ἔστι . . . when it signifies *existence* or *possibility*, becomes ἔστι' (Goodwin and Gulick's *Greek Grammar* (1930)). The question of which examples of the word assert existence and which do not bedevils all Parmenidean scholars, and GMH is as engaged as any; the distinction between ἐστι and ἔστι, however, is a purely modern convention, invented by Gottfried Hermann in 1801; see Charles H. Kahn, *The Verb 'Be' in Ancient Greek* (Dordrecht: Reidel, 1973), Appendix A, 'On the Accent

- of ἐστι and its Position in the Sentence', 420–34, at 420. House and Storey's typographical error (ἐτσιν) makes their note completely confusing.
27. GMH begins by citing the *testimonium* of Theophrastus, *On the Senses* (R&P, 153, in the notes; D–K, 28 A46); when he reaches the embedded quotation of Parmenides he follows the version from Aristotle (R&P, 153.147–9), rather than the version of Theophrastus, in which the first line reads *ὥς γὰρ ἐκάστω ἔχει κῥᾶσις μελέων πολυπλάγκτων* (R&P, 153 *apparatus criticus*). The note in House and Storey 344 is compressed to the point of incomprehensibility; furthermore, it refers to the lexical difference (between *πολυκάμπτων*, 'much-turning', and *πολυπλάγκτων*, 'much-wandering') which GMH does *not* mention, rather than to the grammatical difference (*ἐκαστος* ... *κῥᾶσιν* as opposed to *ἐκάστω* ... *κῥᾶσις*) which GMH notes.
 28. Freeman: 'For according to the mixture of much-wandering (reading, with D–K, *πολυπλάγκτων*) limbs which each man has, so is the mind which is associated with mankind: for it is the same thing which thinks, namely the constitution of the limbs in men, all and individually; for it is excess which makes Thought.'
 29. 'φλογὸς αἰθέριον πῦρ / ἡπιόφρον, μέγ' ἀραιόν, ἔωυτῶ πάντοσε ταυτόν, / τῷ δ' ἑτέρω μὴ ταυτόν.' R&P, 149.117–9; D–K, 28 B8.56–8; Freeman, 45. The word *ἡπιόφρον* (GMH's 'comforting the heart') is, alas, a conjecture of Preller's which has not found favour with later editors.
 30. 'νύκτ' ἄδαῃ, πυκινὸν δέμας ἐμβριθές τε.' R&P, 148.120; D–K, 28 B8.59; Freeman, 45. Freeman's translation, 'dark Night, a dense and heavy body', draws attention to the contrast between GMH's translation methods and those of the lexicographers. The rare word *ἄδαῃς*, –ές is glossed as 'unknowing, ignorant' for all other examples in the standard dictionary, Liddell-Scott-Jones, but unaccountably it assigns the meaning 'dark' to the example alone, despite deriving it from *ἀ-* 'un-' and *δαῶ* 'learn'. D–K translate it as 'lichtlose' and derive it from *δάος* which they gloss as 'Licht'; their further note 'nur hier in dieser Bedeutung (?)' is perhaps insufficiently sceptical. GMH, characteristically, maintains the internal structure, the etymology, and the poetry of the word.
 31. R&P, 149 note; D–K, 28 A24; Aristotle, *Metaphysics* 987a (trans. Tredennick 39); GMH accidentally omits *πάντων* in the uncanceled version, and misaccentuates *θάτερον*.
 32. R&P, 149.33 note; D–K, 28 A24; Aristotle, *Metaphysics* 986b (trans. Tredennick 39). These words immediately precede the previous Greek quotation; GMH stops after the definite article *τὰς*, apparently realising that he has started to repeat.
 33. House and Storey read 'inlaw'.
 34. R&P, 166.
 35. In R&P, a note to excerpt 151 points out that this word is to be understood as the subject of the first verb in the excerpt, citing a passage of Stobaeus in Latin paraphrase; R&P 2 gives the passage in Greek, in which the key word is in the accusative case, *στεφάνας*; see also D 28 A37.
 36. This *δαίμων* is marked as feminine in the Greek by the gender of the subsequent relative pronoun; R&P capitalise the word; D–K do not, but translate 'Daimon (Götting)'; Freeman uses 'goddess'.
 37. *Αἱ γὰρ στενωτέραι πυρὸς ἐκ πεποιήντ' ἀκρίτοιο, / αἱ δ' ἐπὶ τῆς νυκτός, μετὰ δὲ φλογὸς ἵεται αἶσα / ἐν δὲ μέσῳ τούτων Δαίμων, ἡ πάντα κυβερνᾷ. / παντὸς γὰρ στυγεροῖο τόκου καὶ μίξις ἀρχή, / πέμπουσ' ἄρσενι θῆλυ μιγῆναι, ἐναντία τ' αὐθις / ἄρσεν θηλυτέρῳ. / ταύτην καὶ θεῶν αἰτίαν εἶναι φησι, λέγων / πρῶτιστον μὲν Ἔρωτα θεῶν μητίσαστο πάντων. / καὶ τὰς ψυχὰς πέμπειν ποτὲ μὲν ἐκ τοῦ ἐμφανοῦς εἰς τὸ ἀειδές, ποτὲ δὲ ἀνάπαλιν φησιν.* R&P, 151.127–36 (with typographical errors

- of accentuation silently corrected); D-K, 28 B12-13; Freeman, 45. "For the narrower rings were made of unmixed Fire, and those next to them of Night, but between (*these*) rushes the portion of flame. And in the centre of these is the goddess who guides everything; for throughout she rules over cruel Birth and Mating, sending the female to mate with the male, and conversely again the male with the female." And he says that she is also the cause of gods, saying, "First of all gods she devised Love." And he says that she at one time sends souls out of the visible into the unseen and at another time back again.' GMH's combination of quotation, translation, and paraphrase is perhaps as interesting for what it omits as for what it includes. The Latin gloss in R&P 1 is likewise rather prudish; but in R&P 2 Preller's commentary gives: 'Omnis enim partus coitusque effectrix est, impellens feminam ut mari et marem ut feminae se misceat' {She is the one who causes every birth and sexual act, driving the female so that she has intercourse with the male and the male so that he has intercourse with the female}.
38. R&P, 153 note; DK 28 A46; 'That he also attributes sense-perception to the opposite in its own right is clear in places where he says that a corpse does not perceive light or heat or sound because of the lack of fire, but that it does perceive cold and silence and the relevant opposite. And in general everything that exists has some cognition' (trans. Gallop).
39. *Γένεσίν τε ἀνθρώπων ἐξ ἰλύος πρῶτον γενέσθαι*, R&P, 152, quoting Diogenes Laertius, *Lives of the Philosophers* IX 22: '<He held that> the generation of men first came from slime.' Later editors of Diogenes read *ἡλίου* ('sun') for *ἰλύος*; D-K relegate 'slime' as well as the *πηλοῦ* ('clay' including 'clay from which man was made') to the *apparatus criticus* of D-K, 28 A1.

D.XII.8

Zeno¹

Zeno—25 years younger than his master Parmenides came to Athens with him (above) at 40 years of age. This wd. make him born about 488, 20 years before Socrates. He also is said to have been a lawgiver to the Eleats and to have been put to the torture by Nearchus the tyrant against whom he headed a rising. He wrote much and in prose and partly in dialogues: he got the name of being the inventor of dialectic. His first work according to Plato ~~written~~ written in defence of Parmenides when he was quite young was published surreptitiously. He commented on Empedocles also.

Besides his arguments on one and many, like and unlike, motion and rest / in physics he held four principles, ~~heat~~ hot, cold, ~~heat~~ dry, and wet, no doubt = fire, air (cf. *ψύχειν* {to breathe, blow}, *ψυχή* {breath, soul, life}), earth, and water or incandescent, fluid, liquid, and solid

The place for noticing his arguments in detail will be in on Aristotle's *Περὶ Φυσικῆς Ἀκροάσεως* {*Physics*}²

1. See Grote, *Plato, and the Other Companions of Sokrates*, 1: 96–106. Melissus is included as well.
2. GMH is comparing these words to *ψύχω*, 'to make cool'.

D.XII.9

Melissus¹

Melissus—an eminent Samian, is said to have commanded in a victory at sea over the Athenians when blockading the island under command of Pericles (). His floret is given as falling past the middle of 500–400.

1. Melissus of Samos was the last significant member of the Eleatic school of philosophy, which followed Parmenides's doctrine of reality as an unchanging, single whole. Unlike Parmenides, however, Melissus also conceived of reality in terms of a past and a present; eternity is a continual existence through time, not, as Parmenides theorized, a timeless present. Portions of his prose work, 'On Nature or What Exists', were preserved and quoted by Simplicius. 'If Melissus has any claim to special historical importance . . . it is perhaps that by applying Eleatic criteria to the plural beings posited by his opponents, he posited a formula (in Fragment 8) which led Leucippus directly to the concept of atoms.' David Furley, 'Melissus of Samos', in Edwards (ed.), *The Encyclopedia of Philosophy*, v. 265. Plutarch, quoting a lost work of Aristotle, states that Melissus led the Samian fleet against the Athenians and defeated them (in 441–440 BC).

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